the nation?s goals, its institutions and leaders, its geography, and one?s fellow citizens seen as fellow inhabitants of a common public space. Often, as in my two epigraphs, emotions directed at the geo graph i cal features of a nation are ways of channeling emotions toward its key commitments? to inclusiveness, equality, the relief of misery, the end of slavery. Whitman?s lyric is part of a poem mourning the death of Abraham Lincoln, and it expresses the combination of passionate love, pride, and deep grief that the speaker feels at the current state of his nation. ?Amar Shonar Bangla? expressed Tagore?s capacious humanism, his aspiration toward an inclusive ?religion of humanity? that would link all castes and religions in his society. Sung as the national anthem of a poor nation, it expresses both pride and love at the beauty of the land and (in subsequent verses) sadness at the work that remains to be done.

Such public emotions, frequently intense, have large- scale consequences for the nation?s progress toward its goals. They can give the pursuit of those goals new vigor and depth, but they can also derail that pursuit, introducing or reinforcing divisions, hierarchies, and forms of neglect or obtuseness.

Sometimes people suppose that only fascist or aggressive societies are intensely emotional and that only such societies need to focus on the cultivation of emotions. Those beliefs are both mistaken and dangerous. They are mistaken, because all societies need to think about the stability of their po liti cal culture over time and the security of cherished values in times of stress. All societies, then, need to think about compassion for loss, anger at injustice, the limiting of envy and disgust in favor of inclusive sympathy. Ceding the terrain of emotion? shaping to antiliberal forces gives them a huge advantage in the people?s hearts and risks making people think of liberal values as tepid and boring. One reason Abraham Lincoln, Martin Luther King Jr., Mahatma Gandhi, and Jawaharlal Nehru were such great po liti cal leaders for their liberal societies is that they understood the need to touch citizens? hearts and to inspire, deliberately, strong emotions directed at the common work before them. All po liti cal principles, the good as well as the bad, need emotional support

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to ensure their stability over time, and all decent societies need to guard against division and hierarchy by cultivating appropriate sentiments of sympathy and love.

In the type of liberal society that aspires to justice and equal opportunity for all, there are two tasks for the po liti cal cultivation of emotion. One is to engender and sustain strong commitment to worthy projects that require eff ort and sacrifi ce? such as social redistribution, the full inclusion of previously excluded or marginalized groups, the protection of the environment, foreign aid, and the national defense. Most people tend toward narrowness of sympathy. They can easily become immured in narcissistic projects and forget about the needs of those outside their narrow circle. Emotions directed at the nation and its goals are frequently of great help in getting people to think larger thoughts and recommit themselves to a larger common good.

The other related task for the cultivation of public emotion is to keep at bay forces that lurk in all societies and, ul

timately, in all of us: tendencies to
protect the fragile self by denigrating and subordinating others. (It is this tendency that, following Kant, I shall call ?radical evil,? though my understanding of it will be rather diff erent from Kant?s.) Disgust and envy, the desire to infl ict shame upon others? all of these are present in all societies, and, very likely, in every individual human life. Unchecked, they can infl ict great damage. The damage they do is particularly great when they are relied upon as guides in the pro cess of lawmaking and social formation (when, for example, the disgust that people feel for a group of other people is used as a valid reason for treating those people in a discriminatory way). But even when a society has avoided falling into that trap, these forces lurk in society and need to be counteracted energetically by an education that cultivates the ability to see full and equal humanity in another person, perhaps one of humanity?s most diffi cult and fragile achievements. An important part of that education is performed by the public po liti cal culture, which represents the nation and its people in a par tic u lar way. It can include or exclude, cement hierarchies or dismantle them? as Lincoln?s Gettysburg Address, with its breathtaking fi ction that the United States has always been dedicated to racial equality, so stirringly does. Great demo cratic leaders, in many times and places, have understood the importance of cultivating appropriate emotions (and discouraging

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those that obstruct society?s progress toward its goals). Liberal po liti cal philosophy, however, has, on the whole, said little about the topic. John Locke, defending religious toleration, acknowledged a problem of widespread animosity between members of diff erent religions in the En gland of his time; he urged people to take up attitudes of ?charity, bounty, and liberality? and recommended that churches advise their members of ?the duties of peace and good- will towards all men, as well towards the erroneous as the orthodox.?1 Locke made no attempt, however, to delve into the psychological origins of intolerance. He thus gave little guidance about the nature of the bad attitudes and how they might be combated. Nor did he recommend any offi cial public steps to shape psychological attitudes. The cultivation of good attitudes is left to individuals and to churches. Given that it was precisely in churches that the bad attitudes festered, Locke leaves his own project in a fragile and uncertain position. In his view, however, the liberal state should confi ne itself to protecting people?s rights to property and other po liti cal goods, when and if others assail them. In terms of his own argument, which grounds religious toleration in equal natural rights, this is intervention one step too late.
Locke?s silence about the psychology of the decent society is common in subsequent liberal po liti cal philosophy in the Western tradition? in part, no doubt, because liberal po liti cal phi los o phers sensed that prescribing any par tic u lar type of emotional cultivation might easily involve limits on free speech and other steps incompatible with liberal ideas of freedom and autonomy. Such was explicitly the view of Immanuel Kant. Kant delved deeper into human psychology than did Locke. In Religion within the Limits of Mere Re

which po liti-
cal principles should not be built upon any comprehensive doctrine of the meaning and purpose of life, religious or secular, and in which the idea of equal respect for persons gives rise to a careful abstemiousness about government endorsement of any par tic u lar religious or comprehensive ethical view.5 Such a liberal view needs not only to watch out for dictatorial imposition, but also to beware of too much energetic endorsement, or endorsement of the wrong type, lest it create in- groups and out- groups, casting some as second- class citizens. Since emotions, in my view, are not just impulses, but contain appraisals that have an evaluative content, it will be a challenge to make sure that the content of the endorsed emotions is not that of one par tic u lar comprehensive doctrine, as opposed to others.

My solution to this problem is to imagine ways in which emotions can support the basic principles of the po liti cal culture of an aspiring yet imperfect society, an area of life in which it can be hoped that all citizens overlap, if they endorse basic norms of equal respect: the area of what Rawls has called the ?overlapping consensus.?6 Thus, it would be sectarian in an objectionable way for government to engender strong emotions directed toward the religious holidays of one par tic u lar sect, but it is not objectionable to celebrate the birthday of Martin Luther King Jr. as a profoundly emotional public holiday that affi rms principles of racial equality to which our nation has committed itself, and that rededicates the nation to the pursuit of that goal. The idea will be to think this way across the range of the ?capabilities? that provide the core of the po liti cal conception: How can a public culture of emotion reinforce attachment to all of those norms? On the negative side, a decent society can reasonably inhibit the formation of emotions of disgust toward groups of fellow citizens, since that sort of repudiating and the related formation of hierarchies are subversive of shared principles of equal respect for human dignity. More generally, society may inculcate distaste and anger directed at the violation of people?s basic po liti cal entitlements. Basically, it should be no more objectionable to ask people to feel attached to good po liti cal principles than it is to ask them to believe them, and every society with a working conception of justice educates its citizens to think that this conception is correct. Antiracism is not given equal time with

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racism in the public schools. The careful neutrality that a liberal state observes? and should observe? in matters of religion and comprehensive doctrine does not extend to the fundamentals of its own conception of justice (such as the equal worth of all citizens, the importance of certain fundamental rights, and the badness of various forms of discrimination and hierarchy). We might say that a liberal state asks citizens who have diff erent overall conceptions of the meaning and purpose of life to overlap and agree in a shared po liti cal space, the space of fundamental principles and constitutional ideals. But then, if those principles are to be effi cacious, the state must also encourage love and devotion to those ideals.

If this devotion is to remain compatible with liberal freedom, it will be crucial to encourage a robustly critical

po liti cal culture to defend the
freedoms of speech and association. Both the principles themselves and the emotions they prompt must be continually scrutinized and criticized, and dissenting voices play a valuable role in keeping the conception truly liberal, and accountable to citizens. Room must also be made for subversion and humor: making fun of the grandiose pretensions of patriotic emotion is one of the best ways of keeping it down to earth, in tune with the needs of heterogeneous women and men. There will clearly be tensions along the way: not every way of poking fun at cherished ideals is respectful of the equal worth of all citizens. (Imagine racist jokes about Martin Luther King Jr.) But the space for subversion and dissent should remain as large as is consistent with civic order and stability, and that space will be a major topic throughout.
One way of addressing several of these worries at once is for the state to give ample space for artists to off er their own diff erent visions of key po liti cal values. Whitman and Tagore are much more valuable as free poets than they would be as hired acolytes of a po liti cal elite, Soviet-style. Of course, government often must and does decide to pick one artistic creation over another? preferring, for example, Maya Lin?s design for the Vietnam War Memorial, with its winding black wall full of names, evoking the equal worth of countless unknown individual lives lost, to other more jingoistic conceptions; preferring the contributions of Frank Gehry, Anish Kapoor, and Jaume Plensa for Chicago?s Millennium Park to other submitted designs. During the Depression, as we?ll also discuss

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later, Franklin Delano Roo se velt hired artists and gave them considerable freedom? but also exercised careful selectivity in choosing photographic images of poverty to put before the American public. The tension between selection and artistic freedom is real, but there are good ways of addressing it.
The issue of emotional support for a decent public po liti cal culture has not been entirely neglected by liberal thinkers. John Stuart Mill (1806? 1873), for whom the cultivation of emotion was such an important theme, imagined a ?religion of humanity? that could be taught in society as a substitute for existing religious doctrines, and providing the basis for policies involving personal sacrifi ce and comprehensive altruism.7 In a very similar way, the Indian poet, educator, and phi los o pher Rabindranath Tagore (1861? 1941) imagined a ?religion of man? that would inspire people to promote the improvement of living conditions for all the world?s inhabitants. Both thought of their respective ?religions? as doctrines and practices that could be embodied in a system of shared education and in works of art. Tagore devoted much of his life to creating a school and university that embodied his principles and to composing roughly two thousand songs that infl uence public emotion even in the present day. (He is the only poet/composer to write songs that became the national anthems of two nations, India and Bangladesh.) The similarity between Mill?s and Tagore?s ideas is not surprising, since both were heavily infl uenced by French phi los o pher Auguste Comte (1798? 1857), whose idea of a ?religion of humanity,? which would include public rituals and other emotion- laden symbols, ha

d enormous infl uence in
the nineteenth and early twentieth centuries. Both Mill and Tagore fi nd fault with Comte?s intrusive and rule- ridden implementation of his scheme, and both insist on the importance of liberty and individuality.
The topic of po liti cal emotion was given a fascinating treatment in the twentieth century?s greatest work of po liti cal philosophy, John Rawls?s A Theory of Justice (1971).8 Rawls?s well- ordered society asks a lot of its citizens, since inequalities of wealth and income will be permitted only when they improve the situation of the worst- off . The commitment to equal liberty, which Rawls?s principles prioritize, is also one that human beings tend to honor unevenly. Even though Rawls is imagining a society that begins de novo, without bad hierarchical attitudes left over from

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earlier histories of exclusion, he is still placing large demands on human beings, and he therefore astutely realizes that he needs to think about how such a society will bring up citizens who will support its institutions over time, ensuring stability. Stability, moreover, has to be secured ?for the right reasons?9? in other words, not by mere habit or grudging ac cep tance, but because of a real endorsement of the principles and institutions of the society. Indeed, since showing that the just society can be stable is a necessary part of its justifi cation, the question of emotion is integral to the arguments justifying the principles of justice.
Rawls imagines how emotions arising initially within the family can ultimately develop into emotions directed at the principles of the just society. His compelling and insightful account, in this respect ahead of its time, employs a sophisticated conception of emotions similar to the one I shall be using here, according to which emotions involve cognitive appraisals.10 Rawls later bracketed this section of the book for rethinking, along with other material in A Theory of Justice that he thought too closely linked to his own par tic u lar (Kantian) comprehensive ethical doctrine. In Po liti cal Liberalism, he no longer seems to endorse all the details of that par tic u lar account. But he insists that he is leaving a space for a needed account of a ?reasonable moral psychology.?11 In eff ect, the present book aims to fi ll that space, with reference to an account of a decent society that diff ers from Rawls?s in philosophical detail, but not in underlying spirit? although its focus is on societies aspiring to justice, rather than on the achieved well- ordered society. This diff erence will aff ect the precise shape of my normative proposals, since I need to grapple with issues of exclusion and stigma that the well- ordered society can be taken to have resolved. Nonetheless, I shall argue that the tendency toward stigmatizing and excluding others is present in human nature itself, and is not an artifact of a defective history; Rawls did not take a stand on this issue, but said that his account was compatible with this sort of pessimistic psychology, as well as more optimistic account. Certainly, in any case, Rawls?s project and mine, though distinct, are closely related, since Rawls is proposing a society of human beings, not angels, and he knows well that human beings do not automatically pursue the common good. Thus, even though in his well- ordered society problems

insic value.
But the ones who will stir deep emotions in us are the ones to whom we are somehow connected through our imagining of a valuable life, what I shall henceforth call our ?circle of concern.? If distant people and abstract principles are to get a grip on our emotions, therefore, these emotions must somehow position them within our circle of concern, creating a sense of ?our? life in which these people and events matter as parts of our ?us,? our own fl ourishing. For this movement to take place, symbols and poetry are crucial.
Consider the two epigraphs to this chapter. Whitman has been imagining Lincoln?s coffi n traversing the nation that he loved. He now asks what he should give his dead president, what pictures he can ?hang on the walls, / To adorn the burial- house of him I love?? The answer is word pictures of the beauty of America. This stanza is one of those pictures. It depicts the beauty of Manhattan and then, radiating out from Manhattan, other regions of America? the physical beauty, and the beauty of human activity. Images of natural beauty are always heart- rending for their link to mortality and the passage of time. Here, they are more profoundly heart- rending for their link to Whitman?s imagined ritual of mourning for Lincoln? and, of course, their implied link to all that Lincoln stood for, a nation of free activity and the equality of all Americans beneath the sun. These thoughts merge in an almost unbearable crystallization of love and grief. (For some reason, I fi nd the line ?Lo, the most excellent sun so calm and haughty? the most excruciating line in En glish poetry, and I weep whenever I read it? the idea of the sun?s majesty, eternity, and radiance juxtaposed to the image of Lincoln, immobile, in a little dark box.)

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What Whitman is striving to create is a public ritual of mourning expressing renewed dedication to the unfi nished task of realizing America?s best ideals, a ?public poetry? that will put fl esh on the bones of liberty and equality. Here the reader is asked to imagine a par tic u lar person who symbolizes the diffi cult struggle for equality and justice? the ?large sweet soul who has gone?? and the poem cannily connects that morally symbolic person to already loved features of the land and the varied people who inhabit it. The poem prompts emotions that sustain and inspire the diffi cult pursuit of justice. (Indeed, they also contain the idea of justice inside themselves, as the fl esh/bones meta phor suggests.) It would not do this eff ectively if it did not deploy imagery that is somewhat mysterious, that strikes deep into the personality, summoning thoughts about mortality and longing, loss and intense beauty. Participating emotionally in Whitman?s poem, readers are summoned to throw their full hearts into the search for an America that does not yet exist, but which might become reality.
Tagore?s poem (which, unfortunately, we must study in translation)13 was initially written without reference to the nation of Bangladesh, but a great deal of his thought has an unstated po liti cal relevance. As we know from his own discussion, his poem ?Jana Gana Mana,? which later became the national anthem of India, was inspired by a desire not to honor the British monarch on his visit to India. Invited to contribute to a celebrating of empire, Tagore wrote that song in

that is multidimensional, in that he was not only a Nobel Prize? winning poet, but also a composer and choreographer of world class distinction. What does it mean to make a song such as ?Amar Shonar Bangla? the national anthem of a nation? Bangladesh, today, laments a history of imperialism that divided India from Pakistan and ?East Pakistan? from the Bengal to which it is culturally united. But it also celebrates the in de-pen dence of a young Bengali nation, a pluralistic democracy. The song asks all citizens to assume in body and voice a compassionate spirit of love and concern for the fate of this land and its people, and to do so in a spirit that retains gentleness, play, and wonder.

Like Whitman?s poem, Tagore?s is culturally specifi c, drawing on imagery that has deep Bengali roots. Part of what makes each successful is this particularity. It makes no sense to suppose that strong motivation can be generated by art, music, and rhetoric that are a common coin of all nations, a sort of Esperanto of the heart. Wisely, neither poet attempts this. Tagore?s songs will not move an American, at least not until after years of immersion in Indian, and especially Bengali, cultures. Even then, the Baul tradition and its music may continue to seem weird and inaccessible. Whitman?s poetry travels a little better, but still its memo-ries and images are haunting primarily to Americans, steeped in the sights and sounds of that nation and remembering the Civil War as a major national event. Both poets? choices suggest that any successful construction of po liti cal emotion must draw on the materials of the his-tory and geography of the nation in question. Martin Luther King Jr. drew a great deal from Gandhi, but he was perceptive enough to under-stand that Gandhi?s ideas had to undergo a total cultural make over if they were ever to move Americans.

Both poets, however, are also culturally radical, asking people to dis-card some cherished ways of thinking about social relations (involving hierarchies of religion, caste, and gender). They cleverly hold their in-tended audience through suffi cient rootedness in culture and history: indeed, it is rather remarkable that fi gures as radical as Whitman and Tagore should be so widely and intensely loved and accepted. But then they challenge their cultures to be the best they can be, and far better than they have been before. Thus a kind of po liti cal love that has its roots in specifi c traditions can also be aspirational and even radical. ?I

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am he,? writes Whitman, ?who tauntingly compels men, women, na-tions, / Crying, Leap from your seats and contend for your lives!?16

Both poets suggest by their choices that the problems of their trou-bled societies need to be confronted in a spirit of love, through works that tap deeply into the roots of people?s anxious confrontation with their mortality and fi nitude. That, in essence, will be the contention of this book. What type or types of love, conveyed through what media and in-stitutions, will be a long, and ultimately an open- ended, inquiry. The inquiry will expand to take on a family of interrelated emotions, such as compassion, grief, fear, anger, hope, and the inhibiting of disgust and shame? and, with these, the spirit of a certain sort of comedy, taking amused delight in human idiosyncrasy. Several diff erent, though inter-

related, types of love are rightly involved in the pro cess, suited to diff er-
ent occasions and problems. Lincoln?s Gettysburg Address was appro-
priate to its solemn occasion, and a Tagore song would not have been
able to convey what Lincoln?s rhetoric conveys. Yet love is at the heart of
the Gettysburg Address as well, and I shall argue that all of the core
emotions that sustain a decent society have their roots in, or are forms of,
love? by which I mean intense attachments to things outside the control
of our will. My examples already suggest what I shall be arguing: that
the principle- dependent emotions envisaged by Rawls, if not comple-
mented and infused by love of this sort, will remain too calm and will lie
too near the surface of the mind to do the job he has in mind? which
requires access to the quirky, fraught, in some sense erotic relationship
we all have, in a variety of forms (both comic and tragic), to the meaning
of our lives. Love, I shall argue, is what gives respect for humanity its
life, making it more than a shell. If love is needed even in Rawls?s well-
ordered society? and I believe it is? it is needed all the more urgently in
real, imperfect societies that aspire to justice.
It is a propitious time to write on this topic, because cognitive psy-
chologists during the past several de cades have produced a wide range
of excellent research on par tic u lar emotions, which, supplemented by
the work of primatologists, anthropologists, neuroscientists, and psy-
choanalysts, gives us a lot of empirical data that are extremely useful to a
normative philosophical project such as this one. Such empirical fi ndings
do not answer our normative questions, but they do help us to understand

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what may be impossible and what possible, what pervasive human ten-
dencies may be harmful or helpful? in short, what material we have to
work with and how susceptible to ?work? it may be.
Part of justifying a normative po liti cal project is showing that it can be
reasonably stable. Emotions are of interest in part because of our ques-
tions about stability. But then we need to ask what forms of public emo-
tion can themselves be stable over time, not placing too great a strain
upon our human resources. We need, I shall argue, to investigate, and to
cherish, what ever helps us to see the uneven and often unlovely destiny
of human beings in the world with humor, tenderness, and delight,
rather than with absolutist rage for an impossible sort of perfection. A
primary source of po liti cal diffi culty is the ubiquitous human wish to
surmount the helplessness that is so large a part of human life? to rise,
we might say, above the messiness of the ?merely human.? Many forms
of public emotion feed fantasies of invulnerability, and those emotions
are pernicious. The project I envisage will succeed only if it fi nds ways
to make the human lovable, inhibiting disgust and shame.
No such project could succeed if it did not tie the question of public
emotions to a defi nite set of normative goals. I envisage throughout a
type of liberalism that is not morally ?neutral,? that has a certain defi nite
moral content, prominently including equal respect for persons, a com-
mitment to equal liberties of speech, association, and conscience, and a
set of fundamental social and economic entitlements. These commitments
will limit the ways in which public

we?ll see, the cognitive psychologists whose work on emotions such as compassion and disgust will be central to my analysis hold a similar thesis, to which the work of anthropologists on the role of social norms in emotions gives additional strong support.

Part I of the book introduces the problem of po liti cal emotions through three historical chapters.

The time of the French Revolution saw fervent questioning about social unity and the value of ?fraternity.? If absolute monarchy and submission to royal authority were not going to be sources of cohesion for the more egalitarian societies of the future, what next? Phi los o phers such as Rousseau and the German thinker Johann Gottfried Herder vigorously debated the shape that a new patriotism might take. In Chapter 2, I end with consideration of their proposals, but I begin with a very diff erent contribution: that of the opera The Marriage of Figaro (1786), by W. A. Mozart and Lorenzo Da Ponte. Based on a play of the same name by Beaumarchais that is generally seen as one of the major precursors of the Revolution, the opera addresses the transition from feudalism to democracy in a way that focuses centrally on the construction of sentiments. Beaumarchais suggested that the problem of the old order is institutional, and in a way quite simple: we dethrone feudal authority and usher in, through a change in po liti cal institutions, a new society of equality. I argue that the opera (not just its insightful libretto, but a musical expression of ideas that in key ways goes beyond the libretto) should be regarded as a formative philosophical text in the unfolding debate about new forms of public culture. Its vision is very diff erent from that of Beaumarchais. Focusing as it does on sentiments and on the role of women, the opera has usually been understood to be merely domestic rather than po liti cal. I argue that it is not only po liti cal, but also correct: the new order cannot be stable without revolutionary changes in the heart, which include the adoption of new norms of male and female gender roles, and a new conception of the citizen that breaks decisively with the male norms of the ancien régime. Although the ideas I fi nd in the opera seem in some ways light- years ahead of their time, they were

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in fact in the air during this time of ferment: the po liti cal vision of the opera bears a close resemblance to Herder?s ideas about a ?purifi ed patriotism? in the 1790s, as I?ll show, and both are antecedents of a type of liberalism later developed by John Stuart Mill and Rabindranath Tagore, in which po liti cal principles protect spaces for individual expression, play, and craziness. It should be emphasized that I am treating the opera as a philosophical text, part of a conversation that includes Rousseau, Herder, and, later, Mill and Tagore. I am not, then, proposing that modern democracies use the opera as a device to kindle public emotion of the right sort. Although it may surely do so in people who love it, it is insuffi ciently inclusive today to implement its own values on a wide scale. (So much is also true of the writings of phi los o phers.)

The nineteenth century continued the debate about po liti cal emotions, and this time the debate was global in nature. Central was Auguste Comte, with his idea of a ?religion of humanity? that could motivate alt

ruism and provide stability for demanding po liti cal principles.
Comte?s ideas were enormously infl uential in virtually every corner of the world. In Eu rope he had a large infl uence on the thought of his friend and collaborator Mill, who devoted an entire book to Comte and who contributed to the articulation of the ?religion of humanity.? Comte was also a major fi gure for Indian intellectuals and a primary source for Rabindranath Tagore?s idea of a ?religion of man.? Chapters 3 and 4 examine the history of these rich ideas. I support the contention of both Tagore and Mill that the public cultivation of emotion needs to be scrutinized by a vigorously critical public culture, strongly committed to the protection of dissenting speech. Their proposals remain valuable sources? although both, and especially Mill, have a naïve faith in human progress, rooted in an incomplete psychology, that we cannot endorse today.
Before turning to the present day, we need a sketch of where we are heading, a normative account of a decent society worth aspiring to and sustaining. Part II begins by proposing such a sketch in Chapter 5. The

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account has a lot in common with the aspirations defended in my ?capabilities? approach? but also with Mill?s normative proposals, with Rawls?s theory, with the New Deal, with many aspects of Eu ro pe an social democracies, and with the aspirations of the Indian constitution. Many aspects of the envisaged goal, though certainly not all, are also part of the public culture of the United States, even today. I don?t argue here that these norms are the best way to envisage a minimally just society; instead, I stipulate a set of very general norms. I then ask: If we should want to get and keep po liti cal principles and institutions of roughly that type, showing equal respect to all and guaranteeing key areas of both liberty and material support, what should we do to cultivate emotions that support and sustain such principles and institutions?
At this point I introduce the idea of ?po liti cal liberalism,? which imposes additional constraints on the public cultivation of emotion, requiring us to depart from the openly antireligious humanism of Comte and Mill. I also grant that the task of creating public emotions has two aspects, the motivational and the institutional, which need to work closely together. In other words, government may attempt to infl uence citizens? psychology directly (for example, through po liti cal rhetoric, songs, symbols, and the content and pedagogy of public education), or it may devise institutions that represent the insights of a valuable type of emotion? as a decent tax system, for example, could represent the insights of a duly balanced and appropriately impartial compassion. This book focuses on the motivational, but it is important to bear in mind that it is always in dialogue with the institutional.
Part II continues by surveying the resources at our disposal and the psychological problems obstructing our path. It is illuminating to begin with our animal nature, and Chapter 6 surveys relevant aspects of what we currently know about the emotional tendencies and capacities of the animals closest to us in intelligence and form of life, such as chimps, bonobos, elephants, and dogs. The human world contains some capacities that these creatures lack, but it also contains

at is imper-
fect. Her ?yes? is a key to the type of po liti cal love that lies at the heart of this book.
Because this is a long book, it is important to head off misreading by placing some especially important issues up front, so that they cannot be missed.
1. The account of po liti cal emotions assumes a set of normative commitments. All po liti cal conceptions, from the monarchical and the fascist to the libertarian, have a place for emotions in the public culture, supporting the stability of their characteristic principles. But specifi c strategies depend on specifi c goals. The account in this book stipulates a general set of po liti cal principles, described in some detail in Chapter 5, which are similar to (though more general than) those for which I have argued in other books, and similar, as well, to the goals of the New Deal, of the po liti cal conceptions of J. S. Mill and John Rawls, and of many Eu rope an social democracies. They overlap considerably with the goals of American po liti cal culture, even today. I do not argue for this normative account here, although I do explain it. What I am asking is how such principles might be rendered stable through emotions. People who embrace diff erent po liti cal norms can still learn a great deal from this account, although they will need to imagine how it would have to be altered in order to support the norms that they themselves favor.

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2. The account is framed by an ac cep tance of ?po liti cal liberalism.? As Chapter 5 will further discuss, the normative ideal is a set of principles that do not ?establish? a par tic u lar religious or secular ?comprehensive doctrine? (to use Rawls?s phrase), and which can, at least potentially, become the object of an ?overlapping consensus? among a variety of comprehensive doctrines held by citizens, so long as they are prepared to respect one another as equal citizens.20 This allegiance to po liti cal liberalism makes my account depart from the sort of ?civil religion? recommended by Rousseau and from the ?religion of humanity? recommended by Auguste Comte and J. S. Mill. All these thinkers off ered their accounts of civic emotion as replacements for existing religions, which they thought society should denigrate and marginalize.
3. Emotions: generic and specifi c. I will be giving an account of how emotions such as compassion, fear, envy, and shame work in the context of a par tic u lar normative conception. These same generic emotions will also play a role in other types of po liti cal culture: in monarchical, fascist, or libertarian regimes, for example. To that extent, the emotions are an all- purpose tool kit. (Disgust may be an exception; I argue that ?projective disgust? has no useful role in a liberal society, although ?primary disgust? at wastes and decay still proves useful.) At the level of the species, however, the liberal society I imagine uses a distinctive set of emotions. Thus, both liberal and illiberal views use shame to motivate, but they use diff erent types of shame. A liberal society asks people to be ashamed of excessive greed and selfi shness, but it does not ask them to blush for their skin color or their physical impairments.
Emotions are also general and specifi c in a diff erent sense: a specifi c compassion for soldiers fallen in the Civil War may lead on to, and in a larger sense contain,

sy. (Having boasted of ending the
droit du seigneur, he has all the while been scheming to enjoy it.) Everyone present exclaims in hushed voices that they don?t know what is going to happen next: ?Oh heavens, what do I see! Madness! A hallucination! I don?t know what to believe!? The strings, coursing up and down with rapid modulations, express im mense agitation and uncertainty. In retrospect, it is the uncertainty of transition between two po liti cal regimes.
And now the Count, kneeling before the Countess, sings in a voice newly softened by confusion a phrase of a type? lyrical and legato, hushed, almost gentle? that we have never heard from this man before: ?Excuse me, Countess, excuse me, excuse me.? There is a long pause.2 The Countess then sings softly out of the silence: ?I am nicer, and I say yes? (?più docile io sono, e dico di sì?).3 The musical phrase arcs gently upward and then bends down as if, almost, to touch the kneeling husband. And now, in hushed and solemn tones, the entire assembled company repeats the Countess?s musical phrase, this time to the words ?Ah, all of us will be happy in that way? (?tutti contenti saremo così?). The choral version of the phrase is reminiscent of the solemn simplicity of a chorale (which, in this Catholic musical universe, denotes a sudden absence of hierarchy).4 A hesitant orchestral interlude follows.
The group now bursts out, a sudden eruption of dizzy elation:5 ?This day of torment, of craziness, of foolishness? only love can make it end in happiness and joy.? Love, it seems, is the key not only to the personal happiness of the central characters, but to the happiness of all, of the whole community, as they sing: ?Let us all rush off to celebrate? (?corriam tutti a festeggiar?).

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By any account, The Marriage of Figaro is a key text in the history of liberalism for the way in which it imagines the replacement of the ancien régime by a new order of fraternity and equality. But usually people who turn to Figaro?s story focus on the Beaumarchais play and ignore the opera by Mozart and Da Ponte. The opera, however, is, far more than the play, the philosophical text that thinkers about the future of liberal democracy should ponder. The opera, not the play, is worthy to stand comparison with the greatest eighteenth- century philosophical interventions on the topic of fraternity, particularly those of Rousseau and Herder? because, unlike the play, but like Rousseau and Herder, it gives a central place to the cultivation of emotions that are required to make fraternity more than a nice word. To study the opera as a philosophical statement in dialogue with Rousseau and Herder, however, it will prove insuffi cient merely to study the libretto? for the key insights are attained far more precisely in the music than they are in Da Ponte?s witty but sometimes superfi cial libretto.
The usual story about Mozart?s Le Nozze di Figaro (1786) is that it is a cop- out. Taking the radical Beaumarchais drama of 1778, whose essential point and emphasis are po liti cal, a denunciation of the ancien régime and the hierarchies it imposes, Mozart and his librettist Lorenzo Da Ponte have fashioned an innocuous drama of personal love, defanging the text by omitting, for example, Figaro?s long fi fth- act monologue denouncing feudal hierarchy, and instead substituting a more extensive treatment of women and th

ally and thematically.
What do they sing about when they are alone? Outraged honor, the desire for revenge, the plea sure of domination. The energies that drive these two men are not alien, but deeply akin. (Indeed, the two roles are set in such a way that one and the same singer might, in principle, sing either role, and their musical idioms are so alike that it is easy to confuse them.)12 Figaro?s initial aria, ?Se vuol ballare?, follows his discovery that the Count has plans to sleep with Susanna. But if we simply look at what Figaro says in the aria, we would not discover that any such creature as Susanna ever existed. All his thoughts are about his rivalry with the Count, and his insistent negatives (non sarà, non sarà) anticipate the Count?s peremptory negations at the opera?s end (as well as those in the Count?s Act III aria). What energizes Figaro? The thought of paying the Count back in kind, teaching him to dance in Figaro?s dancing school.13
Similarly, two acts later, the Count imagines Susanna, his own future property, being possessed by Figaro (ei posseder dovrà), whom the Count sees as ?a base thing? (un vile oggetto), a mere object.14 This thought torments him? not because he is fi lled with any love or even any particularly intense desire for Susanna, but because the idea of being bested by a mere ?thing? is intolerable. To this competitive loss he, like Figaro, has to say no: ?Ah no, I am not willing to allow you to enjoy this happiness in peace. Brazen one,15 you were not born to give me torment, and perhaps even to laugh at my unhappiness.? Figaro, not Susanna, is the person whom he addresses in the second person. Like Figaro, his head is fi lled with the picture of another man laughing at him, insulting his honor, putting him to shame. In return for that tormenting picture, to which he (like Figaro) says no, he proposes (like Figaro) to substitute the image of a tamed enemy dancing to his tune, in this case the picture of Figaro forced to marry Marcellina and separated forever from Susanna, whom the Count can then enjoy: ?Now only the hope of revenge consoles my heart and make me rejoice.?16 Figaro?s ?Se vuol ballare? is closely based upon the Beaumarchais text; this aria of the Count?s, however, is a complete innovation of Da Ponte, since Beaumarchais gives us only what forms the recitative before the aria, not the aria?s extended development of sentiments of humiliation and reactive rage.

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Musically as well as textually, the Count?s aria is a cousin of Figaro?s: full of an ill- governed fury that bursts out as the voice reaches the words felice un servo mio, and then again at ah non lasciarti in pace; anger, in the music, is complemented by sneering irony (the downturning phrase accompanying un vile oggetto). The libretto gives us some indication of the kinship between the two men, but the expressive range of the music goes much further to emphasize their rhythmic and accentual similarity, as both express attitudes that range from snide contempt to furious rage.17 What emotions are absent? Love, wonder, delight? even grief and longing.
According to the conventional po liti cal reading of Beaumarchais, Figaro becomes, by Act V, the apostle of a new type of citizenship, free from hierarchy. Mozart?s Figaro makes no such progress. As Michael Steinberg aptly notes, throughout the opera (or, at least, until late in Act IV) Figaro

dances, musically, to the Count?s tune: ?He hasn?t found a musical idiom of his own; his po liti cal and emotional vocabulary suggests a similarly unfortunate mimetic duplication of the Count?s?18? both in Non più andrai, at the end of Act I (where he reenacts ?the authority with which [the Count] has just dispatched Cherubino to serve in one of his regiments, forming his phrases from the relevant military march?),19 and even at the opening of Act IV, when, waiting to catch Susanna in infi delity, he sings once again of slighted honor, asking all males to ?open your eyes? to the way in which women function as agents of humiliation. Again, it is men, not women, far less a par tic u lar woman, whom he addresses in the second person.

Now maybe this means that Mozart has failed to understand the opposition between Figaro and the Count that Beaumarchais has depicted. But let?s not pass judgment so quickly. Perhaps, instead, Mozart sees something that Beaumarchais does not see: that the ancien régime has formed men in a certain way, making them utterly preoccupied with rank, status, and shame, and that both high and low partake of this social shaping. What one does not wish to lose, the other wishes to enjoy. For neither, given their obsession, does any space open out in the world for reciprocity or, indeed, for love.

The suspicion that Mozart is deliberately subjecting the male morality of status to critical scrutiny is confi rmed when we see what Mozart

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puts in the mouths of two males who have little to do with the plot. Perhaps, someone might argue, the sentiments of Figaro and the Count are not to be read as serious po liti cal thought: after all, the plot requires them to compete in this way. We have seen that, even so, Da Ponte constructs a parallel that is not so plain in the original text, and that Mozart takes this similarity much further by giving the two men a similar expressive musical range. Nonetheless, someone might still argue that Mozart and Da Ponte are simply amplifying the suggestions of the Beaumarchais plot. This, however, cannot be said of the treatment of Bartolo and Basilio, whose roles in the story line are minimal. Each sings an aria? Bartolo in Act I, Basilio in Act IV (though both are typically cut in performance)? which supply crucial commentary on the morality of maleness. Neither of these arias is based on anything in Beaumarchais?s text.

Bartolo is an emotional fi rst cousin of Figaro and the Count. Vocally distinguishable, since he is a basso, he nonetheless sings from the same expressive palate: similar outbursts of rage, tempered by a type of sneering already known to us from Figaro?s ?Se vuol ballare?. Textually, his role appears to be to off er a general theory of what Figaro and the Count both exemplify: ?Revenge, oh revenge! It is a plea sure reserved for the wise. To forget humiliations and outrages is baseness, is utter lowness.?20 So life is more or less utterly occupied by competition for status and the avoidance of shame between males, and the smart thing to do is to play that game to the hilt. The recommended attitude not only causes outrage and humiliation to eclipse love and longing (Bartolo, like Figaro and the Count, has no thought at all for Rosina, whom he has lost to the Count through Figaro?s scheming), but also precludes any kind of mercy or reconciliation. It is this attitude that

self from yet further outrage. Sung in a
sneering, reedy tenor, the aria, like Bartolo?s, complements Figaro and the Count from the other direction. It shares with them a view of what the world is really about. If women fi gure in the aria at all, it is only in the way Basilio confesses to a kind of ?fi re? and ?craziness? in his youth? a false direction soon put right by the counsels of Lady Prudence. The ancien régime does not like low- class people who allow their fi re free rein.

III. Females: Fraternity, Equality, Liberty

The females of the opera inhabit a musical and textual world that is from the beginning depicted as utterly unlike that of the men. First of all, it contains friendship. Susanna and the Countess might have seen each other as rivals: after all, the Count is trying to seduce Susanna. However, the thought does not occur to them. They understand that they share a common set of purposes, and that the desired outcome for both is that the two men, Figaro and the Count, become loving and faithful husbands focused on aff ection and plea sure, rather than revenge and jealousy. (The Count is as dominated by jealousy as is Figaro, despite his apparent lack of love for his wife.) Like the two men, the two women share a musical idiom? so much so that they can be mistaken for each other even by the men who ostensibly love them (until, interestingly, Figaro does at least recognize Susanna by her voice, ?the voice that I love?).

Unlike the men, however, the women use their similarity not for mutual combat but for cooperation, and, in par tic u lar, for the complex masquerade that ends up revealing the Count?s hypocrisy. When we focus on their teamwork, we notice as well that there is absolutely nothing like teamwork and reciprocity among the men. The women?s partnership, moreover, despite their class diff erence, appears to be quite unhierarchical, as they benefi t each other with genuine mutual friendliness. (Susanna, for example, is surprised that it is she? presumably not all

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that well educated? who is to write the letter to the Count suggesting the rendezvous: ?I should write? But madame . . .? The Countess will have nothing of her deference: ?Write, I say, and I will take the consequences.?) One way we see their reciprocity is in the nature of their jokes, for here there are no sneering put- downs, no snide spitefulness, only mutual solidarity and the equal love of a good scheme.

Once again, all this is in the libretto, but the music takes the suggestion of reciprocity and equality much further.24 As the Countess dictates the letter and Susanna writes it down, the women take inspiration from each other?s musical phrases, exchanging ideas with a sinuous capacity for response and a heightened awareness of the other?s pitch, rhythm, and even timbre. They begin by exchanging phrases, as in a conversation. As the duet continues, however, their reciprocity becomes more intimate and more complex as they wind around each other, ultimately achieving closely knit harmony. Their musical partnership expresses a kind of friendly attunement that is, we might say, an image of mutual respect, but also a reciprocal aff ection that is deeper than respect. Neither runs roughshod over the utterance of the other, and yet each contributes something distinctive of her own, which in turn is recognized by the other and carried forward.25

This duet has acq

uired fame in American pop u lar culture because of
its use in the fi lm version of Stephen King?s The Shawshank Redemption, when the convict who has become the prison?s librarian (played by Tim Robbins) fi gures out a way to play it for all the prisoners over the PA system, and, locking the door, stops the prison hierarchy from interfering until the duet is done. The men of Shawshank certainly are not fans of classical music, but they hear something in this music and stop in their tracks, transfi xed by a promise of happiness. As Red (Morgan Freeman) expresses it, looking back:

I have no idea what those two Italian ladies were singing about. Truth is, I don?t want to know. Some things are better left unsaid. I?d like to think they were singing about something so beautiful, it can?t be expressed in words, and it makes your heart ache because of it . . . , and for the briefest of moments, every last man in Shawshank felt free.

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What do the prisoners hear in the duet? Freedom, they say. But why, and how? First, they cannot help hearing an absence of hierarchy in the evenly matched voices, and a partnership based on responsiveness rather than dictatorial power. This, in the context of Shawshank, is already freedom. But as the voices soar out over the squalor of the prison yard, I think there is more to be heard in it: the idea of a kind of internal freedom, a freedom of the spirit that consists precisely in not caring about hierarchy, neither seeking to avoid being controlled by others nor seeking to control them. Suppose we imagine Tim Robbins playing the Count?s Vedrò mentr?io sospiro, or Bartolo?s La vendetta. Well, those two powerful men express, in their own way, an idea of freedom: freedom as power to dominate, escaping the shame of being dominated. But we know that the men of Shawshank would not have been transfi xed by that image of freedom: after all, it is what they live every day. The promise of the duet is not simply a promise of freedom as reversal, freedom as getting your turn to humiliate the one who has humiliated you. It is a freedom that takes us beyond that anxious and always unsettled picture of what liberty, for men, might consist in.26 It is freedom as being happy to have an equal beside you, freedom as not caring who is above or beneath. That?s a freedom that does take the mind far away from Shawshank and from the American society of which that institution is an apt mirror.

In other words, this music has invented demo cratic reciprocity. Whatever the faults of the fi lm? which is in many ways sentimental? this moment contains a correct insight into Mozart?s politics and into the politics of equality more generally. You don?t get the right kind of liberty, the idea is, without also having this type of fraternity and this type of equality. To shoot for liberty without fraternity, as Beaumarchais?s Figaro does, is simply to turn the hierarchy upside down, not to replace it with something fundamentally diff erent. If there is to be a new regime, if there is ever to be something like a politics of equal respect in this world, the suggestion is, it must start by singing like those two women, and this means becoming a fundamentally diff erent type of man.27

To put it a diff erent way: the male world of Figaro is its own prison, as each man goes through life dominated by the anxiety of rank, and what those prisoners he

g himself on the guitar, Cherubino becomes the only leading character in the opera who sings a solo, that is, whose solo singing represents singing.34 Growing up in a world of sentiment and musicality, he naturally gives his passion a musical shape.35

The content of that passion (in the beautiful aria ?Voi che sapete?) is remarkable for its utter diff erence from the arias of all the other males.36 Cherubino simply talks about his feeling of love, and about its beautiful female object. He has nothing to say about other men, and he seems utterly impervious to all questions of honor, shame, and competition. Furthermore, he is eager to learn something, and to learn it from women: ?You who know what sort of thing love is, women, tell me whether that is what I have in my heart.? All the other men want to teach rather than to learn; what they are eager to teach is a lesson in competitive one-upmanship, and they want to teach it to other males. (Figaro imagines himself as the dancing master running a school that will teach the Count to dance to his tune; Bartolo is eager to show ?all Seville? that he can defeat Figaro; the Count is eager to show Figaro that his ?cause? is not, as Figaro believes, ?won,? but, rather, lost.) Moreover, Cherubino, unlike all the other males, is utterly vulnerable, and he makes no attempt to conceal his vulnerability, which is emotional more than bodily: ?I feel

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my soul in fl ames, and then it turns to ice in a moment.? He describes an intense longing that leaves him no peace. And most remarkably, he locates what he is pursuing in a place outside of his own ego: ?I seek a good that is outside myself ? (ricerco un bene fuori di me). Hearing these words, we realize that no other male in the opera does seek a good outside himself: all are preoccupied with winning a competitive victory, or shielding the ego from shame. His love is infused with intense wonder at the sheer beauty of its object: wonder drives his curiosity and makes it splendid rather than mechanical.

The music of the aria would tell us all this without the words, and indeed it communicates, well beyond the words, the young man?s delicacy, vulnerability, and sheer kindness. It is hardly by accident that people who have utterly no idea what Cherubino is saying should have found in this aria (as in the duet between Susanna and the Countess) an image of emotional integrity.37 Here if anywhere, Mozart?s music moves well beyond Da Ponte?s text.

How did Cherubino get to be this way, a way that promises real reciprocity in passion? He was brought up by women and kept a stranger to the men?s world. Indeed, we?ve already seen that the prospect of military ser vice utterly confuses and appalls him. In the scene, at the end of Act I, in which Figaro tells him what to expect when he goes off to the army (?Non più andrai?), Figaro?s joke to Cherubino is that he has lived in the women?s world of sentiment, music, tenderness, and delicacy? and now, suddenly, he will have to enter a world of drunken men (they swear by Bacchus) with infl exible necks (collo dritto), tough faces (muso franco), long mustaches (gran mustacchi), and ?lots of honor? (molto onor). Now, in Act II, we see more fully how much the young man will have to unlearn in order to enter this male world: in par tic u lar, lovely, sensuous music. ?What a beautiful voice,? says the Countess when Cherubino fi

imagine
musical settings of the text that would have signaled irony, skepticism, or bitterness (certainly an emotion that we could imagine Susanna feeling at this time). Instead, the music expresses both tender sensuousness and, with the playful movements of the strings, laughter, suggesting that these two attitudes go well together, and that both are key parts of the woman?s world. We are now led to recall a feature of the overture whose signifi - cance we might have missed before: the same type of muffl ed laughter from the violins is present there, suggesting that subversive play is a major theme of the opera as a whole.

This reading of the aria is shortly confi rmed by the duet ?Aprite, presto, aprite,? as Susanna and Cherubino plot together about getting him safely out of his compromising hiding place. The two sing, extremely rapidly, in hushed conspiratorial voices that show a rare degree of attunement? foreshadowing the more developed duet between Susanna and the Countess in Act III. Cherubino shows that he has now, in eff ect, become a woman: a co- conspirator, a voice of fraternity and equality, and therefore, as if we didn?t know it already, a person internally free from the bonds of status.

As we look at Cherubino, we realize afresh how unradical Figaro?s apparent radicalism is. It?s not just that he takes over from the ancien régime its proprietary attitude to women; it?s something more global than that. Figaro simply sees the world the way the Count sees it: in terms of the quest for honor and the avoidance of shame. He doesn?t understand reciprocity, and he really doesn?t understand humor. (His idea of a joke is a mean- spirited put- down.)42 If the new world has citizens like that, its commitment to equality and fraternity will be bound to be problematic. New hierarchies will be thrown up to replace the old, like ramparts defending the male ego. Could there, however, be citizens who simply like to laugh and to sing?

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Equality and Love

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In her fascinating refl ections on eighteenth- century pornography, Lynn Hunt has argued that the pornographic idea of the interchangeability of bodies is closely linked to the revolutionary call for demo cratic equality.43 Legal theorist Lior Barshack argues that the new subjectivity created by Mozart?s operas is just this hedonistic idea of sexual freedom.44 No doubt such ideas were prominent in the eigh teenth century, as people (meaning men) tried to make sense of the new world they inhabited.

If I am right, however, Mozart sees the world rather diff erently, and more radically. The objectifi cation of bodies as interchangeable physical units is itself, the opera suggests, just one aspect of the ancien régime, which invented and depends upon the idea that some classes of people, including, prominently, women, are just oggetti, and thus can be used at will in one?s quest for personal gratifi cation. Seeing bodies as interchangeable is, indeed, a clever route to what the ancien régime wanted all along: male control and invulnerability. What would be truly opposed to the ancien régime would be not the demo cratization of bodies as interchangeable machines? but love. As Cherubino understands, this means seeking a good outside oneself, which is a scary idea. It is, nonetheless, an idea that Figaro must learn before he can be the kind of citizen Mozart (not Beaumarchais) demands? and learn it he doe

Roman Empire: ?when the cross expelled the ea gle, all Roman valor disappeared? (225).
The civil religion we need must inculcate ?sentiments of sociability, without which it is impossible to be a good citizen or a faithful subject? (226). These sentiments are based on some quasi- religious dogmas, including ?the sanctity of the social contract and the laws? (226). But what are the sentiments themselves like? It is clear that they involve an intense love of the nation and its laws. They also involve a type of fraternity grounded in unanimity and homogeneity: the person who dissents from the ?civil religion? is to be banished ?for being unsociable, for being incapable of sincerely loving the laws and justice? (226). Civic love, then, is incompatible with active critical thought about the po liti cal order, and with a sense of the separateness of the individual from the group. The test for sincerity is unanimity.46 Furthermore, one thing that citizens must be unanimous about is the willingness to die for the nation? presumably without thinking critically about the plan for war, and whenever the sovereign body of citizens so decrees. The sentiment of civil love has, then, a strong commitment to the suspension of both individuality and reasoning. Indeed, we might say, more generally, that the person- to- person dimension is missing, since the approved sentiments of communal bonding do not lead to or rest upon any sentiments directed at individuals, even sentiments of concern and respect.47
Notice, then, that despite Rousseau?s intense hatred of the feudal order, he has not been able to think his way very far beyond it, in thinking about the emotions. Civic love, like feudal love, is obedient, hierarchical. (Even if it is ?the general will,? not an individual, that is sovereign, the general will nonetheless bears to the wayward individual a strongly hierarchical relationship.) There is no room for the sort of reciprocity exemplifi ed by Mozart?s women, a reciprocity based on plotting, joking, a sense of the free space within which people can live and be themselves. Moreover, despite Rousseau?s attempt, in Book IV of Emile, to substitute the egalitarian sentiment of pitié for sentiments based upon feudal in e qual ity, that experiment remains deeply unrealized in his idea of the civil religion, since the civil religion counters the allegedly excessive meekness of Christianity by relying, it would seem, on the very ideas of manly courage, assertiveness, and honor that sustained the ancien

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régime. There is a shift, in that the object of civic shame, civic anger, and civic assertiveness is now the nation, seen as embodiment of the general will. The sentiments themselves, however, feel very much the same, as the nation seeks to establish itself in the world?s hierarchy of nations. It?s still true, in this new world as in the old, that ?to forget shame and insult is baseness, complete lowness of status.?
Mozart, by contrast, proposes a radical alteration of the very content of civic love. No longer must love revolve in any way around ideas of hierarchy and status. Instead, it must be aspirational: like Cherubino, it must ?seek a good outside myself.?
To sustain truly egalitarian institutions, moreover, this aspirational love must remain vulnerable to criticism, ultimately to the fact that each individual has a quirky mind that is not exactly the same as any

other.
(Indeed, although I speak of ?civic love,? it is crucial to the new conception that there is a family of types of love that play roles, interwoven, sharing some features but diff ering in other respects, as do the people these loves connect.) Rather than Rousseau?s homogeneity, the Mozartian regime seeks real- life heterogeneity, gives it space to unfold, and takes delight in its oddness. The fondness of the women?s world for plotting, joking, every subversion of tradition and obedience, is the sign of something that ultimately becomes crucial to the Enlightenment, in its Kantian and especially Millian forms: the idea of the mind of the individual as containing an untouched free space, a funny unevenness that is both erotic and precious. What the women?s world knows is that those ?mischievous looks? are precisely what make Cherubino worth loving (so, if women love him, they ?certainly have their good reasons?). They know too that the aspirational nature of his love is deeply interwoven with his capacity for subversion. Civic love, then, has a downward movement as well: it can aspire in a healthy way only if it is also capable of poking fun at itself, noticing the everyday messiness and heterogeneity of real people.
How do we imagine this civic love expressing itself? We connect Rousseau?s love with solemn public ceremonies, with anthems, with the drumbeat of the call to arms. Mozart?s love, by contrast, is expressed through many diff erent types of artistic and musical per for mance, but, crucially, through comedy, including comedy that pokes fun at the call to arms (as in ?Non più andrai?) and points out some of the unpleasant

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realities of what passes in some quarters for warlike glory: ?instead of the fandango, a march through the mud [il fango].?
At this point, we notice that Mozart has an eighteenth- century ally:48 Johann Gottfried Herder, whose Letters for the Advancement of Humanity (1793? 1797) develops a remarkably similar conception of a reformed patriotism that would need to be inculcated if the world is ever to become a world of peace. Herder begins by making the point that if patriotism is an attitude toward an entity called ?fatherland,? it had better fi gure out what is valuable in the relationship of a child to its father.49 If we ask this question seriously, he argues, we will see that we want this love to contain aspiration to genuine merit, but also a love of peace, since we all remember with greatest longing and love the peaceful times of our childhood. Moreover, what delighted us in those peaceful times was ?games of youth?: so, the new patriotism must at the same time be something playful. Above all, it would never involve blood lust and revenge: ?Fatherlands against fatherlands in a combat of blood [Blutkampf] is the worst barbarism in the human language.?
Later in the collection, Herder returns to this theme, making it clear that he conceives of the animating spirit of the new patriotism as less paternal than feminine, and requiring a profound gender transformation on the part of males. Here he alludes to what he has managed to learn about Native American Iroquois customs, which, he argues, involve casting one of the potentially warring tribes in the role of ?the woman,? and then requiring all the others to listen to what ?she? says:50
Hence if at some time the men around her are at blows with each
othe

.? All of these, concludes Herder, are the principles ?of the great peace goddess Reason from whose language no one can in the end escape? (408).

Herder and Mozart are in harmony. Each sees the need to feminize the culture of male one- upmanship if civic love is to be productive of true happiness. The Countess, we might say, is Herder?s great peace woman Reason, whose gentleness and whose refusal to focus on insulted pride show a way in which ?all? can be happy. Cherubino, her pupil, has learned from her a horror of war, a horror of false statecraft, and a love of mischievous subversion of the countless ways in which men try to make the world a world of war. Herder emphasizes the negative side more than does Mozart: the decent society must teach appropriate fear and even horror, not just appropriate love. And he rightly emphasizes the fact that critical reason plays a crucial role in the new approach. In that sense he is echoing Kant?s call for an approach to world peace that rests on the Enlightenment value of a critical public culture. But in essence he and Mozart are on the same page. The adult men are led, in the end, to put on those long skirts and think about daily life in a reasonable way, rather than a way informed solely by the insatiable greed of honor run amok.

What we have at the end of the opera is something that would appall Rousseau, a world of craziness, foolishness, joking, idiosyncratic individuality? and, inseparably, a world of peace. The new temper may not be suffi cient for peace, since external dangers can always threaten. It does appear, however, to be necessary.

VI. Transcending the Everyday?

What, then, happens at the opera?s close? Temporarily, at least, the male world yields before the female world, asking for pardon. And then there is a pause. As Steinberg nicely says, ?[F]rom Mozart to Mahler, the rest, the musical pause, the moment of silence is the indicator of a fi rst- person musical voice taking stock of itself. Music stops to think.?52 What, in this silence, might the Countess be thinking before she says yes?

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If she has any sense? and we know that she has a great deal? she will be thinking, ?What on earth does this promise of renewed love really mean? Has this man, who has behaved badly for years, really become a new person just because our joke succeeded and he is publicly embarrassed?? And when, like the sensible woman she is, she gives herself the answer ?Surely not,? then she must think again, asking herself, ?But then, shall I accept him as he is, with his arrogance, his status- consciousness, his anxiety- driven infi delities? Shall I agree to live with just the hope or promise, and the occasional reality, of reciprocal love, rather than its assured stability??

When, then, after that pause, she answers, ?I am nicer, and I say yes,? with that downward- leaning phrase, she is saying yes to the imperfection in all their lives, accepting the fact that love between these men and these women, if frequently real, will always be uneven and far from blissful; that people will never get the entirety of what they long for; that even if men are capable of learning from women? and Steinberg has nicely shown how Figaro learns from Susanna a newly tender musical idiom53? nonetheless we hardly have reason to expect these achievements to be stable, given the pressures culture and upbringing exert on human development. I

ndeed, it seems far more likely that Cherubino will be cor-
rupted by the male world around him than that the other men will drop
their quest for honor and status and learn to sing like Cherubino. Even
in the best of cultures, the aversion to shame and the narcissistic desire
for control are profound human desires; they are unlikely to go away,
yielding a world in which all lovers get everything they want. (And
wouldn?t the image of such a world itself be a narcissistic fantasy that
might inhibit the real perception of another individual reality?)
So, when she says that ?yes,? she is agreeing to love, and even trust, in
a world of inconstancy and imperfection? an affi rmation requiring more
courage than any of the battlefi eld exploits mentioned by Figaro in ?Non
più andrai?.
What she agrees to here is also what the ensemble agrees to. The new
public world is a world of happiness in that way. What that seems to
mean is that all present say yes to a world that seeks and aims at reciproc-
ity, respect, and attunement without being starry- eyed about perfection,
a world in which people commit themselves to liberty, fraternity, and

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equality while understanding that these transcendent ideals are to be at-
tained not by exiting from the real world into a pristine world, but rather
by pursuing them in this one, in episodes of love and craziness. The new
regime will fail if it demands perfection. It will succeed only on the basis
of a realistic conception of men and women, and what they are capable
of. But sustaining the hope of fraternity without being starry- eyed (and
therefore, in due course, disillusioned and cynical) requires something
like an unjaundiced trust in the possibility of love (at least sometimes
and for a while), and, perhaps above all, a sense of humor about the world
as it is.54
These ideas of trust, ac cep tance, and reconciliation are not in the
text, but only in the music.55 As has long been felt by interpreters, Mo-
zart?s sensibility is, at the very least, more determinate than his libret-
tist?s, and possibly at odds with it, if we locate in the libretto leanings
toward a kind of detached cynicism that Da Ponte at times exhibits.56
But Mozart?s music is not in some unattainable heaven; it is in the middle
of our world, and in the bodies of those who sing it. It reshapes the world
by reshaping breath itself.
In The Musical Repre sen ta tion: Meaning, Ontology, and Emotion,
Charles O. Nussbaum gives us the best picture we have in philosophy to
date of the experience of musical listening, the nature of the virtual space
it creates and the mental repre sen ta tions it evokes. At the end of the book,
he adds a chapter that is in many ways underdetermined by the book?s
overall argument, in which he argues that the great interest we take in
(Western, tonal) music derives from our horror of the merely contingent,
our desire for an experience of transcendence and unity that is akin to
religious experience. This chapter contains fascinating material on
quite a few phi los o phers, including Kant, Hegel, Schopenhauer, Nietz-
sche, and Sartre? all of whom supply arguments that harmonize with
Nussbaum?s contentions in a variety of ways. It also contains material
on mystical experience that convinces one that the religion/music par-
allel Nussbaum investigates is real, and illuminating for at least some
music.
And yet. Why should we be so incl

fl uence. Intel-
lectuals from many nations, convinced that human progress required
some type of humanistic ?civil religion? to counteract the power of ego-
ism and greed, rallied to his call for a new ?spiritual power,? a ?religion
of humanity? that could guide nations toward progress through emo-
tions of sympathy and love.
Comte, though rarely studied in philosophy curricula today, was
regarded during his lifetime as one of the leading thinkers of the cen-
tury. Revered by John Stuart Mill as a phi los o pher of equal rank with
Descartes and Leibniz,8 he had im mense intellectual prestige and
practical infl uence all over the world. In Britain, Comtean Positivism
claimed such sympathizers as J. S. Mill and George Eliot. In Brazil,
the nascent republican movement adopted Comte?s motto, ?Order and
Progress,? as the motto of the nation, and the Comtean symbol of a
woman holding a child as its new fl ag. In India, Comte?s ideas were so
infl uential, particularly in Bengal, that, as literary historian Jasodhara
Bagchi puts it, they were ?assimilated into the class subjectivity and
common sense of the elite.?9 Because Comte and his Eu ro pe an followers
were known to be hostile to colonial domination, it seemed subversive
rather than submissive to adopt his program? despite the fact that
Comte believed in the supremacy of the ?white race? and assigned a lead
role to the nations of Eu rope in his scheme of world positivist culture,
with France in fi rst place.10 Tagore?s library contained the major works
of Comte, and he drew on them throughout his career, particularly in
the novel The Home and the World (1915) and the much later philosophi-
cal book The Religion of Man (1930)? not without deep criticism, as we
shall see.

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Engaging with Comte will prove valuable for our project, since he re-
sponds with detailed proposals to the need I have identifi ed? for a pub-
lic culture based upon love and extended sympathy, which can support
the goals of a just society and ensure the stability of its commitments.
Comte also follows and develops the promising suggestion of Figaro,
proposing a reform of gender politics that places the ?feminine? spirit at
the heart of society. At the same time, he accords great value to the
imagination and to the arts as key ingredients in humanity?s progress.
Comte?s arguments in favor of these strategies complement, to some ex-
tent, those of Mozart and Herder, promising illumination for our own
pursuit of similar ideas.
Comte?s enterprise, however, is full of pitfalls, prejudices, and even
absurdities, so it must be approached in a critical spirit. Fortunately, two
of Comte?s most distinguished enthusiasts, Mill and Tagore, do so ap-
proach it, and their reactions will help us imagine how we might retain
what is insightful in Comte while avoiding what is unappetizing.

II. Comte?s Religion of Humanity

Comte might be said to be Eu ro pe an philosophy?s new Epicurus. Like
the ancient Greek thinker, he claims to have proven that the universe is
not run by the gods; correct apprehension of the laws of nature will move
humankind beyond the era of dependence upon religion. Positivism?
the idea that we explain nature by secular laws grounded in perceptual
experience? is thus a philosophically grounded replacement for reli-
gion. It yields a new approach not only to nature but also to social life.
No longer need we explain our dealings with one an

nity is to focus on the emotions, training people to extend sympathy outward. For this training to succeed, we need two things: order and something like religion. Order is secured by government, which manages the economy (with the assistance of a capitalist class) and provides for bodily security and well- being. Government, however, does not set moral goals. For the ultimate moral purposes of society, we must turn to its spiritual power.

Comte?s government protects freedom of speech and freedom of conscience? in the sense that there is no legal penalty for or restraint upon the expression of opinion (Mill, 73? 74). This does not mean, however, that Comte has any respect for the moral right of individuals to follow their chosen religion and express their chosen ideas. So far as he is concerned, there are right and wrong answers in the moral domain, and those answers are diffi cult to come by. Only a few very highly trained people, capable of appreciating the arguments of Positivist philosophy, are likely to be able to attain them. Society will, therefore, strongly discourage individual self- expression and dissent, and will encourage a spirit of ?moral control? and unanimity (Mill, 75).

Who should exercise this control? Comte argues that the new spiritual power should be entrusted to a small group of specialist phi los ophers. Trained in positivism, and at leisure so that they need do nothing else but attend to philosophical argumentation, they will understand, and convey, the Positivist conclusion that religion is passé and that people must direct their thoughts to humanity alone. They will then form a council into whose hands society will entrust the spiritual formation of the nation. Comte does not want phi los o phers to be government functionaries. Following the French tradition of separation of church and state, he argues that participation in government corrupts, and that authentic spirituality must be protected from the infl uence of the marketplace. The phi los o phers must therefore be something like tenured academics in a state- run research institute: they will be maintained for life at state expense, but that is the limit of the state?s infl uence upon them. (Mill observes that the whole system is most implausible, since govern-

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ment offi cials have been characterized in such a contemptuous way that it is impossible to see why Comte thinks they would be capable of recognizing the spiritual authorities, much less supporting them [99].)

Although Comte calls these people phi los o phers, he does not imagine their function as genuinely philosophical in anything like a Socratic sense, in which philosophy requires continual self- examination and critique. These phi los o phers will not do what Comte himself did, studying the past critically and coming up with bold new solutions to standing problems. Comte imagines that philosophy has in eff ect come to a stop with his own contributions. The ?phi los o phers? will simply spend their time examining, internalizing, and implementing the Comtean program. Comte does not think it necessary to mention that this is a rather limited role for a phi los o pher, nor does he worry that philosophical dissent might compromise unanimity and control. He simply assumes that he has done his job so well that there is no more to be said, and people of reason will simply acquiesce. (He is

not the only phi los o pher to have
seen his own contribution as fi nal in this way: both Epicurus in the ancient world and Utilitarian Jeremy Bentham in the modern? though not Mill? do appear to think that they have had the fi nal word on normative matters.)

What Comte is after, then, is not what we (or Kant or Mill) might think of as a philosophical academy, a place of investigative critical argument, dissent, and exploration. It is, instead, a replacement for the pervasive social infl uence of the Roman Catholic Church and its clergy. The new spiritual guides, understanding Comte?s ideas, will propound for the common people a total scheme of thought and practice that organizes their moral lives in its smallest details. To the trivial question of how they are going to displace the actual Catholic Church and its infl uence, Comte devotes only a side glance. Positivism will install itself the way Newtonian mechanics beat out Aristotle?s theories: by the superior ability of its ideas to explain reality. Even if people do not understand all the fi ne points of Positivism, they will see its superior merit, preferring ?the solid study of Laws? to the ?fruitless search for Causes,? and ?submission to demonstrable necessities? to ?submission to arbitrary Wills? (441).

The general goal of the new religion will be to extend human sympathy by cultivating the spirit of universal brotherhood. Rather than thinking

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in terms of private rights of possession, people will learn to pursue a common good with all their hearts, in a spirit of all- embracing humanist love. A linchpin in the cultivation of this love is the imagination: we must become able to see each person?s fate in every other?s, to picture it vividly as an aspect of our own fate, and to conceive of the whole history of the human kind and its possible future as part of our own sphere of concern, through intense focusing on ideal images of human achievement. In effect, Comte wants to change the way people understand the notion of their own happiness or fl ourishing: it should not be confi ned to narrow egocentric projects, but should include the fate of the whole of humanity, past, present, and future.

Imaginative capacities will be developed very early in the family (through a curriculum for early education imparted by the phi los o phers to mothers!). Throughout life, however, the imagination must continue to be intensifi ed and refi ned through the agency of art. Comte emphasizes that poetry, music, and visual art must all play a key role in his new ideal. He has a high regard for art in one sense: he sees that it is extremely valuable in creating emotions of the requisite sort and evoking them on suitable occasions. He does not trust artists, however, because he thinks of them as self- serving and unreliable. ?The mental and moral versatility which makes them so apt in refl ecting the thoughts and feelings of those around them, utterly unfi ts them for being our guides? (310). So they must be kept under the watchful eye of the phi los o phers: ?Their real vocation is to assist the spiritual power as accessory members? (310). Under the direction of the philosophical council, then, they will assist in the creation of the new positivist religion.

How might Comte?s ambitious goal be accomplished? What does it take to create a religion? As Comte sees, it takes a system of education. But it also take

ct. There is
nothing really ridiculous in the devotional practices which M. Comte recommends towards a cherished memory or an ennobling ideal, when they come unprompted from the depths of the individual feeling; but there is something ineff ably ludicrous in enjoining that everybody shall practise them three times daily for a period of two hours, not because his feelings require them, but for the premeditated purpose of getting his feelings up. The ludicrous, however, in any of its shapes, is a phaenomenon with which M. Comte seems to have been totally unacquainted. There is nothing in his writings from which it could be inferred that he knew of the existence of such things as wit and humour. . . . [And] there are passages in his writings which, it really seems to us, could have been written by no man who had ever laughed. (153? 154)

Mill?s example at this point is indeed hilarious. As a replacement for the Catholic gesture in which one makes the sign of the cross over oneself, Comte proposes a gesture in which one touches the ?principaux organes? of the body, expressing one?s devotion to the biological principles through which one is sustained in life. ?This may be a very appropriate mode of expressing one?s devotion to the Grand Etre,? Mill concludes. ?[B]ut any one who had appreciated its eff ect on the profane reader, would have thought it judicious to keep it back till a considerably more advanced stage in the propagation of the Positive Religion? (154? 155).

After we fi nish laughing with Mill, however, we ought to step back and ask why these aspects of Comte seem ridiculous, and whether we are right to laugh. Mill is surely hasty in suggesting that it is always inauthentic or absurd to engage in a ritual per for mance for the purpose of stimulating or arousing certain emotions. Strongly infl uenced by Romanticism, Mill cannot imagine that a ritual per for mance of this sort could be other than superfi cial or even hypocritical. The history of religion, however, shows us that ritual is an extremely powerful device for

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the arousal of emotion? in large part because human beings are creatures of habit, and repetition increases the resonance of an image or thought. Ritual also provides a common ground among participants, creating areas of shared expression and memory. Denominations that have tried to emphasize authenticity to the exclusion of repetition usually fi nd themselves reverting to ritual before long in order to hold the congregation together and increase its commitment. Thus Reform Judaism, animated by an idea of autonomy, for a time eschewed ritual, but congregants themselves demanded it, and by now a great deal of traditional poetry, music, and per for mance is back in, albeit in revised form. The Ethical Culture Society, founded in order to be a kind of positivist postreligious church, quickly began to take on ritual elements from elsewhere, though without suffi cient planning or cohesion to ensure lasting devotion. Britain?s Humanist Society, which attempted to provide prosaic analogues for traditional rituals, produced something impoverished and unappealing.13

Comte is on strong ground, then, when he insists on communal rituals and on engendering habits of devotion, and he is wise to call upon poetry and music for aid, rather than relying on the phi los o phers to make up suitable rituals on their own.

Nor does there seem to be any-
thing objectionable about the idea that one should perform certain rituals because they will inspire emotions that one wants to cultivate in oneself. Becoming virtuous is a matter of cultivating appropriate habits, in emotion as in conduct. The Romantic idea that emotion is not worthy unless it comes unbidden should be rejected: we can learn to feel appropriately, just as we can learn to act appropriately.
So why do Comte?s ideas seem ludicrous? One reason is superfi cial: anything that derives its effi cacy from habit is bound to seem funny or odd when presented for the fi rst time? and without the poetic and musical surroundings from which the new religion would ultimately derive a great deal of its force. Visiting the rituals of an unfamiliar religion, one typically feels alienation, embarrassment, or even a sense of the absurd. Laughter is in part, then, just an uneasy reaction to the unfamiliar. But it also comes, certainly, from the mania for control and homogeneity that the whole exercise involves, and from a certain contradiction in its purpose. In the name of reason and humanity, Comte treats people like

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submissive robots, closing off spaces for rational argument and individual creativity. The Positivist religion shares these problems, to some extent, with its Catholic model, but it is easier to see these defects in something new than in something that is by now familiar and traditional.14
Whether or not we think it appropriate to laugh at any religion?s all-encompassing system of devotions, we may certainly agree with Mill (and Mozart) in thinking that a society respectful of individual diff erences should be skeptical. For Mill, such mandatory conformity? even if enforced primarily through shame and other social sanctions? will doom society?s hope of progress, since progress requires spaces for individual experimentation.
We notice too that Comte gives little scope to real artists. To the extent that Christian devotion seems rich and compelling by comparison to the religion Comte describes, it is because real artists in the Christian tradition have exercised imagination in idiosyncratic ways, producing works of music, poetry, and visual art that are both deeply moving and highly variegated. One suspects that Comte would not be comfortable with the partnership of a J. S. Bach, an El Greco, a Gerard Manley Hopkins? despite the evident Christian piety of all three? because they exercise imagination with personal integrity, trying to discover something of their own; all three would surely be utterly contemptuous of orders coming from the philosophical academy. It?s not just control, then, that makes us laugh; it?s the combination of control with sameness and of both with smugness, the sense that nothing remains to be learned or discovered.
Another aspect of the comedy of Positivism is its utter indiff erence to the world?s many traditional cultures. Like Roman Catholicism, Positivism is supposed to be a worldwide religion? and yet it is all so very French. Comte does not pause to ask to what extent a religion ought to respect and incorporate elements of each traditional culture, as Roman Catholicism has certainly done very shrewdly.
Both the neglect of culture and the neglect of the individual show up in Comte?s utter lack of a sense of humor. Mill is right on target here, and the humorlessness is

of the taint of po liti cal struggle.
Thus Comte?s gender proposal ultimately leads in a direction opposed to that of Mozart. Rather than empowering women po liti cally and drawing upon the insights of the women?s world? including its sense of fun and subversion? for the construction of a new type of citizenship for all, Comte makes the traditional separation of genders and spheres more rigid, arguing that ?Equality in the position of the two sexes is contrary to their nature, and no tendency to it has at any time been exhibited? (275).
What of the pursuit of global justice? Comte?s religion is truly international, though it remains or ga nized at the national level. And in the international sphere Comte does not hesitate to give his council of phi loso phers a quasi- governmental role. Rather like the United Nations, it will preside over debates concerning global policy, including the introduction of a common Eu ro pe an currency. Comte envisages a central philosophical/po liti cal association that will meet in Paris and will consist of ?eight Frenchmen, seven En glishmen, six Germans, fi ve Italians, and four Spaniards. This would be enough to represent fairly the principal divisions of each population? (427). His system would ?afterwards extend, in accordance with defi nite laws, to the rest of the white race, and fi nally to the other two great races of man? (7). Colonies of Eu rope get fi rst priority: ?four for each American Continent, two for India, two for the Dutch and Spanish possessions in the Indian Ocean? (433). Comte notes, however, that the White race ?in all its branches is superior to the other two races? (435), and he holds, as well, that mono the ism represents a stage of human development superior to polytheism (435). Last to be incorporated is ?the black race,? and here Comte gives priority to Haiti, ?which had the energy to shake off the iniquitous yoke of slavery,?

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and to Central Africa, ?which has never yet been subjected to Eu ro pe an infl uence? (436), since he holds that being treated contemptuously by Eu ro pe ans makes it harder for formerly enslaved peoples to learn the lessons of Positivism. So his racism is tempered, at least, by a vigorous condemnation of the eff ects of conquest.
This repellent section of Comte?s work also proves instructive for us. If national sentiment is indeed to be the ?fulcrum? on which we leverage universal love of humanity, how do we arrange to have national sentiment without chauvinism and racism? One part of the answer is obvious: we must avoid grounding the idea of the nation in a racial or ethnic identity. Even better, we might include antiracism as an element in a national identity. Such things are easier contemplated than realized, however, and the critic of our project will be right to ask whether, when we let the force of emotion assume power, we don?t risk giving encouragement to such shameful aspects of human behavior. As we?ll see, Tagore has a similar worry.
Comte has so many valuable ideas that the obvious defects of his program give us useful warnings. Mill and Tagore articulate those warnings and try to heed them, while preserving what is most valuable in the Comtean program.
III. Mill?s Critique and Replacement
John Stuart Mill is a great admirer of Comte, with large criticisms to make. He admires not only the Positivist account of nature and histo

een human beings, ex-
cept in the relation of master and slave, is manifestly impossible on any other footing than that the interests of all are to be consulted. Society between equals can only exist on the understanding that the interests of all are to be regarded equally? (304). Mill recognizes, however, that such statements cut no ice with people who are habituated to regard women and the poor as nonequals, and to regard their own personal happiness as far more important than any other goal. How, then, can we begin to extend sympathy in the way that would be required if we want to eff ect a stable improvement in the state of society?

What is required, Mill argues, is to draw on a rudimentary sort of fel-
low feeling that is already general and powerful (303)? the sense of one-
self as the member of a group? and to develop that into a genuinely moral sentiment. To some extent this can be achieved by institutional reform, since po liti cal improvements, by ?leveling those inequalities of legal privilege between individuals or classes, owing to which there are large portions of mankind whose happiness it is still practicable to disre-
gard? (305), will assist the development of suitable moral sentiments. The sentiments, however, must also be addressed more directly.

It is at this point that Mill turns to Comte. The passage is worth quot-
ing at length:

In an improving state of the human mind, the infl uences are con-
stantly on the increase, which tend to generate in each individual a feeling of unity with all the rest; which feeling, if perfect, would make him never think of, or desire, any benefi cial condition for him-
self, in the benefi ts of which they are not included. If we now sup-
pose this feeling of unity to be taught as a religion, and the whole force of education, of institutions, and of opinion, directed, as it once was in the case of religion, to make every person grow up from infancy surrounded on all sides both by the profession and by the practice of it, I think that no one, who can realize this conception, will feel any misgiving about the suffi ciency of the ultimate sanction for the Happiness morality. To any ethical student who fi nds the re-
alization diffi cult, I recommend . . . the second of M. Comte?s two

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principal works. . . . I entertain the strongest objections to the sys-
tem of politics and morals set forth in that treatise; but I think it has superabundantly shown the possibility of giving to the ser vice of humanity, even without the aid of belief in a Providence, both the psychical power and the social effi cacy of a religion; making it take hold of human life, and colour all thought, feeling and action in a manner of which the greatest ascendancy ever exercised by any reli-
gion may be but a type and foretaste; and of which the danger is, not that it should be insuffi cient, but that it should be so excessive as to interfere unduly with human freedom and individuality. (305? 306)

Here we can see that, despite Mill?s strong objections to the Comtean religion, which he registers here, he believes that Comte has shown the practicability of a pervasive cultivation of general sympathy, as a kind of secular religion.

In his posthumously published essay ?The Utility of Religion,?17 Mill returns to this theme and develops it further. The purpose of the essay is to scrutinize the claim that religion ought to be retained on accou

nt of its
utility, even if we doubt its cognitive warrant. After going through a number of social harms that he believes religion has caused, Mill turns to its supposed benefi ts. The most conspicuous are three. First, religion broadens sympathy, giving us goals outside ourselves, and ideas and conceptions more beautiful than those we encounter in daily life. ?The essence of religion is the strong and earnest direction of the emotions and desires towards an ideal object, recognized as of the highest excellence, and as rightfully paramount over all selfi sh objects of desire? (109). Second, religion addresses mysteries in life that we cannot understand by experience, thus stimulating imagination (102). Finally, religion off ers us consolations, which we will always need, so long as human life is full of suff ering (104).

Mill now argues that all these good functions of religion can be promoted by the ?religion of humanity,? which he describes, in Comtean fashion, as the identifi cation of our emotions with the life of the whole of humankind and our hopes with the hope of progress for humanity. Nationalism shows us that people are capable of rising above narrow self-concern, so it is not impossible ?that the love of that larger country, the

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world, may be nursed into similar strength, both as a source of elevated emotion and as a principle of duty.? Following this religion, we will gradually become capable of ?large and wise views of the good of the whole.?

Mill contends that this new religion is better than theistic religions in four ways: (a) it has a fi ner object (since the aim is to benefi t others, not to achieve immortality for oneself); (b) for that reason, it cultivates motives that are disinterested rather than egoistic; (c) it does not contain morally objectionable elements, such as the punishment of sinners in hell; and, fi nally, (d) it does not ask people to twist and pervert their intellectual faculties by believing things that are false or even absurd.

Some thoughtful Victorians, thinking about altruism, concluded that belief in an afterlife was essential to link our natural egoism to altruism. No less a phi los o pher than Mill?s Utilitarian successor Henry Sidgwick argued that the ?dualism of practical reason? could not be overcome without some hope for life after death. (In consequence, he devoted a good deal of his life to research into communication with the spirit world.)18 Mill ventures to question this pessimistic idea. The fact that some religions, for example Buddhism, do not promise individual immortality and yet demand extensive altruism make us think it possible, he argues, that in a happier or more developed state of human existence the promise of an afterlife may prove unnecessary. People want immortality because they have never been happy, but if they are happy in this life and get to live a bit longer than at present, then they will be willing to accept life?s end, and will see themselves as living on in the lives of those who follow them.

The one place where Mill expresses doubt is with regard to the prospect of being re united with our loved ones who have died. ?That loss, indeed, is neither to be denied nor extenuated. In many cases it is beyond the reach of comparison or estimate; and will always suffi ce to keep alive, in the more sensitive natures, the imaginative hope of a futurity which

when we are unsure which ideas are correct,
but even when we think we have acquired correct ideas. Even the best ideas lose their edge when not subjected to critical argument, and people cease to grasp why they hold them. Moreover, Mill believes that challenging received ideas and thinking for oneself are ways of becoming more complete as a human being; thus docility and submission to authority ?will assuredly be more repugnant to mankind, with every step of their progress in the unfettered exercise of their highest faculties? (Mill, 99). His laughter at Comte?s prescriptions refl ects his love of human heterogeneity and freedom.

Nor does Mill himself ever treat his own intellectual doctrines the way Comte treats his own: as immune to dissenting argument. His lifelong critical confrontation with Benthamism shows a mind that takes nothing on trust, that always looks for the best reasons, and in Utilitarianism he also shows himself keenly interested in seeking out anti- Utilitarian arguments and responding to them.

Mill, then, is on the horns of the dilemma that will occupy us throughout our project. He believes that the liberty to diff er and argue is essential for the health of society, and yet he also believes that social institutions of the sort he favors (involving greater social equality for women and the poor) cannot be sustained without an extensive cultivation of sympathy that is religionlike in its eff ects upon character. How, then, does he propose to engender sympathy without undue control?

One part of the answer lies in a distribution of social functions. In his Inaugural Address as rector of St. Andrews University, he makes it clear that the formation of character and of the moral sentiments is by and large the business of the family, not that of the system of public education.19 His position, however, turns out to be more subtle and complex than that simple statement would indicate: there is, after all, a lot public education can off er without stifl ing dissent in the manner of Comte.

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Where elementary education is concerned, Mill parts ways with other defenders of liberty of thought (for example, William Godwin), holding that compulsory education is fully compatible with the defense of individual liberty.20 This is so because people should not be free to do as they please when they act for other people who are in their power.21 Just as ?the almost despotic power of husbands over wives? should be limited by law, so too the power of parents over their children should have defi nite limits. But ?[i]t is in the case of children that misapplied notions of liberty are a real obstacle to the fulfi llment by the State of its duties? (128). Mill argues that neglect and abuse of the child?s mental development is a ?moral crime? (128) comparable to abuse and neglect of the child?s body. So universal education should be required by law. Mill favors making parents pay for this education if they can, but subsidizing the education of poorer children.

Here, however, for Mill, the specter of Comtean homogeneity rears its head. To say that the state should require education is not to say that this education should be state- administered. Mill worries that state-controlled education would lead to the imposition of defi nite partisan po liti cal views and ideologies.22 ?A general State education is a mere contrivance for molding people to be exactly

like one another; and as
the mold in which it casts them is that which pleases the predominant
power in the government . . . , it establishes a despotism over the mind?
(129). He therefore concludes that state- administered education, if it exists
at all, should be ?one among many competing experiments? (129).
Instead, Mill argues, the requirement of education should be enforced
by public examinations, beginning at an early age. First, basic skills of
reading and writing will be tested, and, later, the acquisition and reten-
tion of knowledge (130). Eventually examinations will test very sophisti-
cated skills, such as the mastery of philosophical arguments. To prevent
an ?improper infl uence over opinion,? care must be taken to set up the
exams without presupposing the truth or falsity of the ideas contained
therein wherever ?religion, politics, or other disputed topics? are in-
volved. Thus the philosophy exam would ask students to master the ar-
guments of both Locke and Kant, no matter which one he or she prefers;
the religion exam would be, similarly, historical rather than requiring
any statement of belief (131).

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Mill?s ideas are naïve and unsupported by empirical study. He seems
to think that there is less danger of coercive uniformity in a system of
public examinations than in state funding of educational institutions.
But this presumes that such institutions could not incorporate robust
norms of academic freedom and faculty control, even when state- funded.
He also fails to reckon with the many problems involved in a system of
means- tested provision of education, which would hardly alter the status
quo in which he was raised, with rich parents providing home tutors for
their children and poorer children left to attend what ever schools they
could aff ord with their state stipend. The idea that po liti cal values of
equal worth are expressed by making education free to all does not enter
his mind; nor does the idea that equality is further served by requiring
all children to attend a state- accredited school (whether public or pri-
vate), except in very unusual circumstances. Even the idea of competi-
tion, much though it resonates with the contemporary vogue for charter
schools, needs close scrutiny, and Mill, lacking empirical information,
gives it none.
As for examinations, they can be a source of terrible coercion, as the
No Child Left Behind Act in the United States has shown. Testing need
not be of this simplistic type, but there is certainly a strong tendency for
testing to simplify and homogenize, in a way that public schools in and
of themselves, especially run at the local level, would not tend to do.
About the higher level of testing Mill has some attractive ideas, but, once
again, they are not very useful in the absence of study of specifi c re-
gimes of national testing. In general, Mill should have thought more
about structures (academic freedom, local control, faculty autonomy)
that protect liberty in privately and publicly funded institutions alike,
rather than assuming that the primary danger lies in a par tic u lar fund-
ing source.
Far more valuable is the set of refl ections on university education that
Mill presented in his Rector?s Address at the University of St. Andrews
in Scotland (1867). The lecture is of great interest for its own time, since
Mill praises the Scottish system of higher education, with its emp

doctrines in mathematics and sci-
ence. Mill, as we have seen, would not reach such a conclusion even if he thought ethics had arrived at fi nal and correct opinions. He plainly does not think this, however. In the Comte book, he strongly asserts that we do not have fi nal doctrines on normative ethical and po liti cal issues, and here he repeats that claim: ?Politics cannot be learnt once for all, from a text- book, or the instructions of a master. What we require to be taught on that subject, is to be our own teachers. It is a subject on which we have no masters to follow; each must explore for himself, and exercise an in de pen dent judgment? (28). We can certainly study the facts ?having a direct bearing on the duties of citizenship? (28) and learn how to argue about them with solid arguments; we can also study the diff erent philo-
sophical theories, understanding the arguments for and against each and seeing how far they are in agreement about key ethical conclusions. We can study the history of religion and the diff erent religious conceptions in a nondogmatic way. All these functions are very appropriate to the university curriculum, and all will improve the conduct of public life. Furthermore, the general tone of the university can and should embody certain defi nite ethical values, such as the idea that there are things in life more important than wealth. Beyond this, however, a university cannot properly venture in the direction of control. Above all, its curriculum will produce citizens who are in de pen dent of authority, thoroughly informed, adept in reasoning, and capable of standing up for themselves.

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What, though, of sympathy? Mill has said that much of this must be the job of the family; he has also said that social institutions themselves can aid its development, by situating people nearer to one another, so that none seems beneath notice to any. Presumably if he had devoted attention to elementary education, he would think the cultivation of sympathy more appropriate there than in the university.

We know, however, that for Mill the cultivation of appropriate emotion has a more sophisticated aspect that could in principle be built into university curricula: in the Autobiography he famously rec ords that his own recovery from depression and his restoration to general social sympathy were greatly assisted by reading poetry, especially the poetry of Wordsworth. Although he does not comment on the specifi c emotions he found there, it is obvious that Wordsworth makes the cultivation of sympathy, including an active social sympathy concerned with issues of class and poverty, central to the reader?s experience. Above all, Wordsworth showed Mill a type of love of humanity that grows from wonder at the beauty of nature. Although Mill does not write much or well about love, his profound love for Harriet Taylor guided the entire spirit of his life, and he discovered this love shortly after his immersion in the poetry of Wordsworth, with its keen invitation to wonder and delight.

In the St. Andrews lecture, then, it is not surprising that Mill devotes considerable attention to the theme of aesthetic education, which he defi nes as education that refi nes and cultivates the emotions through the experience of works of art. Mill remarks that this aspect of education is sorely neglected in Victorian En gland, by contrast with continental

the World), he refl ects on his
disaff ection.2 Although the novel is now widely admired (as is the 1984
fi lm by Tagore?s student Satyajit Ray), and although it was already ad-
mired at the time by W. B. Yeats and many of Tagore?s friends, it was
condemned by radical thinkers. Marxist critic Georg Lukács dismissed
it as a ?libelous pamphlet? and a ?petty bourgeois yarn of the shoddi-
est kind.?3 Indeed, the novel does pursue an antiradical agenda, con-
demning a revolutionary nationalist version of ?civil religion? that
Tagore links to Anandamath, in favor of liberal Enlightenment ideas of
freedom and dissent? though not without acknowledging that liberal-
ism may turn out to be emotionally problematic.
The novel is narrated in turn by its three leading characters. Sandip,
the revolutionary swadeshi leader, embodies the Chatterjee/Comte idea
of a secular ?priesthood? that leads a movement for national in de pen-
dence that places women in the position of goddesses, to be worshipped
by the men who take charge of the movement. His slogan is Bande Mata-
ram. Nikhil (whose name means ?free?) is a progressive landlord who
exemplifi es the spirit of the Enlightenment.4 He defi es custom by giving
his wife, Bimala, a fi rst- rate education, hiring a British governess, and
encouraging Bimala to be an in de pen dent person. Because he wants a
marriage based upon choice, rather than submission, he takes the radical

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step of encouraging his wife to leave the women?s quarters and meet other
men. Bimala is the primary narrator, and we know from the beginning?
since she narrates retrospectively? that a tragedy will ensue.
From the beginning, Sandip and Nikhil diff er about the role of imagi-
nation and emotion in patriotism. Sandip insists that ?there is room for
an appeal to the imagination in patriotic work? (36). Nikhil owns that he
is ?both afraid and ashamed to make use of hypnotic texts of patriotism?
(36). Sandip replies that it is not hypnotism but truth: he really does
?worship Humanity? (37). Nikhil off ers three objections to this new reli-
gion. First, the worship of humanity should not lead? as it seems to in
this case? to a divisive nationalism that involves deifying one?s own
nation and pitting it against other nations (one of Herder?s central con-
cerns, we recall). Second, any hypnotic stimulus impedes the confronta-
tion with the real truth about one?s nation and its current situation. ?So
long as we are impervious to truth and have to be moved by some hypnotic
stimulus, we must know that we lack the capacity for self- government?
(42). Third, the sort of uncritical love that Sandip inspires let loose a tor-
rent of violent emotions that include a good deal of anger and hatred.
(The nationalist movement soon leads to a violent assault on the inno-
cent British governess, and to both economic and physical violence
against poor Muslim traders who cannot survive without the cheaper
foreign goods.) ? ?I am willing,? he said, ?to serve my country; but my
worship I reserve for Right which is far greater than my country. To wor-
ship my country as a god is to bring a curse upon it? ? (29).
What of Bimala? Allowed into the presence of other men suddenly,
with no experience of in de pen dent choice, she is utterly charmed by
Sandip?s seductive worship of her as the ?Queen Bee,? and she quickly
takes his side against her husband:
?I do not care about fi

t high
moral ideals be boringly uninspiring, and critical detachment unsexy? The novel does not show us any way out of the problem it depicts. Its tragic ending, however, sets the agenda for much of Tagore?s further thought and work. As a thinker, as an educator, and as a poet, musician, and choreographer, Tagore set out to respond to the challenge he himself had posed? eventually creating a poetic and critical alternative to Comte?s religion that corresponds to Mill?s ?religion of humanity? and develops its key insights further.5

Tagore?s response involved the composition of more than two thousand songs, two of which became the national anthems of India and Bangladesh. It involved the creation of a school and university that became world- famous exemplars of arts- oriented demo cratic education. (Although the school has been in existence since 1905, its distinctive features emerged gradually, and the university was founded in 1928.) And it involved, late in his career, a theoretical response to Comte, in the book The Religion of Man (1931), based on Tagore?s 1930 Hibbert Lectures at Oxford, a book that subsumes the other developments, since it devotes extensive attention to the school and to the role, in the humanism of the future, of a certain type of music and poetry, connected to the critical spirit.6

III. Tagore?s Religion of Man

From the beginning, Tagore?s discussion is framed in terms that lead us to expect large departures from Comte. He insists that what is unique about the human being is a capacity for artistic creativity, the capacity to imagine something other than what is and to move toward a beautiful

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ideal so imagined. That is what Tagore calls ?the surplus in man?: unlike all other animals, humans go beyond physical need, living in a world of symbols and imagination, which provides ?a surplus far in excess of the requirements of the biological animal? (28).

Thus far, Comte might agree, but Tagore?s account of artistic freedom is from the beginning framed in terms of individual self- expression and individual love. For Tagore, the defi ning moment of becoming human is to discover that one loves an individual other human being: ?I have said in a poem of mine that when the child is detached from its mother?s womb it fi nds its mother in a real relationship whose truth is in freedom? (30). The transition from mere biological existence to full human existence is seen in terms of an intense relationship of personal recognition and emotion, suff used with wonder and curiosity; the signifi cance of creativity is inseparable from the freedom of the individual to discard all traditions, all group norms, in favor of a profoundly personal vision. Similarly, in ?Man the Artist,? Tagore reads even the erect posture of the human body as a gesture of ?insubordination?? of freedom to create norms, rather than to be bound by norms from the past. Although the anti-Comtean parts of Tagore?s program emerge fully only later in the book, they are evident enough from the beginning. We are led to expect that ?Order and Progress,? in Tagore?s hands, will contain rather less of Order, and more of passionate love.

In many respects, Tagore does set himself in the Comtean tradition. He attaches great importance to the ability to see the human species as a whole, extending into both past and future; he exhorts his reader to become invested in imagining an

story
humanism of the future. It is not surprising that Tagore strives throughout the work to show respect for the many diff erent cultures and traditions of the world? fi nding spiritual antecedents in Persian religion, in Sufi Islam, in En glish romantic poetry (Wordsworth), and in many other strands of world history.

Even before we arrive at these revealing statements about globalism, however, we know that we are in a diff erent world from that of Comtean certainty and order. The Religion of Man is the work of a romantic poet. Part autobiography, part poetic meditation, it combines arguments with stories and images in a way that is by turns moving, self- deprecating, funny, and serene. Tagore depicts himself as a boy who always detested rules and formulae and who therefore found school excruciating. He had a good start, in a family that was critical of established religious traditions, which gave him ?an atmosphere of freedom? freedom from the dominance of any creed that had its sanction in the defi nite authority of some scripture, or in the teaching of some or ga nized body of worshippers? (70). He also possessed a keen sensitivity to nature, and had intense experiences of joy while alone in the early morning:

Almost every morning in the early hour of the dusk, I would run out from my bed in a great hurry to greet the fi rst pink fl ush of the dawn through the shivering branches of the palm trees which stood in a line along the garden boundary, while the grass glistened as the dew- drops caught the earliest tremor of the morning breeze. The sky seemed to bring to me the call of a personal companionship, and all my heart? my whole body in fact? used to drink in at a draught the overfl owing light and peace of those silent hours. (77)

The whole tone of this passage, with its lyricism and its solitary passion, its wonder at the beauty of nature, is unimaginable in the Comtean world of or ga nized rituals. And Tagore soon makes plain his skepticism about all traditional formulas. As the personal narrative continues (and the very fact that he writes philosophy in this style is itself signifi cant), he tells us that school, with its rote learning and deadening repetition, failed to reach the sources of his mind and heart? until poetry came unbidden into the stultifying world. One day he was poring over a primer,

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?dusty and faded, discoloured into irrelevant marks, smudges and gaps? (73? 74), until suddenly he came upon a sentence in rhyme, the En glish of which reads, ?It rains, the leaves tremble.? Suddenly his mind came alive, and ?I recovered my full meaning? (74); the vision of the rain beating rhythmically against the leaves entranced him, and he was once again a person, rather than a machine.

This experience is given a central place in the book, in a chapter entitled ?The Vision.? So we quickly see that Tagore?s religion is the religion of a poet, a view of culture and society based upon the capacities in each human being that are the sources of poetic creation: passionate experiences of wonder and beauty, love of both nature and other par tic u lar people, and the desire to make something whole and meaningful out of the isolated fragments of one person?s perceptual experience. Its sensibility is both androgynous and antinomian. Nowhere do we fi nd fi xed gender roles, and indeed in all of his artistic endeavors Tagore

famously
cultivated a vibrantly erotic and sensuous persona for both his own idiom as a dancer and poet and for that of the women and men who performed his works. A key element of Comte?s religion, its rigid gender distinctions, is repudiated, and a very diff erent spirit, that of keen perceptual sensitivity and intense erotic longing, animates the text throughout.
Tagore?s vision also repudiates another fundamental part of Comte?s religion, its spirit of control and homogeneity. Clearly Tagore is at best skeptical about tradition and ritual; often he goes further, suggesting that forms handed down by the past are usually dead and inauthentic. Probably he is best read, on balance, as a Millian, who wants the past to be continually challenged and tested, lest it become dead in our hands. His strong emphasis on questioning tradition? a lifelong obsession? is connected to his belief that an excessive reverence for the past is one of the great defects of Indian culture, where ?timid orthodoxy, its irrational repressions and its accumulation of dead centuries, dwarfs man through its idolatry of the past? (98). Just as erect posture, for Tagore, represents ?insubordination,? so all genuine humanity resides in a spirit of wide- awake searching and questioning. Indeed, he convicts Comte?s program of feeding a cult of dead habit. What we need, he says, is a ?profound feeling of longing and love,? but ?[t]his is very unlike what we fi nd in the intellectual cult of humanity, which is like a body that has tragically

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lost itself in the purgatory of shadows? (91). At this point, Tagore, like Mill, turns to Wordsworth: ? ?We live by admiration, hope, and love, / And ever as these are well and wisely fi xed / In dignity of being we ascend? ? (91). Even, and especially, toward his own ideas, Tagore urges the reader to cultivate a critical spirit: ?The man who questions me has every right to distrust my vision and reject my testimony. . . . I never claim any right to preach? (70). How, one wonders, could this spirit of individualism ever become the spirit of a national religion? Doesn?t politi cal love have to have some rituals and prescribed forms?
There is no better evidence of the antinomian and individualistic spirit of Tagore?s book than its choice of a central paradigm and source of the new religion: the Bauls of Bengal. Early in the text, Tagore introduces them as ?a pop u lar sect of Bengal . . . who have no images, temples, scriptures, or ceremonials, who declare in their songs the divinity of Man, and express for him an intense feeling of love? (6). This love is defi nitely erotic, and it leads the sect into antinomian erotic practices. So eager is Tagore to have his reader understand this example that he appends to his book an article about the Bauls by Kshiti Mohun Sen, a renowned scholar of Hinduism who left a comfortable professorial life to join Tagore?s school and university in Santiniketan. Sen brought with him his young daughter Amita, who later became a leading dancer in Tagore?s dance productions in the school, and who contributed writings that illuminate the school?s practice of aesthetic education (see section IV).7
Sen begins his article by noting that the word baul means ?madcap,? thus referring to the Bauls? refusal to conform to established social usage: ?No master I obey, nor injunctions, canons or custom / . . . And I revel onl

off to join the
Bauls, inspired by love of one of their leading singers, she reports that the couple have a monogamous and rather conventional sex life, and that many Bauls have no interest in Tantric practices.11 So Openshaw misleads when she suggests that a variety of unconventional practices defi ne membership in the group.
Capwell is on solid ground, however, when he says, ?For Tagore it was not the doctrinal side of the Bauls that was of interest, but the spontaneous emotional way they could react to and understand the human situation. Such emotion could never be expressed fully in words, so they resorted to song.?12 In one of Tagore?s dance- dramas, Phalguni (Springtime), written for students in his school, the Baul character? danced and acted by Tagore himself? is confronted by a skeptical police constable, who represents the spirit of order and homogeneity: ?I gather that to answer a question you sing a song?? The Baul replies, ?Yes! If we don?t, the answer doesn?t come out right. If we speak in plain words it is terribly unclear, can?t be understood.?13
The tragedy of Ghare Baire came about because Nikhil?s liberal ideals were devoid of passion. He never had, or had lost, the fresh delight in the world and in people that might have made him an inspiring leader and a lovable, and loving, husband. He was boring and predictable. Sandip, meanwhile, never had, or at least never tolerated, the ?madcap? sense of dissent, critique, and solitary daring: in search of power over others, he cultivated emotions based upon tradition, homogeneity, and submissiveness. What is required for the health of society, Tagore now suggests, is a liberalism that is truly and reciprocally passionate, a life of critique that is also a life of love, play, and madness. Tagore and Mozart are kindred spirits.
IV. Implementing the New Religion:
Santiniketan and Women?s Creative Freedom
Still, how could the Baul spirit possibly become the spirit of an entire society? Tagore off ers two partial answers: education and pop u lar music. At Santiniketan he founded both a school and a university, the latter

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being called Visva- Bharati, ?All- the- World.? Mutatis mutandis, the university was similar to Mill?s prescriptions for St. Andrews. It was based upon the liberal arts, interdisciplinary cooperation, and a continual spirit of critique. But it is to the school that Tagore devotes central emphasis in The Religion of Man.14 He begins by expressing his lifelong dissatisfaction with the schools he attended: ?The inexpensive power to be happy, which, along with other children, I brought to this world, was being constantly worn away by friction with the brick- and-mortar arrangement of life, by monotonously mechanical habits and the customary code of respectability? (144). In eff ect, children begin as madcap Bauls, full of love, longing, and joy in the presence of nature. Their love of play and their questioning spirit need to be strengthened, not crushed. But schools usually crush all that is disorderly, and Tagore reports that ?[t]he non- civilized in me was sensitive; it had the great thirst for colour, for music, for movement of life? (144). Some books he encountered seemed to capture this antinomian spirit: he praises Robinson Crusoe as ?the best book for boys that has ever been written? (145). In his school, he set out to educate without crush

ing the spirit of adventure and
love.
The school?s pedagogy was primarily Socratic: teachers elicited answers by posing questions, rather than by lecturing. Students even initiated the planning of the day?s schedule. Classes were usually held outdoors, in close proximity to nature?s beauty, so that the senses would be keenly receptive to beauty throughout the pro cess. Tagore was always a strong supporter of science and a committed rationalist, ste reo types of him as an unworldly mystic notwithstanding. His humanism was not antimodern, and it was profoundly wedded to the spirit of contestation and argument.15 Unlike some other Indian intellectuals, and to some extent unlike Gandhi, Tagore did not repudiate the Enlightenment, but, instead, sought to create a fusion of the best of Indian and Eu ro pe an traditions.16 He understood, however, that scientifi c modernity would prove hollow and unreliable unless nourished and steered by the humanities. Above all, Tagore relied on the arts as key vehicles of development. Students were always moving? dancing, singing. Elaborate dance-dramas written, composed, and choreographed by Tagore himself were centerpieces of the curriculum.17 As Amita Sen has written, Tagore

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somehow knew how to be a good technical dance teacher, imparting discipline and mastery to children of widely varying abilities, while at the same time communicating emotional self- expression and passionate involvement:
His dance was a dance of emotion. The playful clouds in the sky, the shivering of the wind in the leaves, light glistening on the grass, moonlight fl ooding the earth, the blossoming and fading of fl owers, the murmur of dry leaves? the pulsing of joy in a man?s heart, or the pangs of sorrow, are all expressed in this expressive dance?s movements and expressions.18
The type of passionate humanism on off er at Santiniketan formed a certain sort of citizen, strong and unsubmissive, full of challenges to dead traditions. Like everything else in the school, the dance- dramas mingled critical reasoning with emotion, and were by no means antirational. For example, Land of Cards (Tasher Desh, 1933), written shortly after The Religion of Man, focuses on the intense importance of generating challenges to tradition, and suggests that women will be especially likely to lead such challenges.19 The link between Socratic inquiry and the arts made the critical spirit alluring.
Comte?s project relied on women, but in a way that did not empower them. Women were supposed to teach sympathy to children, but they were kept entirely inside the home, and they were given no creative freedom. They had to dispense love and sympathy under the watchful eye of the phi los o phers, who would tolerate no individual creativity. Tagore?s critical reformulation places individual love and creativity at the center of the conception, but in The Religion of Man he says nothing about women? beyond the extremely central observation that the foundation of all love and sympathy is in the child?s highly individual loving relationship with its mother. Tagore?s empowerment of women through dance and the other arts was a famous feature of his school, but it is not one that he ever wrote about in detail. For these aspects of Tagore?s vision, then, we must turn to Amita Sen, who both lived that empowerment, as a student and as a lead dancer in many of Tagore?

ger world of
citizenship in a nation of the future.
Second, the text constantly emphasizes the highly personal and individualized (to that extent un- Comtean) nature of the education Tagore imparted. Even though in many respects students came to feel solidarity with one another, the sense of personal uniqueness was always central, as Tagore wrote poems for individual students and somehow seemed to know them all, as we see from many stories in the text, not least from the lovely one in which Tagore draws a picture of Pratichi house in little Amartya?s autograph book and writes that it is ?the Green Fairy?s Home? (68? 69).20 For women, this sense of individuality was particularly liberating, Sen shows, since women, in traditional society, are frequently deindividualized, seen as somebody?s wife or mother, rather than as themselves. ?There was no par tic u lar posture or fashion of expression,? she writes of Tagore?s dance teaching. ?As we sang we expressed the meaning of the words through our movements? (38). This sense of individuality did not undermine, but actually strengthened, general sympathy, as we see from a moving story of how the girls made a red- bordered sari for a student who was unable to acquire one.
Third, and a large departure from Comte, we see how funny Tagore was, and how lighthearted. Tagore does not convey humor well in his theoretical writings, although he often does in his fi ction. Amita Sen thus makes a very important addition to The Religion of Man when she shows that Tagore conveyed the laughter of the Bauls, not just their mystical devotion. This is perhaps an aspect that Tagore?s Western enthusi-

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asts particularly need to study, since the Tagore that became familiar to the West is a very solemn guru, without the lightness of touch that was such a large part of the whole man.
Fourth is what I would call a spirit of subversive erotic creativity, which is such a key aspect of the Baul tradition. Of course this tradition has been in some ways domesticated as Tagore presented it to young girls, but there is something not entirely domesticated about it after all. Consider Sen?s account of the choreography and poetics of Shapmochan, which she, as the Queen, danced with Dr. Harry Timbers as the King. Because Timbers did not know Bengali, she tells us, Tagore was especially active in these rehearsals, depicting the ?deep pique and love? of the King, and then, right after that, ?the dream clad, passion rapt queen? (80). She emphasizes that the ?conservative environment? of 1931 made this whole enterprise risky, since ?it was a very daring thing for girls from good families to appear on the stage.? They even had to change a word in one song. The King was to sing, ?Flower- like beauty, come to my breast.? But they changed it to: ?Come to my home, you who are inside my soul, come out.? Amita always used to love telling this story orally too, and when she told it to me she always added something that is not in the book: ?We knew exactly what it really meant.?
Finally, fi fth, the whole text conveys a spirit of fearlessness and freedom? an absence of the constraining shame that typically weighed down women?s lives. ?The lamp of hope cannot be put out,? she concludes. ?He has taught us the lesson of fearlessness? (90? 91).
Santiniketan was only one school in one region. It became world- famous, inspiring imitators

of India.
The idea of India awakening to life and freedom is prominent in Nehru?s ?tryst with destiny? speech, and it is Tagorean, whether he derived it from this source or not.
The song is addressed to an unnamed source, which may be conscience or dharma (the moral law), or some other set of moral ideals. Unlike ?Bande Mataram,? which urges submission to a deity associated with traditional religion, ?Jana Gana Mana? asks for the victory of this ideal principle? as a result of the passionate love of all the people. In one sense it is obviously a song of re sis tance and the freedom movement. More generally, though, it is a call for a nation that is moved to its depths both by the beauty of nature and by moral ideals, and that sees the two as somehow fused together. Unlike Bankim?s all- Hindu nation, moreover, this one is plural through and through, including all of India?s regions and religious groups.26
Musically, ?Jana Gana Mana? is very easy to sing, ranging over just an octave, so people really do sing it with plea sure. It has a swaying rhythm, rather like a dreamy dance, and suggests nothing of the martial. People naturally put arms around one another, or hold hands, or simply sway to the music. It goes naturally with the contemplation of nature, as one can see from the beautiful version by fi lm composer A. R. Rahman (a convert to Sufi Islam, who formerly had the Hindu name Dilip Kumar), released as the offi cial government version on the occasion of India?s fi ftieth anniversary, and easily found on YouTube. It wonderfully embodies the spirit of the song, showing people (individuals or small groups) from many diff erent backgrounds and walks of life singing in diff erent stirring and beautiful sites in the Indian landscape.27

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There is something very odd about the way the anthem ends. As ?jaya he,? ?victory to thee,? rises to the subdominant, we expect a resolution into the tonic, but we are denied that resolution. When I hear or sing it, I always hear it as unfi nished, beckoning to a resolution that is deferred, not yet available. Nor is my experience the mere creation of a Western musical education. My colleague Dipesh Chakrabarty reports to me that when he sang the song in primary school, he and all his classmates kept going on, by returning to the refrain, ?bharata bhagya vidhata,? and thus reaching what seemed like a more appropriate resolution on the tonic? until the teacher corrected them. I feel that it is not at all implausible to hear this unfi nished cadence as the expression of the same idea that Nehru conveyed in his ?tryst with destiny? speech, namely, that national pride is most appropriately expressed by emphasizing the unfi nished work that lies before the nation: ?And so we have to labour and to work, and to work hard, to give reality to our dreams.? ?Jana Gana Mana,? in a bold violation of musical expectations, gestures toward a future of work. Chakrabarty says that this idea makes sense to him, and it makes the invocation of victory more appropriate, in the context of continued suff ering, than it otherwise would be.
So Tagore has made not just pluralism, harmony, and mutual respect but also unfi nished work pop u lar and even sexy, just as ?Ekla Cholo Re? made dissent and critical thinking objects of passionate devotion. The Comtean project, we might say, has been remade in the spirit of Cherubino.
VI. Assessing

te, and Tagore
far more incomplete than Mill. We have a general sense of what they are looking for, but their failure to articulate a vision of a decent society makes their diagnoses seem piecemeal and ad hoc. We need an account of po liti cal institutions and what they do for people, and of the limits of po liti cal justice. Mill certainly has views about this in other works, and even his critique of Comte makes clear his sense of the larger redistributive responsibilities of government. Still, the emotional part of his project remains insecurely connected to any defi nite account of government?s job. Tagore simply lacks interest in institutions, beyond his evident interest in India?s in de pen dence from Britain.
Because the two say little about the po liti cal sphere and its extent, we are left somewhat unclear about where and how the transformation they envisage will take place. Both talk about education, and favor educational reform as one site of the new ?religion,? but Tagore is thinking entirely of voluntary private reforms. Mill held that both public and private alternatives should coexist and compete, constrained by a system of public examinations. As for Tagore?s songs, he proposed them fi rst as parts of pop u lar culture, not as offi cial public anthems, although two of them ended up that way. Not surprisingly? because the nation was not yet in existence? there is no discussion in his writings about how government and civil society ought to interrelate in promoting a culture of concern.
In short, neither Tagore nor Mill has a clear story to tell about how the new ?religion? will be disseminated, or why we should think that it will prevail. In part this is because their skepticism about Comtean control and homogeneity leads them to mistrust all public support of defi nite goals. For similar reasons, both Mill and Tagore have diffi culty articulating the proper balance between solidarity and individual experimentation. Both reject Comtean control; both value free spaces for ?madcap? dissent and imagination. But both also think that in certain ways people should learn to be in emotional solidarity. Mill?s religion of humanity asks all to identify themselves with the future of all humanity, and all are expected to join in this common emotional endeavor. But how to strike the delicate balance between this shared task and the freedom to experiment and dissent? Mill gives us little information. Tagore off ers us more.

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In his school he exemplifi ed this delicate balance every day, imparting discipline and some defi nite ideals while creating spaces for individuality to fl ourish. His dance idiom combined choreography with experimentation. And his creation of a genre of pop u lar music involves a similar balancing act. For Tagore, the whole point of a song is that people sing it sometimes alone and sometimes in a group, and the group is certainly one powerful vehicle for the shaping of po liti cal emotions. Gandhi?s use of ?Ekla Cholo Re? as vehicle of a mass movement was basically in Tagore?s spirit, although Tagore certainly prized individual dissent somewhat more than Gandhi. Nonetheless, existing recordings of Tagore and his direct pupils singing his songs show that the songs were vehicles of personal expressive per for mance; so too they are today, in the voices of interpreters from many backgrounds. Still, the

se paradigms leave us with
a large challenge: How might we keep the good in structure and solidarity without the ludicrous and the stifl ing, and cultivate dissent without losing shared concern? Any account of the role of the arts in public emotion culture will need to meet this challenge head- on.
To approach this point from a diff erent direction: Mill accuses Comte of lacking a sense of humor, and this insight is profound, as Mozart has already prepared us to see. Comte?s idealism is grandiose, and it lacks understanding of the awkward surprising unevenness of real human life. Mill and Tagore have that understanding, but they have a diffi cult time integrating it with their idealism. Sometimes they too sound like someone who has never laughed? when they talk about the ideal human species of the future, when they urge an attitude that is akin to worship and directed at our own species. Realism about human weakness is diffi cult to combine with this reverential stance. In his school, as Amita Sen makes clear, Tagore did know how to laugh, and he empowered his students without closing off spaces for idiosyncratic personal expression. Tagore?s fi ctions, too, are rich in humor and the sense of human complexity. The problem of the proper balance between humor and high ideals remains, however, and must be pondered by any society drawing on the arts.
Another unresolved problem is the status of religion in society. Mill improves the Comtean project in many ways, but in one key way he inherits it uncritically: he assumes that at some point traditional religion will wither away, to be replaced by humanism. Although he envisages

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nothing like Comte?s authoritarian pouvoir spirituel, he does think that the question about religion?s social utility can be resolved decisively against traditional religions and in favor of humanism, and his hopes for humanity are tied to widespread ac cep tance of this conclusion. Tagore is less clear on this point, but he envisages his humanist religion as at least one powerful social force.
But traditional religions have not disappeared, and by now we have reason to think that under conditions of freedom there will remain a plurality of religious and secular doctrines of life, many of which will continue to attract allegiance. The project of constructing po liti cal emotions must either ride roughshod over this reality or learn to accommodate it. Mill?s proposal lacks respect for people?s consciences, and is to that extent unacceptable in a society based on equal respect. Tagore does better, but he fails to articulate the problem of pluralism clearly, or to off er a defi nite approach to it, both of which any contemporary po litical proposal must do.
Finally, since Mill and Tagore break with Comte over the question of freedom, we need to ask what freedom means to them, how it is realized in the personality, and how freedom is connected to, and realized in, politi cal love. Mozart and Da Ponte saw that it was not enough to have good founding documents, or even good institutions. Freedom has to penetrate down to the personality?s very core, releasing the constraints of inner anger and fear that lead to hierarchies of domination, creating and then refi ning a form of love that is both erotic and tender, more like ?Voi che sapete? than like the ?concerto? of guns and cannons from which Cherubino shrinks. Mill certainly un

Lord
Devlin, for example, urged lawmakers to defer to the disgust and indignation of average members of society, even when minorities stood to lose a sphere of cherished liberty. Referring to the struggle against the Axis powers, which had occurred not long before, Devlin argued that such emotions hold society together and make it capable of defeating its enemies.2
Even the minimal libertarian state has its own characteristic culture of emotions. Libertarians sometimes suggest that it is an advantage of their ideal that they do not need to rely upon extensive sympathy. They can use human nature just as it is, relying on acquisitiveness, Hobbesian fear, and limited sympathy to propel the machinery of competition. By contrast, liberals, they allege, want to engage in intrusive and uncertain projects of improvement. There is less to this contrast, however, than meets the eye. Even libertarians are opposed to force and fraud. Even they, therefore, need to shape emotions such as anger and fear so as to produce stability and law- abiding behavior? not the behavior that, by their own (Hobbesian) account, we should expect in the ?state of nature.? And libertarians may have an even larger problem of stability on their hands. To the extent that they do not try to rein in narcissistic emotions such as envy, shame, and disgust, they may render even their own minimal state unstable. Competitive acquisitiveness and the desire to rise above others can upset even that type of state, causing it to degenerate into lawless tribalism. So they will have to ask, at least, whether they don?t need a broader program of emotional persuasion, one that addresses these destabilizing forces.
Furthermore, proponents of the libertarian state typically assume, and do not argue, that their claims about ?human nature? are true apart from culture. It is by making such an assumption that they claim to be able to get by with a simpler and less intrusive strategy than that required by liberals. And yet history indicates that people?s capacity for extended sympathy varies greatly in accordance with the culture in which they live, as do their desires to outdo others in rank and status, or to dominate other racial or ethnic groups. We should surely not assume that the form emotions take in the corporate culture of the United States reveals a universal and timeless truth about how things must be.

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The libertarian challenge, however, contains a valuable lesson for our project: we must pay attention to the facts of human psychology, insofar as these are at all understood, and we must not ask of people what they cannot deliver, or can deliver only with great strain. The Marriage of Figaro is an important guide because it reminds us to embrace real people as they are, rather than engaging in unrealistic projects that are all too likely to lead, down the road, to a hatred of the actual.
And yet we should not want a po liti cal culture that simply pats people on the back, rather than trying to make things in the world better and more just than they currently are. The world as it is is beautiful, but it is also a mess, and much of the suff ering it contains can be ameliorated by a wiser use of our time in the world. A creative reach toward something better is a key feature of most societies that strive for decency and justice, and that striving needs a vision of its goal. Striking the

right balance between aspiration and ac cep tance is one of the most diffi cult and delicate tasks of the po liti cal life, as of the personal. But the right balance cannot be one that erases the longing for justice. Any realistic portrait of human beings, as Tagore emphasizes continually, includes the ?surplus,? the creative vision of a distant goal that, in his view, distinguishes humans from other creatures. ?It is an insult to his humanity,? he writes, ?if man fails to invoke in his mind a defi nite image of his own ideal self, of his ideal environment, which it is his mission to reproduce externally.?3 If a nation?s po liti cal culture is domesticated and comfortable, he suggests, then its people have given up being fully human.

Every nation has its pockets of conformity and complacency, but all, too, have a quest, a ?feast of freedom? toward which the imagination yearns. So: where is our own imaginary traveler heading, and what songs is he singing on the way? We are considering not the achieved well-ordered society of Rawls?s work, but, instead, nations aspiring to justice, with some defi nite goals and aspirations in view. Some of these goals will be current commitments that have already been given the form of constitutional entitlements or other legal mandates. Some (such as, for example, the elimination of racism) may be more diff use aspirations in the spirit of constitutional principles.

Any rich account of a nation?s goals and core commitments must ultimately be historical and contextual, and Part III will develop that theme.

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Nonetheless, we may still say something general about the salient features of a family of po liti cal ideals that will be our focus from now on. In his late work, John Rawls emphasized that his own conception of justice was one of a family of liberal po liti cal conceptions whose principles of distribution, though similar in their general direction, might diff er in some ways. My aim in this chapter is to set out the general features of such a family of po liti cal conceptions, members of which will be Rawls?s own conception, my liberal ?capabilities? approach, and numerous others.4

I have argued for a par tic u lar version of these norms in other writings; I do not do that here. This chapter supplies a stipulated and hypothetical normative backdrop for what follows. People who have diff erent normative commitments may judge that my analysis of what went right and what went wrong, in the examples studied in Part III, is correspondingly in error. Such people, however, can still agree with the analysis of emotions presented here and with my account of how public strategies form emotions and cause certain goals to be realized or not realized. Thus, a partisan of the British Empire will judge that it did just the right thing in Delhi in 1857, whereas I disagree and say that it did just the wrong thing, but we can agree on the analysis of fear presented, and on the account of how fear was engendered and maintained by urban architecture. Similarly, people who disagree with various aspects of the New Deal will not share my enthusiasm for what Roo se velt accomplished, but they can still be persuaded by my analysis of how his po liti cal rhetoric addressed emotions of fear and envy and helped to create progress toward his goals.

II. Core Values of a Just Society

The fi rst thing we can s

t to every other
human being.
We could capture this idea using a familiar and resonant notion, one that plays a role in many international documents and national constitutions: the idea of equal human dignity. This is the right sort of idea, because it suggests equal intrinsic worth and being objects of equal respect? but we should beware of using dignity as if it were an intuitively self- evident notion. By now we can see from debates in bioethics that the concept of dignity is not self- evident, and that it is frequently used to bring debate to a close, rather than as an introduction to further inquiry. The notion of human dignity should be understood as a member of a family of conceptions and principles that hang together and are justifi ed as a whole. Dignity is closely linked to the idea of respect, but it will get its full clarity only from the whole system of which it is a part.9
The conception of the human being that lies at the heart of the po litical conception involves both striving and vulnerability. Human beings are not just passive recipients of fortune?s blows. Instead, they are active beings who pursue aims and who seek lives rich in activity. At the same time, however, they are to a signifi cant degree passive, in the sense that fortune?s blows mean something to them, impinge seriously on the quality of their lives. In other words, our nations reject from the start the Stoic idea that the only important good things in human life are always perfectly secure, incapable of being augmented or diminished by the interventions of fortune or other people. In order to live well, people need food, care, protection and sustenance of many kinds. They also have deep needs for protected spheres of activity, such as religious freedom and the freedom of speech. It is not trivial, then, but profoundly damaging, to refuse people such support. Thus deprived, people retain human dignity, since that is inalienable, but in the absence of suitable support and care they will not be able to live lives worthy of human dignity. Agency and support are connected: it is on account of their capacity for activity and striving that human beings are entitled to support for their vulnerability.10

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A delicate issue arises here. On the one hand, human beings depend on one another for many things they cannot attain on their own, and these relationships of care and support themselves have dignity. Moreover, citizens live in relationships of asymmetrical de pen den cy for large portions of their lives: childhood, old age if they live long enough, and periods of impaired ability due to accident or illness. Some citizens have profound impairments throughout their lives. Our societies regard it as very important to respect the equal dignity of people who have physical and cognitive impairments, and to respect the relationships of care in which all citizens live for at least a signifi cant part of their lives. So removing the shame and stigma often attached to de pen den cy will be a major goal of such societies. On the other hand, this is not to say that in de pen dence and agency cease to matter. For people with disabilities as for others, in de pen dence and choice of activities are important goals. Striking the right balance in this matter is a delicate pro cess, and one that requires ongoing debate and listening.
I have spoken repeatedly of human being

s. Some members of our
family of po liti cal conceptions do focus exclusively on the human. By contrast, my own conception sees all animals as entitled to support for their agency and striving. Other liberal conceptions incorporate concern for the world of nature in other ways, some even broader than mine (attributing entitlements to all living beings, for example, or even to ecosystems). Although these diff erences are surely of the utmost importance, and although they rightly shape the repertory of emotions that a nation will encourage and discourage, they will not be my focus in this par tic u lar project, although many of my examples will show how a concern for nature may be cultivated.
The societies that I shall consider throughout this project are nations, with a variety of aspirations and goals. To that extent the moral salience of national sovereignty (for which I argue elsewhere)11 is built into the conception from the beginning. Such a commitment has considerable importance for po liti cal emotions, since many familiar po liti cal emotions take the nation- state as their focus and involve commitments to its defense and fl ourishing. At the same time, nations have aspirations, and these aspirations include commitments to the transnational realm. Our nations are aware that they are members of an interconnected world,

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many of whose problems cannot be solved without cooperation. Among their most urgent goals will be world peace, and they will seek fair terms of cooperation among nations in pursuing that aim. Their commitment to other nations will not, however, be exhausted by matters of war and peace. Citizens will understand that the living standard and life opportunities of people in other nations are also a matter of concern? not just for reasons of peace and stability but because people matter. Richer nations have at least some duties to support the development and fl ourishing of people in poorer nations. Thus sacrifi ce and sympathy do not stop at national borders. As Mazzini urged, the nation is a fulcrum for the creation of universal human concern.
For all of the members of our family of nations, the idea of equal po litical and civil liberties plays a key role. All citizens enjoy the right to vote, the right to seek po liti cal offi ce, freedoms of speech and association, religious freedom, freedom of movement and travel, and the benefi ts of a free press, on a basis of equality with others. This commitment to equality means that the conditions of liberty must be the same for all: thus a law that appears neutral but which burdens a par tic u lar religious group unequally will be suspect. Majoritarianism is limited by a commitment to the fully equal rights of minorities. Although these rights are frequently called ?negative? and are sometimes thought to involve merely state inaction, looking at what it takes to realize them in any modern democracy disabuses us of this error.
This same commitment to equality extends to a more general concern for due pro cess liberty rights and for the equal protection of the laws. Those commitments, familiar in virtually all modern demo cratic nations, often have par tic u lar salience for minorities or traditionally subordinated groups, classifi ed by race, gender, ethnicity, religion, or sexuality. All societies have to grapple with the history or current reality of gr

bove the threshold, once the society has taken shape. Other societies will adopt other ways of permitting some in e qual ity while greatly reducing it and maintaining a decent level of welfare for those at the bottom. In all these cases, society must engage in a delicate balancing act where emotions are concerned, permitting and even, to some extent, encouraging the competitive emotions, but preventing them from destabilizing the society?s commitments to the welfare of all its members.

Among the social and economic commitments of our societies, education and health are key, since citizens can hardly pursue other projects unless their capacities are developed by education and supported by an adequate network of health care. Societies pursue these commitments in many diff erent ways.

Education is a goal, but it is also an opportunity. When society makes a commitment to education, it makes a commitment as well to its own future stability, not just in economic matters, but also in pursuit of its po liti cal goals. Education will then be one of the main arenas in which the shaping of po liti cally appropriate sympathy will take place, and in which inappropriate forms of hatred, disgust, and shame will be discouraged.

III. A Critical Culture

Our nations are committed to developing po liti cal emotions that support their cherished goals. But they also encourage vigorous criticism and debate. A vigilant critical culture is, indeed, a key to the stability of liberal values. Vigorous cultivation of emotion can coexist, albeit sometimes uneasily, with the protection of an open critical space.

Consider just one example, race relations in the United States. The nation by now has addressed the problem of racism not only through laws and institutions, but also through public celebration, rhetoric, symbolism, the arts, and a wide range of persuasive emotional strategies. And yet, criticism also thrives, at several distinct levels. First, even those

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who openly espouse racist principles and would like to change the legal and constitutional commitments of our society (reintroducing racial segregation, or even slavery) are free to speak their mind and make their case. Unlike many nations, ours protects racist speech (such as that of the neo- Nazi marchers in Skokie, Illinois, or rallies of the Ku Klux Klan), unless it is threatening speech targeted at an individual. Some nations in our family of nations may judge that this very expansive free speech principle is more than they can aff ord, given their history: thus Germany has made anti- Semitic speech and po liti cal or ga niz ing illegal, and it may be correct to do so, with that history. But in general there should be a wide latitude for the expression of criticism of the underlying values and goals of the nation, and this is clearly compatible with a strong public commitment to those values.

When people make such criticisms, they are at a po liti cal disadvantage, in the sense that they will have to change the U.S. Constitution if they want to achieve their goals; they cannot straightforwardly introduce legislation making African Americans an underclass, or reintroducing segregation. They are also at an emotional disadvantage, in that children are brought up in school to think that racial equality is a very noble po liti cal value and that good Americans are nonracist; they have been moved by t

he words of Martin Luther King Jr., and by speeches
from all sides extolling racial progress and racial respect. If some people
want to urge their fellow citizens to feel the disgust at the touch of a black
person?s skin that millions of Americans in the Jim Crow South once felt,
they will have a hard time succeeding. But nobody will charge them
with a crime for trying.
Another much larger zone for debate concerns the precise meaning
and scope of constitutional protections. Most Americans now agree that
racial equality is a cherished goal, but they deeply disagree about whether
affi rmative action programs are a good or even permissible way of reach-
ing toward that goal. Constitutional values are typically adopted at a
high level of generality, and that very generality protects spaces for de-
bate. Thus, even though it is possible to show that Martin Luther King
Jr. supported affi rmative action, and many will, correctly, hear the emo-
tive force of his remarks as strengthening their own support, there are
plenty of people who hear King very diff erently and who are energized

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toward the goal of removing affi rmative action by what they take his ex-
ample to be. One group is correct historically and the other is not, but
that becomes a relatively minor point in the context of ongoing civic ar-
gument. It is possible to be a devoted and emotionally energized Ameri-
can, attached to the general goal of racial equality, and yet to oppose af-
fi rmative action and to celebrate that opposition on Martin Luther King
Jr.?s birthday. The public emotion culture surrounding King did not
close off that space for contestation, and it really did not even put such
people at a po liti cal disadvantage.
Finally, even when people agree both about general goals and about
their precise interpretation, they may diff er greatly about strategies, and
public celebrations of emotion do nothing to close off that space. Thus,
two people who intensely support same- sex marriage and who celebrate
Harvey Milk?s birthday (now an offi cial California holiday) with deep
emotion may disagree intensely about the wisdom of using the courts to
advance their cause, not on grounds of principle but on grounds of strat-
egy. One person may hold that countermajoritarian judgments by courts
on controversial moral issues lead to backlash, and we would do better
to leave the issue to elected legislators. The other may point to the po liti-
cal pressures that lobby groups bring to bear on elected offi cials and
urge that courts, immunized from these pressures to some degree, can
do a better job in such high- controversy matters. Agreement in emotions
did not close the space of debate.
Indeed, so valuable are critical thinking and dissent to the health and
stability of our nations that these nations will try to nourish the critical
spirit itself through emotional attachment, as did Tagore and Gandhi.
When children hear stories of heroes of the past, they will be urged to
love and emulate people who are daring and iconoclastic, who saw a great
evil and risked their own safety for the sake of justice. In school they may
put on a play about the Birmingham bus boycott, or they assume the role
of Rosa Parks as she refused to sit in the back of the bus or the role of
Mildred Jeter Loving as she and her husband refused to accept Virgin-
ia?s criminalization of their interracial marriag

at establishment of any par tic-
u lar religious or secular comprehensive doctrine as the doctrine of the nation is a way of not respecting people equally. Even if such a doctrine is not coercively imposed, it is a statement that creates an in-group and various out- groups, saying that some citizens are true believers, in line with the offi cial state doctrine, and others are not. Mill and Comte favored such hierarchical statements, since they thought that existing religions were major obstacles to human progress. Our nations, by contrast, believe that restraint is justifi ed by the principle of equal respect.

The view that our nations hold is a version of the doctrine that has come to be known as ?po liti cal liberalism,? on account of the infl uential work of Charles Larmore and John Rawls.13 Larmore and Rawls argue that equal respect for citizens requires that a nation not build its po liti cal principles on any par tic u lar comprehensive doctrine of the meaning and basis of life, whether religious or secular. Po liti cal principles ought to be such as to be, potentially, objects of an ?overlapping consensus? among all reasonable citizens? those, that is, who are respectful of their fellow citizens as equals and ready to abide by fair terms of cooperation. The idea is that the principles should ultimately be able to fi t into the comprehensive doctrines of all these citizens, like a part or a ?module? that they will endorse while at the same time endorsing the rest of their comprehensive doctrine, religious or secular, what ever it is. The consensus may not exist at present, but it ought to be a plausible possibility for the future, and we should be able to envisage a plausible trajectory from where we currently are to such a consensus.

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Such a consensus will be possible, however, only if the po liti cal principles have two features. First, they must be narrow in scope, covering central po liti cal entitlements and matters of po liti cal structure, but not proposing to cover all topics addressed by the comprehensive doctrines. Thus they will steer clear of controversial metaphysical, religious, and even in some cases ethical matters on which the religions are divided, addressing only those ethical topics that involve fundamental matters of po liti cal entitlement or citizen standing on which we hope citizens will ultimately be able to agree. Second, they must be shallow as to their basis: they must not be justifi ed by any set of controversial metaphysical, epistemological, or religious claims. The justifi cation off ered for them will be ?freestanding,? meaning that it will not latch onto some comprehensive scheme, whether of knowledge or of value: it will build on just those ethical notions that are central to the po liti cal doctrines themselves, such as the idea of equal respect for persons and the correlative idea of human dignity. Po liti cal principles have a defi nite moral content, prominently including the idea of equal respect; the aim is not to construct a purely procedural politics or one with no moral goals and aspirations. The hope is, however, that over time these moral ideals can become accepted by citizens who hold a wide range of diff erent religious and secular views, since citizens will see them as fully respectful of their freedom and equality.

Po liti cal liberalism does not require that all citizens

who accept the
basic ideas of equal respect and fairness should fi nd it equally easy to accept the po liti cal principles. Sometimes there may be strains, even grave strains, as of course there may also be internal strains among the diff erent parts of one?s comprehensive doctrine. The requirement is only that the po liti cal principles show equal respect for all citizens, understood as holders of a variety of religious and secular doctrines, and that it not establish any one doctrine.

Nonestablishment is not just a matter of laws.14 It also has implications for what public ceremonies can be like, what public schools can teach or require, and what public funding may support. (Landmark cases in U.S. constitutional law concern just this sort of thing.)15

Po liti cal principles, then, cannot include or be built upon the religion of humanity. That idea, at least in its Comtean and even Millean forms,

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is objectionable both in its content and in its basis. The content of Comte?s religion involves all sorts of controversial metaphysical and religious notions, such as the idea of linear human progress and the idea of humanity as an object of worship. Its rituals interpret common human events, such as birth and death, in a highly specifi c, antireligious way. As for its basis, it relies on the rejection of theism that Positivism has allegedly proven; it rests, as well, upon other positivist doctrines about the nature of the universe and humanity?s role in it. Mill?s idea that extensive sympathy would be taught in the family and in schools and, as he explicitly states, reinforced by aesthetic education in the university curriculum is not, in and of itself, vulnerable to this criticism. But if human sympathy were put forward as Mill himself recommends? as a substitute for theistic religion in a new post- religious age? it would be inappropriate. The sort of humanism that does appear to survive scrutiny is Tagore?s, understood as demanding allegiance to a common core of notions revolving around the idea of human equality and freedom, ethical ideals that can be built into a nation?s po liti cal principles while allowing plenty of room for the pursuit of a variety of religious and secular views of life, and while subordinating none to others.

Tagorean humanism does require the major religions to undergo some serious scrutiny, and its rejection of caste may be thought intrusive by some. But race in the United States and caste in India are very similar. The U.S. Constitution? as by now interpreted? endorses racial equality in a very strong form. Laws mandating segregated schools and laws banning interracial marriage have been declared unconstitutional on equality grounds. Similarly, in India, the constitution forbids the practice of untouchability. In both cases, then, basic po liti cal principles include a moral ideal of equality that certainly was not accepted at the time by all the major religions. Over time, however, the po liti cal principles have exercised a normative pull, and no major religious group in the United States today defends racial hierarchy or even racial segregation (which was always a form of hierarchy but was not always portrayed that way) as a key element in its religious ideal. Similarly in India, although caste discrimination continues to be widely practiced, the constitutional norm has exerted its pull, and ev

in-
formal persuasion. Core po liti cal values, such as racial equality, can and should be coercively enforced. Furthermore, this fact by itself has a persuasive eff ect over time, since illegality is stigmatized as well as penalized, and people have strong incentives to bring up their children to conform willingly to legal norms. But public offi cials can use persuasion too? both encouraging support for legal norms and encouraging more general habits of mind that render those norms stable. When the U.S. Congress made Martin Luther King Jr.?s birthday a major holiday (fi nally defeating the intense opposition to that plan), and when leaders all over the country take part in its celebration, they are using persuasion to back up existing constitutional norms, but they are also encouraging more general emotional attitudes that lie behind these norms and helping the norms to achieve greater fi rmness.

In the pro cess, government offi cials must avoid suggesting that the po liti cal norms grow out of one religious or secular view of life rather than another. In principle, the abolition of racial segregation and caste discrimination should be defended by arguments that are in de pen dent of any par tic u lar religious outlook. The dangers of sectarianism and inadvertent establishment are particularly great when we are thinking about emotions, because emotions respond to memory, and memory is often linked to religious rituals and the habits of mind these form. Sometimes, however, in a situation of great injustice, there may be no way to mobilize the requisite energy for change without using the resonance of religious imagery. When Gandhi drew on Hindu traditions of asceticism for images of brotherhood and human dignity, he risked suggesting that India is primarily for Hindus. He needed to do this, he believed, in order to win Hindus over to a radically new view of what Hin-

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duism requires, but he understood that, having made this choice, it was incumbent upon him to take every opportunity to include Muslims and Christians in his ritual per for mances (such as his fast unto death in Bengal, when he accepted his fi rst nourishment from the hands of Maulana Azad, a Muslim). Similarly, Martin Luther King Jr. drew on prophetic imagery from the Judeo- Christian tradition to powerful eff ect, and it is diffi cult to imagine him achieving the same emotional eff ect without that language. He risked sectarianism? but he seemed aware of the danger, taking pains to show that the ideals toward which he spurred people were ideals for all Americans.

Thus public emotions ought to be both narrow and shallow, compared to the comprehensive doctrines that citizens hold. Occasionally, for urgent purposes, they may use the depth and resonance of one those doctrines, but they had better counterbalance this gesture immediately by a commitment to pluralism and equal respect. Narrowness of subject matter means that many areas of human life in which grief, fear, disgust, and other emotions operate will not be topics for po liti cal cultivation at all. So we might wonder whether the po liti cal culture can, in the end, say and do anything interesting or deep about these emotions. It needs to do so, however, and it had better solve the problem of sectarianism as best it can, for the roots of many pernicious po liti cal tendencies are laid down in childhood and i

n the family, in the images of the body, of self
and other, that people form. Racial disgust and fears of physical contamination cannot be addressed by laws alone, and not just by injunctions to avoid disgust in the po liti cal realm. Whitman and Tagore see that problems of caste and gender in their societies require us to think and talk publicly about the body, about its eroticism, its limits, its mortality. In the end, the roots of the po liti cal ramify widely, and the cultivator of emotions should try to follow them wherever they cause trouble or promise support, while avoiding sectarianism as much as possible. Sometimes the views that we shall put forward (following Cherubino and the Bauls) will be in some tension with those currently held by the major religions. It will seem that in such cases the danger of sectarianism has not been avoided. But the public culture is a dialogue, and it is dynamic? so over time, as with racial and caste stigma, we hope that these more general tensions may be resolved. Challenging segregation

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and untouchability once seemed highly sectarian, but today it seems clear that the major religions can survive and prosper without those commitments. To some extent, our issues about disgust and the body have also been transcended: shame about the body is at least on the wane in most modern societies. Ideas of equal human worth or dignity are also in tension with ideas about human beings that some religions hold (e.g., Calvinism), but those ideas do not seem objectionably sectarian or establishmentarian; indeed, it seems possible for even Calvinism to fl ourish in a nation that affi rms human dignity and equal human rights. Most Protestant churches in the United States no longer focus intently on human lowness or worthlessness, but they could do so while affi rming human dignity in the public realm, and just learn to live with that tension. With disgust, the same possibility remains: one can hold that disgust is a bad basis for laws that subordinate one group to another, while still allowing disgust to guide many aspects of one?s private behavior. Similarly with eroticism and the animal aspects of the body: for politi cal purposes we adopt the view that our embodiment is part of our human dignity. Traditional ideas of transcendence of the merely human can be given a po liti cal interpretation (in the spirit of Tagore) that focuses on the aspiration to transcend injustice and achieve justice; they need not retain, at least in the po liti cal context, their association with the rejection of the body and disgust toward the body.
As for shallowness, the po liti cal culture of emotion should not support itself by drawing on theological or metaphysical traditions. But there is no reason why it cannot draw on empirical psychology, on studies of the relationship between humans and animals in primatology, and on studies of prejudice in history and sociology. Donald Winnicott, whose ideas about imagination and play will be important to the project, was not a metaphysical sort of psychoanalyst; he was a clinician, and very empirically oriented. His ideas converge with those of other empirical researchers.

V. Institutions and People

Public emotions are a source of stability for good po liti cal principles, and of motivation to make them eff ective. So it will naturally focus on

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e human- animal divide do not stake out sectar-
ian or reductive positions about the soul.4 A po liti cal culture committed
to a shared morality of human dignity can still ground its policies in the
fi ndings of science in this area if it refrains from premature inferences
about what might or might not be shown about issues that divide people
along lines of their religion or nonreligion.
Scientists studying primates and elephants, and experimentalists do-
ing complementary work with human babies, can give us three types of
understanding that we badly need. First, we need a sense of the common
ground that links us to the other animals? which might be seen as our
evolutionary heritage, those ?tokens of myself? that Whitman welcomes,
although we should certainly extend our study to include species (ele-
phants, for example) to which we have no direct evolutionary link, be-
cause an understanding of nature?s variety is itself illuminating. Studying
other animals is not merely studying our own history: it is illuminating in
the way that the study of other cultures is illuminating, showing us to
ourselves in a clearer light through the investigation of the ways in which
another group of intelligent beings has or ga nized the world. Some of the
?tokens? that animals bring us give us opportunities, while some consti-
tute limitations. And the study of animal social behavior is itself valuable,
since it constitutes an ac know ledg ment of our own animality, which it is
hypocrisy to deny.
Second, by contrasting animal behavior with what psychology tells us
about human behavior, we can begin to fi gure out how far, and in what
respects, humans are indeed special, what extra resources we may have
for moral behavior that apes do not have. When the ?common ground?

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shows us a limitation, as for example narrow or partial sympathy, we can
then ask what special resources we may have to overcome that obstacle.
Third, however, a study of nonhuman animals also reminds us of
some deformations and diseases that are endemic to the human condi-
tion. Whitman mentions excessive guilt, maniacal greed, and fanat i-
cism. But we could add others. The disgust- ridden way of life depicted
by Swift is not very promising as a basis for po liti cal community? all the
less so when we notice in Gulliver?s narrative motifs that recur with mo-
notonous regularity in the history of prejudice and discrimination (the
refusal to eat from the same vessel as another, the loathing of a woman?s
allegedly contaminating bodily secretions).
Consider too the specifi cally human deformities exhibited by the
ending of Theodor Fontane?s tragic novel Effi Briest. Effi , a high- spirited
girl of sixteen, has been married by her parents to a much older man,
good but humorless, who takes her to live in a gloomy house on the
North Sea. Lonely and afraid, she allows herself to be pressured into a
brief aff air with a visiting Lothario, but soon breaks it off out of guilt.
When her husband takes a position in Berlin and the two have a child,
the marriage becomes a happy one? until, some eight years after the
event, the husband discovers a note giving unmistakable evidence of the
long- ago aff air. Although he wants to forgive Effi , he feels that norms of
manly honor require him to repudiate her and to fi ght a duel with her
lover, whom he kills. Effi ?s parents, fearing the social stigma of associa-
tion with

pec-
tator or evaluator, the person who experiences the emotion. If we think that suff erers are moaning and groaning over something that is not really bad, we won?t have compassion for them. (For example, we don?t feel compassion for rich people who suff er when they pay their taxes, if we think that it is exactly right that they should pay their taxes.) If we think, on the other hand, that a person is unaware of a predicament that is really bad (e.g., an accident that removes higher mental functioning),9 then we will have compassion for the person even if the person doesn?t think his or her situation is bad.

Second is the thought of nonfault: we typically don?t feel compassion if we think the person?s predicament chosen or self- infl icted. This thought is not a conceptual condition for all species of compassion, since there are forms present in both the human and the animal cases that do not involve any assessment of responsibility. It is, however, a conceptual element in the most common forms of adult human compassion. In feeling compassion, we express the view that at least a good portion of the predicament was caused in a way for which the person is not to blame. Thus, Aristotle held that compassion for the hero of a tragedy views that hero as anaitios, not responsible for his downfall.10 When we think that a person brought a bad situation on him- or herself, this thought would appear to inhibit formation of the emotion. Thus, as Candace Clark has emphasized in her excellent so cio log i cal study of American compassion,11 many Americans feel no compassion for the poor, who they believe bring poverty upon themselves through laziness and lack of eff ort.12 Even when we do feel compassion for people whom we also blame, the compassion and the blame typically address diff erent phases or aspects of the person?s situation: thus we may blame a criminal for a criminal act while feeling compassion for him, if we think that the fact that he got to be the sort of person who commits criminal acts is in large part an outgrowth of social forces.

Blame comes in many types, corresponding to diff erent categories of fault: deliberate malice, culpable negligence, and so forth. These will remove compassion to diff ering degrees. People?s responsibility for their predicaments can also be more or less serious, as a causal element in the

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overall genesis of the event. In many such cases, compassion may still be present, but in a weakened form. To the extent that compassion remains, it would appear that it is directed, at least in part, at the elements of the disaster for which the person was not fully responsible. A trivial error may have huge consequences, including a suff ering entirely disproportionate to the fault.

The tradition then includes a third allegedly necessary element of compassion, namely, the thought of similar possibilities. The person who has compassion often does think that the suff ering person is similar to him- or herself and has possibilities in life that are similar. This thought may do important work, removing barriers to compassion that have been created by artifi cial social divisions, as Rousseau valuably emphasizes in Book IV of Emile. For most humans, the thought of similar vulnerability probably is, as Rousseau argues, an important avenue to compassionate response. But the thought of similarity is not abso-

lutely necessary as a conceptual condition, even in the most common adult human type of compassion: we can in principle feel compassion for others without seeing their predicament as like one that we could experience.13 Our compassion for the suff erings of animals is a fi ne example: we are indeed similar to animals in many ways, but we don?t need that thought in order to see that what they suff er is bad, and in order to have compassion for them. For the purposes of the present argument, however, we shall see that the thought of similar possibilities has considerable importance in preventing or undoing denial of our own animal nature; its absence is thus a sign of grave danger.

Finally, there is a further thought that is not mentioned in the tradition, which, according to me, must be mentioned: it is what I call the eudaimonistic thought. This is a judgment or thought that places the suff ering person or persons among the important parts of the life of the person who feels the emotion. It says, ?They count for me: they are among my most important goals and projects.? As I said in Chapter 1, the major human emotions are always eudaimonistic, meaning focused on the agent?s most important goals and projects, and seeing the world from the point of view of those goals, rather than from some impersonal vantage point.14 Thus we feel fear about damages that we see as signifi - cant for our own well- being and our other goals; we feel grief at the loss

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of someone who is already invested with a certain importance in our scheme of things.

Eudaimonism is not egoism. I am not claiming that emotions always view events and people as mere means to the agent?s own satisfaction or happiness; indeed, I strenuously deny this.15 But the things that occasion a strong emotion in us are things that correspond to what we have invested with importance in our thoughts, implicit or explicit, about what is important in life, our conception of fl ourishing. The thought of importance need not always antecede the compassionate response; the vivid pre sen ta tion of another person?s plight may jump-start it, moving that person, temporarily, into the center of the things that matter. Thus, when people hear of an earthquake or some other comparable disaster, they often become very focused on the suff erings of the strangers involved, and these strangers really matter to them? for a time. Daniel Batson?s important experimental work on compassion demonstrates this repeatedly: instructed to listen with imaginative participation to the story of the plight of a student whom they do not know, the students in the study experience compassion, and this compassion, in turn, is correlated with helping behavior when a helpful action is easily available.16 (Students instructed to ignore the story and to consider only the technical qualities of the broadcast do not have the same emotional experience.) Focus produces at least temporary salience.

As Adam Smith already observed, however, using the example of an earthquake in China, this focus is unstable, easily defl ected back to oneself and one?s immediate surroundings, unless more stable structures of concern are built upon it that ensure a continued concern with the people of that distant nation.17 Thus one task of any po liti cal use of compassion will be to create stable structures of concern that extend compassion broadly; bu

of compassion, because she brought her suff ering upon herself.?
This diff erence is at work in Effi Briest. But it is present as well in more morally attractive examples: for example, when a person is fi red from a job for embezzlement, we will not feel compassion (or not much), although we would were the person fi red because of an employer?s practice of gender or racial discrimination.
Not all human compassion raises the issue of fault. There is a species of human compassion that is in that sense very similar to Rollo?s, focusing on suff ering without asking who is to blame.24 Young children often have that sort of compassion, as Rousseau observes in Emile, saying of the boy?s emotion: ?Whether it is their fault is not now the question. Does he even know what fault is? Never violate the order of his knowledge. . . .?25 (Later on, Emile does learn about fault, and this is an important ingredient of his social maturity, since compassion must be regulated by the sense of justice.)26 Rousseau, however, places the sense of fault too late in human development: ideas of fault appear even in young infants. Even after the notion of fault fi rmly takes root, humans remain capable of the simpler type of compassion. The idea of fault, however, will often block this simpler response, as it does in the case of Effi ?s parents.
Further research in this area may show that some animals have a rudimentary idea of fault. To the extent that they have an idea of rule following, and of deviation from rule following, as does seem likely for some species, they may well be able to form the idea that some creatures bring their predicaments upon themselves by violating rules.27 To the extent that they lack the idea that one can choose to pursue some purposes rather than others, however, they would not be likely to go very far in the

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direction of distinguishing appropriate from inappropriate choices. To the extent that they lack that conception, the idea of bringing misery on oneself would remain in a rudimentary form.
Beyond this, the comparison between humans and animals should focus on the idea of seriousness, the idea of similar possibilities, and what I have called the eudaimonistic thought. Frans de Waal argues that experiments with a wide range of animals show us a hierarchy of types of compassionate emotion. The simplest or most basic type of compassion (or behavior in the area of compassion, we ought to say) is contagion. (And, though it is diffi cult to make this distinction in practice, one really ought to distinguish here between mimetic behavior, or behavioral contagion, and a more inner and attitudinal emotional contagion that might be produced by the behavioral contagion, although it might also be produced in some other way.)28 A more sophisticated type involves perspective taking; associated with this is consolation, behavior that shows concern for what the other creature is suff ering, and, where possible, what de Waal calls targeted helping, helping behavior that responds to the specifi c features of the other creature?s plight as seen from that creature?s viewpoint. Perspective taking comes in degrees. It may be relatively rudimentary, not anchored to a fi rm grasp of the distinction between self and other. (Most monkeys, for example, are at this level, and we should probably place dogs here, since they exhibit co

ried to lift
her up. They worked their tusks under her back and under her head.
At one point they succeeded in lifting her into a sitting position but
her body fl opped back down. Her family tried everything to rouse
her, kicking and tusking her, and Tallulah even went off and col-
lected a trunkful of grass and tried to stuff it into her mouth.
The elephants then sprinkled earth over the corpse, eventually
covering it completely before moving off .30
Case C. George Pitcher and Ed Cone were watching TV one
night in their Prince ton home: a documentary about a little boy in
En gland with a congenital heart ailment. After various medical re-
versals, the boy died. Pitcher, sitting on the fl oor, found his eyes
fi lled with tears. Instantly their two dogs, Lupa and Remus, rushed
to him, almost pushing him over, and licked his eyes and cheeks
with plaintive whimpers.31
In the fi rst case, we see something that we might call emotional conta-
gion, at least of the behavioral type: that is, distress behavior at the sight
of another?s distress behavior. We may very cautiously ascribe to these
mice some subjective feeling of discomfort, and perhaps there is conta-
gion of feeling as well as behavior, but we have no reason to ascribe to the
mice any complex empathetic exercise of imagination, and no reason to
ascribe any sophisticated thoughts, such as the thought of seriousness or
the thought of similar possibilities. (Thus we do not see the responses
that de Waal called ?perspective taking,? ?consolation,? and ?targeted
helping.?)
Because the response seems not to include a cognitive appraisal of the
situation of the other mice as bad, I would not be inclined to call the re-
sponse a genuine emotion, though it probably involves subjective feel-
ings and not just mimetic behavior. The experiment is certainly interest-
ing, showing a natural response to the sight of the pain of another that is
certainly among the precursors of compassion. (Rousseau made much of
this natural response, observing that the sight of pain is more powerful
in this respect than the sight of happiness: thus our weakness becomes a
source of our connection to others.) The most interesting feature, obvi-
ously, is the fact that the mice are moved by the plight of mice they know,

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and not by that of mice they don?t know. This suggests a surprising de-
gree of cognitive complexity, and something like an ancestor of my eu-
daimonistic judgment. The mice are not precisely thinking, ?These are
my familiar pals, and their fate matters to me, whereas the fate of strang-
ers doesn?t matter?? but they have responses that are at least the basis for
forming that very standard human thought. (Moreover, in humans the
thought often infl uences action without being fully formulated, so hu-
mans are in that sense not always so far from these mice.) They have a
personal point of view on the world? at least in a rudimentary sense?
that diff erentiates between one group of mice and another group.
The second and third cases are rather similar, though with signifi cant
variations. In both, we see a recognition of the seriousness of the other
creature?s plight. The elephants are obviously aware that something ma-
jor has happened to their friend: they recognize that her collapsed pos-
ture is the sign of some serious problem, and their increasingly frantic
attempts to lift her up show their gradual awareness that the pr

oblem
will not be rectifi ed. We can ascribe to them some type of perspective taking, consolation, and targeted helping, although of a futile sort. Pitcher?s dogs know him well; like the elephants, they see that something unusual is going on, something that looks serious. Notice that the thought of seriousness tracks the actual suff ering manifested by the other party: there is not the same possibility as in the human case of forming the thought, ?This person is moaning and groaning, but the plight is not really serious.? Thus, if Pitcher were a rich person for whom the thought of paying a just amount of tax brought tears of suff ering to his eyes, Lupa and Remus would behave in just the same way. On the other side, if Pitcher were in a seriously bad way without being aware of it, and thus without manifesting suff ering, the dogs would not have compassion for him. The dogs? behavior at least appears to involve a rudimentary perspective taking; it certainly displays consolation and targeted helping, since the dogs were familiar with the fact that their aff ectionate behavior was associated with improvement in Pitcher?s manifest condition.
This case is diff erent from that of the elephants in several ways. First, the dogs? behavior is more individualized and less group- based: they attend to par tic u lar humans, and they do not coordinate their behavior in group terms. Second, their behavior may not involve as sophisticated a

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perspectival capacity as that of the elephants, since dogs fail the mirror test. Third, the behavior takes a cross- species object, refl ecting the fact that dogs are a symbiotic species, whose evolutionary history has selected for a high level of attentiveness to the behavior of humans, and par tic u lar humans are usually built into their circle of concern. Elephants sometimes bond with humans; thus, when researcher Joyce Poole returned to her elephant group in Kenya after a maternity leave, bringing her little baby with her, the elephants put on the ceremony of trumpeting and defecating with which they standardly greet the birth of a new baby elephant.32 This behavior, however, suggests that they treated Poole as an honorary member of their group, rather than that they attended to her as an individual outside their group who mattered for their well- being.
Returning to Pitcher and the dogs, there is a subtle diff erence between Pitcher?s compassion for the little boy in the documentary and the compassion of the dogs for Pitcher, for the former is mediated by the thought of non- fault in a way that the latter is not. Pitcher draws attention to the fact that he was raised by a Christian Scientist mother who thought that children (and others) were always to blame for their illnesses, a very severe upbringing. Having rejected these ideas as an adult, Pitcher is able to see the little boy as a victim of circumstances. I think that his intense reaction to the documentary may have been connected to the thought of himself as a boy, cut off from compassion because of the blame that illness always brought with it: in part, he is having compassion for his own childhood self and the lack of care he experienced. The thesis of Pitcher?s book is the Fontane- like thesis that dogs are capable of an unconditional type of love? not even raising the issue of fault? that humans have diffi culty achieving; in that

earn to care
for the survival of other African species; we certainly cannot expect predatory animals to learn compassion for the species they kill; and we cannot expect dogs to attach themselves to a person or dog without prolonged experience. Indeed, as Pitcher makes clear, Lupa and Remus continued to be very suspicious of all other humans, and most animals as well. In the human case there is? at least, we hope there is? a good deal more fl exibility than this: people can learn to care about the suff erings they infl ict on animals by killing them for food; they can learn to care about the suff erings of people they have never met.
What about similar possibilities? Humans learn, fairly early, that there are some forms of vulnerability that human life contains for all: bodily frailty and disease, pain, wounds, death. Indeed, Rousseau believed that the inevitability of this learning was morality?s great advantage in the war against hierarchy and domination: whenever a privileged group tries to think of itself as above the common human lot, this fragile self- deceptive stratagem is quickly exposed by life itself. Life is constantly teaching the lesson of human equality:
Human beings are not naturally kings, or lords, or courtiers, or rich people. All are born naked and poor; all are subject to the miseries of life; to sorrows, ills, needs, and pains of every kind. Finally, all are condemned to death. This is what truly belongs to the human being. This is what no mortal is exempt from.34
So: to what extent do animals in our second and third cases form such ideas, and in what form?
It seems likely that elephants do have some conception of death and of various related bad things, as standard events in elephant life. Their standard and almost ritualized responses to death indicate that they have at least a rudimentary conception of a species form of life and of the events that can disrupt it (or, as in the case of the birth of a child, enrich it). The fact that elephants can form a conception of the self is helpful in forming a conception of the elephant kind: for one can hardly recognize

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oneself as a member of a kind without recognizing oneself as a unit distinct from others. It seems less clear whether dogs have such ideas, though they certainly can remember experiences of hunger and pain (the traumatized and abused Lupa always trembled at the sight of a stick), and, to that extent, conceive of such bad events as future possibilities for themselves.

V. Looking at Animals: Shared and Nonshared Roots of Morality

From the point of view of our nations, which are striving for justice, the animal heritage of human compassion is promising, but has obvious shortcomings. It is narrow in extent, relatively rigid, typically hostile to strangers, incapable of connecting to the distant through the imagination. Animal compassion, furthermore, contains no sense of the diff erence between fault and nonfault, and no deliberative evaluation of what is worth getting upset about. Moreover, animals appear not to rank and order ends (or not in a refl ective way), and thus are typically unable to inhibit desire satisfaction for the sake of a more valued goal? although the altruism of the elephants in my opening example, like other examples of risk- taking altruism in the apes studied by de Waal, shows that there is a generosity in animal behavior that goes beyond m

eir own
physical illness through moral failure. Having the generally valuable capacity to see ourselves as beings who can make choices, pursuing some inclinations and inhibiting others, we also develop the capacity to impute defective choice to others, and we inhibit compassion on that account. This capacity to think about fault and choice is generally valuable, a necessary part of moral life. And yet it can go badly astray. Sometimes it goes wrong because people want to insulate themselves from demands made by others. Thus, it is very con ve nient to blame the poor for their poverty and to refuse compassion on that account. If we think this way, we don?t have to do anything about the situation of the poor.48 Sometimes, defective social traditions play the deforming role: the idea that a woman who has sex outside marriage is for all time irredeemably stained, unworthy of friendship or love, was a prominent cultural attitude in nineteenth- century Germany, and it is this attitude that blocks the Briests from responding to their daughter?s misery. Although in Pitcher?s case the warping judgments are religious in origin, and although our imaginary nations have agreed to respect a wide range of religious and secular comprehensive doctrines that reasonable citizens hold, the doctrine that children?s evil is responsible for their physical illnesses is surely an unreasonable doctrine, and one that our nations would be entitled to repudiate in public rhetoric and public education.

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Judgments of fault clearly suff er from a variety of distortions, which cannot be traced to a single source.
Thinking about the animal world, we notice some other types of bad behavior that animals do not engage in: genocide, sadistic torture, ethnic cleansing. In the following chapter we?ll investigate some of the possible roots of these deformities. Here, however, it is time to mention one prominent distortion in human emotions: what de Waal has called ?anthropodenial,? the tendency of humans to refuse to acknowledge their animality and their kinship with other animals. Remember Updike?s Rabbit: asked whether he isn?t, after all, a chimp, he says to himself that he is ?A god- made one- of- a-kind with an immortal soul breathed in. A vehicle of grace. A battlefi eld of good and evil. An apprentice angel.? People brought up on such thoughts usually develop correspondingly negative reactions to the signs of their own animality: sweat, urine, feces, sexual fl uids. The animal body inspires the aspiring angel with disgust and shame. Swift?s Gulliver, having enjoyed the somewhat ethereal society of the Houyhnhnms? clean, non- smelly, and hardly bodily at all? cannot endure the touch of Yahoos like himself.
No nonhuman animal denies that it is an animal, hates being an animal, shrinks from others of its kind because they are animals. None aspires to be an angel, above the body and its smells and fl uids. Anthropodenial aff ects human relationships with the other animals, clearly: Rabbit?s view of what a chimp or a pig is is infl ected by his conception of himself as an angel. Humans frequently deny compassion to the suff ering of animals on account of this irrational splitting of the world of nature. This splitting also inhibits the dispassionate study of the animal roots of human morality and emotion.
But things are worse than this, as we already see in the Swift examp

iring, and
so forth.2 Employers, being rational, will quickly see that hiring minor-
ity workers is in their interest. Such an account rests on a par tic u lar
story about human motivation: employers are taken to be rational actors
who seek to maximize the satisfaction of their own preferences; more-
over, their preferences do not include malicious or sadistic preferences,
such as a preference for subordinating or humiliating others. The same
is taken to be true of workers and customers: they will happily work in or
buy from integrated businesses because they will see that these busi-
nesses off er an effi cient solution to a social problem. They will not be
held back by entrenched hatred, disgust, or, again, the desire to humili-
ate through segregationist practices. All are understood, moreover, to
have a nondeformed view of the potentiality of African Americans,
rather than a view deformed by racist ste reo types, whether those impute
laziness, low ability, or criminal propensity.
Libertarian politics is naïve, because people are just not like that. De-
nials of equal opportunity to Jews, African Americans, Asian Ameri-
cans, and (in India) members of lower castes were not supported by a
clear- eyed assessment of economic costs and benefi ts;3 indeed, they re-
sulted in a colossal waste of human capital. And as John Stuart Mill ob-

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served, the most ubiquitous and enduring exclusion of all, the exclusion
of women from employment opportunities and po liti cal participation, is
a bizarre policy for a utility- maximizing society, and one that could be
held in place only by irrational prejudice. Mill, however, lacks a theoreti-
cal account of what produces these exclusions. In central theoretical
passages, he focuses on the need to extend compassion; in discussing
women, he gestures at some darker motives but fails to explore them
philosphically. We need to develop some plausible account of the forces
that produce these and related ills, since a just society must take steps to
combat them.
Diff erent religious and secular views of human life have diff erent ac-
counts of the roots of bad behavior. The doctrine of ?original sin? takes
various forms, and some religious accept it, while others do not. Secular
moralities vary greatly too: some use an idea of natural goodness, ascrib-
ing bad behavior to defective social formations, while others use ideas of
original narcissism or Oedipal envy that suggest deeper and more uni-
versal roots for the tendency to behave badly. It might seem impossible,
therefore, for a pluralistic society to choose among the contending views
without establishing a par tic u lar religion or secular comprehensive doc-
trine. I shall suggest, however, that by following the lead of empirical
work on disgust, compassion, peer pressure, authority, and other human
tendencies? as well as clinical work on child development and the ca-
pacities for empathy and concern? we can extract the core of a ?reason-
able po liti cal psychology? that people of many diff erent overall views
may endorse as a basis for po liti cal thought, considering it to be one ele-
ment in their more comprehensive (and, to that extent, diff erent) under-
standings of human nature.
Our study of our kinship? and lack of it? with nonhuman animals
has given us a start on this problem. We have learned that human beings,
like other animals, tend to be narrow in sympathy, incline

a crucial role
in addressing group divisions.
This chapter will propose a working understanding of some prominent human tendencies to bad behavior. While the account will agree with Immanuel Kant in fi nding in all human beings something like ?radical evil?? namely, a set of presocial tendencies to bad behavior, tendencies that go beyond those rooted in our shared animal heritage and which lie beneath cultural variation? it will also conclude that culture can do a lot to shape these tendencies. The remedies proposed by the Comteans were bound to be inadequate, given that their conception of human psychology was thin and incomplete. The fuller story we uncover here will show why respect and even sympathy, without love, is insuffi cient and dangerously unstable.
The role of love in the story unfolded here comes in two stages. In a fi rst stage, a child?s helplessness and primitive shame lead to rage and destructive tendencies, which can be surmounted in the direction of concern only by a strong emotion of love toward the object whose destruction is both feared and sought. But even when a child has managed to develop capacities for genuine concern, persisting insecurities make it prone to ?projective disgust? and the subordination of others, as people learn to split the world of humans into favored and stigmatized groups? a tendency exacerbated by the narrowness inherent in our animal heritage. Here, at a second stage, love needs to come to the rescue: only a vigorous imaginative engagement with another person?s particularity will undo or prevent the ravages of group- based stigma and reveal citizens to one another as whole and unique people. It is crucial not only to have had love in one?s childhood, then, but also to be able to renew it on each occasion when one?s ?inner eyes? are dim.

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II. Kant on Evil: The Need for a Fuller Account

Any philosophical account of innate tendencies to evil would do well to begin with Immanuel Kant?s famous account of ?radical evil.? Kant was deeply infl uenced by the social contract doctrines of both Locke and Rousseau, and, like Rousseau, he understood that a just society has to think about the po liti cal emotions and the likely roots of bad behavior. Unlike Rousseau, and like our aspiring nations, he was committed to a genuinely liberal society, with fi rm protections for freedoms of speech and association.4 Thus his eff orts to supply a psychology of bad behavior fall squarely within the pa ram e ters of our project.
Kant holds that the roots of bad behavior lie deep in human beings, deeper than any par tic u lar social formation. In eff ect, they are embedded in the very nature of human life. In Religion within the Boundaries of Mere Reason,5 he articulates his famous doctrine of ?radical evil.?6 Evil is radical, according to Kant? that is to say, it goes to the root of our humanity? because human beings, prior to concrete social experience, have a propensity to both good and evil, in the form of tendencies that are deeply rooted in our natures.7 We are such that we can follow the moral law, treating others as equals and as ends, but there is also something about us that makes it virtually inevitable that under certain circumstances we will disregard it and behave badly.
What are those conditions? Animality itself is not the problem; our animal nature, says Kant, is basically ne

es not even identify a suffi ciently
wide range of types of bad behavior: he includes envy and competition, but omits racial and ethnic hatred, the desire to degrade and humiliate, the love of cruelty for its own sake.

III. The Center of the Universe

What lies behind the anxious competitiveness that Kant calls ?radical evil?? Unlike Kant, we should grant that ?animality?? a shared animal heritage? is at least part of the problem. Our relatively narrow sense of who matters is certainly learned in the course of life, and it is somewhat responsive to learning, but it has its roots, as well, in a structure of imagination and aff ection that is a part of our likely evolutionary heritage, what enabled humans to survive as a species. We reject many aspects of that heritage (for example, we do not think it right to abandon el der ly people and people with disabilities, as animals typically do), and we should in some respects seek to transcend this one, pursuing the goal of impartiality that humans can attain only through culture and morality. In Part III we?ll consider how this might be attempted. But we have also agreed with Kant that animality is not our only, or even our primary, problem: the primary sources of group hatred, stigmatization, and exclusion must be sought in structures peculiar to human life.

All creatures are born weak and needy, and all seek both sustenance and security. (These needs are to some degree in de pen dent: experiments have shown that even monkeys, when the source of food is separated artifi cially from the source of comfort, spend more time getting cuddled than feeding.)8 Human beings, however, have an odd type of infancy, known nowhere else in the animal kingdom. With other animals, the skills of survival begin to be present right from birth, as standing, moving around, and actively searching for the sources of nourishment and security begin virtually immediately; cognitive maturity (the ability to articulate the perceptual fi eld, grasping the good and bad in it) and bodily maturity develop in tandem. By the time the creature has a robust sense of its practical goals, it also has resources for attaining them.

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Human life is not like this. In part because of the large size of the human head, which imposes severe constraints on intrauterine development, humans are born in a state of physical helplessness unknown in any other species. A horse that could not stand up soon after birth would soon die. A human stands no earlier than ten months of age, and walks? with diffi culty? only at around a year of age. Articulate speech is also limited by physical capacities (although it begins to appear that sign language can be learned much earlier). Meanwhile, infants have cognitive powers that are more fully appreciated all the time, as psychologists fi nd new ways to test cognition that do not rely on speech or motion. They can distinguish many parts of the perceptual fi eld soon after birth? distinguishing, for example, the smell of their own mother?s milk from that of another mother?s milk within the fi rst two weeks of life. The capacity to divide self from others and to ?read? the minds of others develops rapidly, as Bloom shows, during the fi rst year of life. So human infants are both highly intelligent and helpless, a combination that shapes emotional development, not always for the good.

In the beginning, the

Adults looking at infants can easily
underestimate the experience, because adults know that it is normal and not a sign of danger, and that the infant will shortly be fed. Nor is adult hunger disruptive in anything like the same way, unless it is prolonged. It is natural that an event this cataclysmic, as the infant develops a sense of the future and of itself as a persisting being, would become the object of intense fear, and its relief the object of joy and gratitude.

Second, we are reminded of how completely solipsistic the infant?s world originally is. All experiences radiate from its own internal states, and although the infant is not yet able to demarcate itself from the surrounding environment in a secure way, its awareness is entirely of itself, and of external agencies only insofar as they lock, magnetlike, onto itself and cause an alteration in its own states.

This solipsism is not total: as Stern also describes, infants love light, and in calm moods they stare at what ever most attracts their attention. From the beginning, the world is somehow lovable and interesting, not simply an agent of pain relief. There is a self- directed tendency toward relief? security and freedom from distress? but there is also an outward-pulling tendency to investigate, a kind of incipient wonder, which prepares the way for love.

As the infant becomes more fully aware of itself as a demarcated center of experience (learning, for example, the diff erence between its own toes and another object at a similar distance), it also becomes aware that its hunger and distress are relieved by agencies external to itself? the breast, and the arms that shelter and comfort. For quite some time these agencies are not seen as parts of whole people; they are pieces of the world that do things for the infant. So, the solipsism of infancy colors its fi rst relations to objects: other people fi gure in the infant?s perceptions and emotions as pieces of the world that help (by feeding and holding) or hinder (by not being there immediately, or for long enough). In this way the infant develops an idea that the world is all about its own needs and ought to meet those needs, and is bad if it does not. Everything should be waiting on me, is the general shape of this thought? the source of Freud?s

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wonderful image, ?His Majesty the Baby.? Babies are indeed like royalty, seeing the world as revolving around them and their needs. They are also like royalty in their helplessness, their demand for constant service if their needs are to be met. (For this reason, Rousseau concluded that instruction in practical self- suffi ciency was a key requirement of demo cratic citizenship.) But of course their helplessness is far more complete, and so they are in the ridiculous position of expecting to be the center of the world, but having no way of enforcing or even promoting their wishes, other than crying. From this situation develops a host of intense emotions: fear of abandonment and hunger; joy at the restoration of the world; anger when the needed food and comfort do not arrive when wished; and, gradually, shame at the dissonance between expectation and reality. I am the monarch, and yet here I am alone, hungry, and wet.

From this early situation of narcissism grows a tendency to think of other people as mere slaves, not full people with needs and interests of thei

r own. How might this narcissism ever be surmounted in the direction of stable concern for others? That is the problem that all good societies need to try to solve, and we might say that the combination of narcissism with helplessness? a helplessness that is resented and repudiated? is where ?radical evil? gets its start, in the form of a tendency to subordinate other people to one?s own needs. We now can situate the ?anthropodenial? of Chapter 6 in a richer developmental context: what is really resented and denied is not humanity tout court, it is the helplessness that we feel, on account of bodies that are vulnerable and often powerless.

The frustration of need creates an opportunity, as well as pain: the opportunity to come to grips with the reality of an external in de pen dent person. As Donald Winnicott puts it, ?[I]ncomplete adaptation to need makes objects real, that is to say hated as well as loved.?10 But the infant?s narcissism powerfully resists this reality, since perfect adaptation to need is omnipotence, and omnipotence is easier to deal with than interdependence.

It?s obvious that narcissism of this type goes on exercising a pernicious infl uence in most human lives, as people focus greedily on their own security and satisfaction, neglecting the claims of others, or even seeking to

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convert them into a slave class who can be relied on to promote security. If we imagine an angel growing up? never having been wet and hungry, never having been helplessly dependent upon others? we see that such a being would have few reasons to be greedy or self- promoting.

Sometimes people overcome narcissism in a narrow circle of close personal relations, for whom genuine concern is learned, but sometimes they don?t even do that. Think of the central character in Proust?s novel. Although an adult of remarkable sensitivity and strong emotion, he remains utterly self- focused, thinking of others as servants of his inclinations, whom he must control or suff er terrible torment. He has not progressed beyond the rigid and terrifi ed little boy who used to long for his mother to sleep in his room all night? knowing in advance that the joy of her arrival would already be sullied by the pain of her expected departure. Moreover, articulate rationalizer of his own pathology that he is, he repeatedly informs us that all apparent love and friendship are nothing more than this desire for possession and control. (He does think that the activity of the writer of fi ction involves genuinely loving attention to the world? only, however, because the writer is not dealing with real people and the uncertainties they impose.)

In essence, this is anthropodenial: the refusal to accept one?s limited animal condition, a stance toward the world that no nonhuman animal has. To expect to be complete (or continually completed) is to expect to be above the human lot. Infants cannot imagine a human sort of interdepen den cy, since they are not aware that human life is a life of need and reciprocity and that, through reciprocity, needs will be regularly met. Their helplessness produces an intense anxiety that is not mitigated by trust in the world or its people. The only solution is perfection, and the only way of achieving perfection is making other people one?s slaves. How could a human being cease to be like this? Part of the story must indeed, as Rousseau urged, invol

in or-
der for concern to develop is not very special, and is often present. The parent or parents must be available and must ?survive the instinct- driven episodes?; the function of the ?mother? (Winnicott always stresses that this is a functional concept and could be fi lled by a parent of either gender) is ?to continue to be herself, to be empathetic towards her infant, to be there to receive the spontaneous gesture, and to be pleased? (76). Under such circumstances? which prominently include the parent being lovable as well as just being there? the infant develops confi dence that it can make good contributions to the lovable parent despite its aggression, and its anxiety is gradually transmuted into a morally rich sense of guilt at its aggressive impulses. Its relationship to the parent becomes a moral one.

Couldn?t morality and rules of fairness do this work all on their own? Can?t we imagine infants coming to the realization that the parent has rights and that these rights should be respected, even without love? Well, we can try to imagine a family like this, in which rules are lifeless and loveless. However, such a family would lack trust, spontaneity, and the creative sense of reciprocity that children develop in Winnicott?s ?benign cycle.? It?s not clear that a morality of that sort could ever be stable, since it would be shot through with suspicion and mistrust, and it would be rigid rather than fl exible. Moreover, infancy really is painful: fi rst, the pain of lack and frustration, and, later, the pain of recognizing one?s own aggressive urges against those who love and care for one. Because of this pain, there is an ongoing risk of shutdown, of a retreat into a narcissism that understands others only as tools. It?s possible for a narcissist to understand and apply rules, but those rules would remain lifeless and highly unstable.

As at the earlier stage of anxiety, then, love has to come to the rescue. Only love propels the infant into creative reciprocity and the sort of

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empathetic perspective taking that makes action an expression of genuine concern rather than rigid formulae. The opportunity for concern is created in the fi rst place by the parent?s lovable (sustaining, nonterrifi ed, empathetic) behavior.

What do these psychologists mean, and what do I mean, by love? The relationship they describe includes a delighted recognition of the other as valuable, special, and fascinating; a drive to understand the point of view of the other; fun and reciprocal play; exchange, and what Winnicott calls ?subtle interplay?; gratitude for aff ectionate treatment, and guilt at one?s own aggressive wishes or actions; and, fi nally and centrally, trust and a suspension of anxious demands for control. (There could hardly be fun and ?subtle interplay? without that.) It is only through trust in an uncertain world and the people in it that one ever fi nds the way out from a smothering narcissism, if one does. But trust cannot be generated out of rules of fairness alone; it really has little to do with such rules. What makes it possible is the lovable behavior of the parent? combined with the wonder, love, and creativity of the child, which has its ultimate roots in the child?s wonder at the light, its erotic outward-moving curiosity.

This, in essence, is the idea behind Tagore?s religion of humanity, behind Mozart?s ?yes,? an

d behind the argument of this book: that, as
Mozart and Da Ponte put it, ?this day of torment, of craziness, of
foolishness? only love can make it end in happiness and joy.?
One place to see the diff erence between a morality generated out of
rules and a morality generated from love is in The White Ribbon, Michael Haneke?s terrifying fi lm of Germany between the two world wars.
Apart from the schoolteacher, who provides the fi lm with a moral compass, all of the young people in it have grown up in authoritarian and
loveless families.15 They pay lip ser vice to rules of fairness, but they
don?t understand their meaning, and each one appears to carry around
an im mense burden of undischarged aggression and hate? the very drives
that might have found a creative outlet in a relationship of loving reciprocity. In one family, children are forced to wear white ribbons as reminders
of the innocence against which they have all in various ways transgressed; the ribbon becomes a brand of eternal and undischargeable
guilt. While the schoolteacher loves his fi ancée, Eva, and fi lls his days

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with creative plans to visit her and delight her, the children of the town
turn their pain into acts of sadism. So the absence of love leads to two
distinct problems: children have no constructive way of managing their
own aggression, and they never become capable of endowing the rules
with inner life. Although the fi lm is a nightmare, it is a nightmare about
a reality, as Theodor Adorno?s study of the German family bears out.16
Heineke?s fantasy does not exactly prove that love is necessary if respect is to lead to stable concern, but it reminds us that morality cannot
survive in a world where anxiety is unrelieved by trust and love; that
genuine concern for others rests on a capacity for empathetic understanding and the sense that the other?s perspective matters; and, fi nally,
that genuine concern requires confi dence in one?s own ability to give, an
attitude that is deeply imperiled by both shame at helplessness and the
awareness of one?s own aggressive wishes. If even respect is to be sustained stably, there has to be a moment of generosity, in which one is
willing to be at the mercy of another who is mysterious, and approachable only in a spirit of play and wonder. That generosity, that ?yes,? is
made possible only by the spirit of love; or, more accurately, it is that
spirit.
All this concerns intimate early relationships (although the same dynamic recurs at diff erent developmental stages, perhaps especially in the
insecurity of adolescence). Why does a po liti cal project need to think
about these personal matters? My suggestion will be that the po liti cal
culture needs to tap these sources of early trust and generosity, the erotic
outward movement of the mind and heart toward the lovable, if decent
institutions are to be stably sustained against the ongoing pressure exerted by egoism, greed, and anxious aggression.

V. Play and Projection

By the age of one, infants are adept mind readers. They have developed
a sense of the distinction between self and other and capacities to see the
world empathetically from the perspective of the other. ?Contagion? of
aff ect exists more or less from birth: babies cry in response to the sound
of other babies crying, a familiar phenomenon repeatedly confi rmed.
But, as psychologist Ross Thompson writes, ?An important

curity- conferring properties. (Winnicott believed that Peanuts cartoonist Charles Schultz had gotten the idea of Linus?s security blanket from his work; whether or not this is true, it is the same idea.) By clinging to this object, infants become able to comfort themselves, and thus wean themselves, gradually, from the need to view other people as instruments and servants. They also learn to experiment with emotions connected to loss and recovery, as they drop the cherished object and fi nd it again with delighted giggles. As the capacity for empathy matures, infants invent narratives with the stuff ed animal as a character, inventing feelings for that animal, in response to a variety of situations; sometimes, for example, the invented fear or anger of the stuff ed animal becomes a vehicle for a child?s exploration of its own fear or anger. Infants still control transitional objects to some extent, but the very investment in a piece of external reality involves surrender: ?Some abrogation of omnipotence is a feature from the start.?19

Gradually, the world of play becomes rich and sustaining, enabling a child, in Winnicott?s simple but resonant phrase, ?to play alone in the presence of its mother,? to inhabit a world in which others may go their own way and there is no need to subordinate them constantly to the child?s own anxious projects.

But play is not always solitary. Just as it helps to enrich the world of solitude, building inner resources, play also enriches the interpersonal world, as parents and children, and children together, enact a variety of roles and possibilities, learning about one another and about further possibilities in the pro cess.

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Winnicott?s larger purpose is to suggest that all human relationships involve the characteristics of early play: the capacity to be alone in the presence of the other (not constantly demanding slavish attention); trust in the other and the willingness to relax the demand for complete control in the presence of the other; the capacity to respond to subtle cues with an appropriate reaction; the ability to imagine what the other intends and feels. Indeed, in the analysis posthumously published under the title Holding and Interpretation, he suggests that all love is a form of ?subtle interplay?? which his patient, a frozen young man, was experiencing for the fi rst time in the analytic relationship. Love means many things, ?but it has to include this experience of subtle interplay, and we could say that you are experiencing love and loving in this situation.? ?Subtle interplay? is closely connected to the willingness to give up omnipotence. Winnicott?s patient, whom he calls ?B,? was raised by an anxious mother who believed that her husband demanded that she become a perfect parent. (Winnicott points out that this means that she really did not love her husband: she saw him as a demanding authority fi gure, for whom any real human being was not good enough.) The stress of this fantasized demand made her demand perfection in her child, which meant, in turn, that she was unwilling to accept any of the signs that he was a real baby: crying, anger, hunger, and so forth. Nor could she play with him, because relaxation and trust were undermined by anxiety and the desire for control. Not surprisingly, her child became himself incapable of play or spontaneity; he could not interact succ

is hardly stable, as
awareness of weakness and mortality prompt a recrudescence of narcissism. Because narcissism is ongoing, the resources that make its defeat possible must also be ongoing, in the form of increasingly sophisticated forms of love, reciprocity, and play, to some extent in personal relationships, but in large part in the ?potential space? of culture and the arts. Respect that is not infused with the spirit of play and wonder is likely to be itself unstable. To understand this point in greater detail, we must now turn to a major expression of ?radical evil? in po liti cal cultures: disgust, and the stigmatization of groups.

VI. Projective Disgust and Segmentation: Gora and the Runaway Slave

People form hierarchies. For Kant, ?radical evil? centrally concerned competitive ranking and the obstacle it poses to the recognition of equal human dignity. A tendency to form hierarchies is clearly a part of our evolutionary heritage, but narcissism, the desire for omnipotence, and ?anthropodenial? make hierarchy take a par tic u lar shape that threatens the life of any moderately just society.

A key device of subordination is disgust: people in power impute animal properties that typically inspire disgust (sliminess, stickiness, bad smell, connection with decay or with bodily fl uids and excrement) to other groups of people, whether African Americans, women, lower castes, Jews, or gay men? and they then use that alleged disgustingness as a reason to refuse contact. This syndrome must be grasped and combated by a just society. ?Projective disgust? grows out of the same anxieties that inspire infantile narcissism. Like it (and as a part of it), it can be surmounted only by the spirit of love.

By the time children are two or three, they have in most cases become capable of love and trust toward a small number of individuals. Nonetheless, anxieties associated with bodily vulnerability exert their sway throughout life. These anxieties now crystallize in the newly developed emotion of disgust. Disgust, as a large body of experimental research

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shows, is, at least in the fi rst instance, a negative response toward substances with marked bodily characteristics: ooziness, bad smell, stickiness, sliminess, decay. Even in these simple cases, in which the objects of disgust really have the properties imputed to them, disgust is not the same as mere sensory distaste, because it is highly infl uenced by the person?s conception of the object. Thus the very same smell elicits diff erent disgust reactions depending on whether the person is told it is feces or cheese.24 The idea of feces is evidently a part of what renders the object disgusting. This happens ubiquitously. Nor is disgust the same as the fear of danger: substances that are not dangerous may be highly disgusting (people refuse to ingest even a detoxifi ed, sterilized cockroach).25 Meanwhile, many highly dangerous objects (for example, poisonous mushrooms) are not found disgusting. Thus, even though disgust probably evolved as a rough and ready heuristic warning us away from dangerous substances, its content and function are subtly diff erent.

Disgust, the research concludes, concerns an idea of contamination: it expresses an anxiety that the self will be contaminated by taking in something that is defi ling. ?You are what you eat,? as the saying goes. And the ?primary objects? of

disgust are all ?animal reminders?: our own bodily excretions (sweat, urine, feces, semen, snot, blood), which remind us of our commonality with nonhuman animals, and corpses, which remind us of our mortality and fragility.26 Disgust is in this way closely linked to the earlier dynamic of narcissism, omnipotence, and anthropodenial, because the aspects of animality that elicit disgust reactions are those that are reminders of helplessness, not things such as strength and speed that suggest good potentialities shared with other animals.

Disgust for primary objects is already a form of anthropodenial: a repudiation, that is, of the fact that we are mortal animals with bodies that emit odors and substances and will ultimately decay. It is not as such, however, terribly harmful, and it even has some positive value in steering us away from genuine danger, even though it does not perfectly track the dangerous. Given the late arrival of disgust in the developmental process, however? it is not in evidence before the time of toilet training? societies have more than the usual opportunity to mold its content and to extend it to other objects. For in no society is disgust limited to ?primary objects.?27

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Rather soon after learning primary- object disgust, children begin to carve up the world in accordance with the social phenomenon of ?projective disgust.?28 Projective disgust is disgust for a group of other humans who are segmented from the dominant group and classifi ed as lower because of being (allegedly) more animal. Members of this group are thought to have the properties of disgust?s primary objects: they are found dirty, smelly, slimy. They are associated with sexual fl uids, excrement, and decay. They are represented as quasi- animals, as occupying a border zone between the truly human (associated with transcendence of the body and its substances) and the utterly nonhuman. Being able to point to a group of people who allegedly are revolting Yahoos makes it easier for the dominant group to consider itself above the merely animal.

Projective disgust, then, is a form of anthropodenial, and very likely motivated by deeper anxieties about mortality and helplessness that lead to anthropodenial more generally. The groups onto which disgust properties are projected do not really have those properties? any more than those doing the projecting. The common fantasy that African Americans smelled worse than whites, and the more general anxiety that their bodies would contaminate food, drinking fountains, and swimming pools, is just one example of disgust?s irrationality. As Paul Rozin, disgust?s leading experimental researcher, concludes, disgust is extended from one object to another by totally irrational pro cesses, forms of ?magical thinking.?29 What all these forms have in common is a willed segmentation of the social world, combined with lies about the self. The dominant group says: This group must be kept at a distance because of its animality, but we, of course, have nothing in common with them. Thus males imputed animality to women because of their alleged sexual eagerness and their connection with pregnancy and birth, all the while implicitly denying their own connections to these phenomena. Straight society often represented the sexuality of gay men as foul, connected to excrement and germs, while ?forgetting? the ubiquity

to which diff erent rules of conduct apply, al-
though the underlying reality (the human body) is actually the same; the agent too is ?doubled,? operating by one set of rules in one world, by another in the other. Lifton describes doubling, however, as a reaction to an extreme situation, as the only alternative, in that situation, to a radical breakdown of the self.34 Projective disgust, by contrast, is not a reaction to unusual stress or authoritarian po liti cal control; indeed, nothing is more daily, even in thriving democracies. Nor is projective disgust as radical as doubling in its operations, creating two distinct selves operating in two separate environments. Disgust operates at the heart of daily life. It requires but one environment and one self; the world is segmented simply by the creation, right inside the daily world, of an underclass whose members bear, in fantasy, the properties that are feared and repudiated in the self. So it is more ubiquitous and more quotidian than doubling, and we have all the more reason to view it with alarm, as a threat not only in a society taken over by evil, but in every society, even the most decent.

Disgust blocks equal po liti cal respect. How might its baneful infl uence be overcome? We can now turn to the two examples with which this chapter began: Tagore?s Gora, and Whitman?s description of an encounter with a runaway slave. Both concern nation building; both argue that projective disgust and splitting must be overcome in order to attain a morally satisfactory type of national unity.

Gora is a large, pale young man in a high- caste Hindu family in Bengal. (His name means ?paleface.?) In late adolescence, he becomes convinced that India?s future requires a return to traditional Hindu caste practices, including untouchability. A high- caste Hindu must never eat food prepared or served by a member of the lower castes or a person without caste, such as a Christian or Muslim. Caste norms express an

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aversion to the idea of bodily contamination by animality. Because the lower castes are associated with occupations such as cleaning latrines and disposing of corpses, a fantasy develops that members of those castes are themselves contaminated by animal wastes and pass on that contamination to what ever they touch. (Gandhi pointed out that the idea of lower- caste fi lth is false: during the cholera epidemic, the lower castes, defecating in fi elds far from their dwellings, were cleaner and less at risk than upper castes, who defecated into chamber pots that were then poured into the gutters outside their windows.)

For Gora, the world is now divided into two groups: people with whom he can share food and drink, and lower beings with whom he cannot. This bifurcation takes pre ce dence over normal human relations: he now refuses to take food from Lachmiya, a Christian servant who nursed him and treated him with love. (Christians were very often converts from the lowest castes, so Lachmiya is stigmatized in two diff erent ways.) His tolerant mother is aghast at his conduct; she tries to get him to focus on properties that seem relevant to the social treatment of others, but the fantasy of contamination dominates, blocking out everything else.

The reader of the novel knows, from the start, that Gora?s life is absurd and self- contradictory. Not only is he, as in all practices of untouchability, r

epudiating a part of the identity of all human beings (excretion, decay), he is also, in a very direct and par tic u lar sense, repudiating his own par tic u lar identity. For Gora is pale because he is not Hindu at all, but Irish. His mother adopted him when he became orphaned, as an infant, at the time of the Sepoy Mutiny. According to the Hindu rules he follows, he is not and can never be a Hindu. His mother tries to set him on the right track, saying, ?But do you know that it was when I fi rst took you in my arms that I said goodbye to convention? When you hold a little child to your breast then you feel certain that no one is born into this world with caste.?35 Gora, however, is convinced not only that his own life needs the caste hierarchy, but also that the future India of his dreams can emerge only if these ancestral customs are maintained. He imagines his life?s work as that of ?realizing India,? and he conceives of India?s stability as a hierarchical order.36

The discovery of his real origin devastates Gora. In the wake of the crisis, however, he fi nds a new sense of freedom. No longer oppressed by

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the weight of maintaining a thousand dead conventions, he can think about the situations and needs of real people, and he can see, for the fi rst time, what the caste hierarchy means for human welfare. His nascent capacity for empathy is unleashed, and he can now live freely in the potential space of the future welfare of India?s hundreds of millions of diverse people. He returns home and, embracing his mother, says: ?[Y]ou have no caste, you make no distinctions, and have no hatred? you are only the image of our welfare! It is you who are India!? And then, after pausing for a moment, he says, ?Mother! . . . will you call Lachmiya and ask her to bring me a glass of water??37

Gora?s split world has been made whole through a recognition of the equal worth of all Indians. But that recognition did not come about through abstract ideas of respect alone: it had its birth, essentially, in love and childhood play. By arranging his fable in such a way that the key revelation comes from a rediscovery of a child?s love of his mother, Tagore reinforces the idea that the po liti cal needs to draw on the archaic sources of trust and joy that animate childhood love.

Whitman, too, inhabits a radically segmented world: that of the United States during the Civil War. He repeatedly draws attention to the connection between that split and the manifold ways in which people, through projective disgust, segment themselves from allegedly lower aspects of their own bodily humanity by projecting those aspects onto others: African Americans, women, homosexuals. His insistent suggestion is that Americans can transcend the separations that vex their national life only if they can forge a new relationship to their own bodies, seeing them as beautiful rather than disgusting. On the way to that central idea, he confronts one of the central sources of stigma in the (dis)United States: the body of the black man.

In this brief fable, the poet takes a runaway slave into his house, keeps him there, feeds and clothes him, and tends his injuries, all the while prepared to fi ght with potential captors (the gun in the corner); ultimately he helps him go further north. The slave begins as an animal: a noise in the woodpile. But as soon as the poet sees him

h is staged by and in the poetry.
Both Whitman and Tagore suggest what Winnicott explicitly argues: that a cultivation of the imagination, through artistic play, is necessary if adults are to maintain and broaden their concern for the other people in their surroundings, overcoming the tendency of all societies toward stigmatization and ?doubling.?
I have responded to Kant?s vague account of ?radical evil? by developing a more detailed account of forces in the personality that impede mutual respect and reciprocity, in both personal and po liti cal life. These forces are indeed ?radical? in the sense of being rooted in the very structure of human development? our bodily helplessness and our cognitive sophistication? rather than being the creation of this or that par tic u lar culture. So far, I have made three claims. First, in early child development the spirit of love (including trust and ?subtle interplay?) is a necessary key to the development of genuine concern and respect for others, out of the imprisoning egoism of early life. Second, the dynamics in human life that made love necessary (helplessness, fear and anger at helplessness) are not removed by time and growth, but persist? and thus love is an ongoing necessity for the personality in adult interactions, if these are not to lapse back into narcissism. This is as true in the po liti cal life as it is in familial and friendly relations. Third, there are ways in which narcissism rears its head in the po liti cal realm? refl ecting the operations

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of projective disgust? that pose special problems for a society that aspires to equal human dignity; these problems themselves must be addressed not only by rules promoting equal concern, but also by the spirit of play and imaginative sympathy, including the vulnerability and the willingness to forgo omnipotence that this ?poetic? spirit renders possible. In short: we always need the poetic spirit, but we need it all the more urgently where we are most inclined to splitting and repugnance.

VII. Authority and Peer Pressure: Props for Badness

Our working account of ?radical evil? is not complete. We now need to add two tendencies that also appear deeply rooted in human nature, and which pose a serious threat to the stability of demo cratic institutions: the tendency to yield to peer pressure, even at the cost of truth, and the tendency to obey authority, even at the cost of moral concern. Both of these tendencies are very likely rooted in our evolutionary heritage: in primate life, both hierarchy and group solidarity are useful.41 Both continue to be useful in human societies up to a point: obedience to legitimate authority is usually good, and, in the absence of personal expertise, deference to peer judgments is essential. Both, however, threaten demo cratic public culture.
In a series of rigorously designed experiments conducted over a long period of time,42 psychologist Solomon Asch demonstrated the high degree of deference average subjects exhibit toward peer pressure.43 The experiments involve a group of participants, one of whom is the experimental subject, and the others (the number of others varied in size, but it was found that the eff ect required at least three others, and there were usually more) are working for Asch, unbeknownst to the subject. The subject is told that the experiment is a test of perception. Some simple

o bear in situations already characterized by stigmati-
zation and hierarchy.
Asch?s results do not justify an extremely pessimistic conclusion, be-
cause the size of the eff ect he observed was limited. Still, the eff ect is
large enough to be troubling. Particularly interesting is the eff ect of just
one dissenter on the behavior of others. As Asch himself concluded, all
decent societies have strong reasons to nourish and reward dissent and
critical thinking, both for its intrinsic importance and for its eff ects on
others.
More troubling still are the famous studies of obedience to authority
conducted by Stanley Milgram at Yale University.45 Milgram told par-
ticipants in advance that they would be participating in a study of mem-
ory and learning. Participants were not students, but were recruited by a
newspaper advertisement from the surrounding New Haven commu-
nity; he sought a wide range of ages and backgrounds. Subjects were
off ered payment ($4 per hour, not bad in the 1960s) and carfare. Not
enough volunteers answered the ad, so Milgram also solicited partici-
pants by direct mail invitation, sampling names from the New Haven
phone book, a tactic that had a response rate of 12 percent. (We should
note that people often volunteer for something when the money makes a
diff erence to them and is more signifi cant to them than the lost time.
This factor may have been underestimated in analyzing why the partici-
pants obeyed the scientist: they wanted to remain in the study and get
paid. The payment also constructed a class hierarchy between Yale sci-
entists and subjects, reinforcing their sense of the scientist?s prestige and
authority.) The study was conducted in an ?elegant? laboratory that was
part of Yale University, a factor that Milgram thought signifi cant in cre-
ating a sense of prestige and legitimacy.46
When the subjects arrived, pairs were formed. One member of each
pair was designated ?teacher?; the other member (who was actually an
actor working for the experimenter) was designated the ?learner.? Both

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were told that the study would focus on the eff ects of punishment on
learning. The learner was taken into a room, ?seated in a chair, his arms
strapped to prevent excessive movement, and an electrode attached to
his wrist. He is told that he is to learn a list of word pairs; whenever he
makes an error, he will receive electric shocks of increasing intensity.?47
The teacher sees all this and then is taken into the main experimental
room ?and seated before an impressive shock generator. Its main feature
is a horizontal line of thirty switches, ranging from 15 volts to 450 volts,
in 15- volt increments. There are also verbal designations which range
from SLIGHT SHOCK to DANGER? SEVERE SHOCK.? Now the
teacher is told to administer a learning test to the learner. When the
learner gives the correct answer, he is to move on; when he makes a mis-
take, the teacher is to give him an electric shock? beginning at the low-
est level, but increasing the level each time a mistake is made. No shocks
are actually received by the learner, but he feigns increasing discomfort,
and ultimately pain. ?At 75 volts, the ?learner? grunts. . . . At 285 volts
his response can only be described as an agonized scream.?48 If the
teacher showed reluctance to go on, the experimenter used a sequence of
?prods,? in ascending sequence:

Prod 1. Plea

he British proceeded into the hills of Danbury,
But soon their army was as small as a cranberry.
Remember the brave soldiers who toiled and fought;
Bravery is a lesson to be taught.
?Martha Louise Craven1

I. The Janus- Faced Nature of Patriotism

In 1892, a World?s Fair, called the Columbian Exposition,2 was scheduled to take place in Chicago.3 Clearly it was turning out to be a celebration of unfettered greed and egoism. Industry and innovation had become its central foci, as America planned to welcome the world with displays of technological prowess and material enrichment. Gross inequalities of opportunity in the nation and in the city were to be masked by the glowing exterior of the pure white Beaux Arts? style buildings (right next door to the University of Chicago) that came to be called ?the White City.?4 The architectural choices of the exhibition?s designers, Daniel Burnham and Chester French, expressed the idea that America rivaled Eu rope in grandeur and nobility. Everything funny, chaotic, and noisy was relegated to the Midway, a grassy strip now in the middle of the university campus, but then outside the offi cial buildings of the exhi-

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bition. The fi rst Ferris wheel, though offi cially part of the exhibition, was on the Midway? along with Buff alo Bill?s Wild West Show, noisy children, racial and ethnic diff erences, bright colors, and poor people. Instead of real human bodies, disturbing in their heterogeneity and their frailty, the offi cial exhibit put forward the ?Statue of the Republic,? a sixty- fi ve- foot- tall gilded statue of a woman holding a scepter and orb, a smaller replica of which, only twenty- four feet high, created in 1918 to commemorate the exposition, now stands at Hayes Drive and Cornell Avenue. The Chicago Tribune wrote, ?It impresses by its grand presence, its serene and noble face, and its perfect harmony with its magnifi cent surroundings, by its wonderful fi tness.?5

Advocates for the poor, increasingly upset by the plan, got together to think how the celebration might incorporate ideas of equal opportunity and sacrifi ce. A group of Christian socialists fi nally went to President Benjamin Harrison with an idea: at the exposition the president would introduce a new public ritual of patriotism, a Pledge of Allegiance to the fl ag that would place the accent squarely on the nation?s core moral values, include all Americans as equals, and rededicate the nation to something more than individual entrepreneurialism. The words that were concocted to express this sentiment were: ?I pledge allegiance to the fl ag of the United States of America, and to the republic for which it stands: one nation, indivisible, with liberty and justice for all.?6 At the same time, The Youth?s Companion, a pop u lar children?s magazine, began an aggressive campaign to promote the use of the pledge, along with the fl ag salute, in the nation?s schools.

As so often happens with patriotic sentiment, however, the pledge soon proved a formula of both inclusion and exclusion. Francis Bellamy, the pledge?s author, was himself both a socialist and a xenophobe who feared that our national values were being undermined by the fl ood of new immigrants from southern Eu rope. By the nineteen forties, required by law as a daily recitation in schools in many states, the pledge became a litmus test for the ?good American,? and thos

nternationalist, all gave the idea
of the nation an honored place in their account of extended sympathy.
Mazzini was correct that national sentiment can play a valuable and
even essential role in creating a decent society, in which, indeed, liberty
and justice are available to all. The nation can grab people?s hearts and
imaginations because of its eudaimonistic connections (we might say): it
is ?us? and ?ours,? and thus it enables, as Mazzini says, a transition from
narrower sympathies to more extensive sympathies. In loving the nation,
people can, if all goes well, embrace general po liti cal principles? but in a
motivationally effi cacious way. The public love we need, then, includes
love of the nation, and a love that conceives of the nation not just as a set of
abstract principles, but as a par tic u lar entity, with a specifi c history, spe-
cifi c physical features, and specifi c aspirations that inspire devotion. But
it can be constructed in many diff erent ways, with diff erent consequences
for valuable po liti cal goals and the ultimate embrace of general principles.
A group of vexing problems stands before us, a type of Scylla and Cha-
rybdis that are all too likely to waylay even the wary voyager.
Scylla, the monster that lured voyagers on one side of the narrow strait,
had many heads, each equipped with sharp teeth? and so I shall imagine
her here. One ?head? of Scylla is the danger of misplaced and exclusion-
ary values. A second ?head? is the danger of burdening minority con-
science by the imposition of ritual per for mances. A third ?head? is an ex-
cessive emphasis on solidarity and homogeneity that threatens to eclipse
the critical spirit. On the other side of the strait, however, awaits Charyb-
dis, a whirl pool that threatens to entrap and destroy any ship that steers
too far away from Scylla. Charybdis, in this argument, is the danger of
?watery? motivation, the problem that Aristotle thought would beset any
society that tried to run its business without particularized love.
After discussing and illustrating these dangers, I shall give examples
from both U.S. and Indian history of leaders who were able to construct

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a form of patriotism that steered successfully through the narrow strait:
George Washington, Abraham Lincoln, Martin Luther King Jr., Mohan-
das Gandhi, and Jawaharlal Nehru. Their achievements will help us see
how a valuable form of patriotism might be taught in schools, and how it
might give an aspiring nation strength in its struggle for justice.

II. Why Patriotism?

Patriotism is a strong emotion taking the nation as its object. It is a form
of love, and thus distinct from simple approval, or commitment, or em-
brace of principles. This love involves the feeling that the nation is one?s
own, and its rituals usually make reference to that idea. Consider: ?My
Country, ?Tis of Thee,? where the embrace of the nation as ?mine? is
explicit; the fi rst line of ?La Marseillaise,? ?Allons enfants de la patrie,?
where the fi rst- person plural exhorts all Frenchmen to see the nation as
their parent; or India?s ?Jana Gana Mana,? in which the ?we? identifi es
itself as comprising people drawn from all of India?s geo graph i cal re-
gions and her major religious traditions.
This love may be modeled on quite a few diff erent sorts of personal
love. As with the love of a sports team, so here: diff erent people think
diff erently

about the nation?s relationship to them. For some, the nation is a beloved parent, and that idea is prominent in many symbolic appeals to patriotism. At other times, the nation is seen as more like a beloved child, whose growth and development one desires to promote. At still other times, the nation is seen in a more romantic light, as a beloved beckoning to the lover. Diff erent patriotic rituals and songs conjure up subtly diff erent forms of love, and sometimes the same song appeals to more than one. (?La Marseillaise? begins by imagining France as a parent, but the beautiful concluding stanza is far more erotic, as liberté chérie is addressed in tones of awe. ?Jana Gana Mana? appeals to a parental idea in its depiction of the moral principles of the nation as sustaining and guiding it, but the music is quite erotic.) Even within one and the same ritual or part of a ritual, diff erent people may experience diff erent types of love, in keeping with individual needs and predilections.

In all its forms, however, patriotic love is particularistic. It is modeled on family or personal love of some type, and, in keeping with that origin

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or analogy, it focuses on specifi cs: this or that beautiful geo graph i cal feature, this or that historical event. The thicker it is in these respects, the more likely it is to inspire. Thus Americans love ?America the Beautiful? and Woody Guthrie?s ?This Land Is Your Land? (albeit often ignoring the latter?s po liti cal meaning) more than they love the boringly abstract ?My Country ?Tis of Thee.? The specifi city and musical eroticism of ?Jana Gana Mana? and Bangladesh?s ?Amar Shonar Bangla? inspire love, while a thin plodding abstraction, such as ?La Concorde,? Gabon?s national anthem, is likely to have more trouble sustaining attention.9

Our focus here is on the nation, but we should not forget that other forms of patriotic love? addressed to the state, the city, the region? can coexist with love of the nation and reinforce it. Sometimes there will be tensions, as when a city or state pursues goals that the nation as a whole has not embraced. (This often happens, for example, when great cities espouse pluralistic values that rural areas of the nation may not endorse.) Some cases of more- local love will concern us in the following chapter.

Why do we need an emotion like this? The very particularity and eroticism of patriotic love make it ripe for capture, it would seem, by darker forces in our personalities.

Mazzini?s answer10 was that our lives are immersed in greed and self-interest, so we need a strong emotion directed at the general welfare to inspire us to support the common good in ways that involve sacrifi ce. But to have enough motivational strength, this emotion cannot have a purely abstract object, such as ?humanity,? but must have more concreteness. The idea of the nation, he thought, was that sort of idea: suffi ciently local, suffi ciently ours, suffi ciently concrete, or at least susceptible of being made concrete, to motivate us strongly, and yet large enough to involve our hearts in an object beyond greed and egoism.

Our account of compassion shows that Mazzini is correct. Compassion strongly motivates altruism, but it is also rooted in concrete narratives and images. If altruistic national emotion is to have motivational power, it needs to hitch itself to the concrete: named indi

dly
depicted in one way, as subhuman, the antidote to that way of imagining must itself come via the imagination, in the form of experiences of seeing the other as fully human. If the other has been dehumanized in the imagination, only the imagination can accomplish the requisite shift. For example, having formed the view that African American men are loathsome hypersexual animals and sources of unspecifi ed contagion and decay, people will see them diff erently only if the nation off ers its citizens narratives that portray African American lives diff erently, as fully human and close to those people?s own lives and purposes. Any call to altruism that fails to deploy the imagination and emotions in this way leaves in place powerful forces of division that are very likely to subvert any common labor.

Disgust might be counteracted in the private sphere, without recourse to national ideals. But one way to overcome it is surely to link the narrative of the full humanity of the denigrated group to a story of national struggle and national commitment in Renan?s sense. We shall see later that one of Martin Luther King Jr.?s great achievements was to promote this emotional transformation in his audience. If educators can portray the denigrated group as part of a ?we? that suff ered together in the past and is working together for a future of justice, this makes it far more difficult to continue to see the other as a contaminating and excluded outsider. In patriotic emotion, citizens embrace one another as a family, sharing common purposes; thus stigma is overcome (for a time at least) by imagination and love.

III. Scylla: Exclusionary Values, Coerced Conscience, Uncritical Homogeneity

Scylla represents a variety of dangers of strong patriotic passion gone awry. We must confront them if we are to argue that a form of patriotic

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love can avoid them. Because these dangers are heterogeneous, the many-headed monster Scylla is an apt meta phor.

The fi rst and most obvious danger is that of misplaced values. If we are going to whip up strong passions, we want to make sure we don?t generate enthusiasm for the wrong thing. And it is easy to see that patriotic love has served a range of unwise causes: foolish and/or unjust wars, racial or ethnic hatred, religious exclusion, distorted norms of masculinity that contribute to the subordination of women, xenophobia and hatred of other nations. It is on such cases that people usually focus when they express horror at the very idea of patriotic love.

It is a little diffi cult to know what, precisely, this objection is supposed to be. Does the objector think that there is any inherent tendency in patriotism that leads to the support of bad rather than good ends? If so, this analysis needs to be presented. One could, for example, imagine an argument that it is always unwise to whip up disgust in public life, given the specifi c tendencies of that emotion to lead to the stigmatization and subordination of vulnerable groups. Indeed, Part II made such an argument. However, we are talking here about love, not disgust, and it is much more diffi cult to see what argument could be given for the claim that love is always likely to be unwise, or connected to bad policy choices.

Perhaps the objection, instead, is to the idea of the nation as object of love. Some believe that the very idea of the nation is a pri

mitive one, to
be superseded ultimately by the universal love of all humanity (and, presumably, the creation of a world state). But that argument itself needs to be stated and examined. I myself have argued that even in a world dedicated to the pursuit of global justice, the nation has a valuable role to play, as the largest unit we know so far that is suffi ciently accountable to people and expressive of their voices.15 And even though we cannot deny that attachment to one nation has often been linked with the denigration of other nations, there appears to be no necessity to this: we can, and often do, imagine nations as cooperating toward common goals. Similarly, love of one?s own family has often been linked to the wish to denigrate or subordinate other people?s families, but this need not be: we may think that all families deserve a decent level of support, and family love can be securely tethered to that norm.

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Most often the misplaced- values objection is probably to be parsed as follows: Emotions are always dangerous: look what trouble they have caused in this case and in that. We can do without them as we pursue our good values. So we?d better do that. There are, however, several problems with this very common way of thinking. First, the objector typically lists the bad goals that emotions have supported (Nazism, religious persecutions, unjust and unwise wars) and not the good (the abolition of slavery, the civil rights movement, the cause of greater economic justice, just and wise wars, the enfranchisement of women). Does the objector believe, for example, that Hitler could have been defeated without strong passions connected to the idea of the survival of one?s own nation, whether it be Britain or the United States? That Winston Churchill?s appeal for ?blood, sweat, and tears,? and other emotional appeals of that same sort, were irrelevant to stiff ening Britain?s resolve in that diffi cult time? Second, as this example already suggests, the objector just assumes that good goals propel themselves into existence and sustain themselves without any strong emotional motivation. History, I believe, proves that picture wrong. When people don?t care enough about something to endure hardship for it, things usually go badly. Edward VIII was not an adequate leader, because he did not display (or, probably, possess) strong emotions about Britain?s sovereignty, and he did not encourage others to have those emotions. Third, the objector seems to forget that the bad goals and bad emotions don?t disappear as we calmly pursue the good, so the question of what happens to the emotionless good in competition with the emotion- laden bad is not posed. (Once again: imagine combating the canny propaganda machine of Hitler?s Germany, so full of emotive devices, without any sources of love or emotional motivation.)
The best response to give to this group of objections is that we must be extremely vigilant about the values we encourage people to love and pursue, and we must encourage continued vigilance by the cultivation of a critical public culture, the teaching of history in a critical mode, and the teaching of critical thinking and ethical reasoning in the schools. As we?ll see, this can be done.
One way to avoid this danger is to make sure that the narrative of the nation?s history and current identity is not exclusionary, not emphasizin

hat the pledge
was, to them, a violation of religious requirements.20 Nonetheless, the local school board had no sympathy for their arguments, contending that their objections were not genuinely religious. Eventually their complaint reached the U.S. Supreme Court, where they lost.

Minersville v. Gobitis21 is one of the most infamous cases in the history of the U.S. Supreme Court. A number of factors explain the result. Joseph Rutherford, leader of the Witnesses, argued the case himself and did a very bad job. More important still, Felix Frankfurter?s strong views about patriotism carried the day. Frankfurter stressed throughout? both in his majority opinion here and in his later dissent in West Virginia State Board of Education v. Barnette22? his personal sympathy with the situation of the Gobitas children. ?One who belongs to the most vilifi ed and persecuted minority in history is not likely to be insensible to the freedoms guaranteed by our Constitution,? he wrote, at the time the lone Jew on the Court.23 Nonetheless, his strong views about the limits of judicial power, combined with his fervent patriotism,24 led him to conclude that the regulation requiring the pledge was not unconstitutional. His patriotic fervor outlived the controversy over his two opinions: in 1944, as speaker for the District of Columbia?s I Am an American Day celebration, he compared love of country to romantic love, saying that it was too intimate an emotion to be publicly expressed except in poetry. He then read a rather sentimental ode to the fl ag by Franklin K. Lane, which included the lines ?I am not the fl ag, not at all. I am but its shadow.?25 Frankfurter, then, shows the dangers of coercion that do at times inhere in a sincere and fervent patriotism. It is understandable, if

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not commendable, that the world situation in 1939 led him to take this enthusiasm too far.

In Minersville, Frankfurter grants that the First Amendment entails that restriction on conduct expressive of religious conviction can be justifi ed only by ?specifi c powers of government deemed by the legislature essential to secure and maintain that orderly, tranquil, and free society without which religious toleration itself is unattainable.?26 He then argues that national unity and cohesion supply the state with ?an interest inferior to none in the hierarchy of values.?27 The school board?s view that requiring the pledge is crucial to promote that central interest is plausible, since the fl ag is ?the symbol of our national unity, transcending all internal diff erences, however large.?28 He does not, however, address the real question in the case: Is it plausible to hold that national unity and cohesion require enforcing the pledge rule against a small number of children with sincere religious objections? He focuses on the general issue of national unity in a time of danger, rather than the conscientious acts of two respectful teenagers who certainly would not be imitated by their scoffi ng peers. So Justice Harlan F. Stone pointed out in his stinging dissent: ?I cannot say that the incon ve niences which may attend some sensible adjustment of school discipline in order that the religious convictions of these children may be spared, presents a problem so momentous or pressing as to outweigh the freedom from compulsory violation of religious faith which has been thought worth

re, teachers and other school offi cials need to be vigilant in their defense of minorities? religious and po liti cal, and also racial and sexual. The problem of bullying, however, is hardly unique to the issue of patriotism, and it supplies no reason not to teach patriotism that is not also a reason not to educate children in groups at all.

The question of peer pressure brings us to our third objection on the side of Scylla: Won?t a culture in which patriotic emotion is a major theme be likely to be all too solidaristic, all too homogeneous, lacking free spaces for individual expression and for dissent? As with the second issue, we should begin by saying that this is not a problem peculiar to patriotism. As we have seen, human beings are all too prone to defer to peer pressure and obey authority, as Asch and Milgram showed. This problem has beset democracy ever since democracies began to exist. But certainly, strong patriotic emotion might be one area in which people seek to silence critical voices. How might this danger be headed off ? Justice Jackson gives us the best path to follow: we must insist that the truly patriotic attitude is one that repudiates orthodoxy and coercive pressure and celebrates liberties of speech and conscience. His stirring rhetoric is one example of a patriotic statement that can move people powerfully, even while making them think and endorsing the value of dissent. In general, we need to cultivate the critical faculties early and continuously, and to show admiration for them, insisting that critical freedom, not herdlike obedience, is the mark of the true patriot. This can be done in many ways, and some of them involve strong emotions. Children are herd creatures, but they are also, at other times, dissenters, and the joy of freedom and critical dissent can be encouraged from the beginning of a child?s life. In my own case, the serialization in a pop u lar children?s magazine of the captivating story of Sybil Ludington, who rode farther than Paul Revere in the cause of freedom, tapped into a young child?s love of the idea of breaking with tradition and pursuing freedom, linking that idea to the founding ideals of the nation. The idea of America, for me, was thus characterized from the beginning by a strong fl avor of dissent and experimentation, even defi ance, for the sake of justice? a note fi rmly struck in many narratives of the Revolution, then and now, and in many other beloved parts of the American literary

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and fi lmic canon, from Twelve Angry Men to To Kill a Mockingbird. In India, the same has been true, as Gandhi turned many symbols of defi - ance into national symbols, not least Tagore?s song ?Ekla Cholo Re.? Patriotism of the right sort can, it seems, avoid the three dangers represented by Scylla. But still, one might ask, why play with fi re?

IV. Charybdis: ?Watery Motivation?

Given these dangers, one might wonder whether it is not better to dispense with patriotic love altogether, in favor of sentiments more principle- dependent, cooler, and therefore, it might seem, more reliable. Jürgen Habermas takes this course, and one might read John Rawls as taking it, although I believe that in the end his proposal is fully compatible with mine. Habermas?s ?Charybdis? proposal fails to off er a blueprint for the cultivation of strong sustaining emotions because it is insuffi ciently alert to the prob

lem of ?watery motivation.?
The phrase ?watery motivation? comes from Aristotle?s criticism of Plato?s ideal city. Plato tried to remove partiality by removing family ties and asking all citizens to care equally for all other citizens. Aristotle says that the diffi culty with this strategy is that ?there are two things above all that make people love and care for something, the thought that it is all theirs, and the thought that it is the only one they have. Neither of these will be present in that city? (Politics, 1262b22? 23). Because citizens will not think of any child that it is all theirs, entirely their own responsibility, the city will, he says, resemble a house hold in which there are too many servants, so nobody takes responsibility for any task. Because citizens will not think of any child or children that they are the only ones they have, the intensity of care that characterizes real families will simply not appear, and they will have, he says, a ?watery? kind of care all round (1262b15). In short, to make people love something requires making them see it as ?their own,? and preferably also as ?the only one they have.? This point, of course, is the point we have made all along: the major emotions are ?eudaimonistic,? tied to the person?s conception of fl ourishing and the circle of concern that is involved in any such conception. To make people care, you have to make them see the object of potential care as in some way ?theirs? and ?them.?

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Pu blic Emot ions
Let us now examine two highly principle- based accounts of patriotic emotion, those of John Rawls and Jürgen Habermas. Both accounts are promising, and yet both prompt us to raise Aristotle?s question, since one might wonder whether the sentiments they cultivate will prove distant and anemic.
John Rawls?s account of po liti cal emotions is not mechanistic: like mine, it relies on imagination and a story of an object. He also recognizes the obstacle to general concern posed by the narrowness of altruistic emotion.39 His solution takes the form of a detailed account of the way in which family love may be extended, over time, to become a broader type of associational love, and how this love, in turn, can be extended to the po liti cal principles that shape the nation. The basic psychological principle is that of reciprocity: we have a tendency to love and care for those who manifestly love and care for us. The existence of this psychological law Rawls takes to be ?a deep psychological fact.?40 First, this happens in the family: children recognize their parents? love and care for them, and they come to love their parents in return. Second, given that a surrounding system of social associations is ?just and publicly known by all to be just,? people develop ?ties of friendly feeling and trust toward others in the association as they with evident intention comply with their duties and obligations, and live up to the ideals of their station.?41 Finally, given that people have passed through the fi rst two stages, and given that they see that the basic institutions governing their society are just, they develop a sense of justice and sentiments supportive of those institutions.
Rawls?s account is rich and, especially in the context of its time, bold in the way in which it confronts psychological issues that phi los o phers usually did not address. And yet it prompts three questions. First, don?t

s account has gaps but can be fruitfully developed. A moralized account of supportive sentiment that really does seem vulnerable to Aristotle?s objection was off ered by Jürgen Habermas, in his defense of a ?constitutional patriotism.?43 Once again, it is to his great credit that Habermas sees the need for some type of emotional support for good politi cal principles and proposes to address the question. Nonetheless, unlike Rawls, he does not even get to the point of off ering a picture of what emotions are like and how they work, and his vision is so moralized and so abstract that one can?t have any confi dence that it would work in real life. His reticence is no doubt comprehensible.44 Germany?s past makes people particularly squeamish about any appeal to strong emotion in the po liti cal realm, and it is consequently particularly diffi cult to address the topic of patriotic emotion there. What Germany?s history shows, however, is that people defending liberal values must not cede the terrain of emotion cultivation to fascists, or else they will certainly have to cede much more in the long run.45 (One might refl ect on Habermas?s proposal, intended for the Eu ro pe an Union, in connection with recent problems in that entity. One way of thinking about the argument of this book is to think about what the Eu ro pe an Union has so far lacked.)
A likely source of Habermas?s excessive abstractness is his strong commitment to impartiality. Since Habermas tells us little about how this commitment plays out in emotional terms, it will prove useful to see it how led an admirable thinker and po liti cal leader into the whirl pool of Charybdis: Marcus Aurelius, the Stoic phi los o pher and Roman emperor, whose Meditations, one of the most widely read works in the Western philosophical canon, was written while on campaign in Parthia, thus while he was actively leading his people in a military eff ort.46 Marcus tells us that the fi rst lesson he learned from his tutor was ?not to be a fan of the Greens or Blues at the races, or the light- armed or heavy-armed gladiators at the Circus? (I.5). His imagination had to unlearn its intense partiality and localism. It is signifi cant that the negative image for the moral imagination is that of sports fandom, for in all ages, perhaps, that has been such a natural way for human beings to imagine yet other types of loyalty, to family, city, and nation.

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The question is whether this negative lesson leaves the personality enough resources to motivate intense concern with people anywhere. For Marcus, unlearning partiality requires an elaborate and systematic program of uprooting concern for all people and things in this world. He tells us of the meditative exercises that he regularly performs in order to get himself to the point at which the things that divide people from one another do not matter to him.
But getting to the point where we can give such concern evenhandedly to all human beings requires, as Marcus makes abundantly clear, the systematic extirpation of intense cares and attachments directed at the local: one?s family, one?s city, the objects of one?s love and desire. Thus Marcus needs to learn not only not to be a sports fan, but also not to be a lover. Consider the following extraordinary passage:
How important it is to represent to oneself, when it comes to fancy dishes and other such f

oods, ?This is the corpse of a fi sh, this other
thing the corpse of a bird or a pig.? Similarly, ?This Falernian wine
is just some grape juice,? and ?This purple vestment is some sheep?s
hair moistened in the blood of some shellfi sh.? When it comes to
sexual intercourse, we must say, ?This is the rubbing together of
membranes, accompanied by the spasmodic ejaculation of a sticky
liquid.? How important are these repre sen ta tions, which reach the
thing itself and penetrate right through it, so that one can see what it
is in reality. (VI.13)47

Unlearning partiality means learning to think of sex as just the rub-
bing of membranes: it requires, that is, learning not to fi nd special value
or delight in a par tic u lar. Not being a fan of the Blues means, too, not
being a fan of this body or that body, this soul or that soul, this city or
that city. This is the Platonic project that Aristotle criticizes, fully and
conscientiously executed.

But getting rid of his erotic investment in bodies, sports teams, family,
nation? all this leads Marcus into a strange world, a world that is gentle
and unaggressive, but also lonely and hollow. To unlearn the habits of the
sports fan we must unlearn our erotic investment in the world, our attach-
ments to our own team, our own love, our own children, our own life.48

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And this means something like a death within life. For only in a con-
dition close to death, in eff ect, is moral rectitude possible. Marcus tries
repeatedly to think of life as if it is a kind of death already, a pro cession of
meaningless occurrences:

The vain solemnity of a pro cession; dramas played out on the stage;
troops of sheep or goats; fi ghts with spears; a little bone thrown to
dogs; a chunk of bread thrown into a fi sh- pond; the exhausting la-
bor and heavy burdens under which ants must bear up; crazed mice
running for shelter; puppets pulled by strings . . . (VII.3)49

The best consolation for that bleak conclusion comes also from the
thought of death:

Think all the time about how human beings of all sorts, and from all
walks of life and all peoples, are dead. . . . We must arrive at the same
condition where so many clever orators have ended up, so many grave
phi los o phers, Heraclitus, Pythagoras, Socrates; so many heroes of the
old days, so many recent generals and tyrants. And besides these,
Eudoxus, Hipparchus, Archimedes, other highly intelligent minds,
thinkers of large thoughts, hard workers, versatile in ability, daring
people, even mockers of the perishable and transitory character of hu-
man life, like Menippus. Think about all of these that they are long
since in the ground. . . . And what of those whose very names are for-
gotten? So: one thing is worth a lot, to live out one?s life with truth and
justice, and with kindliness toward liars and wrongdoers. (VI.47)

Because we shall die, we must recognize that everything par tic u lar
about us will eventually be wiped out. Family, city, sex, children, all will
pass into oblivion. So really, giving up those attachments is not such a
big deal. What remains, and the only thing that remains, is truth and
justice, the moral order of the world. In the face of the looming inevita-
bility of our end, we should not mind being dead already. Only the true
city should claim our allegiance.

Marcus is alarming because he has gone deep into the foundations
of impartialist ?patriotism,? a patr

fting a presidency strong enough to hold the nation together, without being a kingship or a potential dictatorship; so too were symbols and the conduct of the offi ce?s fi rst occupant. Although George Washington has often been thought more a military than po liti cal leader, he proved remarkably thoughtful in the way he approached this challenge.
Many stories of the American Revolution that were already becoming proverbial at the end of the Revolution? and which are still taught to children today? fi re the imagination with the thought of citizen equals fi ghting tyranny. The famous bloody feet of the soldiers (and their offi cers) at Valley Forge are a sign of the courage and determination of the patriots in the cause of freedom. The drunken Hessians taken by surprise at Trenton are symbols of monarchical corruption, outfl anked, as such corruption always must be (the story goes), by patriot shrewdness and resourcefulness. In the famous painting ?Washington Crossing the Delaware? by Emanuel Gottlieb Leutze, Washington is there in the front of the boat, but the painting and the usual accompanying narrative still tell a patriot story, a liberty story, not a story in which the common people remain passively dependent on the care of a fatherly ruler.

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Washington was charismatic (tall, dashing, a fi ne horse man), and also famous and beloved as a military hero. But he was also already a patriot hero, fi rst among citizen equals, and thus well positioned to undertake the delicate negotiation between an excess of monarchical paternalism and an excess of unemotional routine. It is now clear, thanks to Ron Chernow?s pathbreaking (and Pulitzer Prize? winning) biography, that Washington thought about these issues with unusual subtlety.53 Anti-Federalists such as infl uential historian and playwright Mercy Otis Warren probably would not have been happy with any choices made by Washington in his role as president, since they opposed the offi ce as quasi- monarchical. Warren loved the Roman Republic and the fi gure of Brutus,54 and she would have preferred not to have a strong executive. In this situation, with many doubts about whether the presidency was compatible with republican virtue and liberty, we can appreciate the shrewdness of Washington?s choices.
Already as commander he made a point of emphasizing the vulnerable humanity he shared with his soldiers: a famous story describes him suddenly putting on reading glasses during a speech and commenting, ?I have grown gray in your ser vice and now fi nd myself growing blind.?55 He astonished foreign visitors by the simplicity of his dress: ?[A]n old blue coat faced with buff , waistcoat and britches . . . seemingly of the same age and without any lace upon them composed his dress.?56 When he was subsequently elected as the nation?s fi rst president, he acknowledged the diffi culty of crafting this new offi ce and the importance of his judgment for the nation?s future: ?I should consider myself as entering upon an unexplored fi eld, enveloped on every side with clouds and darkness.?57
One of the greatest dangers, as anti- Federalists saw it, was that the presidency would become hereditary. Already upset at Washington?s membership in the Society of the Cincinnati, a patriotic club in which membership initially was hereditary, they were somewhat assuaged by the fact that Washingto

nument, just south of the National Mall, designed by architect Frank Gehry,63 features as its centerpiece a roofl ess classical temple; the colonnade supports a metal screen that carries images (metallic tapestries) of the Kansas landscape, and it will include a repre sen ta tion of Eisenhower as a boy amid the cornfi elds of Kansas, as well as two very large bas-reliefs of the mature Eisenhower, one as general and one as president. Two of Eisenhower?s grandchildren have objected to the design as too humble and not heroic enough.

Public monuments are frequently controversial at fi rst? including the Vietnam Veterans Memorial, the Lincoln Memorial, and the now iconic Picasso sculpture in Daley Plaza in Chicago,64 whose abstractness drew jeers at fi rst, but whose humor and zest are now beloved. In the case of the proposed Eisenhower Memorial, the par tic u lar objection of the grandchildren seems seriously misplaced. What a military hero who becomes president needs above all to beware of is deifi cation; Eisenhower?s own tendency to refer to himself as a ?Kansas farm boy? was, like Washington?s brown suit, a way of defl ecting idolatry, and it should be honored in honoring him.

Lincoln?s Gettysburg Address and Second Inaugural:
A National Narrative Pointing toward Justice

The Gettysburg Address (November 19, 1863) is one of the defi ning documents of education in the United States. Children memorize it, and learn from it the ideals to which they ought to dedicate themselves. Its brevity, thought a disgrace at the time, has proven a great asset in forging sentiments in generation after generation. Studying it, we can see how a narrative of the nation? including its past history, its founding ideals, and its possible future? plays a central role in Lincoln?s attempt to make

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people willing to continue to shoulder the emotional and physical burdens of an extremely painful and doubtful war, in which victory was undoubtedly crucial for the nation?s future and that of her ideals. Here it is in its entirety:

Four score and seven years ago our fathers brought forth on this continent, a new nation, conceived in Liberty, and dedicated to the proposition that all men are created equal.

Now we are engaged in a great civil war, testing whether that nation, or any nation so conceived and so dedicated, can long endure.

We are met on a great battle- fi eld of that war. We have come to dedicate a portion of that fi eld, as the fi nal resting place for those who here gave their lives that that nation might live. It is altogether fi tting and proper that we should do this.

But, in a larger sense, we cannot dedicate? we cannot consecrate? we cannot hallow? this ground. The brave men, living and dead, who struggled here, have consecrated it, far above our power to add or detract. The world will little note, nor long remember what we say here, but it can never forget what they did here. It is for us the living, rather, to be dedicated here to the unfi nished work which they who fought here have thus far so nobly advanced. It is rather for us to be here dedicated to the great task remaining before us? that from these honored dead we take increased devotion to the cause for which they here gave the last full mea sure of devotion? that we here highly resolve that these dead shall not have died in vain? that this nation, under God, shall have a new birth

ing cannot hallow the ground:
only the bravery of the fallen can do so. Living people are thus led toward an attitude of reverential emulation of the sacrifi ce of the dead. Next, Lincoln famously asks that dedication of the living: we are all to be dedicated to the task of preserving the American democracy, and to giving it ?a new birth of freedom.? He ends on the note of urgency he has sounded throughout: the struggle is really a struggle over whether such a democracy itself can exist.

Lincoln?s speech contains appeals to a constitutional patriotism that would have pleased defenders of abstract principle such as Rawls and Habermas. But it does much more. In its vivid invocation of the founding, its heartfelt mourning for the fallen soldiers, its appeal to renewed commitment, it puts historical and contemporary fl esh on these moral bones. If it had lacked these eudaimonistic elements, the speech would not have succeeded in getting people to embrace the principles. The very rhythm and resonance of his language reaches beneath principle to touch springs of emotional attachment.

Lincoln developed this idea of the nation further in his Second Inaugural Address, delivered on March 4, 1865. Since it is a much lengthier speech than the Gettysburg Address, I quote only a few key passages:

. . . On the occasion corresponding to this four years ago all thoughts were anxiously directed to an impending civil war. All dreaded it, all sought to avert it. While the inaugural address was being delivered from this place, devoted altogether to saving the Union without war, urgent agents were in the city seeking to destroy it without war? seeking to dissolve the Union and divide eff ects by negotiation. Both parties deprecated war, but one of them would make war rather than let the nation survive, and the other would accept war rather than let it perish, and the war came.

One eighth of the whole population were colored slaves, not distributed generally over the Union, but localized in the southern part of it. These slaves constituted a peculiar and powerful interest. All knew that this interest was somehow the cause of the war. . . . Both read the same Bible and pray to the same God, and each invokes His

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aid against the other. It may seem strange that any men should dare to ask a just God?s assistance in wringing their bread from the sweat of other men?s faces, but let us judge not, that we be not judged. . . . With malice toward none, with charity for all, with fi rmness in the right as God gives us to see the right, let us strive on to fi nish the work we are in, to bind up the nation?s wounds, to care for him who shall have borne the battle and for his widow and his orphan, to do all which may achieve and cherish a just and lasting peace among ourselves and with all nations.

A key feature of the Gettysburg Address was its emphasis on the nation?s singleness: it is a single ?people,? not a collection of states.72 The Second Inaugural Address continues this task of reimagination, constructing the nation with care and subtlety, using sonorous parallelisms. It includes both North and South as full elements in the nation, but positions the Union as the side that wanted and desperately tried to avoid division. The survival of the unitary nation??nation? is used interchangeably with ?Union?? is the starting point: the South would make war rathe

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than see it survive, and the North was willing to accept war rather than see it perish. Thus the two sides are asymmetrical in their relationship to the nation: the secessionist struggle of the South is portrayed as a war of aggression against the body of the nation, and the Union?s response is portrayed as a just response. The speech inspires a love of the nation?s wholeness and a determination to protect it from that aggression.

The situation of the slaves now enters the picture, and the fact that the South was motivated by greed is emphasized, as Lincoln constructs a patriotism that rises above narrow self- interest. On the one hand, then, we have people motivated by self- interest, who ?wring their bread from the sweat of other men?s faces?? resonant quasi- biblical language? and even ask God to help them do it. On the other hand, we fi nd those who would include the slaves as human beings and as citizens who count, totaling one- eighth of the population. The nation is now allied with respect, equality, inclusion, and a transcendence of narrow self- interest, the secessionist movement with egoism and false religion. Lincoln is alive to the role played by disgust and stigma in racism: disgust is sternly

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countered by insisting on the full and equal humanity of the slaves, who are ?other men? with ?faces? like one?s own. (Note that it would have been easier to say ?bodies,? but Lincoln places his emphasis on the site of humanity.)

Finally, however, the speech appeals, famously, to mercy and forgiveness, since the nation is wounded and its wounds must be ?bound up.? By personifying the nation as a wounded soldier, he evokes compassion for all. Mercy is not acquittal? it does not compromise ?fi rmness in the right?? but it gives us a way of going on together into an uncertain future.

The urgent need for reconciliation may have led Lincoln to stress a nonjudgmental attitude of forgiveness prematurely. A critic might argue that mercy for the convicted is compatible with condemnation, whereas forgiveness is not appropriate? unless there is, fi rst, apology and change of heart? and Lincoln?s ?judge not? blurs the distinction between these two attitudes.73 On the other hand, one might reply that the speech is actually shrewd and also generous, rising above partisanship and seeking reconciliation, trying to create a united ?us? once again, while continuing to blame the South.74 These aspects of the speech still give rise to controversy. Nonetheless, there can be little doubt that its sentiment of healing was urgently needed at the time, and contributed to at least the fi rst stage of a reconciliation that is still in pro cess.

Once again, the rhetoric of the speech is part of its meaning. Its sentiments are not simply abstract sentiments directed at constitutional principles. Its use of image and narrative, its rhythmic cadences of language, and its pithy and memorable phrases make the moral principles come alive. It has been observed that at times the speech verges on the musical, its cadences approaching those of a hymn.75 Like the Gettysburg Address, it is easily memorized by children, forging their deepest images and, later, memories of what their nation is. Said in schools by black and white children together, it reminds them of the history of pain and struggle, but also of the evidence that respect, love, and sheer endurance can

restrained and critical of violence: they must, in Gandhian fashion, attain moral superiority by forgoing violent deeds. Like Gandhi, who was a major inspiration, he makes nonviolence seem high, ?majestic,? and violence look sordid. At the same time, like Lincoln, King appeals to trust between the races, reminding his followers that many white people are present and have joined the struggle for justice: ?We cannot walk alone.? By cultivating hope and trust, along with legitimate anger and insistent criticism, he defuses the urge to violence.

The visionary ?I have a dream? section of the speech, so well known, is central to the speech?s construction of an image of a future America in which all may join together on terms of equality. But then, immediately following upon this vision of a new America, King returns to national memory and national tradition by quoting in full the famous song ?America,? or ?My Country ?Tis of Thee.? Very signifi cantly, he now says, ?And if America is to be a great nation, this must become true.? In other words, the song, which people usually sing complacently, as the account of a reality, is itself prophecy, and its words of freedom must be made true by committed action for justice. Even that complacent song, then, is turned into an exercise of the critical faculties.

The next section of the speech can well be described in the language of jazz, as a series of riff s on the song, as freedom is asked to ring from a series of regions of America. What is going on here? Several very interesting things. First, the image of America is being made concrete and physical by being linked to well- known features of geography. Second, geography itself is being moralized: the mountains of New York are now not just mountains, they are sites of freedom. Third, the body of the nation is being personifi ed in a sensuous, indeed sexy way: the ?heightening Alleghenies,? the ?curvaceous slopes.? (Thus the invitations to disgust so ubiquitous in malign patriotism are replaced by an embrace of the sensuous reminiscent of Walt Whitman.) But also: the end of the

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Civil War is fi nally at hand, as freedom is asked to ring from a series of sites in the South. In a manner reminiscent of Lincoln?s Second Inaugural Address, King expresses malice toward none and charity toward all. The note of sly humor as he gets in his dig at Mississippi (?let freedom ring from every hill and every molehill of Mississippi?) is a reminder that bad behavior has not been forgotten; King thus avoids Lincoln?s ambiguity about blame for bad deeds. Justifi ed resentment has, however, been transcended in a surge of joy whose object is the nation of the future.

Like Lincoln?s speeches, King?s ends on a global note: the victory of integration in America will ?speed up that day when all of God?s children? will enjoy freedom. Thus critical patriotism melds naturally into a striving for global justice and an inclusive human love.

Lincoln and King express, and inspire in others, a profound love of America and a pride in her highest ideals. They do so, however, while constructing a narrative of America that is aspirational, foregrounding the best values to which America may be thought to be committed, and also deeply and explicitly critical, showing that America has failed to live up to her ideals. Both sound a note of critical yet hopeful rededication. The spee

ches seem made for critical pedagogy, for they lead natu-
rally into classroom discussion: Where did America go wrong? What
might be good ways of realizing the dream inherent in national ideals?
How, even today, are we falling gravely short of the promise in our
founding documents?

VI. India: Two Anthems, Two Flags

The case of India concerns the founding of a nation. There are no ca-
nonical documents or traditions, no memories? at least no shared and
canonical memories? of long- past struggles that can command the
agreement and the sentiments of all. Indeed, to this day a struggle con-
tinues over the proper image of the nation and its history, as partisans of
the Hindu right endeavor to characterize that history as one of indige-
nous Hindu peace and alien domination, fi rst by Muslims and then by
(British) Christians.76 Gandhi and Nehru, setting out to forge the image
of a pluralistic India, united by commitment to a truly shared history of

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struggle for self- rule and by a shared commitment to the nation?s people,
had an uphill battle, since colonial oppression bred in many a strong
desire to perform deeds of manly aggression, countering perceived hu-
miliation with tough- guy domination. Their struggle involved, then, not
just a set of ideals that were controverted by other more exclusionary
ideals, but a conception of true manliness and strong patriotism that was
controverted by a more warlike form of patriotism.

This contest of ideals is neatly exemplifi ed by the debate, which is
ongoing, over which of two songs should be the national anthem of In-
dia. ?Jana Gana Mana? is rejected by the Hindu Right as too inclusive
and not warlike enough; they prefer Bankim?s ?Bande Mataram,? which
urges warlike aggression, uncritical devotion, and a Hindu conception
of India?s identity. ?Jana Gana Mana,? as I argued in Chapter 4, culti-
vates a patriotism that is sensuous and passionate, but at the same time
moral, highly inclusive, and friendly to the critical spirit.77

There is a parallel debate about the Indian fl ag. The offi cial national
fl ag, designed by Gandhi and Nehru and adopted at a meeting of the
Constituent Assembly in July 1947, shortly before in de pen dence, is
based on an earlier fl ag of the Indian National Congress. It has at its cen-
ter the wheel of law, a symbol associated with the Buddhist emperor
Ashoka, a favorite historical fi gure of Nehru?s because he fostered reli-
gious toleration and a spirit of brotherhood. It is, then, a symbol of reli-
gious inclusiveness, nonviolence, and the supremacy of law over faction
and sect. If a fl ag can suggest the critical spirit, this one does so. The
colors of the fl ag are also signifi cant. The saff ron color represents cour-
age; white represents truth and purity (crucial to Gandhi?s reformulation
of Hinduism); the green signifi es peace and prosperity. The linkage of
the three colors suggests that courage and sacrifi ce are to be pursued in
a way compatible with Gandhian truth (i.e., inclusion of all citizens as
equals), and with the goal of peace and prosperity for all. Equally signifi -
cant is the law regarding the material composition of the fl ag: it is to be
made of khadi, or cloth made from hand- spun thread. It is thus an out-
growth of Gandhi?s critique of caste and class, since hand- spinning, in
his movement, symbolized the renunciation of elitism and privilege and
an embrace of

success in forging an activist and yet
critical patriotism for the new nation, a vast majority of whose inhabitants could not read and write, owes little to his writings. What Gandhi brilliantly did was to make his own body a living symbol of a conception of the nation that was at one and the same time traditional and revisionary, stirring and highly critical. In keeping with his idea that the essential site of national struggle is inside each person, a struggle to conquer greed and anxious desires for domination of others in favor of compassionate concern, he portrayed himself as someone whose entire life focused on that struggle against greedy desire. His lean and yet vigorous physical persona, developed by walking hundreds of miles, showed a body that was devoted to justice for all, not to personal gratifi cation, and certainly not to aggression. And knowledge of his abstemious personal practices (a vegetarian diet without dairy products, a vow of celibacy) colored people?s response to the body they beheld. His repeated fasts for po liti cal ends dramatically used bodily renunciation in the pursuit of truth.
Gandhi did not fashion himself in a vacuum: he relied heavily on traditional Hindu images of the ascetic sannyasi, which were powerfully evocative, yet risked bolstering an exclusionary Hindu- fi rst conception of national identity. He therefore had to be very careful lest his image of the nation seem Hindu in any exclusionary way. Consequently, throughout his life he took care to put Muslims in central positions in his freedom movement and to turn to them at what we might call key ritual moments. Thus, his famous fast unto death in 1947 was broken when he

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turned to Maulana Azad, a Muslim cleric and Congress party leader, and asked him for some orange juice and some bread. In doing so, he broke totally with traditional Hindu ideas of purity, which were exclusionary along lines of both caste and religion. Wielding the enormous power of traditional asceticism, he at the same time diverted it to an utterly new cause. As Rajmohan Gandhi summarizes, ?All in all, curiosity and warmth were the Muslims? strongest instincts towards Gandhi, and they noticed his regard for their sensitivities.?81
More problematic, in my view, was Gandhi?s attempt to use his body as a symbol of gender equality. He created a persona that was found androgynous by many who met him; the words ?childlike? and ?maternal? frequently occur in discussions of the impression he made. And of course he often represented the vow of brahmacharya, or celibacy, as pro- women, a device to free women from men?s sexual demands. He included women prominently in his circle. For Gandhi, the fi ght against aggression could be won only by a violent repudiation of the body and its erotic longings. In a marvelous imaginary dialogue with the dead leader in Gandhi?s Truth, psychologist Erik Erikson says to him, ?You should stop terrorizing yourself, and approach your own body with nonviolence.?82 Only when we can accept our own bodies and their sexuality without the violence of moralistic denial, he argues, will we really be able to surmount the tendencies to violent domination of others that lurk in every society. Tagore, by contrast, sought to empower women as full agents, including erotic agents. He accepted the profound eroticism of the mother-child relationship and

es. That its twin ide-
als are truth and freedom. Gandhi?s body thus constructed a bridge from people?s sense of their own life narratives to abstract principles.
When, at the culminating moment of this drama, Gandhi bathes in the sea and makes salt illegally, letting the water evaporate in his hand, a nation has been born.
Both supremely moral and supremely strategic, Gandhi knew that when the eyes of the world were on India, dignifi ed nonviolent behavior both seemed and was strong and self- governing. Repeatedly? as in the famous protest at the Dharasana Salt Works? he knew how to theatrical-
ize the moral superiority of the India cause, arranging episodes of civil re sis tance that would surely lead to countless Indians getting beaten up by British soldiers; the latter?s violence looked increasingly desperate and small, while Indians resisted with dignity and nonviolence.87 In the pro cess, he made both his followers and countless others see manliness in a new way: the body that stood with dignity, taking blows, looked strong and proud. The body that kept dishing out the blows looked ut-
terly at sea, hopelessly weak, not able to touch what it was trying to con-
trol. These acts of re sis tance were often accompanied by the Tagore song, a reminder that true national love requires constant critical vigi-
lance and the willingness to defy convention.
Was Gandhian patriotism critical enough? One might have doubts, and Tagore surely did, expressing concern at Gandhi?s unwillingness to change his mind in response to argument.88 Gandhi, however, was not Sandip of Ghare Baire. He was gentle, respectful, and receptive. Partic-
ularly in his correspondence and his lifelong friendship with Jawaharlal Nehru, we see intense critical exchanges that create an attractive image of respectful dialogue for the new democracy. This too was constantly on public display.
Gandhian patriotism asked a lot of people. It asked the rich to live in solidarity with the poor and to make huge sacrifi ces of personal comfort. It asked all men to adopt a new type of nonviolent manliness that itself entailed a great deal of sacrifi ce, since revenge is pleasant. Only the use of symbols, Gandhi repeatedly said, could succeed in making people

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willing to take on these diffi cult tasks. Fortunately, he was a brilliant forger of symbols, symbols that moved because they were old and yet included because they were utterly new.
Nehru?s ?Tryst with Destiny? Speech: Work and Striving
Gandhi was a revolutionary. He was not a politician, and he could not have led a nation on a daily basis, dealing with legislatures, courts, and foreign leaders. Nor could he have administered economic policy: his ideas on that score were naïve and romantic. Thus the creation of India was in fact a complex partnership. At the founding of the new nation, the task of articulating its goals fell to Jawaharlal Nehru, the masterful politi-
cian who led India from 1947 to 1964. The speech that he delivered on the eve of in de pen dence is another landmark of critical patriotism.
It would have been easy to celebrate that auspicious occasion by de-
lighted bashing of Britain, or simply by celebration of the victory that had just been achieved. Nehru takes a very diff erent course. The speech is yet another example of the public construction of a story of the nation (and thus of an ?us?) that is at once inspiring an

ed to all cabinet ministers.91 In a cost- cutting mea sure,
he removed the air- conditioning.92 And he opened the grounds to the
public. As historian Judith Brown concludes, ?His whole lifestyle was in
a sense iconic of the new nation and also of the new relationship between
government and people, in contrast to the contrived display of the impe-
rial regime and British concern for social separation and security as a
small group of foreigners.?93

These examples show us that patriotism can be inspiring, making the
nation an object of love and cultivating extended compassion, while also
activating rather than silencing the critical faculties. Such achievements
are always unstable, since love needs to be cultivated anew in each
generation, and kept alive throughout people?s lives. Let us now ask how
schools can contribute to this mission.

VII. Patriotism in the Schools: Content and Pedagogy

The topic of teaching patriotism in the schools is part of the far larger
topic of how schools form citizens, a topic that would require us to talk
about the importance of the humanities and arts for a decent public cul-
ture.94 Our larger question about the formation of a citizen who is both
loving and critical requires an entire account of how critical thinking
is taught at various ages, how Socratic pedagogy complements that
content, and how the imaginative ability to inhabit the points of view of

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people diff erent from the self can be refi ned and cultivated at diff erent
ages. All this I have discussed elsewhere,95 and so I shall confi ne myself
here to a very narrow understanding of my topic, speaking only about
the formation of emotions explicitly directed toward the nation and its
story. Rather than a synthetic account, I shall present a list of maxims
that ought to guide instruction in patriotism. These maxims are but a
supplement to the historical examples given above, which provide a
good idea of how a critical yet loving patriotism works; those examples
would be prominent in any education for patriotism in the schools of
those two nations.

1. Begin with love. Children will not be good dissenters in or critics of a
nation unless they fi rst care about the nation and its history. My own
education did this very well, hooking me in by the dramatic tale of Sybil
Ludington in the Revolution, a character who resonated with my love of
adventure and my ambition to be something daring, a girl who did what
girls usually don?t do. By the time I was seven, I already loved the Ameri-
can founding and saw myself in it? but, and this is important, in a way
that laid the groundwork for a lot of criticism later on, since I saw the
story of America as a story of dissent, of the rejection of false values and
the search for freedom. Something as abstract as po liti cal liberty ac-
quired motivational force through its embodiment in the persona of a
little girl whom I wanted to be, riding horses and pursuing a remark-
able adventure. She was a defi ant girl, not a submissive traditionalist,
and so I linked love of country to that spirit of autonomy. We might say
that the abstract values of liberty and individualism were eroticized?
connected to things such as my father?s love and admiration, and the
feeling of riding a horse. This was an excellent starting point for further
investigations. So start with love, but it is important that from the be-
ginning love should be

ng concept of
America, and if the treatment of a dalit child was un- Indian in the light of that nation?s founding values, what about the treatment we mete out to others (gays and lesbians, people with disabilities)?
As children come to love an America, or an India, that really stands for inclusiveness (reading such poems as Emma Lazarus?s ?The New Colossus,? which contains the line ?Give me your tired, your poor,? or singing ?Jana Gana Mana? and ?Ekla Cholo Re?), they had better also ask disturbing questions about what their nation is doing about poverty today, and whether certain things about America in the present might not be un- American in the light of some of the accounts of patriotism the class has been learning. There will naturally be much debate about this, and it should continue. Not all the positions taken will be congenial to all students and parents. (My father threatened to withdraw me from school when I came home defending FDR and the New Deal. He said that I had been brainwashed by my teachers.)
Once again, the advice to include positional imagining in a par tic u lar way presupposes that teachers are already cultivating the positional imagination in the fi rst place, using theater, narrative, and other arts to develop the capacity to see the world from someone else?s point of view. This cannot be taken for granted.
4. Show the reasons for past wars without demonizing. Since the beginning of the modern nation, one of the serious reservations about patriotic sentiment has been that it leads people to demonize other nations and their people and to charge out unwisely to make war against them. Herder, we recall, urged a ?purifi ed patriotism? that would teach a horror of war and of a ?false statecraft? that would lead to war.

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Here we arrive at one of the most delicate areas of our topic. On the one hand, one of the purposes of patriotic sentiment is to fortify people to endure the hardships of war when they must. So we don?t want people to think that war is always wrong. Here we must reject the guidance of Gandhi, who suggested that if the Axis powers invaded India, Indians should not fi ght back; he proposed reasoning with the Nazis in a nonviolent manner. Nehru, who understood the horrors of fascism well, took profound exception to Gandhi?s pacifi sm concerning the Second World War, and he was correct. On the other hand, we do not want children to learn to rush into wars as if they were occasions for glory rather than bitter struggle. So, learning about the horrors and pains of war is altogether appropriate, despite the fact that it is not always pop ular with parents.
It is appropriate, as well, to learn about the pain that one infl icts upon others. Thus objections to a critical exhibit about Hiroshima and Nagasaki at the Smithsonian Institution in 1994 were misplaced. (Unfortunately, the concessions made by the museum led to alterations in the exhibit96 and to uncontroverted statements that misrepresented the historical record.)97 Teachers and students should debate vigorously in the classroom the case for and against the use of nuclear weapons, but we must begin by acknowledging the terrible toll they took. It is all too easy to stigmatize foreign nationals as subhuman, and to justify war against them in that way. Any wise policy in the area of war and peace begins from the ac know ledg ment that the people on

stand reality, that lovers can?t stand the real
bodies of those they love, that parents can?t embrace children who do not live up to an idealized picture of achievement. Though sometimes true in sad cases, this is a terrible starting point for the education of a nation?s children. Indeed, if par tic u lar children do show diffi culty loving other people once the signs of their bodily reality are manifest, schools should worry about those children and intervene. The mind hooked on perfection is destined to despair.

VIII. Institutional Support Structures

Schools do not exist in a social and po liti cal vacuum. Attempts to teach a patriotism that steers clear of both Scylla and Charybdis will be much more likely to succeed in societies that surround the schools with a set of institutional safeguards. Given the unreliability of majority sentiment, we would be well advised not to trust entirely to the goodwill of local school boards, or even state legislatures, to keep good traditions of patriotism going. Law and institutional structure are essential props to the good in patriotism, and we can mention three factors that will contribute to our getting the good out of patriotic education without the bad.

1. Constitutional rights, and an in de pen dent judiciary. Constitutional rights are bulwarks for minorities against the panic and excess of majorities. Because minorities (such as the Gobitas children) are always at risk from patriotism, which can often whip up majority sentiment against them, patriotism needs to be advanced in conjunction with a fi rm and comprehensive tradition of constitutional rights protecting all citizens, and an in de pen dent judiciary, detached from public bias and panic, as these rights? interpreter.

2. Protections for the rights of immigrants. Patriotism always risks veering into xenophobia, and xenophobia often takes new immigrant groups as its targets. In addition to protections for minorities who already enjoy

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citizens? rights, a decent patriotism needs to be taught in conjunction with fi rm protections for the rights of legal immigrants who are not (or not yet) citizens, and rational and consistent policies and laws concerning illegal immigrants.

3. Freedoms of speech and press. Perhaps the most important factor of all is the one emphasized by Kant, in all of his works about the prospect of a peaceful international community: strong legal protection of the freedom of speech and dissent, and of the freedom of the press; more generally, protection of the voices of intellectuals who play leading roles in shaping a critical public culture. To the extent that a nation succeeds in building such a culture, to that extent it has in every town and region built- in safeguards against the excesses of patriotism run amok. Barnette shows us the importance of the press and its critical freedom to the relatively happy ending to the Minersville story of patriotism run amok.

Love of one?s own nation is not a good thing in itself. Very often it is a very bad thing. National stories can be constructed badly, and even a basically good narrative can be badly taught. Such instruction can do great damage. Nonetheless, a nation that pursues goals that require sacrifi ce of self-interest needs to be able to appeal to love of the nation, in ways that draw on symbol and rhetoric, emotional memory and history? as Washington, Lincol

ainers of the cho-
rus were wealthy citizens, and all its members were male citizens, usually young.5 Lead actors were also usually respected citizens. At the Lenaia, a smaller festival during winter, tragedies were again performed, but comedies joined them: usually fi ve, in competition with one another. They too were part of a civic occasion to which considerable importance was attached.

Dramas, both tragic and comic, were assessed for their message as well as their style, and the accent was on civic refl ection and instruction.6 Even the arrangement of the theater contributed to this emphasis: instead of being seated in the dark, in seeming isolation from one another, gazing ahead at an illuminated spectacle? as in many modern performances? spectators, seated in the sunlight, saw across the staged action the faces of their fellow citizens.

The per for mances were occasions for deep emotion; tales abound of intense emotional reactions on the part of the audience, including pregnant women whom the tragic action precipitated into labor. These emotions, however, were not considered antithetical to the idea of a democracy based upon deliberation and argument: indeed, just the opposite. They were considered important inputs for po liti cal discussion.

Often the input was highly critical? as when Euripides?s Trojan Women invites its audience to question the rightness of the recent decision to kill all the men of the rebellious colony of Melos and to enslave (and rape) the women and children. All too often, people deliberate about the fate of others without having any clear imaginative sense of

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their human reality. A drama such as this promotes an experience that might penetrate that obtuseness, informing future choices. Argument cannot function well without the imagination. Rational deduction alone will not tell us whether women are full- fl edged human beings, or whether rape really hurts. It?s easy to construct a logically valid argument for the conclusion that it is right to enslave the women of Melos. Arguments are only as good as their starting points, and tragedies such as these promote an emotional insight that connects people to the reality not only of what their own side is suff ering but also of what they are doing to others.

All societies need to manage public grief in ways that do not defeat aspiration, and to extend compassion from the local to the general in appropriate ways. All need, too, to create an attitude to the bodies of others that helps citizens overcome a bodily disgust that can easily turn aggressive. Large modern nations cannot precisely replicate the dramatic festivals of ancient Athens, but they can try to understand their po liti cal role and fi nd their own analogues? using po liti cal rhetoric, publicly sponsored visual art, the design of public parks and monuments, public book discussions, and the choice and content of public holidays and celebrations. First, however, they need to understand more deeply what the tragic and comic festivals accomplished. This example is intrinsically, theoretically interesting, and it also happens to be historically infl uential, given the centrality of the ancient Greek classics in the United States, and, really, all over the world.7 As we?ll see, tragic festivals focus on the development of compassion, but do not neglect disgust; comedy of the Aristo

goods
of life that Philoctetes so conspicuously lacks: food, shelter, relief of pain, conversation, nondeceptive friendship, po liti cal voice.
In the Rhetoric, Aristotle off ers a highly infl uential list of the common occasions for tragic compassion. The list is surprisingly timeless: a list of occasions for compassion volunteered by contemporary Americans is very similar.10 And it reads like a plot outline of Sophocles?s play. The list contains two categories: painful and destructive things, and bad things for which luck is responsible. (The rationale for the division is unclear.) In the fi rst group are deaths, bodily damages, bodily affl ictions, old age, illnesses, and lack of food. In the second group are friendlessness; having few friends; being separated from one?s friends and relations; ugliness; weakness; deformity; getting something bad from a source from which you were expecting something good; having that happen many times; the coming of good after the worst has happened; and that no good should befall someone at all, or that one should not be able to enjoy it when it does. Philoctetes has every item on this list excepting old age? including the more unusual ones (getting something bad from a source from which you were expecting something good, having the good come when it is too late to enjoy it). It is as if Aristotle, who clearly knew the play (since he refers to it in the Nicomachean Ethics), used it as a template for his own discussion. In any case, from this list we can see the extent to which the play provides us with a map of compassion and its occasions, as well as the underlying thoughts (seriousness, blamelessness, similarity) that enter into the structure of the emotion.
The play shows the magnitude of these events, making it diffi cult to deny that they matter deeply. We are given incentives to fi ght against these bad things: to alleviate pain, to extend the life span, et cetera. But this struggle is not anthropodenial: it does not express a refusal of the basic conditions of mortal life.
The play shows us, as well, the extent to which deprivation aff ects the mental life itself, poisoning speech and thought. Philoctetes has to think

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all the time of how he is going to get his food; the eff ort to survive is so diffi cult and so continual that it threatens to swallow up other thought. ?Pitiable alike in his pain and his hunger, he has anxieties with no let-up? (185? 187). Second, this eff ort is not a peaceful one: it introduces emotions of agitation and confusion into the inner world. Philoctetes is ?bewildered at each need as it arises? (174? 175). His suff ering is ?spirit-devouring.? He is as helpless as a child without his nurse. Pain infantilizes. Pain and solitude together also make thinking crude. Philoctetes has not used language for years, and he knows that he is ?grown savage? (226). And when pain comes in full force, as the remarkable central scene depicts, it comes perilously close to removing human thought and speech altogether. Philoctetes?s metrical cry ?apappapai papa papa papa papai? (746) shows us the razor?s edge that separates human beings from other animals, for his cry retains meter and thus a semblance of human ordering, but it has lost syntax and morphology, the hallmarks of human language.11 Pain can give us lives unworthy of our human dignity.
Thus the play corrects potent

ial defects in the judgment of serious-
ness: these things matter deeply, and they matter for us all. It also per sis-
tent ly corrects errors in the judgment of fault, for repeatedly Philoctetes
asserts that he is not at fault? a mere accident was the source of his woes.
And in that way the play underlines the idea of similar possibilities,
since if this can happen to this well- intentioned and blameless man, it
could happen to any of us.
Philoctetes is physically disgusting. His isolation is a result of stigma.
Disgust is an undercurrent throughout the play, as Neoptolemus ex-
claims in revulsion on discovering pus- fi lled rags next to Philoctetes?s
dwelling, and as Philoctetes himself expects to be shunned. The play
therefore does something further: it brings spectators close to the life
of an outcast, who has been found not fully human, and it convinces
spectators? like the chorus and ultimately Neoptolemus? of his full and
equal humanity. Tragedies deal with matters that are diffi cult to con-
front, but they do so in a way that is made palatable to a squeamish audi-
ence, by the seductions of poetry, rhythm, and melody. In real life fear
for oneself might lead to paralyzing self- focus, and physical disgust
might lead to distancing and exclusion. By addressing such a scenario,

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but without the sensory qualities that elicit disgust and without the real-
life involvement that could arouse fear, tragedy undermines exclusion.
Many errors in compassion stem from a narrowness in the way we
construct our circle of concern, a part of our innate animal heritage that
is made worse by uniquely human responses of disgust and anthropode-
nial. Nonetheless, we also saw (as Batson?s experiments showed) that an
extension of the circle of concern can be jump- started by a vivid narra-
tive. Tragedies perform the Batson task with enormous skill, deploying
resources of poetry, music, and dance to make the characters? plight
vivid and moving. A person who has been ejected from the characters?
circle of concern is restored to it by the power of art.
Tragic spectatorship, in short, with its insistent focus on bodily vul-
nerability, is a powerful device toward overcoming segmentation in so-
cial life.12 Even if right now the privileged have opportunities and possi-
bilities that are very diff erent from those of the less privileged, tragedy
(taking privileged people, usually, as protagonists) reminds them that
terrible plights are the common lot of all, even the most privileged.
These valuable tendencies are particularly salient in a work such as the
Philoctetes, but they are in many respects inherent in the genre, whose
very plot structure emphasizes common human vulnerability.
Because of its emphasis on common human plights, tragedy also has
an outward or universalizing movement that tends to correct the nar-
rowing focus that Batson?s research shows to be all too prevalent in com-
passion. We said that because of this narrowness emotional experience
needs to be in dialogue at all times with good moral principles, but we
also said that it was a good thing if the emotional experience itself could
contain a bridge toward the universal. Tragedy provides such a bridge.
We still need the conversation with principle, but it helps us get there
from our narrower and more par tic u lar immersions.13 In eff ect, it can
lead us to emotions that are principle- dependent

rds, Arjuna threw away his bow
and arrows, and sat down sorrowfully on the seat of his car.16
Arjuna poses himself not one but two questions. The fi rst question, which I shall call the obvious question, is the question of what he ought to do. That question may be diffi cult to answer. It may also be diffi cult to identify the best method for arriving at the answer. In this case, Arjuna and his advisor Krishna diff er sharply about method, Krishna recommending a single- minded pursuit of duty without thought for the unpleasant consequences, Arjuna proposing a careful consideration of all the foreseeable consequences.17 What is not diffi cult, however, is to see that it is a question that has to be answered, since some action must be taken, and even inaction is, in such a situation, a kind of action. In that sense, the question is obvious; it is forced by the situation. Arjuna cannot be both a loyal dutiful leader of his family and at the same time a preserver of lives of friends and relations on the other side. He has to choose.
The other question is not so obvious, nor is it forced by the situation. It might easily have eluded Arjuna. I shall call this the ?tragic question.? This is, whether any of the alternatives available to Arjuna in the situation is morally acceptable. Arjuna feels that this question must be faced, and that when it is faced, its answer is no. Krishna, by contrast, either simply fails to see the force of the question altogether, or recommends a policy of deliberately not facing it, in order the better to get on with one?s duty.
The tragic question is not simply a way of expressing the fact that it is diffi cult to answer the obvious question. Diffi culty of choice is quite

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in de pen dent of the presence of moral wrong on both sides of a choice. In fact, in this case as in many tragic dilemmas, it is rather clear what Arjuna should do: much though he is tempted to throw away his arrows, that would accomplish nothing, resulting simply in the deaths of many more on his own side, and possibly the loss of their just cause, while countless lives will still be lost on the other side. So he should fi ght. The tragic question registers not the diffi culty of solving the obvious question, but a distinct diffi culty: the fact that all the possible answers to the obvious question, including the best one, are bad, involving serious moral wrongdoing. In that sense, there is no ?right answer.?18
What is the point of asking the tragic question? When we think about Arjuna?s dilemma, it might seem that Krishna has a point: the real question is the obvious question, and the tragic question is just a useless distraction. ?O Arjuna,? he says, ?why have you become so depressed in this critical hour? Such dejection is unknown to noble men; it does not lead to the heavenly heights, and on earth it can only cause disgrace.? Quite right, one may think: when one has seen where one?s duty lies, one ought to get on with it, without tragic moaning and groaning. We don?t want military leaders who self- indulgently wring their hands about the blood they are about to shed, or throw away their arrows to sit sorrowfully on the seats of their cars. It does no good for them to think this way, and it may do harm, weakening their resolve and that of their troops.
On the other hand, one can argue that Arjuna is a better model of deliberation th

an Krishna: even in a case like this, where the tragedy does not look like one that could have been avoided by better po liti cal planning, there is a point to the tragic question. It keeps the mind of the chooser fi rmly on the fact that his action is an immoral action, which it is always wrong to choose. The recognition that one has ?dirty hands? is not just self- indulgence: it has signifi cance for future actions. It informs the chooser that he may owe reparations to the vanquished, and an eff ort to rebuild their lives after the disaster that will have been infl icted on them. When the recognition is public, it constitutes an ac know ledg ment of moral culpability, something that frequently has signifi cance in domestic and international politics.19 Most signifi cantly, it reminds the chooser that he, and we, must not do such things henceforth, except in the very special tragic circumstance he faces here. Slaughtering one?s kin

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is one of the terrible things that it is always tragic to pursue. In that way, facing the tragic question reinforces moral commitments that should be reinforced, particularly in war time.

Arjuna is the person who has a tragic choice to make, and he is also the one who both poses and answers the tragic question. This, of course, is not always the case. Anyone who is aware of the case may pose the question. Thus tragic dilemmas are not just occasions for one involved person?s pondering: they are occasions for public deliberation, as citizens, tragic spectators, seek to get the best account of a situation that may have large public consequences.

There is a further way in which the tragic question brings illumination. Seeing a tragic clash of major values, we naturally ask how things came to such a pass, and whether better planning might have avoided the tragedy. Consider Sophocles?s Antigone.20 Creon tells the entire city that anyone who off ers burial to the traitor Polynices is a traitor to the city, and will be put to death. Antigone cannot accept the edict, because it asks her to violate a fundamental religious obligation to seek burial for her kin. As Hegel correctly argued, each protagonist is narrow, thinking only of one sphere of value and neglecting the claim of the other. Creon thinks only of the health of the city, neglecting the ?unwritten laws? of family obligation. Antigone thinks only of the family, failing to recognize the crisis of the city. We may add that for this very reason each has an impoverished conception not only of value in general but also of his or her own cherished sphere of value. As Haemon points out, Creon fails to recognize that citizens are also members of families, and that therefore a protector of the city who neglects these values is hardly protecting the city at all. Antigone fails to note that families also live in cities, which must survive if the survival of the family is to be ensured.

A person who thought well about Antigone?s choice would see that it is genuinely a tragedy: although there may be a better choice, there is no ?right answer,? because both alternatives contain serious wrongdoing. Burying a traitor is a serious wrong to the city, but for Antigone not to bury him involves a serious religious violation. Because neither sees the tragedy inherent in the situation, because neither so much as poses the tragic question, both are in these two distinct wa

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Often we do not know what arrangements we are capable of making, until we have faced the tragic question with Hegel?s idea in view. Until recently, most nations had not faced up to the tragic choices they were posing every day to women who wanted both to honor their family obligations and to seek paid employment. Many public policies can ease that tension: fl exible work time, paid family leave, incentives to men for sharing domestic labor. But because it had never dawned on most men of that generation to think that a person ought to be able to be both a good primary caretaking parent and a good colleague, they had never bothered to think what very simple changes in arrangements might remove the problem. People just thought, and sometimes said, that the incompatibilities were just the way life is. Things simply cannot be otherwise. Whenever our imaginary citizens are inclined to say this about any clash of values, they should pause, remembering the emotions engendered by tragic spectatorship, and ask Hegel?s question: Is there a rearrangement of our practices that can remove the tragedy? Tragedy is rarely just tragedy. Most often, behind the gloom is stupidity, or selfi shness, or laziness, or malice.

In short, tragic dilemmas have two related roles in the po liti cal life. First, they direct emotional and imaginative attention to fundamental entitlements and to the damage done when these are not present. Pursued thoughtfully, they shape compassion and address some of its likely errors. Second, through the emotionally diffi cult experience of tragic dilemmas, citizens learn that some costs, some losses, have a distinctive nature: they are bad in a distinctive way. No citizen should have to bear

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them. People are then spurred to use their imaginations, thinking how they might construct a world in which such confl icts do not confront citizens, or confront them as rarely as possible. Such a cast of mind is itself progress.

IV. Comedy and the Good Things of Life

The world of the ancient comic festivals seems as diff erent from the world of the tragic festivals as are the costumes of their respective heroes. Grave in tall boots and sober mask, the tragic hero is the embodiment of human dignity. Rotund and shapeless in a padded costume, his perpetual erection signifying a shameful lack of self- control, his public eating a violation of good manners,23 the comic hero? often farting and even shitting in a way that ought to embarrass a person of even minimal dignity? stands for the messy, smelly, uncomfortable body, and the delights it can bring. Still, the two heroes are not so far apart after all. Socrates, his sights fi xed on becoming ?godlike,? transcending our merely human situation, was right to suggest, at the end of the Symposium, that the tragic and comic poets have a single nature.24 Tragedy, we said, emphasizes bodily frailty, encouraging a compassion that overcomes tendencies to arrogant denial of mere humanity. Aristophanic comedy, with its insistent frank and delighted references to bodily functions, asks all spectators to revel in their bodily nature.25 So it?s really two sides of the same coin. Excretion, sex, and sweat are shown as signs of great vulnerability? many of the jokes in Aristophanes turn on the way an ambitious plan is derailed by the need to take a shit, or by the embarrassment of having farted at the

mous play,
Lysistrata (411 bce).28 In the war time Athens of the play (a later and grimmer stage of the war than that relevant to Acharnians),29 men have forgotten about the good things of life. What they love is waving shields and swords around, or prying up things with crowbars. Lysistrata complains that men don?t like to hear alternative viewpoints, or to listen to arguments. When women ask a question about the war, they are told to shut up or given a smack (510? 516). Ask another question, expressing skepticism about the war plans, and they are told, ?Go do your spinning or you?ll get a sound beating. War is men?s business? (519? 520). Threats of force take the place of good counterarguments.
Notice that the men?s world contains neither tragic compassion nor humor. It lacks a sense of the tragic, because it lacks a sense of its own weakness and vulnerability. It lacks a sense of humor for related reasons: men are unable to see anything ridiculous or even slightly odd about themselves. They want to be heroes without fl aw, and they can?t recognize the body as a site of funny events, illustrative of human frailty.
The women of the play are far from heroic: they love drinking and sex. But they also love arguments, and Aristophanes connects their good sense with their focus on the body. They know what is at stake in war: the home deprived of its men (101 ff .); deaths in battle (524), especially deaths of the children they have labored so to bear and bring up (588? 589); women growing old in solitude, unable to marry again, wasting the short space during which a woman can fi nd a husband (591? 597). Peace, by contrast, is imagined, as always in Aristophanes, as a time of sensory delight: food, drink, sex, religious and poetic celebration.
In the exchange with the Athenian offi cial that forms the centerpiece of her argument, Lysistrata proposes that the woman?s art of weaving is a good model for the type of good sense that is badly needed in this confl ict: fi rst washing and combing, as women remove dirt and parasites from the wool, then weaving, as all the separate strands the city contains? migrant workers, foreign friends, metics? are carded together into a basket of goodwill, and woven together into a new outfi t for the city (574? 586). Weaving is an image of constructive po liti cal talk, aimed at the common

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good: each strand has to be taken into account, and all have to be brought together into a coherent whole.
Erections are the device through which the female world wins its triumph. By denying men the control they have come to expect over women?s bodies, the women put them in a ridiculous and humiliated position.30 To walk around with an erection is a confession of a shameful lack of control, over both self and other. Losing their macho authority, the men become capable, ultimately, of sense. As Lysistrata remarks, it is easy to get men to make peace? if you catch them while they are erect, rather than when they are competing aggressively with one another (1112? 1113). The goddess Truce, not surprisingly, has the form of a beautiful woman, and she joins the men together by grabbing hold of any part that happens to be sticking out. The penis, fi rst an emblem of male humiliation and submission, now becomes the emblem of reconciliation, hope, and peace. ?Even though I?m a woman,? Lysistrata remarks at this point,

as Spartans join Athenians, ?I have some good sense, and I don?t do badly for judgment? (1124? 1125).

The end of the play connects bodily play to demo cratic triumph with sudden solemnity. Hands on one another?s organs, Athenian and Spartan men join the women and dance, calling on the Graces, Apollo the healer, Dionysus, and the other gods. In an invocation suggestive of old-time traditions, the Athenians summon Hêsuchia (Stability), a goddess associated with civic tranquility and freedom of action.31 And, in the fi - nal defeat of male shield waving, the Spartans fi rst praise Dionysus and the maenads, and then, dancing, sing in praise of an unnamed goddess who would seem to be the patron of their former enemies, and of the Athenian democracy? Athena.32 The strands have been interwoven so eff ectively that national diff erences break down in the festive dance with which the comedy ends.

Aristophanes suggests, then, that civic stability and peace (even peace with our rivals) is promoted by a spirit of play that focuses on bodily delight. The comic festivals found ingenious ways to celebrate and engender that spirit? inviting us to ask, as did the tragic festivals, how we might perform the same function in a large modern society.

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V. Tragic Spectatorship in Modern Democracies

Modern societies do not have tragic or comic festivals where all citizens gather and all business ceases. How, then, can they promote tragic and comic spectatorship?

Like everything else, tragic spectatorship begins in early childhood, in the family. Children hear stories that involve risk, pain, and loss. Often the central character, whether animal or human, loses a loved one: Bambi and Babar both lose their mothers to hunters? bullets; the king of the elephants dies from eating a poisonous plant. Meanwhile, in real life children often encounter loss fi rst by experiencing the death of a beloved animal. This loss typically prepares them for a later confrontation with human losses.

As children grow older, they are ready to grapple with more realistic accounts of families and their plights. In the pop u lar Hayao Miyazaki fi lm My Neighbor Totoro, which appeals to children as young as three or four, the adventures of the two sisters are framed by the serious illness of their mother, who is hospitalized throughout the movie, and by the frequent absences of their father, who visits her, full of anxiety. In the series of autobiographical books about American frontier life by Laura Ingalls Wilder (one of my own favorites as a child), the Ingalls family confronts hunger, extremes of heat and cold, disease, and danger from animals and from hostile humans. Laura?s sister Mary becomes blind as the result of illness; their father almost dies in a blizzard. The climax of the series is the near- death of an entire town in North Dakota, recounted in The Long Winter, when unpre ce dented amounts of snow cut it off from food supplies. These are but a few examples of the pop u lar works for children that can both bring them into contact with human vulnerability and prompt valuable discussions in families and elementary schools.

One thing a decent society can do is to make sure that works of this type and quality are part of the public school curriculum and that authors, visual artists, and fi lmmakers who do good work for children get a due amount of public attention and concern.

B

cy he has sounded throughout: the
struggle is really a struggle over whether democracy itself can exist. Lincoln?s speech both dignifi es the tragedy of the fallen and uses that tragedy as a meta phor for the vulnerability of the decent nation, which will survive only if those who hear his speech emulate their willingness to risk and sacrifi ce. It thus draws the audience close to the sacrifi ce of the fallen, urging them, even while mourning, to invest their own future in the struggle for democracy and freedom. Heard in its own time, it motivated its hearers to work on for victory and reconciliation. Heard today, it both tells us about the painful sacrifi ce involved in creating this nation as a truly demo cratic and inclusive nation and reminds us that such sacrifi ces must be made, because democracy is too precious to be lost on account of egoism, laziness, or fear.
In the Second Inaugural Address, Lincoln turns to the issue of fault. In a most delicate manner, he manages to portray the war as a tragedy without concealing the fact that one side was asymmetrically at fault. He dwells on the grave moral error of ?wringing their bread from the sweat of other men?s faces.? And yet, the note of tragic suff ering overwhelms blame and resentment: he urges charity, and constructive work to ?bind up the nation?s wounds.? The scope and magnitude of the tragedy transcends the mea sure of fault, leading Americans to a shared grief. Tragedy leads to thought and action toward ?a just and lasting peace among ourselves and with all nations.?
The Lincoln Memorial on the Mall, dedicated in 1922, is an apt visual analogue of these great speeches. Indeed, the Ionic temple contains the

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text of both speeches, along with a large seated sculpture of the dead president. It also contains the names of all the states (all fi fty at present) and the dates on which they entered the Union. It is thus a monument to the success of the Union cause, but in a very solemn and understated way. The sculpture of Lincoln, by Daniel Chester French, is very unusual in a monument honoring a great leader, because it is an image of tragedy. It shows Lincoln bowed down with suff ering, exhausted. (Indeed it was much criticized at the time for this unheroic depiction of the great leader. Earlier plans were in the heroic mode: one would have surrounded Lincoln with huge equestrian statues.) It is a solemn reminder that the war ought to be seen not as hateful aggression, but above all as tragedy, a burden we must all shoulder and somehow cope with, and, ultimately, put behind us. Above Lincoln is a simple inscription: ?In this temple as in the hearts of the people for whom he saved the Union the memory of Abraham Lincoln is enshrined forever.?
A leader?s words, a leader?s sculpted image? these charted a path for the future. Public poetry also played a formative role in shaping the nation?s response to the tragedy, and its future. Walt Whitman, who worked on the battlefi eld as an attendant, was the war?s great poet, and Lincoln?s great memorializer. In his lyric ?When Lilacs Last in the Dooryard Bloom?d,? he takes up Lincoln?s task: constructing a new national love that is just and fi rm in the right, and yet capable of forgiveness and reconciliation. At every point in the poem, we are on the right track if we ask: How does this phrase, this image, bear on the task of cr

wn the spine that only great poetic imag-
ery can inspire. The poet- speaker takes his stand in the middle of America: ?Now while I sat in the day and look?d forth, / . . . in the large unconscious scenery of my land with its lakes and forests, / In the heavenly aerial beauty (after the perturb?d winds and the storms)? (108? 111). He becomes, thus, a kind of national light or eye, seeing peace out of war, and seeing the beauty of the land that makes peace worth fi ghting for. Like Lincoln?s speeches and like the Lincoln Memorial, Whitman?s poetry contains the great weight of national tragedy, as the reader follows Lincoln?s coffi n as it passes through the towns and countryside of America. But it contains, as well, something more, a vivid embodiment of why the exhausting struggle was worth it? for an America that is an object of passionate devotion. Even the poem?s mythic and symbolic elements? the lilacs, fl owers of mourning, the ?powerful western fallen star,? its brightness eclipsed by the shades of night, and the bird warbling a threnody alone in the swamp? are sensuously evocative of America?s beauty. The thrush is also the poet, who asks, ?Oh how shall I warble myself for the dead one there I loved? / And how shall I deck my song for the large sweet soul that has gone?? (71? 72). All are symbols of Lincoln?s death? and yet all are somehow part of what he died for, the ?loud human song? that continues beyond his death (103).

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To respond to a national tragedy and to move beyond it, a nation needs what both Lincoln and Whitman supply: a powerful reminder of national ideals, and a more evocative and quasi- erotic sense of national love.

Roo se velt and Public Photography: Building Support for the New Deal

During the Depression, President Franklin Delano Roo se velt faced a large rhetorical challenge: how to mobilize public support for the policies of the New Deal, in an America that had never before supported such social welfare mea sures. The task was complex, for Americans traditionally had not wanted to extend economic relief to people except in the case of a natural disaster. Nor had they been inclined to have compassion for people whose problem was poverty, for they thought of these people as slothful and irresponsible. Moreover, the programs of the New Deal required sacrifi ce: all Americans would shoulder the tax burden of these programs.

As legal sociologist Michele Landis Dauber has argued,34 Roo se velt, understanding these attitudes, deliberately set out to convince Americans that an economic disaster has all the features of a natural disaster that are most relevant where the emotion of compassion is concerned. Using an analysis of compassion similar to ours, Dauber shows that winning compassion for the victims of economic disaster required convincing the American public that the calamity they suff ered was serious, that they were not to blame for it (any more than one would be to blame for being the victim of an earthquake or a fl ood), and that it was the sort of thing that any human being might suff er.35 In short, Roo se velt used an implicit understanding of compassion and motivation that tracks the classic Aristotelian and Greek- tragic models? not so surprising, since this same understanding is deeply rooted in American traditions.36 Dauber analyzes many pieces of public rhetoric and many works of art connect

gin, and he gives enough of
their story to show that they have been in the United States for several generations. Indeed, at times he invites readers to notice these facts as giving the Joads a special claim to sympathy as ?real Americans.? This is an instance in which tragic representativeness stops so far short of human universality that it risks fostering invidious stigma, valuable though the portrait of economic suff ering in the novel is in other respects.41
Roo se velt?s appeal to emotion through a carefully crafted use of the arts seems to have been an important feature in the success of his New Deal programs. The fact that nobody is thinking much about these matters today goes at least some way to explaining the slide back to the view that the poor cause their own misery, and, in turn, to the decline of the American welfare state.
The Vietnam Veterans Memorial: Mourning and Questioning
Our fi rst two cases involve tragedy, but they are po liti cally simple. The aim in each case is to generate support for values that are alleged to be central to the nation?s self- understanding. Even though each case involves diffi culty and struggle, citizens are not invited to debate or to question the basic values involved: they are asked, instead, to dedicate themselves to their energetic promotion. In the case of Lincoln, mourning for the fallen soldiers is supposed to lead not to a questioning of the cause for which they fought, but, instead, to a wholehearted rededication to the cause of democracy. The address emphasizes the fact that the values it promotes are the values of the founding? reinterpreted, of course, so as to include the former slaves as equals. That is a radical shift, but it is framed as the only honest understanding of how those values really ought to be realized.

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Roo se velt?s New Deal programs too were radical? in a sense; but FDR too positions them as continuous with founding ideals of equal respect and equal dignity. The photographs administration offi cials selected emphasized that idea. The po liti cal realm was certainly busy questioning Roo se velt?s programs, but his use of the arts is one- sided; it promotes emotional support for redistribution, not a balanced debate about whether redistribution is just. In the end, the programs of the New Deal proved overwhelmingly pop u lar, and most of them remain so today, despite the great change in public feeling since the Ronald Reagan era. Even now, when a critical conversation does take place about specifi cs, such as the future of Social Security, that conversation takes place against the backdrop of a commitment to equal dignity that Roo sevelt?s choices affi rmed and strengthened.
But our imaginary nations insist on a vigorous critical culture. If some values at some times are so urgently important and so fundamental that it seems right for a leader to ask for commitment rather than a calm critical conversation? the Gettysburg battlefi eld was not the place to hold a calm debate abut whether slavery is just? still, critical conversation should always wait in the wings, and the ambivalent emotions connected to such a diffi cult conversation are also of enormous po liti cal value. Public art would be suspect if, among its many functions, it could not also operate in ways that support this Socratic and deliberative way of operating. The Vietnam Veterans

Memorial is one such Socratic work.42
Monuments are reminders of enduring aspirations; memorials are reminders of painful loss. As Arthur Danto puts it, ?We erect monuments so that we shall always remember, and build memorials so that we shall never forget.? The Vietnam Veterans Memorial is situated between the Washington Monument and the Lincoln Memorial. Its dark walls, hinged at a 125- degree angle, point, like wings, one toward each of these reference points.
The Washington Monument is abstract, impersonal, aspirational. An obelisk? its Egyptian pedigree alluding to Washington?s Masonic connections, and thus to imagery of light vanquishing darkness? is regular, the same from all sides. Nonetheless, unlike classical obelisks, it is not a monolith, but is composed of separate blocks. So it also symbolizes the unity of the states, and, with its graceful ascent, the high goals of that

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Union and its Enlightenment pedigree. Deliberately, and against counterproposals, it is utterly abstract and impersonal, eschewing a heroic portrayal of the great leader, or even any words denoting his achievements.43 The Lincoln Memorial, by contrast, shows Lincoln bowed down with care and suff ering. It reminds us of the pain and tragic loss of the war, and of the ongoing struggle to produce human equality and respectful po liti cal consensus. The Vietnam Veterans Memorial points, then, both toward the nation?s highest commitments and toward its most profound loss.
The competition to design the memorial was explicit in its constraints: the memorial must (1) be refl ective and contemplative in character, (2) be harmonious with its site and surroundings, (3) provide for the inscription of the names of all those? nearly 58,000? who lost their lives or remain missing, (4) make no po liti cal statement about the war, and (5) occupy up to two acres of land. Thus many subsequent objections to the design were really objections to the criteria for the competition. The unanimous choice of the panel of eight experts, out of 1,421 entries, was a design by Maya Lin, an Asian American woman from Athens, Ohio, at the time a twenty- one- year- old student at Yale University. Initially the design was very controversial: some veterans groups saw the black walls as walls ?of shame,? a ?degrading ditch,? a ?wailing wall for liberals.?44 Many were indignant at the absence of any typical repre sen ta tion of soldiers and their nobility. As a result, a banal bronze statue of four solders by Frederick Hart was later added, opposite the memorial. In only a short time, however, the memorial became im mensely pop u lar. The simple dignity of the design, its straightforward and unpretentious mourning for all the individuals lost in the war, drew people in, and it is to this day one of the nation?s most- visited works of public art, and the only one on the Mall that is a living memorial, where people interact with and alter the work to express their mourning for specifi c loved ones. All this is in accordance with Lin?s plan: she said that she intended the memorial ?to bring out in people the realization of loss and a cathartic healing process.?45 She drew par tic u lar attention to the contemplative and personal character of the memorial. In her offi cial statement submitted to the competition, she wrote, ?Brought to a sharp awareness of such a loss, it is up to each indiv

le with diff erent beliefs, the space of the memorial,
more like the tragic theaters of ancient Athens, brings all citizens together under the open sky, isolating visitors for a time from other sights and activities? much in the manner of a church or a temple, but with the open air and the view of the Mall?s other sculptures reinforcing the message of shared national tragedy amid high aspirations.

Diffi cult Conversations about Everyday Tragedies:
Native Son, ?Giribala?

The Vietnam War is over, though its legacy continues. Our public conversation about the war is retrospective and analogical: we search for what went wrong, and how to think about possible wars in the future. By now we are also searching for an account of our involvement in Iraq and Af ghan i stan, and a visit to the Vietnam Veterans Memorial now arouses diffi cult questions about those confl icts. There are some tragedies, however, that never seem to come to an end, that persist in the fabric of a nation?s daily life, often little noticed because they involve anonymous poor people living lives of silent deprivation. They raise very diffi cult issues, often involving fundamental po liti cal questions, such as: What is the appropriate stance toward affi rmative action? What forms of government interference with the family is acceptable to promote fair equality of opportunity for women and girls? What is a decent welfare program?

Such questions should be debated in many settings and in many ways. Some of these debates will rightly involve little emotion and will focus

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on gathering the best data and understanding the problems as well as possible. Even here, though, po liti cal art that engages emotions has a role to play. If people talk without tapping into their emotions, they often don?t really understand the depth of the problem, or communicate their full thinking to others.

It is not surprising, then, that public book conversations have emerged as one device for fostering a deliberative public dialogue that involves emotive material and people?s reactions to it. The idea that democracy is aided by the public arrangement of book clubs and book groups has a long history. In one sense, it goes back to ancient Athens, where the tragedies were discussed and rated by the audience? but then eventually published and, in that form, debated yet again. Aristophanes?s Frogs depicts a character carry ing such texts around, and though the context is comic, the audience has to fi nd this habit familiar to make sense of it. Modern democracies, to their shame, rarely had the high literacy rate of ancient Athens until relatively recently, but Weimar Germany did publicly or ganize book groups for workers as a way of nourishing civic discussion.52

In the United States, the book group has been primarily a city or town aff air. The city of Chicago, for example, has pioneered a very successful program called One Book One Chicago that celebrated its tenth anniversary in 2011. Initiated by Mayor Richard M. Daley and run by the Chicago Public Library, the program encourages Chicagoans to read a book together? two books are selected each year? and to participate in local discussions of that book around the city. Lectures about the book and, where possible, a personal appearance by the author are also prominent and free of cost. Books chosen have included To Kill a Mockingbird by

killing of Mary. Film versions of the novel always focus on the Mary plot and ignore Bessie.) The novel is the ?explanation? that Bigger never gets to give in court? because the criminal justice system, like the white world around him, cannot see him as an individual. Indeed, the novel?s careful ?explanation? of Bigger?s individual life involves a type of thought that seems to be unavailable in the world depicted in the novel.

The denial of individuality is symmetrical: on both sides of the color line, racial anger has eclipsed personal identity. To Bigger, white people are a ?mountain of hate.? The thought that individual people are on the other side of the line is so terrifying that he cannot bear it. The novel is well known for the speeches of Bigger?s lawyer, who, borrowing from Frantz Fanon, sees violence as an inevitable response to Bigger?s oppression, and indeed a valuable self- assertion. But it is not on this note that the novel ends. The lawyer is shown to be just as blind to Bigger?s individuality as other white characters. The novel ends, instead, with the possibility of individual friendship. During his long imprisonment, Bigger? struck by the courage and decency of Jan, the young Communist who

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has every reason to hate him (he was Mary?s fi ancé), but who alone seems to treat him as a person in his own right? begins to think the way readers of the novel have been encouraged to think from the start. He begins to think, that is, about the human aims and abilities that exist on both sides of the color line, though so diff erently shaped by social institutions. At last, Bigger becomes fl eetingly able to see individuality on the other side:

He wondered if it were possible that after all everybody in the world felt alike? Did those who hated him have in them the same thing [the lawyer] Max had seen in him, the thing that had made Max ask him those questions? For the fi rst time in his life he had gained a pinnacle of feeling upon which he could stand and see vague relations that he had never dreamed of. If that white looming mountain of hate were not a mountain at all, but people, people like himself, and like Jan? then he was faced with a high hope the like of which he had never thought could be, and a despair the full depths of which he knew he could not stand to feel. . . . He stood up in the middle of the cell fl oor and tried to see himself in relation to other men, a thing he had always feared to try to do, so deeply stained was his own mind with the hate of others for him.

The novel?s conclusion seems to go beyond the class- based politics of Marxism, suggesting that even that po liti cal stance, which sees people as categories, is an artifact of oppression. If the line were really erased, there might be? friendship. Bigger?s last words are, ?Tell Jan hello . . .? and then ?Good- bye!?

What would the book clubs of Chicago talk about, reading this novel during the Obama administration? High on the list would surely be the question of whether our society has progressed, and if so, how far. Does the election of Obama as president, and, closer to home, the (2011) choice of (Jewish) Rahm Emanuel as mayor by the predominantly African American and Latino as well as the ?white? wards, mean that we are moving into an era of post- racial politics? What reasons are there against this conclusion? What is happening in th

e. In the late nineteenth
century, public buildings and parks emphasized, instead, the pseudo-European theme of pristine purity? anthropodenial in stone, we might say. Grant Park, built in imitation of the formal gardens of Eu rope, has as its centerpiece Buckingham Fountain (1927), white and pure, and humanly inaccessible. It is no wonder that people don?t go to Grant Park, because it does not invite them in, and once they are there, there is nothing for them to do. When Chicago welcomed the world during the Columbian Exposition of 1892, it chose to portray itself as pure white. As we saw in Chapter 8, the temporary buildings of the exposition, known as the ?White City,? constructed a fairy- tale world that masked the diverse world outside it.58 It lacked a body, and it certainly lacked humor. Such amusements as Buff alo Bill?s Wild West Show and ethnic exhibits

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of many types had to set up shop outside the festival, on the Midway, which now runs through the middle of the University of Chicago.
The White City proclaimed that Chicago was as regal as the great monarchical capitals of Eu rope. Like them, it counted on not really being human, mortal, sweaty. And lower- class people were not welcome there? any more than they were at the (surrounding) University of Chicago. Fortunately, Chicago?s conception of parks and public art has changed. We shall return to the Midway in Chapter 10. But a central attraction of this revised Sandburgian conception of the city is downtown, next to, and subverting, Grant Park: Millennium Park, opened in 2004 under the auspices of Mayor Richard M. Daley.59 As you approach the park from Michigan Avenue, you encounter, fi rst, the Crown Fountain, designed by Spanish artist Jaume Plensa. On two huge screens, fi fty feet high and about twenty- fi ve yards apart, one sees projected photographic images of the faces of Chicagoans of all ages and races and types. At any given time two faces are displayed, changing expression in slow motion, with wonderfully comic eff ect. Every fi ve minutes or so, just before two new faces replace the old, the faces spit jets of water, as if from out of their mouths? onto the waiting bodies of delighted children, who frolic in the shallow pool below and between the screens. These children are often joined, at fi rst shyly and gingerly, by parents and even grandparents. Getting wet makes people look silly and lose their dignity. People love it, and the shared loss of formality demo cratizes the space. It also says no to the stigma that used to separate the races in separate swimming pools and drinking fountains, and also to the stigma attached to women?s bodies, seen as liquid and sticky. With the comic ejaculatory bursts of liquid, it says no to laws against miscegenation, and to puritanism more generally. Whitman described a young woman, condemned by the shame of puritanism to hide her body, who imagines going out and joining the young men as they swim. As he said of them, so with the huge faces on the screens: ?They do not think whom they souse with their spray.?
If you watch all this from a certain angle, you will also see the sprouting plumes of the Frank Gehry band shell curling upward, a silver helmet lying on its side, a relic of war that has decided to abandon aggression and turn into a bird. A beautiful curved shape, it recalls the beauty of

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of that identity at a diffi cult time. Its offi cial nomination as Best Foreign Film, like the choice of A. R. Rahman to make the offi cial version of ?Jana Gana Mana? for India?s fi ftieth anniversary in 1997, makes it an offi cial public statement about national values? whether that statement (made during the ascendancy of the Bharatiya Janata Party, in a co ali tion government) is to be viewed as sincere or as adept public relations.

Lagaan has a subtitle: Once upon a Time in India. This subtitle is odd, for surely any historical movie out of Bollywood could be called something that happened once upon a time in India. It is odder still, in that, strictly speaking, ?India? the nation did not exist at the time of this story, set in the late nineteenth century. So, even though it is mistaken to claim that no such entity as ?India? was recognized prior to the formation of the modern state, the title does pose a question: What, when, and who is India, and who is ?in? it? It also suggests that the story it will tell, though in a sense remote and far away, is in another sense ?in India,? located in the midst of the nation and its current dilemmas. The reference to myth is also signifi cant, suggesting that the movie aspires to the creation of a tale of origins, perhaps a tale of national identity. And by alluding to the familiar activity of telling a child a story, Once upon a Time alludes, as well, to the narrative imagination, suggesting that storytelling itself has a role to play in the national project.

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Lagaan is a story of successful nonviolent re sis tance against the British masters? years before Gandhi. Set in the late Victorian era, it concerns peasants from a poor village who are oppressed by high taxes imposed by the British, represented by the cruel and arrogant Captain Russell, commanding offi cer of the local cantonment. One comic aspect of the fi lm is this character, who is threatening but ultimately buff oonish, and whose pink skin is made to look like an overcooked piece of some rather unappetizing lunch meat, while the various shades of dark skin exhibited by the villagers look pleasing. Bhuvan (Aamir Khan), the leader of the villagers, asks for a remission of taxes on account of the prolonged drought. Russell is utterly unreceptive. On his visit to the offi cers, Bhuvan witnesses a cricket match and makes fun of the game. Russell, off ended at the re sis tance of the villagers, seeks revenge, off ering Bhuvan a wager. If, at a time only a few months hence, the villagers can beat his men at cricket, he will remit the tax for three years; if they lose, they will have to pay triple tax. Bhuvan accepts the wager, much to the villagers? astonishment.

But they don?t know anything about cricket. Fortunately, they get help from Russell?s sister, who has fallen in love with Bhuvan. She sneaks out and organizes practice sessions. Before they can start to practice, however, a team must be formed. And it is here that the nation building begins. The natural team members are local Hindus, but Bhuvan quickly insists on recruiting Deva, a Sikh who knows the game from his military past as a sepoy in the British army, and Ismail, a Muslim, who shows fi ne skill as a batsman. Each of these inclusions meets with some initial re sis tance, but this is nothing compared to the horror with which the villagers and team members react t

and behold, they are incarnated by Aamir
Khan, a Muslim who is married to a Hindu in real life,60 and Gracy Singh, a Sikh. Somehow, in the midst of the terrible religious tensions of the time, nobody was even suggesting that a Muslim symbol of both heroism and sexiness? marrying a Hindu woman in fi ction, and a Sikh woman in the reality behind the fi ction? was anything but utterly wonderful and normal. And it?s even better, for Khan is well known to be a descendant of Maulana Azad, the devout Muslim who played a leading role in Gandhi?s movement, and from whose hands Gandhi fi rst accepted food when he broke his fast unto death. The fi lm thus alludes to the overcoming of bodily stigma and disgust as a goal of a truly Gandhian India.
Nor, with the bitterness of the Delhi anti- Sikh riots of 1984 still vividly alive and with the prosecutions wending their way through the courts, does anyone think that someone named Singh ought not to play a romantic leading- lady role. The fi ctional characters sing and dance as if made for each other, and everyone loves them. The fi lm suggests boldly that someone with the name Singh could do anything? three years before Manmohan Singh?s ascent to the leadership of the nation as its fi rst minority prime minister. If only all India were as inclusive as cricket and Bollywood and as rooted in bodily grace and joy, goes the message, the country could fl ourish as never before.
And the miscegenation in the casting goes further: the Muslim character Ismail is played by Rajendranath Zutschi, a Hindu who in real life is married to Aamir Khan?s (Muslim) sister. The Sikh sepoy Deva is played by Pradeep Rawat, an upper- caste (rajput) Hindu, and another Sikh character, Ram Singh, is played by Javed Khan, a Muslim. Nor are the lower castes absent: the character Bhura, the (non- lower- caste) poultry farmer, is played by Raghuvir Yadav, a ?backward caste.? The untouchable Kachra is an exception, but of a most interesting sort, for he is played by Aditya Lakhia, who is actually a dalit, from the Musahar (rat-catcher) caste of Bihar, a scheduled caste. However, his fi rst name, Aditya, is not a name often found in lower castes, suggesting that his family already had some education and upward mobility61? so, the poor and

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uneducated dalit is played by that most promising hybrid of all, a middle- class dalit.
Every spectator, in 2001, knew that India was not like the world of Lagaan. In the aftermath of the destruction of the Babri Masjid at Ayodhya in 1992 and the subsequent rise to power of the Bharatiya Janata Party, discrimination and hostility against Muslims was ongoing, and the ruling party was tacitly encouraging the view of Muslims (and Christians) as outsiders that led to the horrible events of Gujarat in 2002.
Nor had justice for the Delhi anti- Sikh riots of 1984 ever been secured, or the guilty government offi cials brought to justice. As for the scheduled castes, despite various affi rmative action programs, discrimination against them was, and still is, a daily reality. So Lagaan has a tragic undercurrent, just as do Aristophanes?s Acharnians and Lysistrata, produced in a time of real war and real pain. Even a de cade later, the unity it imagines does not exist? or exists only in pockets of Indian society. The fantasy, however, and the real hope, is that India could become like crick

et, like Bollywood? a realm united through play. In 2004, at least a part of it came true. It would be absurd to call Manmohan Singh, who at least appears to be one of the most humorless Indian leaders in history, a source of unity through play, but maybe that joke is itself a type of healing. Despite its unreality, the fi lm is still hopeful, indeed festive? it celebrates those pockets of pluralism, and hence the capacity of India to be her best self, rather than her worst, respecting each citizen as an equal and using the human capital of all to enhance the living standard of all. For it is in the end a fi lm about welfare. Its title alludes to economic survival, and it ends with a welcome rain that relieves the drought. Lagaan?s conclusion, in which all castes and religions frolic in the rain, is reminiscent of Aristophanic endings: bodily joy triumphing over animosity and separation. And it is an Indian analogue of the comedy of the Crown Fountain, as the water of miscegenation fl ows over all, and disgust has been banished.

Bill Mauldin?s Cartoons: The Body at War

The body at war is still a human body, longing for the good things of life, burdened by pain and fatigue. So war, as Aristophanes saw, is a central

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occasion for comedy. As The Acharnians reminds us, military leaders have a way of forgetting about the bodies of common soldiers. But this is particularly true in modern warfare, when the offi cers themselves, unlike Lamachus, may not be in the fi eld. Pro- war propaganda by elites, from ancient Athens to the present day, keeps churning out clean, noble images of combat soldiers, ?gallant lads? who win ?glory.?62 But life is not like that, and common soldiers want ac know ledg ment of the bodily reality of their lives? as part of the respect owed them for their sacrifi ce, and as part of a public ac know ledg ment that the goal of war must always be peace and the enjoyment of life.

The controversial American cartoonist Bill Mauldin, during World War II, created his own comic festival in the person of his legendary characters Willie and Joe? so successfully that he became an offi cial part of the war eff ort, endorsed by Dwight Eisenhower himself.63 The man whom General George S. Patton Jr. denounced as a subversive was in May 2010 honored with a U.S. postage stamp. It depicts his classic characters Willie and Joe, and shows Mauldin himself in uniform beside them, pen and sketch pad in hand.

Mauldin (1921? 2003) entered the U.S. Army in 1940 through the Arizona National Guard, and was assigned to the 45th Infantry Division. Having already studied at the Chicago Academy of Fine Arts, he volunteered to work for the unit?s newspaper. Here he invented Willie and Joe. Landing with the division in the invasion of Sicily in July 1943, he continued his cartooning, and began working for the offi cial soldiers? newspaper, Stars and Stripes? to which he was offi cially transferred in February 1944. Shortly after this, he was given his own jeep, so that he could roam the front in search of material. His cartoons were seen by soldiers throughout Eu rope, and also in the United States.64

Top brass did not like his irreverence or his satirical depiction of military discipline (such as a cartoon making fun of Patton?s order that soldiers must be clean- shaven at all times, even during combat). Patton tried to get him removed from the fro

minimal decency and dignity, a
serious aim, even when their attempts are somehow comic. As other soldiers carry out garbage, Joe, in a hole that might be a garbage pit or might be a foxhole, puts up a sign: ?This is a residence.?70 On a fi eld strewn with the detritus of combat, Willy and Joe notice a single fl ower on a barren tree. ?Spring is here,? reads the caption.71 It?s a jibe at the sentimentalizing of war time conditions, but at the same time it is real, a little glimmer of plea sure in the middle of pain and fatigue. They even have a capacity for meta phor in the middle of ugliness. As they stand up to their necks in mud, the rain beating down on their helmets, Willie says, ?Now that ya mention it, it does sound like th? patter of rain on a tin roof.?72 And they do or ga nize their pleasures, even in the midst of chaos and disorder. When the sun comes out after the rain, Willie says to Joe, ?Th? socks ain?t dry yet, but we kin take in the cigarettes?? and indeed cigarettes have been lovingly hung out to dry on the line in a neat, orderly row.73 About sexual deprivation the cartoons are more circumspect, but it?s clearly there, as when Willie, turning to a particularly slovenly and disheveled Joe, says, ?Why the hell couldn?t you have been born a beautiful woman??74 Joe drives up to a building promisingly labeled ?Mlle. Du Blanc Université des Femmes,? only to fi nd that there are no femmes to be found? it has been commandeered by a bunch of his colleagues, leaving only the el der ly proprietress to inquire of him, ?Are you seeking a company of infantry, mon capitaine??75
At times the comedy verges on tragedy. As the two soldiers huddle together in a swamp, Willie says, ?Joe, yestiddy ya saved my life an? I swore I?d pay ya back. Here?s my last pair of dry socks.?76
Patton was wrong and Eisenhower was right. Mauldin was no subversive. He did not look down at Willie and Joe; he clearly respects their

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courage and their endurance. He himself, it is important to note, is one of them, assuming the same risks and vulnerabilities. But by reminding the brass and the public of the fact that wars are fought by human bodies, he gave a voice to the common soldier, prompting better deliberation about their needs and sacrifi ces.
Interestingly, Mauldin once had the idea that Willie and Joe would die at the end of the war. But he was talked out of it: it is, after all, a comic festival, and comedy celebrates life. Instead, going home, they make fun of the idea that war is glory. Seated somehow next to a top general on a fl ight home (a fantasy, of course), Joe says, aping the snootiness of the top brass, ?My companion and I fi nd these transatlantic fl ights very tedious.?77 Later, interviewed by a journalist, with a sign reading ?Public Relations? over his head, Joe just sits there schlumpy, exhausted, and numb, and an offi cer speaks for him: ?He thinks the food over there was swell. He?s glad to be home, but he misses the excitement of battle. You may quote him.?78 Willie, meanwhile, standing at a podium, addresses a group of returning soldiers, in an offi cial room that bears the sign ?Fill Out Forms Properly.? He is evidently reading from a demobilization questionnaire. ?Next question: Do you wish to remain in the army? It says here I gotta ask.? Not one smile around the room? except on Willie?s amused face.79
They neve

e to persecute it. Lenny Bruce?s sad life
now stands as a monument to public obtuseness. Hounded by the law in a way that now seems utterly grotesque, he did so much less than he might have done. So, fi rm protection for the speech of edgy artists is one of the obvious ways in which society can cultivate comedy.
Obviously, though, more might be done. Grants given to edgy artists through some decent system of peer review used to be a familiar part of our po liti cal landscape, until the National Endowment for the Arts became a po liti cal target (and it?s now threatened with total extinction). Nothing would be worse than Congress selecting the comic artists who would get grants. But Congress can, as it used to, appropriate money and protect the freedom of the peer review system? in the way that now, in a state university, faculty hiring is done by peers and the speech of unpop u lar faculty is standardly protected from infringement.
National prizes can also confer semioffi cial status. Maya Lin won the National Medal of the Arts, so why not Bruce? Bill Cosby has actually won the Presidential Medal of Freedom, as well as Kennedy Center honors? but his comedy, while admirable, is of a much gentler and more cautious type. Aamir Khan and A. R. Rahman have both won the Padma Shri, the Indian prize for meritorious contributions to the democracy (as have many cricket players and actors). So why not work that is more experimental and emotionally challenging? It?s not going to happen now in the United States, with all federal money for the arts about to be cut, but that?s a huge error.
With this mention of federal money, we arrive at a delicate issue: How are these public art projects to be funded, and how will this avoid the obvious dangers of banality and the exclusion of really challenging artists? Since I have selected high- quality projects, we can ask how they emerged. Some were initially private (Lagaan, Bill Mauldin? cartoons, in a sense Walt Whitman?s poetry) but were then put into an offi cial role because of their quality. Some were statements by a single leader. In others cases, a shrewd po liti cal leader arranged things so as to promote high artistic quality: Roo se velt did not submit every art project to Congress, though the Works Progress Administration paid for them. Mayor Daley did not

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ask for a majority vote of the City Council on plans for Millennium Park, and indeed funded it mostly through private donations. Gehry was approached directly by the city and also through the private donors, without any competition? although the Chicago public and its architecture critics always like to weigh in, and celebrated his involvement. (The public and the media in Chicago are currently debating another major project, for the renovation of Navy Pier, though in an advisory capacity.) The Vietnam Veterans Memorial was a public competition, and this is actually relatively rare.83 There is no rule about the best way for public culture to be commissioned and funded, but these examples suggest that direct legislative approval of funding for specifi c projects is, and should be, the exception. And the long track record of high- quality public art produced in other ways shows us that those other ways are not inherently undemo cratic.
All nations face tragedies that call upon the spirit of extended compassion. All nations struggle with a dis

ed to a gradual change of sentiments. All this seems obvious enough. Our project, however, is not a study of the emotional consequence of good laws. It is the more subtle and diff use one of ascertaining how public strategies can help good laws by infl uencing the emotional climate of the public culture. It relies on the thought that good laws rarely come into being or remain stable over time without emotional support. Thus, at the same time as we fi gure out how to protect the rights of minorities by law (expecting that this itself will infl uence public emotions toward them), we should also think about shaping the emotional climate so that it supports and sustains good laws and institutions. Thus Martin Luther King Jr.?s highly successful eff orts to engender hope and a new picture of the history and essence of the nation proved an essential complement to the strategies of President Lyndon Johnson and others that culminated in the Civil Rights Act of 1964. The national holiday celebrating King?s legacy is one strategy to nourish and further develop good laws in this area? although, like many such strategies, it is vulnerable to fatigue and overexposure, and thus will need to be continually renewed. (This danger is endemic to most strategies we use to nourish emotions. It is connected to the role of wonder in kindling love of this type. For this reason, as Tagore and Whitman understood, we need to involve changing generations of creative artists who have the capacity to fashion new and arresting images. But we should also grant that a really great work of art, like a great friendship, can be continually revisited and new possibilities can be discovered in it, or the same thing seen freshly, because in a new context.)

II. Compassion against Itself

Before we begin studying the three hostile emotions, we need to be vividly aware that compassion is at times its own worst enemy. Batson?s

studies have shown that compassion, engendered prototypically by an individual narrative of distress, can often destabilize good principles through just this particularism.2 Thus (in his study) once a compassionate understanding of the plight of people who need organ transplants has led us to adopt good policies in this area, hearing a vivid story of one would- be recipient?s plight can lead people to discard good policy and procedure, advancing that person unfairly to the top of the list. The one blocks the many.

The Batson phenomenon is so familiar that it is hardly necessary to illustrate it. Parents may support a set of inclusive goals for a school system? and then become utterly defl ected by the par tic u lar struggles of their own children. Citizens may support policies that are fair to all? until reversals close to home elicit powerful sympathy for one?s own family or group, eclipsing the good of the whole. But this is not only a problem when selfi sh interests are in play: it can aff ect any situation in which an individual case is salient and thus available to the mind.3 When new laws are passed protecting the rights of minorities, we typically hear a lot of individual testimony, which moves legislators to support the measures. Still, the very individualism of the reference point can at times become an impediment to policies that are truly evenhanded.

In our discussion of tragic festivals we addressed this issue in two ways. First, we insisted

that it is good for a tragic predicament to be
presented in a somewhat generalized and abstract form, so that people?s minds are led naturally to the choice of general and fair policies, not to the relief of specifi c individuals. (Roo se velt understood this issue extremely well, overseeing the selection of photographs that seemed representative of economic woes, rather than idiosyncratically par tic u lar.)4
Such generalized experiences of compassion create a bridge toward good principles, and in themselves they are emotions that have principles as part of their content? for example, King?s emotions of hope and longing for a just America, and Lincoln?s evocation of a compassion for dead soldiers that also embodies a love of the principles for which they died. Generalization has its risks, for it can enshrine hostile ste reo types, but when it is focused on shared human aims and vulnerabilities it can avoid this diffi culty, and actually undermine hostile ste reo types. Second, we said that compassion should never be an uncriticized foundation for

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policy: it should always be in dialogue with principles and general moral norms. Moreover, a vigorous critical culture should keep it from degenerating into a sectarian and uneven sympathy.
These safeguards are important, and they go some way toward alleviating the worry. Nonetheless, Batson?s experimental results remind us that even when good principles are established, vivid compassion for particulars remains a threat to their fair operation, so we must be aware of this danger and prepared to head it off , without losing the emotional force and the insight of that emotion.
The Batson problem becomes more acute when we recall that we are after no mere tepid or detached sympathy, but, instead, something more closely akin to and periodically illuminated by love. We argued that overcoming disgust and generating trust requires love during the developmental pro cess, and that the mature sympathy of an adult too needs to be enlivened by and retain access to that passionate and quasi- erotic emotion, if trust is not to become a lifeless simulacrum. Tagore?s religion of humanity, putting the Bauls of Bengal at the center of the program for citizenship, harmonized with the conclusions of our developmental inquiry, in which a type of loving play, what Winnicott calls ?subtle interplay,? is given a central role. Accordingly, the type of patriotism that seemed truly capable of surmounting narrowness and egoism had that element of love? whether in King?s powerfully poetic rhetoric or in Gandhi?s use of Tagore?s songs? addressed to the history, geography, people, and institutions of the nation. Because this love is not an abstract Rawlsian or Habermasian principle- based love, it is particularly vulnerable to narrowness and defl ection, so we need to think hard about how this problem can be prevented from infecting our project at its very core.
This problem is only partly a problem of selfi shness: it is also a question of how particulars catch the eye, drawing attention away from the whole. One obvious answer is the rule of law. But how can we engender emotions that support fair laws and policies, including policies that promote decent international relations and the hope of peace? Let us think again of our two correctives. First, the type of compassionate love we engender, while vivid and par ti

wise public culture do to head off the threat to common pursuits posed by specifi c types of fear, envy, and shame, while retaining the good roles played by other species of those same emotions?

III. Fear: A Narrowing Emotion

Fear is very useful, indeed necessary. It steers us away from danger. Without its promptings we would all be dead. Even in the po liti cal and legal realm, fear can be reasonable, giving good guidance. The Anglo-American criminal law, with its doctrine of ?reasonable fear? in the area of self- defense, suggests that the fear of death and gross bodily injury is a legitimate motivation for self- defensive conduct. But, of course, the targets of this ?reasonable fear? correspond to a central part of what the criminal law already regulates; thinking of what we reasonably fear is a good guide to lawmaking. And, as has been plausibly argued by constitutional theorist András Sajó, former judge of the Eu ro pe an Constitutional Court, fear plays a valuable role in constitutional law too: thinking of the dangers that they reasonably fear at the hands of authority, societies frame their account of basic rights that cannot be violated.6

In order to be the ally of law, however, fear needs to be combined with general concern. By thinking about what we fear for ourselves, we see the sort of thing that ought to be warded off from all. But it takes sympathy to extend that concern to others, and fear is not always combined with sympathy. Indeed, it can often distract us from general sympathy. To see why, let us consider what we know about it.7

Fear is an unusually primitive emotion. It is found in all mammals, many of whom lack the cognitive prerequisites of sympathy (which requires positional thinking), guilt and anger (which require ideas of cause

and blame), and grief (which requires an appraisal of the value of the lost individual). We now know that animals as ?simple? as rats and mice are capable of appraising objects as good or bad for the self. All fear requires is some rudimentary orientation toward survival and well- being. Joseph LeDoux?s important work has shown that the transmission of fright signals involves a number of distinct parts of the brain, but that a crucial role is played by the amygdala, a part of the brain that is common to all vertebrates8 and is not connected to higher cognition. LeDoux explains that he has not shown that fear is seated in the amygdala. He is studying fright behavior, not the emotion of fear, either in rats or in humans. He believes that fear itself is a subjective state of awareness, whose connection to fright behavior would need further study. Even where fright behavior is concerned, it is a function of the entire network, he argues, not of the amygdala alone.9 Still, LeDoux does show that human fear involves deeply implanted evolutionary tendencies: the shape of the snake, for example, elicits fright behavior even in people who have no experience of snakes. Moreover, habituated fright conditions the organism and is very diffi cult to unlearn.

Fear, then, is a form of heightened awareness, but one with a very narrow frame, initially at least: one?s own body, and perhaps, by extension, one?s life, and people and things connected to it. It is triggered by mechanisms that are rooted in genuine evolutionary usefulness, but which are also very recalcitrant to learning and moral

ople?s potentially united energy. What leaders say can make a great deal of diff erence, bringing people together around a common project.

An obvious case, which we may study as a paradigm of the wise po litical management of fear, is Winston Churchill?s famous speech of May 13, 1940, his fi rst speech to the House of Commons as prime minister. At that time there was a real danger that the British people would collapse in fear and exhaustion. Churchill?s goal, brilliantly executed, was to characterize accurately the im mense eff ort that would be required and to dispel defeatist fear in favor of a spirit of hope and solidarity. Here is the crucial part of the speech:

I would say to the House, as I said to those who have joined this government: ?I have nothing to off er but blood, toil, tears, and sweat.? We have before us an ordeal of the most grievous kind. We have before us many, many long months of struggle and of suff ering. You ask, what is our policy? I can say: It is to wage war, by sea, land and air, with all our might and with all the strength that God can give us; to wage war against a monstrous tyranny, never surpassed in the dark, lamentable cata logue of human crime. That is our policy. You ask, what is our aim? I can answer in one word: It is victory, victory at all costs, victory in spite of all terror, victory, however long and hard the road may be; for without victory, there is no survival. Let that be realized; no survival for the British Empire, no survival for all that the British Empire has stood for, no survival for the urge and impulse of the ages, that mankind will move forward towards its goal. But I take up my task with buoyancy and hope. I feel sure that our cause will not be suff ered to fail among men. At this time I feel entitled to claim the aid of all, and I say, ?Come then, let us go forward together with our united strength.?

From the point of view of sheer technical rhetoric, this speech, with its resonant biblical phrases, its incantatory repetitions, and its artful repetitions and crescendos, is as carefully crafted as anything in Cicero,

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who undoubtedly inspired it (despite the fact that Churchill was a weak classical scholar!). Emotionally, it traces a map of a most interesting sort. Churchill begins, in eff ect, in the middle of people?s fear? and instead of turning away from it, he confronts it: Yes, it is that bad. It is a terrible ordeal. But at that very moment the task begins to take on heroic and in that sense appealing and somewhat glamorous proportions, as Churchill summons a range of images? the labors of Hercules against monsters, a classic schoolboy?s tale of battle and danger, images of past British victories over tyranny (Lord Nelson is not far away). Then Churchill returns to the alternative. It is not friendly partying with German elites (as Edward VIII and Mrs. Simpson probably thought). It is extinction of everything fi ne about Britain? and here Churchill sounds a note he loves to sound, the note of Britain?s empire as the necessary condition of world civilization and progress. He makes the audience feel the fear fully by representing its object as nothing less than the extinction of the human race, via the extinction of the values of the British Empire. Empire is made to look so necessary and so beautiful that sacrifi ce is amply justifi ed? and now Churchill turns to ?ho

pe? and even ?buoy-
ancy.? He becomes, in eff ect, the undaunted schoolboy hero fi ghting the forces of darkness, a fi gure beloved of the British public, from Tom Brown at Rugby to Harry Potter. Then he forms a community around him: the emotional arc of the speech has entitled him to refer to ?our united strength.?

Now let us turn to Roo se velt?s earlier speech. War in the literal sense was not yet at hand, but Roo se velt?s treatment of the economic crisis closely parallels Churchill?s treatment of military emergency. Like Churchill, Roo se velt traces an arc from fear to hope and solidarity? but in a characteristically American mode, self- reliance and Christian morality taking the place of empire.11

Roo se velt begins, like Churchill, with a profession of honesty: Americans rely on him to ?address them with a candor and a decision which the present situation of our Nation impels.? Throughout the speech, Roo se velt insistently characterizes the present state of the nation as one of war, saying we must treat ?the task as we would treat the emergency of a war.? His policies are ?lines of attack.? The American people are ?a trained and loyal army?; he assumes the leadership of ?this great army of

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our people dedicated to a disciplined attack upon our common problems.? He only asks for broad executive power ?to wage a war against the emergency.? And yet, early on, he sounds his other major note: the problem is not so grave that it cannot be solved by American ingenuity and self- reliance. It is less grave than the ?perils which our forefathers conquered because they believed and were not afraid.? Indeed, his very fi rst characterization of the economic crisis contains a combination of grim accounting with the cheerful reminder that it is not a problem that goes to the core of America?s identity:

In such a spirit on my part and on yours we face our common diffi - culties. They concern, thank God, only material things. Values have shrunken to fantastic levels; taxes have risen; our ability to pay has fallen; government of all kinds is faced by serious curtailment of income; the means of exchange are frozen in the currents of trade; the withered leaves of industrial enterprise lie on every side; farmers fi nd no markets for their produce; the savings of many years in thousands of families are gone. More important, a host of unemployed citizens face the grim problem of existence, and an equally great number toil with little return. Only a foolish optimist can deny the dark realities of the moment.

Like Churchill, Roo se velt enumerates with dark honesty the problems of his time, showing that fear is warranted and rational. But at the same time he points the way beyond these problems by saying that they ?concern, thank God, only material things.? For although the primary argument of the speech concerns confi dence and united work, a major subtheme concerns blame. Roo se velt responds to the (unspoken) anxious question whether America?s economic system itself, indeed its whole demo cratic way of life, is to blame for the present crisis. Socialism was waiting around the corner, and the speech later concludes, ?We do not distrust the future of essential democracy. The people of the United States have not failed.? Here near the beginning, Roo se velt insists that there is no ?failure of substance,? no defect in Americans and their time-

is point in the speech, the fi nancial en-
emy is seen as a useless character, both fl ighty and selfi sh, while the true American, joining the common eff ort, is a pioneer and a good neighbor, and helping others is seen as the responsible way to live.

Roo se velt has another opponent, whom he arranges not to confront. Addressing mainstream America, he encourages his audience not to have fear concerning the essential soundness of America?s institutions. But by his insistent, albeit negative, references to blame he betrays the presence of a left- wing opposition (including Huey Long, who was already becoming a threat) that does in fact blame American institutions for the nation?s ills. What he cleverly does is to downgrade this opponent from a conscientious critic of the nation to a coward: because there?s no place for real blame, the negative response can only be fear. This is rhetorical sleight- of- hand, and it is certainly not a reasoned confrontation with the arguments of his socialist opponents. We may criticize him for treating them disparagingly in this way? or, on the other hand, if we share his goals, we may feel him justifi ed in telling his main audience, the uncertain mainstream, that there is no legitimate principled opposition out there, but only fear.

By comparing Roo se velt?s speech with Churchill?s, both masterpieces of emotional motivation, we can see that a good rhetorician knows his audience thoroughly, knows what images will resonate and what appeals will arouse strong emotion. The British public wants victory at all costs

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and wants the glorious spirit of empire to survive. The American is a moralist: he wants to be responsible and courageous, to show his own self- reliance and to do his duty for others. Roo se velt purports to describe America and Americans, but of course the reality was volatile. His intervention constructed emotions critical to creating the kind of united eff ort that the New Deal involved, with regard to which it was indeed true that a major impediment was fear itself. We do not need to think that Roo se velt was unerring with regard to fear (the later internment of Japa nese Americans was a clear instance of excess) in order to think that, given his specifi c goals, he found apt strategies to meet them in this speech.

Urban Architecture in Delhi and Hyde Park: How to Create Fear and How to Begin to Combat It

Cities bring people together from diff erent ethnic, racial, economic, and religious backgrounds. Entrenched suspicions often divide them, and these suspicions can be either diminished or augmented by the layout of urban space. Urban architecture creates ways of living, sometimes fostering friendship, sometimes reinforcing fear. There are always grounds for fear in cities: crime, the volatility of employment, the diversity of groups and languages. But architecture can do a great deal to exacerbate fear into open hostility or to assuage it, encouraging problem solving in a spirit of fellowship.

The sad story of India?s old and new Delhi shows us how easy it is to sow the seeds of fear and division, how diffi cult to restore Whitmanian ?companionship? once it has been lost. We can begin with the fact that virtually all contemporary Indian writing about Delhi?s architecture and layout is either hostile or nostalgic. The hostile predominates in tales of people from elsewhere forced to learn to

ale: Hindu, Muslim, and Christian, tradespeo-
ple and Mughal royalty, all interacted in a web of connections, in which even the British occupants played a cooperative role.
Delhi was no stranger to military conquest, and even in the eighteenth century the poetry of Delhi expresses a sense of fracture, and corresponding nostalgia. The great eighteenth- century Urdu poet Mir Taqi Mir wrote, ?The custom is now quite extinct? and yet in days gone by / Friends would sit down and talk to one another night and day.?17 After a particularly savage battle, Mir exclaimed: ?Delhi, which was the city select of the world where the elite of the times lived; / Has been robbed and destroyed by circumstance. / I belong to that very desolate city.?18 Still, by the mid- nineteenth century the old city was basically intact, as activities of all sorts? from the bustle of shopping to all- night poetry parties? brought people together. As Dalrymple?s marvelously detailed narrative shows, the British and Indian inhabitants had comically diff erent conceptions of what daytime was, the British rising at 4:00 am and ending the day by 8:00 pm, Indians rising around 2:00 pm and going to bed at dawn. Still, there was enough interaction to produce many borrowings in dress and art, and even quite a few Anglo-Indian marriages, before the sad era of division to which we shall shortly turn.19 To be fully included in that city, you didn?t have to profess any par tic u lar creed? although you did perhaps have to love poetry and music.
When the British invaded the city in 1857, at the end of the Sepoy Rebellion, it would have been enough to capture the last Mughal emperor and take control of the Red Fort. Instead, however, in an act of savagery deplored on all sides ever since, they decided to lay waste to it in truly Homeric fashion, extinguishing the embers of its former greatness,

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lest the Mughals rise again to power. We know what Delhi was from a few surviving bits? part of the Red Fort, and the Jama Masjid? but also, and far more, by the pictures and narratives of what it was before 1857. As Dalrymple shows, the new British style of rule was militant, evangelical, intolerant of both Hindu and Muslim cultures. Rather than respecting Delhi?s cultural heritage, as prior generations had done, they aimed at cultural genocide. No rebuilding was undertaken; Delhi became a city of ruins. And in order to put an end to the Mughal dynasty, all Muslim citizens were simply exiled for years? thus creating a division between religions that had not existed previously and which the British continued to encourage until their departure. ?For a whole generation,? writes historian Salman Kurshid, ?Delhi became a city of distant nostalgia mixed with bitter and sad memories, shattered monuments and ruins of its imperial days.?20
The deliberate aim of the British was thus to create fear and to fracture fellowship. But of course they could not rule from a pile of rubble, and so their next task was to create a Delhi from which they might rule: imperial Delhi. For this purpose they turned to the architect Edward Lutyens, who, with his colleague Herbert Baker, created New Delhi? very much as we now know it.21 Their aim was to express superiority and inspire awe? and awe, unlike wonder, is an inherently hierarchical emotion, expressing submission to a greater power.22 New Delhi, accordi

ngly, was about as far removed from old Delhi as could be imag-
ined: in a remote spot in a far southern area, rather than in the city itself;
pristine white instead of intricately laid out in mosaics of color; impene-
trable to daily life, so that ordinary people would be afraid to go there;
and partly on the lofty Raisina hill, so the rulers could look down on the
inhabitants they ruled. Lutyens was in his own way a gifted architect,
and his attempts to infuse Indian motifs into the basically Eu ro pe an
buildings do lead to some interesting results. Teen Murti, which later
became famous as Nehru?s house and now houses the Nehru Museum
and Library, is impressive in its classical simplicity. Nonetheless, the
new city is massive, weighty, and untouchable, rather than active and
lived- in. It creates a feeling that one should not go near, and its very
whiteness, together with its maze of geometrical but still barely intelligi-
ble streets, inspires fear. The American is less troubled, because of its

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distant resemblance to Washington, D.C. and the preservation of open
green spaces for (today) some public park land, as well as for private polo
and cricket grounds, is a reassuring touch to the non- Indian eye?
though not to Delhi?s poor, who live too far away to use the relatively few
beautiful public areas.

From a city of poetry, Delhi quickly became a city of fear. As historian
Malvika Singh writes, ?It became ?them? and ?us,? the insular seat of gov-
ernment and the active, ever growing, rooted cultural hub.?23 But this
hub experienced itself from the start as wounded. Mirza Ghalib, court
poet of that last Mughal court (whose fl ight from the city Dalrymple
chronicles in detail, using diaries and letters), summed it all up: ?Four
things kept Delhi alive: the fort, the daily crowds at the Jama Masjid, the
weekly walk to the Yamuna bridge, and the annual fair of the fl ower
people. None of these survives, so how does Delhi survive? Yes, there
once was a city of the name of Delhi in this land of India.?24 When Jane
Jacobs describes the ?death? of great American cities, she is referring to
the inadvertent destruction of patterns of living by zealous yet well-
intentioned urban planners. The destruction of Delhi was not just a
death; it was a murder.

Today nothing can be done to recover what was lost. A new indige-
nous elite now rules from New Delhi, but the ?hub? is nothing like what
it was once. Much of it commercialized and uglifi ed, it inspires even
more fear, perhaps, than Lutyens?s gracious if remote and weighty
constructions? although the area around Delhi University gives some
sense of the old days. A tiny beginning of memory further south is the
new project of a group of architects, who have been authorized to restore
the sixteenth- and seventeenth- century Mughal tombs in Lodhi Garden,
one part of old Delhi that was geo graph i cally far enough from the cata-
clysm to have escaped erasure. Other restoration projects are also in
progress, but too much is gone to reestablish anything like the old city.

In terms of group relations, the Hindu- Muslim coexistence of the nine-
teenth century has never been fully re- created, except at a very upper-
class level; specifi c quarters of the city are now ?Muslim neighbor-
hoods,? vulnerable to police harassment when there?s a terrorism scare.25
And the gulf between elites and everybody else that New D

es (1909? 2007), who pro-
moted integration? and were leading forces in the racial integration of
the university?s Laboratory School, which fi rst admitted African Ameri-
cans in 1942.30 A letter written by the Despreses and two others at the
time read, ?Under the present practice, we are denying our children the
benefi ts of democracy by ingraining into their school life and personali-
ties an old prejudice. How can we eff ectively urge our children to con-
sider the superiority of democracy when we ourselves reject it for them??31
Despite this progress, however, the situation Wright?s novel of 1940
describes was very much the way things were for de cades, both before
and after: a person with a black skin (unless a carefully cultivated middle-
class exception) was seen as out of place and, like Bigger, experienced
himself as out of place, on the wrong side of an implicit color ?line? that
ran around the perimeter of Hyde Park. (Bigger lived at 37th and Indi-
ana.) Journalist Brent Staples recalls in a 1986 essay that in 1972 his ap-
pearance at midnight on a Hyde Park street (he was then a graduate stu-
dent at the University of Chicago) caused a young well- dressed white
woman to start running. This woman, he writes with sad irony, was his
fi rst ?victim,? and his fi rst experience of his own ?ability to alter public
space in ugly ways.?32 Such reactions to the presence of a black man in
white space were of course not uncommon, but in Hyde Park they were

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virtually guaranteed by the invisible color line that, by the deliberate
design of the university?s leaders, cordoned off the university commu-
nity from the surrounding neighborhoods.
There was a lot of crime in Hyde Park in those days? so much so that
the university once considered a move to some ?less exigent environ-
ment.?33 (Alternative sites mentioned included Wisconsin, suburban
DuPage County, and Aspen, Colorado.)34 But its own spatial and archi-
tectural choices helped create an atmosphere of mutual suspicion and
furthered opportunities for crime. The university was said to have infl u-
enced the city to design the elevated public transportation system so that
it did not come into Hyde Park, which the Green Line once had? thus
keeping foreign elements away from the virtually gated community, but
also keeping the community more solitary and isolated from the bustle
of activity, and making it harder for its members to move freely into the
city.35 Through traffi c was also discouraged by the large number of one-
way streets and frequent dead ends. A typical sign of those times was a
tall chain link fence behind the Law School parking lot (right on the
?line? between Hyde Park and the Woodlawn neighborhood), which
was not removed until 1998. Intended presumably to protect professors?
cars from vandals intruding from 61st Street, the fence stood as a symbol
of hostility and an inward- looking mentality? not malevolent, as were
the British in Delhi, but disdainful toward the neighborhoods in a cul-
pably obtuse manner. The university community might sing the words
of the alma mater, ?We praise her breadth of charity,? and yet charity
both began and ended at home.36
Beyond the symbolic and emotional signifi cance of these separations,
what all this meant was that no bustle of activity made the open spaces
lighter and safer at night, and that the surrounding neighborhoods, left
to be zones

, skate rental for only six dollars,
a warming house with a roof observation platform, and food to purchase. This simple idea meant not only that the city now welcomed neighbors and tourists alike to Hyde Park, but also that the once- dark Midway became fl ooded with light more or less throughout the academic year, and full of people. I had been mugged right in that block at 5:00 pm in 1996; this would be virtually impossible today. Friendship and safety go hand in hand.
More recently, the university decided to locate its new Reva and David Logan Arts Center? itself an idea that departs from the ideology of those Gothic courts, where the arts were once frowned on as not seriously intellectual? on Ingleside between 60th and 61st, thus at the very southern and western end of Hyde Park.41 From the start, the plan involved the neighborhoods. The new center plans many activities in cooperation with Woodlawn groups; it is also accompanied by retail development in the Woodlawn neighborhood, and is one more visible sign of the revival of the neighborhood as a racially and eco nom ical ly mixed neighborhood. The soaring, exuberant glass and stone building (designed by Tod Williams and Billie Tsien) does not exactly repudiate the Gothic? indeed, in its lofty ascent it pays homage to the past. But it sends a message of hope and dynamism. Its design exemplifi es a change in architectural spirit in the university as a whole, from the backward-looking to the forward- looking (and, we might say, from the worship of the past associated with the era of Presidents Harper and Robert Maynard Hutchins42 to the forward movement of Dewey?s pragmatism).43
Finally, in connection with the new Arts Center, the university undertook a massive upgrade of the streets and crosswalks around the Midway, of which the centerpieces are the Light Bridges designed by James Carpenter44 on Woodlawn and Ellis Avenues, and later added on

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Dorchester as well. Huge stainless- steel masts that emit dramatic shafts of white light? and refl ect the sun?s rays during the day? the lights (known as ?light sabers? to students) really do create a bridge from south to north, their arcing light a gesture of invitation. As Kamin approvingly notes, they form an aesthetic link between the modernist buildings south of the Midway (Mies van der Rohe?s School of Social Administration, Eero Saarinen?s Law School, the new Arts Center) and the Gothic buildings on the north side. They also fulfi ll meta phor ical ly one of Frederick Law Olmsted?s original plans for the Midway: he wanted water there, and literal bridges over it. The lighting itself was designed with an eye to safety as well as beauty. One of the designers says of the bridges, ?They provide greater lighting on the vertical surface of people?s faces. If the lights goes straight down, only to the pavement, you don?t feel as safe.?45
This story tells us a lot about fear and fellowship. When fear dominated university thinking, impeding inclusive sympathy, steps were taken that made things less safe as well as less hospitable. At the same time, the fearfulness of Hyde Park (genuine as well as fantasized) was augmented by the inward- looking exclusionary attitude that denied fellowship. Fear and exclusion fed on each other. It took bold decisions to break out of that vicious spiral, creating at least some trust. Bold thinking w

ill continue to be required in our era of ongoing racial tension. Because this solution is of local rather than national or even citywide significance (unlike the Vietnam Veterans Memorial, Millennium Park, or the Burnham plan for the lakeshore), its larger effects, both in Chicago and in the nation, are difficult to assess. But good solutions are typically local, rooted in a deep understanding of local histories and problems, so progress is likely to be the product of many small experiments rather than one grand plan. In this case, the fact of the university?s worldwide fame made it capable of creating a widely publicized paradigm that can encourage other efforts.

These are only a few examples of the good and bad management of fear. They suffice, however, to show that governments make decisions all the time that affect the level and nature of people?s fear, and its relationship to common effort. They should ponder these emotions and make their decisions well.

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IV. Envy and Fairness: A Common Project

Envy has threatened democracies ever since they began to exist. Under absolute monarchy, people?s possibilities were fixed, and they might come to believe that fate, or divine justice, had placed them where they were. But a society that eschews fixed orders and destinies in favor of mobility and competition opens the door to envy for the prosperity of others. If envy is sufficiently widespread, it can eventually threaten justice, particularly when a society (like our hypothetical society) has committed itself to substantial redistribution in order to protect a threshold of well- being for all.

Envy is a painful emotion that focuses on the good fortune or advantages of others, comparing one?s own situation unfavorably to theirs. It involves a rival, and a good or goods appraised as important; the envier is pained because the rival possesses those good things and she does not. The good things must be seen as important not in some abstract or detached way, but for the self and the self?s core sense of well- being.46 Typically, envy involves some type of hostility toward the fortunate rival: the envier wants what the rival has, and feels ill will toward the rival in consequence. Envy thus creates animosity and tension at the heart of society, and this may ultimately prevent society from achieving some of its goals. Because it is intuitively clear and experimentally confirmed that judgments of well- being are highly positional, and that this is true in a wide range of societies, envy is bound to remain a common experience and a likely cause of social distress.

Envy is similar to jealousy, in that both involve hostility toward a rival with respect to the possession or enjoyment of a valued good. Jealousy, however, is typically about the fear of a specific loss (usually, though not always, a loss of personal attention or love), and thus about protection of the most cherished goods and relationships of the self. Its focus is on the rival, seen as a threat to the self. It is basically about protecting the self from damage.47 Its prototype, and perhaps its origin, is competition with one parent for the attention and love of the other; sibling rivalry is another ubiquitous prototype. Envy, by contrast, revolves around nonpossession of a desired status or possessions. Its focus is on the absent goods, and its hostility toward their

arison between
one?s own situation and that of the better- off . But in emulation the good situation is seen as achievable by some type of eff ort, and the good is not understood as a zero- sum game, so emulation doesn?t involve hostile thoughts toward the more fortunate person. If A, a high- school student, sees that B gets good grades in school, and A is moved to emulation, she typically says to herself, ?I can achieve that too if I work hard.? Envy is diff erent, because, as psychologists have often concluded, it involves a feeling of hopelessness and helplessness.50 Thus the envious high school student says, ?Those pop u lar kids. I hate them. I can never be like them.? (Notice that I?ve shifted the example from getting good grades, which is often achievable by eff ort, to popularity, which usually isn?t.)
So, while emulation is compatible with wishing the competitor well, envy involves bitterness and hostility. Envy needn?t involve a specifi c hostile wish. (In this sense it is distinct from hostile gloating at another?s loss of good things, or the related emotion of Schadenfreude.) In my imagined case the envier doesn?t necessarily picture the pop u lar kids losing their popularity, though she might. But she will view them with animosity of some type, and will certainly not wish for a common good that includes them (such as success of the high school cheerleading squad or football team).
Envy is also distinct from resentment, a moral emotion that involves a sense of injustice.51 The person who feels resentment at the advantages of others believes that things have gone morally wrong: some injustice is at work in placing them above her. Correcting this injustice would satisfy

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resentment and remove the pain of the resenter. By contrast, envy requires no such moral thought. As Rawls puts it, ?It is suffi cient to say that the better situation of others catches our attention.?52 Resentment is expressed by social critique, and it can often be constructive, leading to change that removes the injustice (if the resenter has analyzed things correctly). Envy is just ?a form of rancor that tends to harm both its object and its subject.?53 To return to high school: the student who feels resentment might make a variety of complaints, such as ?I wrote the best essay, but didn?t get the best grade because I was daring and unconventional,? ?Sports are valued much too highly by comparison to academic achievement,? or ?I was not cast as Hamlet, although I am the best actor, because of my race.? In all of these cases, whether the student is right or wrong, there is a moral grievance, and the emotion expresses that complaint. The envious student, by contrast, just feels bad about the superiority of others, without a moral grievance. (Of course, envy may often masquerade as resentment through manufactured grievances,54 but that does not alter the conceptual point.)
Emulation and resentment are both healthy emotions in a decent society: the former encourages the individual to be better, and the latter encourages the society to be better. Envy has no such constructive function, and while it can spur individuals on to hard work and personal achievement, its rancor can indeed prove harmful.
Because envy of others can exist even when ?their being more fortunate than we are does not detract from our advantages,?55 it remains a potential problem in eve

n the most decent and just society.
Finally, envy has a harmless, and often helpful, species in which one is temporarily pained by another?s possession of a longed- for good? but, because one?s desire for the good is fl eeting and not seriously endorsed, the pain does not involve hostile wishing. Visiting my relatives, I briefl y think, ?Life in Ithaca is so peaceful and lovely,? and feel a pang of longing for their life. But since I absolutely do not want to live there, and would hate it if I did, my fl eeting envy is more like an empathetic appreciation of the goods that my relatives cherish. It involves friendship and participatory imagination, rather than hostility, and thus contributes to toleration. If I couldn?t see why on earth someone would even for a moment want to live there, to that extent there would be a gap in our

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friendship. But there?s no rivalry. What makes the diff erence, it seems, is my all- things- considered valuation. If they lived in Chicago and I was stuck for some reason in Ithaca, my visit to their home could produce a much more problematic emotion. That?s a clear- cut case, but some cases of empathetic envy are more wistful and less clear, a record of the ?road not taken? in one?s own life. In all such cases, one wishes the other party well rather than ill, and envy contributes to understanding.
Under what conditions are hostile outbreaks of envy especially likely? Rawls mentions three.56 First, there is a psychological condition: people lack secure confi dence ?in their own value and in their ability to do anything worthwhile.? Second, there is a social condition: many circumstances arise when this psychological condition is experienced as painful and humiliating, because the conditions of social life make the discrepancies that give rise to envy highly visible. Third, the envious see their position as off ering them no constructive alternative to mere hostility. The only relief they can envisage is to infl ict pain on others.
We can now see that some social structures fulfi ll these conditions to a far greater degree than others. The average high school is a veritable cauldron of envy. Adolescents are especially likely to be in a psychological condition of insecurity about their worth and their future. Everything that happens makes rankings salient: grading, the competition for college entrance, the visibility of sports in most places, the frequently cruel formation of cliques and groups and the related ranking of people by attractiveness. And the low- ranked often do feel hopeless about their situation.
How might a high school be somewhat less like that, or contain that hostility to a greater degree? First, it would off er support for students thinking about their future and trying to develop self- esteem in an uncertain world. Parents are key here, but teachers and counselors can also play a part. Each student can come to feel that a basic level of attainment is within her grasp, and this will at least diminish the pain of thinking about the superior achievements of others. The social condition is tricky, since a good high school will encourage emulation by making achievement salient to some degree, but it can also fi nd ways of rewarding other talents that students have, suggesting multiple paths to excellence; certainly it can inhibit the excessive dominance of competitive sports and

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n a variety of lives. To that extent, hostile envy is diminished.

Still, such a culture remains prone to hostile envy, and therefore we need to ask what more can be done to support a culture of civic friendship that makes people less likely, at least, to be at odds with one another in this way. Envy attacks compassion in two ways: by narrowing the circle of concern and thus encouraging the ?eudaimonistic thought? to focus on the self, or one?s own group, and by inhibiting the sense of similar possibilities and the empathy that usefully accompanies it, suggesting that the envied are ?other? or ?the enemy.?

What we need as an antidote, then, is a sense of a common fate, and a friendship that draws the advantaged and less advantaged into a single group, with a common task before it. Such friends should sense that the diff erent groups are allies in the struggle, rather than adversaries. In a small homogeneous society, this sense of common fate can develop on its own, as a result of networks of connection and personal knowledge. I?ve asked people in Finland, where I?ve spent a lot of time, and which has a robust and utterly unopposed set of social insurance policies, why there is so little opposition on the part of the more privileged to policies that benefi t the less advantaged.60 The answer I typically hear is that the absence of interclass envy derives in large part from the sense that this small society (5 million inhabitants) is like a family, with the prospects of all citizens intertwined. That good feature of Finnish society, however, is closely linked to a more problematic one: its extreme homogeneity and reluctance to admit immigrants or asylum seekers.

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In a larger and more diverse society, how might one create such a sense of common fate, or, in Whitman?s terms, ?plant companionship thick as trees?? An external enemy often has this eff ect, whether a rival high school or an attacking nation. People forget their diff erences in rising to a hostile challenge. Similarly, in young nations, citizens frequently construct friendship from their history of oppression: the memory of common suff ering gives them a united purpose. Still, one would like to have some strategies for civic friendship that do not depend on the existence of George III or the British Raj, much less Hitler and Hirohito.

To illustrate the wide range of more peaceful devices a nation may use, I shall choose two examples from po liti cal theater/rhetoric? Franklin Delano Roo se velt?s ?Second Bill of Rights? speech and Gandhi?s use of his personal lifestyle to alter the behavior of elites. I then turn to a very diff erent type of case, the creation of New York?s Central Park by Frederick Law Olmsted as a ?People?s Park? that can shape people?s sense of their interactions with others.

Roo se velt and the ?Second Bill of Rights?

Despite the achievements of the New Deal, emotional and legal, America during the years of World War II was not an emotionally unifi ed nation. The war supplied emotional solidarity and cohesion. But as the war effort succeeded and the postwar era was in sight, thought had to be given once again to issues of class and economic security. Roo se velt understood that the war had to some extent put class envy on the back burner? not entirely, as those Bill Mauldin cartoons depicting the contrast between enlisted men and offi cers movingly show61?

not be the country?s highest goal. Instead, America must aim at ?security.? What American, in 1944, could fail to attach the most intense emotions to that idea? Roo se velt thus moves the heart directly into the area of its greatest ferment and anxiety. Roo se velt now continues, ?And that means not only physical security which provides safety from attacks by aggressors. It means also economic security, social security, moral security? in a family of nations.? All the Allies agree that we must promote economic development, and that this means building industry, but also building education and individual opportunity, and raising standards of living. He now says that everyone can see that military security is henceforth essential; well, so too is social and economic security. ?[A]n equally basic essential to peace is a decent standard of living for all individual men and women and children in all Nations. Freedom from fear is eternally linked with freedom from want.? (With ?eternally? he returns to the lofty biblical language of his First Inaugural Address.) Roo se velt now turns to the enemies of his economic programs, arguing that they are forces of division that create danger and confusion in war time. Once again, as in his First Inaugural Address, he characterizes them in language of derision rather than fear. These ?pests who swarm through the lobbies of the Congress and the cocktail bars of Washington? want to advance the interests of special groups rather than those of the nation as a whole. The humorous comparison of his enemies to insects and the comical picture of those (petty and annoying) insects swarming through cocktail bars give the ensuing praise of the dignity of our fi ghting men par tic u lar force. Such imagery is slippery: minorities have all too often been denigrated by being compared to insects or other ?low? animals, and we have seen that Roo se velt likes to disparage serious opposition without directly engaging it. This is a fl aw, even if an understandable one. Still, the fact that the speech affi rms the dignity of the vast majority of Americans and ridicules a few powerful people who seem to be enemies of that dignity? combined with the fact that the imagery is comic rather than disgust- laden, puncturing the pretensions of these selfi sh elites? frees it, I think, from that ethical problem.

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In war time, Roo se velt now continues, we must understand ?how interdependent upon each other are all groups and sections of the population of America . . . If ever there was a time to subordinate individual or group selfi shness to the national good, that time is now.? The fellow feeling with people in diffi culties that was a hallmark of Roo se velt?s approach to life after his illness permeates the speech. Repeatedly he expressed impatience with those who blame the poor for their poverty, and here he will be suggesting that the nation itself has a responsibility to prevent extreme want.65

Roo se velt thus positions the war itself as a war against selfi shness, and directs the urgent emotions of his hearers toward the goal of economic security. After making a number of concrete proposals? for new taxes, for agricultural subsidies and a ceiling on food prices, and, especially, for compulsory national ser vice, Roo se velt then sets out a new understanding of basic rights:66

We have come to a clear realizati

ical ly in two distinct ways, then: as a way of thinking about the struggle against want, and as a model of the desirable sort of common eff ort and goodwill. In eff ect, he is following Mazzini in trying to goad people out of their selfi shness and narrowness toward a type of common eff ort that he sees exemplifi ed in the war eff ort. The issue is not so much whether Roo se velt?s policies are right or wrong (although our hypothetical society has adopted a similar account of basic entitlements). What is important is that the speech shows how one might forge a memorable and strongly emotive language to reposition social and economic issues in the American imaginary: the language of freedom, the language of war, and the language of a new Bill of Rights. All these ways of thinking and speaking reconfi gure the po liti cal landscape. Instead of the feared and foreign ?socialism,? he gives us cherished and familiar American liberty. Clearly it worked for a time, getting Americans to understand their heritage and their future in a new way.

The heart of the po liti cal problem of envy is the intergroup hostility and factionalism it encourages and strengthens. No politician can hope to remove personal envy, since diff erences will remain and they will inspire at least some hostility; indeed, no capitalist politician should even want to remove envy. But the class- based envy with which Roo se velt grappled was disabling, and his speech was one of many rhetorical efforts on his part to produce a spirit of civic friendship and common work, convincing the disadvantaged that the nation will support their aspirations and attempting to convince the advantaged that narrow self-interest is un- American.

Gandhi and the Conduct of Leaders

India of the 1930s and 1940s contained astonishing inequalities? educational, cultural, po liti cal, bodily. That is still true today, although the gap has narrowed. What is not so true today was that the lives of the vast majority of India?s people were utterly invisible to indigenous elites, who lived a cloistered existence. Frequently highly westernized, they encountered members of other classes only as domestic servants. Even though Indians were themselves treated with racial discrimination by the British, their own society was profoundly hierarchical, based on a

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quasi- feudal system of land tenure. Such a society could hardly have become a successful democracy without building a sense of common purpose that crossed lines of caste, region, religion, and especially of economic class, thus dissipating class hostility. But how could a sense of common fate be engendered when people?s very bodies were utterly different (nutritional diff erences aff ecting height, and indoor versus outdoor lifestyles aff ecting skin color) and when patterns of life were so utterly diff erent, upper castes eschewing manual labor of any kind, lower castes and classes more or less completely excluded from education and social advancement? Resentment could perhaps be satisfi ed by a wise set of institutions and laws that would guarantee to all their legal rights. But envy would remain as a cancer, infecting common eff orts. The fact that India today is a highly successful democracy? not without grave problems, but not torn apart by class warfare, nor a failed state like Pakistan? owes a great deal to the way in which Gandhi tackl

ed the
problem of envy, convincing elites to adopt a simple lifestyle and to make common cause with laborers and peasants. It is no accident, but a profound tribute to Gandhi?s infl uence, that Nehru entitled one of his most important books (written in a British jail) The Discovery of India: for a Kashmiri Brahmin like Nehru, his own (future) nation was unknown territory, in both historical and human terms, and his career thenceforth was a voyage of mental and psychological exploration.
Gandhi?s decision to travel in many rural areas of India and to get directly involved with peasants? demands was not unique: Rabindranath Tagore and other progressive landlords had long taken a keenly personal interest in rural development, and Tagore?s Santiniketan school had a rural development sister project at nearby Sriniketan. What was unique, however, was the way in which Gandhi insisted on, and achieved, behavioral changes that brought elites closer to the vast majority of the future citizens of India. Already in 1917, in helping the labor struggle of the peasants in Champaran, Bihar, he formed a supportive group of Bihari lawyers, but insisted that they had to give up caste rules and eat from a common kitchen. Since all were ?engaged in rendering ser vice,? he said, eating separately made no sense.71
This became his strategy everywhere. His moral authority and his own example, as he transformed his own personal appearance in the

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direction of greater and greater simplicity, led his most infl uential followers to emulate his sacrifi ce of position? and to see it as not sacrifi ce but virtue. Motilal Nehru used to be one of India?s best- dressed men, in fi ne British style. His son, Jawaharlal, describes himself as having the views and lifestyle, while at Cambridge, of a Cyrenaic hedonist, in the manner of Oscar Wilde and Walter Pater.72 Within a short time of joining with Gandhi in the in de pen dence movement, however, both father and son utterly changed their attire, wearing homespun cloth and the simple cap that became the hallmark of Congress politicians. They also changed their lifestyle, working closely with rural peasants. ?The whole look of the Congress changed,? Nehru writes. ?Eu ro pe an clothes vanished and soon only khadi was to be seen.?73 During his long periods of imprisonment, Nehru was often at the spinning wheel. When, later, he or ga nized the wedding of his daughter Indira, he urged her to wear a homespun sari? a particularly important statement, given the lavishness with which weddings are traditionally celebrated in India.74
A crucial turning point in Jawaharlal Nehru?s career? one that seemed to bring a change in the ?very core of his understanding of India and of the meaning of politics,? as biographer Judith Brown puts it? was his experience of a peasant struggle in 1920, in which he worked side by side with rural peasants and came to understand their lifestyle and their thoughts.75 He now saw India in terms of ?such men and women as those who confronted him with their poverty and their hope . . . The casually intellectual parlour socialism he had toyed with in Cambridge paled before this human evidence.?76 In the corresponding passage of the Autobiography, Nehru reports listening to the peasants? ?innumerable tales of sorrow,? and concludes, ?I was fi lled with shame and sorrow, shame at my own easy- going and c

ashamed of them. That this never happened in Pakistan says much about the divergent histories of the two nations. I have heard Indian friends comment on excessive ostentation in dress or home furnishings, ?Ugh. That looks like something you?d see in Pakistan.? (Because of visa restrictions, most of them have never been there, so this is a ste reo type based on report, but one with a basis in reality.) Second, it did away with the sense of hostile competition for social advantage: elites were now seen to be enduring hard work and sacrifi ce to secure benefi ts for everyone. This sense of ser vice could have degenerated into a top- down noblesse oblige had Gandhi not carefully chosen to be the poorest of the poor and at the same time to encourage the voices of the oppressed. So there was a single community, united in a common work? a theme that Nehru picks up and continues even after the ?work? of ending the Raj was complete. (We recall its prominence in his ?tryst with destiny? speech.)83 To the extent that the poor see elites as their loyal agents and trust them, they want them to succeed rather than to fail. To the extent that the idea of a common work catches on, to that extent envy?s hopelessness and helplessness are transcended in favor of constructive and useful activity.

Had Gandhi engaged in brilliant symbolism and rhetoric and then done nothing, he would have made things no better, or perhaps worse. So the emotions and behavior patterns he engendered did not take the place of po liti cal deeds, and, ultimately, of po liti cal structures and policies. They did, however, provide crucial ingredients in forging a unifi ed nation with a common work.

In one sense this story is bad news, for so much seems to depend on one extraordinary person. Nonetheless, although in times of crisis it is extremely helpful to have such a person to chart a course, once a direction is taken it can be sustained without charismatic authority, as the

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aftermath of both Gandhi and George Washington shows. For all the evidence of rich- poor divisions in today?s India, and of increasing fl aunting of luxury in the newly rich middle classes, it is still the case that leading politicians cultivate simplicity of style and an identifi cation with the struggles of common people, something that is true even of the Hindu Right, where an ideology of discipline and selfl ess sacrifi ce is one of the movement?s most attractive characteristics. Meanwhile, on the Congress side, the visitor to Congress president Sonia Gandhi today sits with other visitors from all social classes (and clearly she is eager to speak with the poor, with NGO leaders, etc.) in a plain room with only cane mats on the fl oor, and a handful of simple cane chairs. On the wall hang black- and- white photos of family members? and of Mohandas Gandhi. These things hang in the balance, clearly, in an age of increasing materialism and competition for goods. But even that market competition, which Gandhi would have despised and Nehru would have mistrusted, has something equalizing in it, in that it replaces the sense of fi xed fate and immutable occupation assigned by caste that was so long the lifestyle of virtually all of India?s people.

Central Park

Life in America?s great cities was long an experience of unrelieved noise and clutter. Elites could escape inside their spacious dwellings. Equally

ins or
the Adirondacks is, at great cost, to those in easier circumstances.91
New York today is hardly a city of equal advantages for rich and poor. Given the cost of housing in Manhattan, even the park?s vast north- south extent does not bring it close to as many ?tired workers? (apart from doctors, lawyers, and other professionals) as Olmsted envisaged. Prospect Park in Brooklyn, another Olmsted gem, does somewhat better in outreach. Chicago?s Burnham plan, which preserved sixteen miles of lakefront property as public parkland, with numerous bicycle access routes, also does better, moving through neighborhoods that are not entirely gentrifi ed.
And of course creating equal opportunity is a matter far more complicated and multifaceted than the creation of a single park. Still, public space is of real importance. And we can easily see that New York without Central Park would have been a much poorer and more envy- ridden place. Envy is hardly removed by such generous public gestures, but perhaps they supply an escape valve that preserves the possibility of friendship.

V. Shame and Stigma

Shame is a powerful and ubiquitous emotion in social life.92 We all have weaknesses that we try to hide from others. When those weaknesses are

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uncovered, shame is the painful emotion that results; the blushing face is its sign. Shame is, then, a painful emotion responding to one?s own failure to exhibit some desirable characteristic. Because nobody has all the characteristics that society values as desirable, shame is the daily companion of every one of us. As sociologist Erving Goff man acutely observed in his classic book Stigma:

> [I]n an important sense there is only one complete unblushing male in America: a young, married, white, urban, northern, heterosexual Protestant father of college education, fully employed, of good complexion, weight and height, and a recent record in sports.93

Some items on Goff man?s list have become less salient: being southern and nonurban are less stigmatized today than when he wrote, in 1963, and being Catholic is somewhat less stigmatized, so long as one is not Latino. But we can quickly add other traits, such as impeccable En glish, and of course the valorized trait of maleness itself. Few people have all these traits, and nobody has them for long, since the stigmatized category of aging awaits us all.
Although shame is in that way a universal human experience, some people and groups are more marked out for shame than others. Every society contains its own list of stigmatized groups, and to some extent these vary across societies, but racial, ethnic, and religious minorities, sexual minorities, lower- class workers, the unemployed, and people with disabilities are fairly constant members of all lists. Typically, in each of these cases, the dominant group characterizes itself as ?normal? and the divergent group as shameful, asking them to blush for who and what they are. Given that members of the dominant group are themselves usually concealing something about themselves that society considers shameful, or are anxious about the possibility of coming to have such a trait, the infl iction of shame on others conveys a feeling of psychological relief, keeping shame at bay and reinforcing the sense that one is ?all right.?
Shame resembles guilt in some ways: both are painful emotions directed at the self. Sometimes we

very early in infancy: along
with fear, it is one of the earliest emotions.98 It appears to respond to the overwhelming pain of helplessness? as contrasted with periods of omnipotence or completeness, similar to the symbiosis of the infant with the mother?s body prior to birth. Infants sometimes experience a kind of blissful fullness or completeness that recapitulates prebirth experience; much of the time, however, they experience its absence, and have no skills to supply what they need. On the one hand, infants are encouraged by the life cycle and by parental attention to feel that they are omnipotent and the center of the universe, ?His Majesty the Baby,? to use Freud?s phrase. But at the same time they are keenly aware (and the cognitive maturity of very young infants is increasingly understood) that they are physically helpless to bring about the bliss that they desire. Shame at the very condition of being a helpless baby is the result. It is a result of what one might call ?narcissistic defeat.?99
Some people continue to demand throughout life the type of narcissistic control of and specialness to another or others that babies typically demand for a while. They are not satisfi ed unless they are absolutely the center of the universe. (Proust?s narrator is one sad example of this atrophied infantile condition.) Some people, by contrast, relinquish this demand in favor of concern and reciprocity? together with personal competence, since competence reduces the motivation to make slaves of others.100 But because even the most competent human being is still helpless in so many respects, and, being mortal, remains helpless in the

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most important respect of all, infantile shame never entirely departs. Shame about the reality of human life is an emotion that never completely leaves anyone who is not stupid? unless such a person can resign herself to the reality of human life, which is perhaps a bit too much resignation. While ?anthropodenial? is the source of many ills, one can acknowledge one?s own animal humanity while still not wanting to die or suff er, and this means that ongoing shame about helplessness is not simply a product of defective social teachings, but, up to a point at least, a rational response to things as they are.
How does this underlying shame (which we can call ?primitive shame?) aff ect social shaming? We do not have to have a view about this question in order to notice and deplore the ubiquitous social shaming of minorities, which we can explain along Goff manesque lines as an outgrowth of social anxiety. But it is useful to think about the question. If, as seems true, we are all to some degree longing for an ideal condition of nonhelplessness that we never attain, and are consequently ashamed of our vulnerability, this does help explain why most societies stigmatize the aging and people with mental and physical disabilities, and why the stigmatization of other minorities frequently involves the imputation to them of a hyperanimal nature.
Shame impedes inclusive compassion in several ways. First and most obviously, it divides people into mutually hostile groups. But hostility is not the end of the story: shaming is not like a feud between two factions, because it strikes at the very core of people?s sense of self. If I?m a Whig, and Whigs and Tories are fi ercely at odds with one another, both may continue

India?s Constitution was B. R. Ambedkar (1891?
1956), a dalit (formerly called ?untouchable?) from the Mahar community, a caste treated as untouchable in the Bombay Presidency, where he lived. The group was and is large, comprising some 10 percent of the population in that region. In ancient times the Mahars were Buddhists, and by now, following Ambedkar?s own conversion to Buddhism, large numbers have become Buddhist again, ceasing to identify as Mahars. During the time of Ambedkar?s youth, the group was forced to life on the outskirts of villages, performing a variety of menial occupations such as sweeping and wall mending, but also including the removal of corpses. Ambedkar?s own childhood was comparatively untouched by stigma, because his father was employed in the army of the British East India Company, rising to a high rank. With what ever blame we rightly attach to that company, we should mention as well this positive contribution, which made possible a remarkable legal and po liti cal career. Through his father?s position, Ambedkar was able to study at good schools throughout his childhood, including Elphinstone High School, Elphinstone College of the University of Bombay, and the London School of Economics. He owed most, as he often said, to his years in the United States: he received a law degree, an M.A., and a Ph.D. from Columbia University, where he became a protégé of John Dewey.101 Dewey?s outlook had a formative infl uence on him: he continued to insist that society cannot progress if it allows itself to be encumbered by mere dead wood from the past. In other respects too Ambedkar remained a fan of America, consulting leading jurists (Frankfurter, for example) during the framing of India?s constitution. He liked to point out that the U.S. Constitution showed that one may have democracy without crass majoritarianism, protecting fundamental rights beyond the whim of majority vote, and he modeled India?s constitution on this achievement. In some respects he was starry- eyed about America, since he denied that the treatment of African Americans had the social features of stigma and separation that were present in the Indian caste system.102
Very early in his education, however, Ambedkar experienced the stigma of untouchability. In a posthumously published autobiographical

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fragment, Waiting for a Visa,103 after narrating an extremely traumatic incident that happened to him and his siblings when they were traveling to be re united with their father and were denied lodging all along the way (despite being well- dressed, well- behaved middle- class children with lots of money), he steps back and describes his schooling prior to that time:
Before this incident occurred, I knew that I was an untouchable and that untouchables were subjected to certain indignities and discriminations. For instance, I knew that in the school I could not sit in the midst of my class students according to my rank but that I was to sit in a corner by myself. I knew that in the school I was to have a separate piece of gunny cloth for me to squat on in the class room and that the servant employed to clean the school would not touch the gunny cloth used by me. I was required to carry the gunny cloth home in the eve ning and bring it back the next day. While in the school I knew that children of the touchable classes, when they felt thirsty, could g

o out to the water tap, open it and quench their thirst.
All that was necessary was the permission of the teacher. But my position was separate. I could not touch the tap and unless it was opened for me by a touchable person, it was not possible for me to quench my thirst. In my case the permission of the teacher was not enough. The presence of the school peon was necessary, for, he was the only person whom the class teacher could use for such a purpose. If the peon was not available I had to go without water. The situation can be summed up in the statement? no peon, no water.104
Ambedkar tells this story in order to convey the iron grip of caste: not even the most privileged can escape stigma. Ambedkar managed to rise above this shamed condition to a position of rare preeminence. But he never let people forget the daily reality of caste, and his po liti cal speeches were always fi lled with similar examples of social reality.105 In the middle of a major statement on the constitution, for example, he cites in its entirety a petition from an untouchable group in the Punjab, saying that he does so in order to dispel any impression that abuses are in the past. A key section of the petition states:

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They even do not allow our cattle to drink water in the village pool and have prevented the sweepers from cleaning the streets where we live so that heaps of dust and dirt are lying there which may cause some disease if left unattended to. We are forced to lead a shameful life and they are always ready to beat us and to tear down our honour by behaving indecently towards our wives, sisters, and daughters. We are experiencing a lot of trouble of the worst type. While going to the school, the children were even beaten severely and in a merciless manner.106
Ambedkar was a lawyer and a constitution maker. Most of the remedies he advocated for shame and stigma were legal, and he emphasized the importance of aggressive legal intervention with the harmful aspects of Hindu religion. The fact that the practice of untouchability? a central aspect of Hinduism historically? is outlawed in the fundamental- rights section of the constitution can certainly be traced to his infl uence, although Gandhi and Nehru supported him in this regard. But he boldly insisted on strong affi rmative action mea sures for the scheduled castes, including quotas in public employment, the civil ser vice, and the legislature, and he was careful to write the constitution in such a way as to leave no doubt about the constitutionality of such affi rmative action? shrewdly forestalling debates the U.S. Constitution has engendered. Despite the fact that Ambedkar saw such an aggressive role for law, however, he was in no way indiff erent to our question about the crafting of public sentiment. He would have been extremely shortsighted had he thought law self- suffi cient. People can get jobs, or educational places, on the basis of strong affi rmative action mea sures, and their very presence sends a signal of inclusion and dignity to those who continue to face exclusion. But if the majority is unremittingly hostile to them once they are in such posts, and determined to keep throwing sand in the wounds of humiliation, and if government does nothing further to support them, they are unlikely to achieve their full potential, and their lack of success will reinforce hostile ste re

ces
they have suff ered), India has done relatively little. One cannot fl y on Australia?s Qantas Airlines without seeing Aboriginal art on the side of the plane. Nor can one attend any academic conference or public meeting in Australia without hearing a solemn public ac know ledg ment of the Aboriginal people and their rights. (Much the same is true in Canada of Native peoples.) Dalit contributions to culture receive no similar public ac know ledg ment in India. Admittedly, the fact that the scheduled castes have no common culture, but form a historically heterogeneous set of occupation- based groups, makes the problem a challenging one, but imagination could solve it. To take just one example, Ambedkar?s life has been chronicled more by foreign than by indigenous writers and fi lmmakers. The leading parties? lack of warmth and celebration toward the scheduled castes112 has contributed in no small mea sure to the formation of caste- based parties, and thus to the balkanization of politics along lines of caste rather than policy. Suitable attention to a group?s ?sayings and doings? creates an emotional climate of friendship and solidarity, undermining shame and laying the basis for compassion.
Another area in which Ambedkar per sis tent ly sought to create a spirit of friendship and reciprocity was education: he devoted much emphasis to inclusionary affi rmative action projects. Here, however, his thought, focused on such legal strategies as government scholarships in higher and technical education, remains incomplete, leading us to ask for ourselves what further mea sures should be taken to produce a climate of full educational inclusion in a spirit of reciprocity.
His autobiography points to the fi rst condition: adequate inclusion in primary education, meaning that schools must do their job in general (as is not the case at present) and that teachers must focus on creating a socially inclusive environment that encourages children to come to school

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and develop their potential. Social inclusion is understood to be part of a teacher?s job in the United States, however unevenly it is practiced. Teachers whose classrooms are racially mixed or include students with disabilities, have thought long and well about how (through drama and art, through readings that foreground the ?sayings and doings? of the vulnerable group, and so forth) a greater degree of inclusion may be achieved. Stopping hostile bullying is understood to be the teacher?s job? again, however unevenly performed. This is all far less true in India, where teachers focus on rote learning. So the fi rst thing that will need to happen, if shame is to be adequately addressed, is a new and more psychologically astute conception of teaching, particularly in the crucial early years.
Let us, however, leap ahead to technical education, Ambedkar?s central focus, since he saw it as an avenue to employment opportunities. Here we have the advantage of detailed empirical research, and we can see clearly that reserving places for the scheduled castes in prestigious government technical institutes does little for them in the absence of a supportive social and emotional climate. In an excellent recent essay, D. Parthasarathy, a humanities instructor at the Indian Institute of Technology Mumbai, has discussed the problems dalit students encounter when they arrive at such a prestigious ins

titution, for which competition
is intense.113 The basic story is this: institutions operate with a set of routines, techniques, and procedures that are assumed to be neutral, but which really disadvantage strongly the lower- caste student. ?A particularly perverse form of self- fulfi lling prophecy? pervades these institutions: unwilling to engage in serious refl ection about their procedures, they admit the lower- caste students, and then when these students fail, it seems to confi rm the prediction of the opponents of affi rmative action. Among the non- neutral features of the system are the lack of remedial or preparatory training, particularly in the En glish language; the refusal of instructors to give extra help to students with weak preparation; and instructors? unwillingness to off er exams in a vernacular language, even though by law they are required to do so. Worse still, instructors look the other way when students choose their lab partners on the basis of caste and even when they shame and bully lower- caste students. Nor does any institutional discussion or refl ection challenge majority students?

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belief that the lower- caste students are ?free riders? who do not belong. Much learning at the Indian Institute of Technology is collective, so exclusion from the social group is crippling. Instructors can?t be bothered with social formation, and most of them are hardened opponents of affi rmative action anyway. When Parthasarathy presented his paper at a conference in 2008, he added in oral remarks that most students have had no cultivation of their imaginative capacities in prior education, where rote learning rules the roost. Intensely competitive and technically profi cient, they display little capacity for empathy. Required humanities courses, though better than nothing, and though increasingly focused on addressing such problems, can?t change hearts overnight.

In short, educational inclusion is a matter of changing hearts and minds. Good policies will wither and fail if social mea sures do not support them by shaping an emotional climate hostile to shaming and supportive of compassion. India falls far short of Ambedkar?s goal? less because of legal failure than because of failure in the social/emotional support structure of government institutions.

Disability and Dignity: The Franklin Delano Roo se velt Memorial

People with cognitive and physical disabilities have been stigmatized at least as much as any minority in history.114 Often they have been literally hidden from public view in institutions or in special education classrooms far from other children. They have been denied inclusion in public education. They have been unable to enter many buildings, which have been constructed with the needs of the ?normal? in view, although they might easily have been constructed to accommodate a wider range of bodily abilities. They have been unable to board public buses or, in many cases, even to cross the street because of the absence of sidewalk cuts. Some people with disabilities were forbidden by city ?ugly laws? to appear in public places at all.115 In other, more subtle ways as well, they have been denied the right to ?be in the world,? as Jacobus tenBroek, the well- known constitutional scholar, puts it, discussing his own blindness and its implications. TenBroek points out that the tort law of his day was writ

, after that anything else would seem easy!?117 And yet, during his lifetime Roo se velt always tried to conceal his disability from the public. He did not appear publicly in a wheelchair, and he contrived to appear to stand and even move forward by the canny use of helpers. In his time, ac know ledg ment of his disability would clearly have stigmatized him and undercut his work.

How, then, to memorialize him? Roo se velt himself mentioned his interest in a memorial, and even chose the site. Landscape architect Lawrence Halprin was selected as the designer in a 1974 competition, but funds were not appropriated until more than twenty years later; the memorial was fi nally dedicated in 1997.118 The fi rst decision relevant to our interest in disability was to focus on Roo se velt?s achievements rather than on disability. Of course this is fi tting, indeed crucial (and in keeping with Ambedkar?s reminder to focus on ?sayings and doings?). Each of the memorial?s four outdoor rooms is dedicated to one term of Roo sevelt?s presidency. A connecting motif is water, arranged in ways that symbolize crucial aspects of his time in offi ce (a single large drop represents the crash of the economy; chaotic falls at various angles represent World War II; a still pool represents Roo se velt?s death). The site also includes a variety of sculptures, including a statue by sculptor George Segal depicting a breadline. Halprin?s aim was characterized by architecture critic Benjamin Forgey as refl ecting a ?passion to give people as many options as possible to go this way or that, to reverse directions, to pause, to start over, to be alone, to meet others, and to experience as many diff erent sights, smells and sounds as the site permits.?119

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This invitation to deliberate and rethink is an apt meta phor for what happened concerning the issue of disability. At fi rst, although the memorial was carefully designed to be accessible to people with a wide range of impairments,120 the president?s own disability was hidden, as it was in his life. Halprin defended this choice: ?He didn?t want people to see him in a wheelchair. . . . This isn?t a memorial to disabledness.?121 Roo se velt is shown sitting in a chair, which in real- life would have been a wheelchair, with his dog Fala at his side. But he wears a long cloak that hides the chair. At this point, deliberation began. People with disabilities and others complained that the cloaking of Roo se velt?s (widely known) wheelchair reinforced the shame attached to his disability. They wanted to show the wheelchair both for historical accuracy and to allude to what many biographers saw as a major source of his human understanding.

What was needed was a solution that responded to these concerns without violating Roo se velt?s own sense of decorum or making the memorial focus unduly on disability rather than achievement. Halprin eventually added casters to the back of the chair, making it in eff ect a wheelchair, although the casters are visible only from the back of the statue. Meanwhile, the National Or ga ni za tion on Disability raised a large sum of money to fund a second statue of the president, which clearly shows him in a wheelchair. In 2001, this statue was placed near the entrance to the memorial. Halprin said that the debate showed the success of his design: ?The most important thing about designing is

l? is required if problems of division and suspicion are to be solved. Sometimes this poetic element takes the form of stirring po liti cal rhetoric? the words of FDR, in their biblical and poetic resonance, go well beyond their literal meaning. Sometimes it takes the form of an imagined place, a garden of delight, where people come together through enjoyment of sports and of beauty, walk under arcs of light, or skate alongside their neighbors. Sometimes it takes the form of a transformative ennobling of the previously hidden and stigmatized. Sometimes it simply takes the form of leaving alone what has happened organically through daily life: not destroying Delhi?s syncretistic art and its integrative ways of living, not sending Ghalib into exile.

Mazzini, Comte, and the other proponents of a ?civil religion? saw their task in oversimple terms. As they saw it, they merely had to engender extended sympathy for all humanity, and selfi shness would drop away. Mill and Tagore saw more deeply, seeing that we must deal with people as they are, and with the ?very imperfect state of the world?s arrangements? that pits one person?s utility against another?s. For Tagore, perhaps seeing most deeply of all, the ?imperfect? situation was itself normatively valuable: all love has its roots in par tic u lar love of individuals, and thus a decent society will always contain uneven attachments, and a competition to promote the good of one?s own loved ones that makes people rightly hesitate to support a common good with all their hearts. My argument, agreeing with Tagore, concludes that we cannot uproot particularism without uprooting love itself and depriving society of much of its energy for good. But if particularism remains, and is even valued and celebrated in some respects by the institutions of a decent society, it follows that people will always have reasons to feel emotions, such as fear and envy, that undermine their commitment to the common good. Society may be able to do largely without disgust, because that emotion seems unconnected to sources of positive good; it may even be able to do without the type of shame that pillories certain categories of

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people, because that type of shame (closely linked to disgust) does not seem intrinsic to the more constructive shame that spurs people on to achieve the highest ideals of which they, and their society, are capable. But fear for the safety of one?s loved ones is something we don?t want to get rid of? and yet, in a dangerous world, it does divide people and undermine many constructive projects. Envy too, as we have argued, should remain (not just its good cousin, emulation), because competition and an interest in competitive goods is something that a good society cannot discourage without losing energy for good.

The institutions of a decent society do keep fear and envy within bounds, and they do protect citizens against hostile shaming. But there is more to be done, and this chapter has given examples of the many ways in which a society can create an emotional climate that limits self-interested fear and envy and undermines the type of shame that stigmatizes classes of citizens. These are but examples. Few politicians think comprehensively about the po liti cal emotions (FDR being a salient and remarkable exception). Far more often, thought about creating fellowship and limiting harmful p

and sustaining a more attractive type of society.
The Mozart/Mill/Tagore tradition, however attractive, still stood in need of further development: above all, it needed a richer account of human psychology. We can hardly solve social problems without understanding both the resources on which we may draw and the problems that lie in our way. Part II turned to that issue, laying the foundation for contemporary proposals in the spirit of Mozart, Mill, and Tagore by taking account of recent research in psychology, anthropology, and primatology. In par tic u lar, Part II argued that narrowness of sympathy is not society?s only challenge. Ubiquitous problems of discrimination and group subordination require us to think about the role played in human development by disgust and shame at the human body itself, a problem that no other species seems to have. Promoting social justice, as Walt Whitman saw, requires addressing the roots of human self- disgust by forging a healthier relationship to the human body. Part II argued, further, in a Millian spirit, that a healthy society needs to counteract the tendencies all human beings share toward submissiveness to authority and peer pressure.
The account of development presented in Part II made it clear that respect is not the public emotion good societies require, or at least not

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the only one. Respect on its own is cold and inert, insuffi cient to overcome the bad tendencies that lead human beings to tyrannize over one another. Disgust denies fundamental human dignity to groups of people, portraying them instead as animals. Consequently respect grounded in the idea of human dignity will prove impotent to include all citizens on terms of equality unless it is nourished by imaginative engagement with the lives of others and by an inner grasp of their full and equal humanity. Imaginative empathy, however, can be deployed by sadists. The type of imaginative engagement society needs, Part II argued, is nourished by love. Love, then, matters for justice? especially when justice is incomplete and an aspiration (as in all real nations), but even in an achieved society of human beings, were such to exist.
But if we agree that love matters for justice, we still do not have an account of how it matters, how a decent society might arrange, compatibly with liberal freedom, to invite citizens to have emotional experiences of the sort that the theory imagines. Part III therefore turned to history, albeit with further theoretical arguments, showing a variety of ways in which this ideal theory might be and has been real. Through detailed refl ection on the cultivation of patriotism, the use of public festivals of both the comic and the tragic sort, and a range of public strategies to undermine several pernicious emotions, we saw a variety of diff erent ways to approach our problems, and we saw how powerful they can be in promoting emotional experience, within a context protective of liberty.
The examples in Part III yield at least three general lessons. First, our hunch was confi rmed that good proposals for the cultivation of public emotion must be attentive to their place, their time, and the specifi c cultures of the variety of citizens who are their intended audience. One way of seeing this is to consider the relationship between two of this book?s ?heroes,? Mohandas Gandhi and Martin Luther King Jr. King e

whom she takes pride and whom she wants to protect
from harm; a diff erent fan might identify with the athletes and imagine being them, loving what they love; yet another fan might have a romantic attitude toward the athletes; another might think of them as friends or comrades. These attitudes will naturally vary with age, gender, and personality. How much greater is this variety in a nation? and yet all are forms of love, and all effi cacious, in diff erent ways, in prompting cooperative and unselfi sh behavior. The loves that prompt good behavior are likely to have some common features: a concern for the beloved as an end rather than a mere instrument; respect for the human dignity of the beloved; a willingness to limit one?s own greedy desires in favor of the beloved. But many types and instances of love can have these features, as we have seen from the very beginning: Cherubino?s love for the Countess is very diff erent from the friendly love of the Countess and Susanna, and both of these are diff erent, again, from the reciprocal romantic love at which Figaro and Susanna arrive at the opera?s end. All, however, are altruistic, and all repudiate the obsessive search for personal status and honor in favor of reciprocity and vulnerability.

In short, while the goals and ideals of the society we have imagined do place constraints on the emotions that citizens should be encouraged to feel, they permit and actively encourage diff erent citizens to inhabit the public sphere diff erently, as best suits each person?s age, gender, goals, values, and personality. Even the most normatively charged works have this sort of space. The Vietnam Veterans Memorial does invite some type of respectful and contemplative attitude, and it would be an inappropriate response to gambol and play there as one does in Millennium Park?s Crown Fountain. But the emotions that visitors have, responding appropriately to the work, include personal mourning, communal or national mourning, detached contemplation, personal self- examination, and no doubt many others. Po liti cal emotions are the real emotions of real people; because people are heterogeneous, having diff erent opinions, histories, and personalities, they can be expected to love, mourn,

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laugh, and strive for justice in specifi c and personal ways? particularly if their freedom of expression is protected and valued, as it is here. And some of them simply won?t like Cherubino or wish to emulate his gentleness; they may prefer to play baseball, or cricket. Even so, they can fi nd their own ways to respect and reciprocity. Cherubino and his descendants (the Bauls, Walt Whitman) are suggestive ideas, not a dictatorial program.

This, then, is the path we have traveled. Several general theoretical questions, however, still demand fuller comment.

II. Ideal and Real

We began with po liti cal ideals, imagining a nation that has made some taxing commitments to the freedom and well- being of all its citizens. Our examples, however, were drawn from history, and therefore from the fl awed reality of real nations. Are we, then, developing an ?ideal theory,? or dealing with people and institutions as they really are? This dichotomy, common enough in philosophy, is oversimple and misleading. Ideals are real: they direct our striving, our plans, our legal processes. Constitutions are ideal documents in th

e sense that they are not
always perfectly implemented all the time, and also in the sense that they typically embody a nation?s deepest aspirations. But they are also real, supplying a basis for legal action when the rights they guarantee are not delivered to a par tic u lar individual or group. The ?freedom of speech,? the ?free exercise of religion,? and the ?equal protection of the laws? are all lofty ideals, yet they provide the basis for action and adjudication in the real world, for the education of real people, and for progress toward the amelioration of vexing social problems.
The ideal is real in another way: if it is a good ideal, it acknowledges human life as it is, and expresses a sense of how real people are. Real people are bodily and needy; they have a variety of human frailties and excellences; they are, quite simply, human beings, neither machines nor angels. Who can say what constitution a nation of angels would make? Who can say what constitution would be best suited to a nation of elephants or tigers or whales? The nation we imagine is a nation of, and for, human beings (albeit in complex interrelationships with other species),

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and its constitution is a good one only to the extent that it incorporates an understanding of human life as it really is. (John Rawls understood this clearly, and that is why my project, although focused on aspiration rather than achieved justice, lies close to and complements his.)
The ideal, then, is real. At the same time, the real also contains the ideal. Real people aspire. They imagine possibilities better than the world they know, and they try to actualize them. At times their pursuit of the ideal can go astray, as people try to transcend the limits of humanness itself. We saw that a lot of diffi culties for po liti cal life come from that type of self- repudiating aspiration. But not all pursuits of the idea have this doomed and counterproductive character. People who strive for this- worldly justice typically aspire to distant goals? prominently including theoretical goals? and are moved by them. That?s a large part of human reality, so any po liti cal thinker who rejects ideal theory rejects a lot of reality.
Our project is about just such real ideals and real striving. It is motivated by the diffi culty of attaining and stabilizing lofty goals, but it understands those goals as parts of real- life human politics. The emotions on which it draws are real human emotions, and its psychology a nonideal and realistic human psychology. Like the speeches of Lincoln, King, and Nehru, it depicts a diffi cult task and a beautiful, distant goal? but in ways designed to move real people, who are moved by (realistically) ideal images of themselves and their world, as well as by the comedy of real bodies and their idiosyncrasies. So it is not distant from the real world, and it is entirely fi tting that its examples come from real politics, though from a kind of politics in which leaders are trying to make things a lot better than they have previously been, correcting deep problems and moving forward to new achievements.
To put it another way, all love has aspects of the ideal, and po liti cal love no less than parental or personal love. When we love people, we want to be good to them, and this typically means being better than we sometimes, even usually, are. Personal love, like po liti cal

and causes they love, in the part of
their lives that is carried out apart from politics, under the aegis of whatever comprehensive view of life they favor, since the society I imagine is a form of po liti cal liberalism. The po liti cal is in that sense narrow, merely one part of what people are asked to care about.
But we have argued that the po liti cal too should be particularistic, in the sense that it takes its cue from the Bauls and their way of approaching general ideals through deep personal attachments. In the developmental pro cess, children learn to love symbolic surrogates for their nation before they understand its abstract ideals, and the par tic u lar leads them to the general. But adults too, through the tragic and comic festivals that a good society off ers, are also led, as on that long bridge in Millennium Park, from par tic u lar experiences of joy or grief to more general and inclusive sentiments. Both tragedy and comedy themselves create many such bridges. Po liti cal love exists in an uneasy oscillation between the par tic u lar and the general, in which the par tic u lar is never repudiated, but is seen in a way that promotes inclusiveness, and in which the general becomes motivationally powerful through its link to par tic u lar symbols and songs and sculptures. Principle- dependent emotions such as those envisaged by Rawls are thus reached by a route that tethers them to the particularistic imagination and to personal love, and these deep roots continue to infuse the principles even when we achieve them. The dangers of bias inherent in particularistic emotion are kept in check through the rule of law and through a strong critical culture. But they are also checked by the specifi c way in which po liti cal ideals are realized particularistically. Some works of art encourage us to see common human predicaments and to reach out to others who are not like

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ourselves, and those are among the ones that a wise society will value most. Since I agree with Rawls in valuing sentiments directed to core po liti cal commitments, I have devoted par tic u lar attention to these ?bridges? and to the works of art that construct them.

IV. Civic Culture and ?Po liti cal Liberalism?

The society we have imagined is heterogeneous. It contains diff erent religions, diff erent ethnic, racial, and sexual groups, and a wide range of po liti cal views. Respecting this heterogeneity, we have insisted, requires practicing politics in the spirit of Rawlsian ?po liti cal liberalism,? not building institutions or the shape of the public culture around a single dominant group and its ideas.1 This commitment has raised tough questions throughout: How can the public culture of a nation that repudiates all religious and ideological establishments have enough substance and texture to be capable of the type of poetry, oratory, and art that moves real people?
Po liti cal liberalism requires the public culture to be both narrow and thin: narrow in that it does not comment on every single aspect of human life, but only those of most pertinence to politics (including, however, basic social and economic rights); thin, in that it makes no commitments on divisive metaphysical matters, such as eternal life or the nature of the soul. It must be such as to become, over time, the object of an ?overlapping consensus? among the many reasonable

continue to fi nd it inspiring. That disagreement is actually part of the ideal. As we?ve seen, real public artists have many ways of dramatizing the dignity and beauty of the critical spirit. Indeed, they often help a society keep that spirit strong in a time of stress, by portraying it in an attractive poetic light. The fact that India is a highly successful democracy, in which critical freedom is real, owes much to Gandhi?s choice of Tagore?s ?Ekla Cholo Re? as anthem of the freedom movement. Chicago?s choice of To Kill a Mockingbird as the fi rst book read in the One Book, One Chicago program reminds everyone that the capacity for risk- taking dissent is a core value of American public culture, needed to solve society?s problems.

But isn?t society jeopardizing critical freedom every time it urges citizens to have strong emotions of one sort rather than the other? Surely not. First of all, as I just said, the critical spirit itself is one thing toward which it is important to cultivate emotional attachment, urging people to care about it and fi ght to clear away the obstacles to it. Since critical freedom is always under threat, it?s a good idea to bring children up to think of Atticus Finch as a hero, or to sing ?Ekla Cholo Re.?

Second, it is just wrong to think that an invitation to strong emotion must be coercive. It all depends on what becomes of the person who refuses the invitation, and that is why robust protection for freedoms of speech, assembly, and religion must be a key part of the institutional backdrop of this project. A prominent part of these protections, as we saw in Chapter 8, must be protection for young dissenters in schools, where peer pressure is particularly likely to be coercive even when law is not. Teaching patriotism in the schools invites, but we are allowed to rebel.

Most important, it is just mistaken to think that a society that protects the critical spirit should be neutral or halfhearted about its own core values. Any good society has defi nite ideas of what is good and bad: for example, that racism is bad and equal respect is good. There is nothing illiberal about that defi niteness? so long as the free speech of dissenters is protected. The freedom of dissent is not jeopardized by passionate rhetoric directed at society?s most cherished goals and aims; dissenters

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remain free to contest those goals. Meanwhile, there is nothing illiberal about the society trying hard to realize its goals, drawing on what ever emotional support it can muster. It would be simply bizarre to suppose that Martin Luther King Jr. was against the freedom of speech because he passionately opposed racism and did not include a proracism argument along with his antiracism arguments. And it would be equally bizarre to suppose that it is illiberal mind control to ask children to hear King?s speech on a solemn holiday and not to hear, on that same day, with equal enthusiasm, speeches by racial bigots.

As for public artworks, monuments, and parks, it?s not even possible for them to be emotionally neutral: they have to be or ga nized in one way rather than some other way, and if they have any emotional impact at all, it must be of some defi nite type. So if you come near them, you make yourself vulnerable to the invitation they off er. Even this, however, is not an objectionable type of paternalism, because it does not remove cri-

tique or choice. As the story of the Roo se velt Memorial showed, critique can often even reshape the work itself; only time will tell. At most, then, the invitation off ered by a park or a monument is like the ?nudge? depicted in Richard Thaler and Cass Sunstein?s ?libertarian paternalism?: it sets a default option, but it doesn?t prevent you from doing, saying, or thinking otherwise.2 Most people who walk through the Vietnam Veterans Memorial will fi nd their emotions challenged in certain specifi c ways. That?s how the artist has constructed the work. But one can always simply not go there, or go there steeled against the work?s invitation. Public artworks have to set a default option; the only alternative to that is to have no public art at all, or only art of such stunning mediocrity that it communicates nothing.

When art is not mediocre, it is in fact all the more unlikely that it will impose a snoozy conformity and homogeneity. When we think of totalitarian regimes that attempted to impose their vision through art, we always fi nd bad art: Soviet realism and its many soporifi c cousins. Real artists are dissenters, like Tagore?s ?madcap? Bauls. This book has sided from the beginning with the unpredictable and idiosyncratic in art: with the Crown Fountain and Cloud Gate, with Tagore?s Baul- inspired poetry. Comte?s desire to control the artists and prescribe their content to them was misguided.

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In short, there is nothing wrong with a nation?s taking a stand, including an emotional stand, and a stand made vivid through the arts. Nations should stand for something? indeed, for many things. And they should impart this vision in many ways. The only thing that would endanger freedom would be the suppression of divergent opinions.

VI. Intrinsic and Instrumental

But, we still must ask, how does love matter for justice? Are the public emotions we have imagined simply instruments, tools that a just society uses to achieve its goals and stabilize them once achieved? Or are they, as realized in the real lives of citizens, part of the goal toward which society is striving? To put it another way: If we once achieved our po liti cal goals, and had well- grounded confi dence that they would be stably sustained into the future, would we have no further need of po liti cal love? Even though our argument has been that stability is not in fact possible without an emotional involvement that contains particularistic as well as principle-dependent elements, we still need to pose this question, because it goes to the very heart of what we are seeking. Do we want something that is simply very useful, like a Swiss army knife (and let?s suppose that there?s no other tool that can do various important jobs as well as this knife can), or is it something with its own distinctive value and beauty, without which our public lives would be incomplete? At the end of Figaro, the chorus says that ?only love? made their day end in happiness. But is love like a ladder that might be thrown over once happiness is achieved? Or is it part of any (public) happiness that we should acknowledge as such? Much of the tradition discussing a ?civil religion? is ambiguous on this point. Mazzini, for example, imagines patriotism in ways that suggest the instrumental conception, even using tool meta phors (it is a ?lever?), although he does not deny that patriotic em

Just as personal love
and friendship are at their best when they are directed not at ideal images of the person, but, instead, at the whole person with fl aws and faults (not, of course, without criticizing or arguing), so too with love of a city or country: it gets under one?s skin, is undeterred by imperfection, and thus enables diverse people, most of them dissatisfi ed with reality, but in many diff erent and incompatible ways, to embrace one another and enter a common future.

And now we see something that might not have been evident before: this project?s demand for love, rather than ratcheting up the demands imposed by the po liti cal conception in a way that makes ?overlapping consensus? more diffi cult to achieve, actually ratchets the demands down, by imagining emotions that do not presuppose full agreement on principles and institutions or even agreement that these lack major fl aws. Just as two people can be friends and even lovers when their religions, their po liti cal views, and their ultimate goals in life diff er, so citizens in the society we are imagining, or many of them at least, can share the heterogeneous experiences we have described? at least some of those experiences, and some of the time. So what we?re asking, when we ask whether these emotions are intrinsically valuable, is not as threatening to po litical liberalism as it might at fi rst have seemed.

What, then, are we asking? Let?s put the question this way. Suppose we had a society of liberal New Deal? ish body snatchers: people do all the altruistic things that we hope for, and sustain the nation?s institutions by exactly the same sorts of actions that might have been done out of real feeling? only they are not really feeling anything. They are just shells of people, feeling nothing in their hearts. It?s telling, in the movies on that theme, that the body snatchers betray their nonhumanness by an inability to appreciate music, and particularly jazz, which demands a responsiveness to improvisation and eroticism that both Whitman and Tagore would have understood as hallmarks of the passionate citizen. In our experiment things are made more complicated by the fact that we

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have to concede that these people may be feeling many things in their personal lives? they are not body snatchers all the way through? but it?s just a range of civic emotions that are mere form and show on their part, not sustained by real feeling.

Now of course the fi rst thing we want to say is that the approach taken in this book does not require real feeling all the time. It just wants enough people to feel enough, enough of the time, and that is not even supposed to be a precise metric. But it is totally to be expected that some, even many, people will not be moved by the Vietnam Veterans Memorial, will never enjoy their trips to Millennium Park, et cetera. Some people are more like body snatchers (just going through the motions) than others, particularly in their civic lives. And even emotionally responsive people are fi ckle, with pockets of deadness and inattention. Moreover, there are many types of love, and we are therefore imagining a family of sentiments, not a single emotion.

Next we can say that in fact such a body- snatcher conception of public emotion will not work. We don?t need to get to intrinsic value to have strong reasons for wanting a culture in which people are

not just going
through the motions of caring about one another. What holds people together must be more real than that or the power of self- interest will take over. Our question, then, is more theoretical than practical.
Still, it seems important. Ideals are real. Even if we don?t attain them, they direct our search. So, what is our ideal of the good citizen? Do we imagine a good citizen as an impeccably right- acting sort of body snatcher, or as someone who really has love? The question Iris Murdoch asked long ago about personal virtue also has importance for po liti cal life. Murdoch imagined a mother- in- law, M, who resents her daughter- in- law, D.3 She fi nds D pert, vulgar, and annoying. Being a very well- bred woman, M conceals these feelings and judgments, and Murdoch stipulates that this concealment is totally successful: so far as outward conduct is concerned, M behaves exactly as if she loved D. But she has no love in her heart. Nonetheless, realizing that her judgments are prompted by less- than- admirable facts about herself (class prejudice, personal envy), she sets herself the task of seeing D ?justly and lovingly,? so that over time she comes to have within the attitudes that she has successfully feigned without.

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Murdoch?s claim, which I endorse, is that this inner moral eff ort makes a diff erence: M has been active, has done something morally valuable, even if nothing out in the world of action is diff erent as a result. It is this same contrast that I have in mind in the po liti cal case. In one case, citizens might be like empty automata, with no feelings at all, or they might, like the early M, be dutiful and self- controlled, feeling the wrong things but doing all the correct things. Contrasted with both of these is a picture in which citizens are emotionally alive, really reacting to one another with po liti cal love, at least sometimes and in some ways. Let us stipulate for the sake of the argument that the empty alternatives are stable, and that they successfully motivate altruistic action, although this is not likely to be the case.
Murdoch argued persuasively that the M with a rich inner life of imaginative and emotional eff ort is preferable to the dutiful M, for she has been morally active, trying to see D clearly and without prejudice. We can imagine many similar cases: for example, racists who behave impeccably, as contrasted with racists who sincerely engage in inner effort to see the world in a less biased way, even if they don?t fully succeed. It seems clear that in the citizen case too, the citizen who really feels love of others is very diff erent from the merely law- abiding dutiful citizen, in ways that make a diff erence to our analysis. Loving citizens are likely to be much more resourceful in action, but even if this is not the case? even if somehow or other the dutiful citizen were to do all the same things? we still should admire and prefer the citizen whose imagination and emotions are alive to the situation of the nation, and of its other citizens. As a po liti cal goal to strive for, the Tagorean/Whitmanian/Mozartian citizen is simply much more appealing than the inert dutiful citizen.
It would be surprising if we (I really mean, if I) found otherwise. After so much sympathetic discussion of love, imagination, and compassion, is it really likely that this book would have concl

Voi che
sapete? and we can do this concerning the music itself, not just the text.)
In my view, this is not a question about the actual emotional experiences of the listener, since the listener might be distracted, musically ignorant, et cetera. But, following the lead of Wayne Booth?s illuminating analysis of literary response, I connect the expressive properties of the music with the experience of the ?implied listener,? meaning a listener who follows, knowledgeably, attentively, and appropriately, the musical experience mapped out in the work.
I now point out that phi los o phers have had diffi culty explaining how music could embody anything like an emotion. On the one hand, some theorists (e.g., Eduard Hanslick) have said, correctly, that emotions embody evaluative thought? but they have not been able to see how music, being nonlinguistic, could possibly embody such thought, so they have ended up denying that music can embody emotions. On the other hand, other theorists (e.g., Schopenhauer, Susanne Langer) have started from the observation that music does indeed embody emotions, but? agreeing with Hanslick that all thought is essentially linguistic in nature? they have concluded that emotions can?t involve thought after all, but must be seen as stirrings or movements of the blood, without any intentionality or cognitive content.
The mistake made by both positions is to suppose that all thought is essentially linguistic. By this point, I have already argued that both nonhuman animals and small children have many nonlinguistic emotions, involving perceptions of what is salient for the individual?s own well-being. What now needs to be added is the idea that these nonlinguistic experiences need not be archaic or primitive; language does not hold a monopoly on cognitive sophistication. Once we see that a nonlinguistic form of repre sen ta tion (auditory or visual) can contain as rich an array of possibilities as can language, we are ready to start thinking seriously about emotions in music.
Next, following the guidance of Mahler?s letters, Proust?s remarks on music, and Paul Hindemith?s excellent book A Composer?s World, I argue

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that music diff ers from language in one important way: it is not the shopworn medium of our daily utilitarian communications, and thus it can often seem to have a superior power to illuminate the depths of the personality. In virtue of not being the language of habit, music possesses many properties in common with dreams.
Music, I argue, expresses emotions in ways shaped by culture and by the history of a par tic u lar type of musical art form? as well as, more specifi cally, by the par tic u lar composer?s own expressive development. Listeners who hear music from a tradition unknown to them cannot identify securely its emotional content. The ?implied listener,? then, must be well educated in the specifi c musical tradition, including the composer?s own way of expressing musical ideas. Thus, it is not possible to give an accurate account of a passage in a Mahler symphony, say, without being aware of how he typically uses the oboe, the harp, and so forth.
Finally, I discuss the vexed question of the relationship between music and text, arguing that although a verbal text may give a defi niteness of reference to music that it would otherwise lack, the text often underdetermines the emotional trajectory of the musi

ith attention to its rhythmic
aspects, see Allanbrook (1983, pp. 140? 144).
15. I translate audace in this awkward way because to supply ?man? or ?person? would constitute an ac know ledg ment that Figaro is human, which is what the Count has just been denying.
16. Literally, the Count speaks of ?revenges? in the plural? thinking, presumably, of the way in which he will both force Figaro to marry Marcellina and then humiliate him further by sleeping with Susanna.

17. For the general account of emotional expression in music on which I rely here, see Nussbaum (2001, ch. 5) (the main contentions of which are summarized in this book?s Appendix). For more on the ability of music to go beyond a text, or to make more precise the emotional meaning of an indeterminate text, see the reading of Mahler?s Kindertotenlieder in that chapter.
18. Steinberg (2004, p. 43).
19. Ibid.
20. ?La vendetta, oh la vendetta è un piacer serbato ai saggi. L?obliar l?onte, gli oltraggi, è bassezza, è ognor viltà.?
21. ?Se tutto il codice dovessi volgere, se tutto l?indice dovessi leggere, Con unequivoco, con un sinonimo, qualche garbuglio si troverà. Tutta Siviglia conosce Bartolo: il birbo Figaro vinto sarà.?

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22. Because this aria is so commonly cut, it is not in the Dover edition of the libretto, and so I use the text from the libretto accompanying the 1983 Solti recording of the opera.
23. ?Cosi conoscere me fe?la sorte ch?onte, pericoli, vergogna e morte col cuoio d?asino fuggir si può.?
24. Allanbrook (1983, pp. 145? 148) stresses that the musical interweaving of the two vocal lines created an ?atmosphere of unanimity and intimacy.? Ibid., p. 147. The music is in the genre of pastorale, and the ?text and music fi gure the classless, timeless meadow where two women ordinarily separated by circumstance can meet and stroll quietly together.? Ibid., p. 145.
25. For discussion of a similar moment in the fi nal movement of Mahler?s Second Symphony, the contralto and soprano voices wrapping around one another, see Nussbaum (2001, ch. 15). I now believe that Mahler, the lifelong opera conductor, may have derived the inspiration for this musical depiction of reciprocity from Figaro. It is also, as he makes clear, an image of freedom.
26. Allanbrook (1983, p. 148) sees in the music ?the power of love to humble the arrogant and to elevate the humble.? However, she sees its contribution as entirely personal, not recognizing its po liti cal side.
27. Where, if ever, in opera do men sing like that (in close- knit interweaving harmonies, each taking cues from the other)? The duet in Bizet?s The Pearl Fishers comes to mind, but it is not nearly as complex: the men simply sing together in close harmony. Similar is the wonderful liberty duet (?Dio, che nell?alma infondere?) sung by Carlos and Roderigo in Verdi?s Don Carlo? close harmony and, we might say, solidarity, but without responsiveness to the separate moves of the other. So it would seem that in opera, men can on occasion attain solidarity and unanimity, but perhaps not responsiveness or attunement.
28. Allanbrook (1983, pp. 100, 170) emphasizes that only the women?s world can reveal and stand for universal humanity: the male world is too demarcated by hierarchy for human dignity and equality themselves to be visible.
29. This new world surely involves transformation on the part of real- life women as well? for although the world of mal

es has its distinctive pathologies, it would be
absurd to claim that the world of real- life women is a stranger to jealousy and rivalry.
(We should not forget Susanna?s sniping at Marcellina, and vice versa, in that Act I
duet? although that rivalry is harmoniously resolved soon enough.) In this sense
we ought to view Mozart?s men and women as symbolic placeholders for types of hu-
man beings that one might be, or become. And Marcellina?s Act IV aria ?Il capro e la
capretta,? like Bartolo?s and Basilio?s often cut in per for mance, tells us that the new
world will also require change in the position of real- life women: men and women,
she says, are at war with one another in a way unknown in the rest of nature? because
?we poor women? are treated cruelly and subjected to all sorts of suspicions.
30. The Countess is eloquent about her husband?s neglect and indiff erence. So much is
made of the idea of Susanna?s virginity at the time of marriage that it seems plausible
to think that she and Figaro have not yet occupied the bed that he is so anxiously
mea sur ing at the opera?s opening.

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31. Da Ponte has altered Beaumarchais here in an interesting way. In Beaumarchais,
the passage goes, ?Finally, the need to say ?I love you? to someone has become so
urgent for me that I say it when I?m all alone, when I?m running in the park, I say it
to your mistress, to you, to the trees, to the clouds, to the wind that carries the
clouds and my lost words away together.? This comically confused utterance? he
can hardly tell the diff erence between one woman and another, or between a
woman and a tree? is subtly altered by Da Ponte into something much more deli-
cate, a mood that the musical idea brings out more vividly still. Writing of the aria,
Allanbrook (1983, pp. 84? 88) draws attention to the movement into the country,
thus the theme of the pastorale, which in her analysis fi gures equality and the ab-
sence of fi xed ranks.
32. Allanbrook (1983, p. 96) sees Cherubino as a fi gure of Eros- Cupid.
33. See Allanbrook (1983, p. 97).
34. I say ?leading character,? because the various choruses saluting the Count for his wis-
dom and virtue??Giovani liete,? ?Ricevete, o padroncina,? and ?Amanti costanti??
are presumably to be imagined as real- life singing inside the plot: Figaro at one point
says, ?the music- makers are already here.? I say ?solo? because of the duet between
Susanna and the Countess, the ?Canzonetta sull?aria,? already discussed.
35. In Beaumarchais, he simply takes a traditional folk melody and writes his own
words to it. The words themselves express love for the Countess, though they are far
less interesting than the Da Ponte text; the music, however, is utterly banal, the tune
of ?Malbrough s?en va- t-en guerre,? a bouncy, somewhat aggressive war song.
36. See the musical and textual analysis in Allanbrook (1983, pp. 104? 111). Plausibly, she
hears in the text an echo of Dante?s ?Donne ch?avete intelletto d?amore.?
37. Indeed, it is formally very diff erent. The text is a repetitious strophic song, and each
strophe is like the preceding, rather like a simple folk ditty. It is Mozart who supplies
the contrasting middle section, with its more complex expressions of longing, fear,
and delight.
38. ? . . . al concerto di tromboni, di bombarde, di cannoni, che le palle in tutti i tuoni
all?orecchino fan fi schiar.?
39. Allanbrook (1983, p. 115

) suggests that the aria?s objective is to exemplify a way of
dealing with ?the powers of Eros?? namely, through wit, play, reciprocity, and
genuine vulnerability.

40. A possible allusion in the text is to the Christmas carol ?Venite Adoremus,? ?O Come Let Us Adore Him? (which would often be a prelude to kneeling). Here, Susanna says, ?Come, kneel down?? but it is not adoration of the transcendent that she seeks, it is fun and play.

41. Here Da Ponte has made major alterations to Beaumarchais. The stage direction says that Cherubino kneels, but Susanna does not ask, so the inversion of feudal kneeling is not emphasized. Far more important, when Cherubino becomes a woman Susanna says that she, as a woman, is jealous of him. This not only puts rivalry and jealousy into the women?s world, whereas Mozart and Da Ponte represent that world as a world of reciprocity; it also fails to state that a man is more attractive as a man for behaving in ways that we have heretofore associated with that world.

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42. In a fascinating survey of the use of diminutives in the libretto (sent to me as a personal communication), scholar Marco Segala fi nds defi nite patterns in the use of diff erent types of diminutives. The diminutives ending in - etto/a typically connote tenderness and playfulness, almost never sarcasm or irony; diminutives ending in - ino/a often have an ironic or sarcastic meaning. When diminutives (usually ending in - etto/a) connote aff ection or play, the speaker is always feminine? with the exception of Cherubino, who has learned to speak the women?s language. The men of the opera mainly use diminutives (usually ending in -ino/a) to express sneering or sarcasm.

43. Hunt (1993, p. 44). Robert Darnton?s (1997) earlier study of eighteenth- century pornography (and, in par tic u lar, of the anonymous novel Therèse Philosophe) comes to a subtly diff erent conclusion: the new idea is not one of intersubstitutability of bodies, but rather the idea of women?s control and autonomy. Thus the relationships that are prized are personal and long- lasting, but include contraception.

44. Barshack (2008, pp. 47? 67).

45. Rousseau ([1762] 1987). Parenthetical references are to this edition.

46. In a fi nal paragraph Rousseau states that today there can be no exclusive national religion, so we should tolerate all religions that tolerate others? so long as their dogmas contain nothing contrary to the duties of citizenship. At fi rst blush, this might be read as suggesting that he is suddenly backing off from his proposal of the unitary civil religion. However, that reading is incorrect. This paragraph immediately follows discussion of the important doctrine of theological toleration that is a crucial element in the civil religion, requiring that we do not believe that our fellow citizens who hold diff erent theological beliefs are damned. So, Rousseau is just saying that we should endorse that theological doctrine rather than making the state intolerantly Catholic or intolerantly Protestant and then coercively imposing that doctrine, banishing or otherwise punishing dissenters. But that theological doctrine, of course, is one that no religion of his time accepted. All, then, did in fact contain dogmas contrary to the duties of citizenship (as Rousseau understands them). By requiring theological as well as po liti cal toleration, Rousseau forces them a

ll into exile.
47. I owe this point to Daniel Brudney, who also points out that the Letter to d?Alembert on the Theater contains a rather diff erent picture of the preferred types of social interaction.
48. Allanbrook (1983) plausibly proposes another: Bernardin de Saint- Pierre, whose novel Paul et Virginie of 1787 articulates similar sentiments.
49. Herder ([1792] 2002, p. 378).
50. Here Herder is apparently paraphrasing a writer named G. H. Loskiel (1740? 1814), a priest of the United Brethren, who published an extensive account of Iroquois customs in 1794.
51. Again, Herder follows Loskiel?s account. I am not in a position to say whether it is correct on this point? although the demo cratic customs of the Iroquois have by now attracted much attention. In similar fashion, thinker and po liti cal leader Roger Williams found in the Narragansett Indians valuable norms of reciprocity and hospitality? although in this case he had studied their culture and language in depth and written a book on the topic.

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52. Steinberg (2004, p. 45). Steinberg writes of a pause in Susanna?s aria ?Deh vieni, non tardar,? which he discusses so nicely that I refrain from adding anything further.
53. Steinberg (2004, pp. 45? 46) writes: ?In his emotional maturity, Figaro is awarded by Mozart with a musical sensuality that departs from his earlier, metronomic ditties.?
54. Here I think Barshack (2008, p. 51) is perceptive: ?Aff ective intensity? (in Mozart) ?does not result in a retreat from the play of variations and ambiguities which make up everyday existence . . . In the height of passion, Mozart often invokes the frivolous and the commonplace.?
55. See Kerman (1956, p. 91). See also Tim Carter (1987, pp. 120? 121), who writes that the text is ?perfunctory to an extreme? and that the musical setting is ?magnifi cent in its serenity and translucence.?
56. I am grateful to Tim Carter for valuable correspondence on this point. For his interpretation of the opera, see Carter (1987). The same tension is even more evident in Così Fan Tutte, where the libretto is cynical and detached throughout, but the music achieves moments of deeply moving tenderness and reciprocity? all of which make the challenge of staging it well profoundly diffi cult.
57. C. Nussbaum (2007, p. 286) states that his intention is ?to argue that the assuagement of the horror of the contingent came . . . to be one direct proper function (though by no means the only one) of the musical repre sen ta tions belonging to the musical style under consideration in this book.? He refers to the analysis in the chapter as dealing with ?certain central cases? of musical emotion. Ibid., p. 295.
58. Indeed, I?d be inclined to say that C. Nussbaum?s characterization of religious experience is more at home in Christianity than in Judaism, with its emphasis on the earthly nature of our ethical duties.
59. And if I am right about the allusion to Venite Adoremus (see note 40), the aria quite directly pokes fun at the search for transcendence.
60. Here a comment made by Mollie Stone, Assistant Conductor of the Chicago Children?s Choir, is illuminating. Describing the contribution the choir makes to the po liti cal and social development of children from a wide range of ethnic and racial backgrounds in an interview on June 5, 2008, she commented that the children become close to each other because they

his repose or his diversion, with the same
ease and tranquillity, as if no such accident had happened. The most frivolous disaster which could befal himself would occasion a more real disturbance. If he was to lose his little fi nger to- morrow, he would not sleep to- night; but, provided he never saw them, he will snore with the more profound security over the ruin of a hundred millions of his brethren, and the destruction of that im mense multitude seems plainly an object less interesting to him, than this paltry misfortune of his own.?

18. See Nussbaum (2001, pp. 327? 334). For two edited anthologies on empathy, see Decety (2012); Decety and Ickes (2009).

19. See Batson (2009). Batson distinguishes eight things that are commonly called empathy: (1) knowing another person?s internal state; (2) adopting the posture or matching the neural responses of an observed other; (3) coming to feel as another person feels; (4) intuiting or projecting oneself into another?s situation; (5) imagining how another is thinking and feeling; (6) imagining how one would think and feel in another?s place; (7) feeling distress at another?s suff ering; and (8) feeling for another person who is suff ering. In my usage, empathy is clearly not 1, 6, 7, or 8; it is not 2, because 2 might be satisfi ed by mere contagion, as might 3; thus, 4 and 5 are the pertinent ones, and it is not clear that they are distinct. (Batson?s reason for the distinction has to do with some earlier distinctions in the literature that may themselves be misguided.)

20. For a similar view, see de Waal (2006, pp. 26? 27); Nussbaum (2001, pp. 327? 28). See also Decety and Batson (2009, p. 109) (examining empathy considered as ?a construct accounting for a sense of similarity in feelings experienced by the self and the other, without confusion between the two individuals?).

21. For a similar argument, see de Waal (1996, p. 41); Nussbaum (2001, p. 329).

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22. See Batson (1991); Batson (2011).

23. See Nussbaum (2001, p. 333) (in which I discuss Heinz Kohut?s remarks about the Nazis and consider a variety of diff erent types of psychopaths).

24. I did not recognize this in Upheavals, and was rightly criticized for this by John Deigh?s (2004) excellent paper. See also Hatfi eld, Cacioppo, and Rapson (1994).

25. Rousseau ([1762] 1979, p. 224).

26. Ibid., p. 253. Rousseau puts the introduction of the idea of fault extremely late in the child?s development: Emile is already going through puberty before he even experiences compassion (given Rousseau?s belief that he will be turned toward others in the fi rst place only by awakening sexual energy), and the thought of fault comes along considerably later than that. I think, by contrast, that children start to ask questions about fault as early as they are able to feel guilt about their own aggression, probably around the age of fi ve or six, and it is only before then that their compassion is consistently of the simple Rollo variety.

27. See de Waal (1996, pp. 89? 117). Marc Hauser (2000, pp. 249? 253) argues for a thinner account of animal understanding of rules, denying any rich connection between rule following and moral agency.

28. Bloom (2004); de Waal (1996).

29. Langford et al. (2006).

30. Moss (2000, p. 73). See also Payne (2000).

31. Pitcher (1995). Pitcher is a phi los o pher; Cone (who died in 2004 at the age of eighty-seven) was

ersion reads, ?her who owns us as her sons.? See
University of Chicago Undergraduate Council (1921).
37. The Ferris wheel, designed by Len Ferris, was 300 feet tall, and was at that time the largest structure in North America; individual cars were large enough to hold weddings inside them! Planned to be America?s riposte to the Eiff el Tower, a highlight of the Paris World?s Fair, the wheel was a central part of the exposition; the Wild West Show was a more informal adjunct, outside the fair?s offi cial pa ram e ters. See Larson (2003), a book in fi ctional form, but with accurate historical details.
38. Kamin (2011).
39. Sennett (2004). Richard Sennett, a white man who grew up in the infamous Cabrini Green housing project, describes with sympathy the complex thinking underlying the projects and the reasons for their failure.
40. For coverage in the University of Chicago Chronicle, see http:// chronicle .uchicago .edu /040401 /cityspace .shtml. For coverage in the Hyde Park Herald, see www .hyd epark .org /hpkcc /comrenewconf .htm #herald .
41. For an evaluation of the building and the plan, see Kent (2012).
42. I say ?associated with? because the views of Hutchins and Dewey actually diff er far less than their frequently heated rhetoric suggests: Hutchins too thought about contemporary events, and Dewey too thought that we could learn from the past.
43. This change can be seen in the Palevsky Commons dormitories (2003), by Ricardo Legorreta, with their use of brick and bright pastels; in the new Ratner Gym (2003) by César Pelli, with its off - center shape and soaring pylons, which playfully refer to Gothic towers, but in what we might call an off - center ?Baul? spirit; and in the stunning glass and steel of Rafael Viñoly?s Booth School building (2004), which refers to both the Gothic spire of nearby Rocke fel ler Chapel and to Frank Lloyd Wright?s adjacent Robie House? a great but utterly non- Gothic building that was almost demolished twice at the initiative of the Chicago Theological Seminary, while the university conspicuously did nothing to prevent it. The de mo li tion was foiled only by a combination of international protest and the intervention of the city. Wright himself, then ninety, commented, ?It just shows the danger of entrusting anything spiritual to the clergy.? Quoted in Hoff man (1984, p. 94).
44. See Kamin (2011).
45. Quoted in Kamin (2011). I note that Kamin?s review made one criticism: a third bridge is needed at Dorchester. This bridge has now been built, another sign of dialogue.

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46. See Lazarus (2001, p. 254).
47. And it often involves an idea of exclusivity. See Ortony, Clore, and Collins (1988, pp. 100? 101).
48. See Lazarus (2001, pp. 254? 255).
49. Miceli and Castelfranchi (2007).
50. See ibid., p. 456. For a valuable summary of the psychological literature, see Protasi (2012).
51. This distinction is drawn by many, including Miceli and Castelfranchi (2007, pp. 461? 465), but the best discussion, which they follow, is in Rawls (1971, pp. 530? 534).
52. Rawls (1971, p. 533).
53. Ibid.
54. See Miceli and Castelfranchi (2007, p. 464).
55. Rawls (1971, p. 532).
56. Ibid., pp. 534? 537.
57. In a poignant passage shortly before the discussion of envy, he acknowledges that in e qual ity is a natural outgrowth of the institution of the family. ?Is the family to be abolished then? Taken by itself and

or an excellent treatment
of it, see Frank (2002).)
83. See my discussion in Chapter 9.
84. Although easy accessibility for many of the poor would await the construction of suitable public transportation, we should not forget how far people routinely walked in a day. David Copperfi eld thinks nothing of a walk from Covent Garden to Steerforth?s home in Highgate, a distance of fi ve miles each way, and Bob Crachit walks back and forth each day from Camden Town to Scrooge?s offi ce in the City, a distance of around four miles each way. These are unremarkable walks. Bob would have reached Regent?s Park in under one mile.
85. Olmsted, ?The People?s Park at Birkenhead, near Liverpool,? The Horticulturalist, May 1851, p. 225, quoted in Rybczynski (1999, p. 93). During the same period, Olmsted spent time in the American South, writing articles that were later published in book form as The Cotton Kingdom; he thought the South primitive and less civilized because of slavery and the lack of a common public culture.
86. Olmsted, ?The People?s Park at Birkenhead, near Liverpool,? The Horticulturalist, May 1851, p. 225, quoted in Rybczynski (1999, p. 93).
87. Rybczynski (1999, p. 165).
88. Ibid.

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89. Ibid., p. 167.
90. Letter to the Board of Commissioners, May 31, 1858, quoted in Rybczynski (1999, p. 174).
91. Ibid.
92. For a much longer discussion of shame, with references to both psychological and philosophical discussions, see Nussbaum (2004a, ch. 6).
93. Goff man (1963, p. 128). Notice that he omits income, another source of stigma that might have made his case stronger still: if the ?fully employed? college graduate is working as a dishwasher, he is blushing.
94. See Taylor (1985, ch. 4); Piers and Singer (1953, chs. 1? 2).
95. This distinction is not always sharp: I can say, ?I?m ashamed of what I did.? But where that is not just a loose use of words, it is likely to be an expression of the fact that I see what I did as betraying a weakness that is unworthy of my ideals.
96. For a powerful argument on this subject, see Williams (1993b).
97. For the relationship between shame and embarrassment, see Nussbaum (2004a, pp. 204? 206). I argue that embarrassment is always social, as shame is not; it is a lighter matter than shame, and is often felt simply because something is out of place, even when there is no serious failure involved (as, for example, when one feels embarrassment when someone points out that a label in one?s garment is hanging out); and it may be felt about something good, if one is not comfortable with other people pointing it out.
98. See Tomkins (1962? 1963).
99. For an excellent discussion, see Morrison (1989, pp. 48? 49).
100. This is a central theme of Rousseau?s Emile ([1762] 1979): aristocrats are like big babies, who can?t do anything for themselves, and therefore have to make slaves of others; young Emile will learn to fend for himself.
101. In 2012, the university dedicated a statue of Ambedkar on the campus and inaugurated the Dr. B. R. Ambedkar Chair in Indian Constitutional Law at the Law School. The fi rst such lectures were given in 2012 by Ramachandra Guha, certainly an interesting thinker, but defi nitely upper- caste, which is a choice that seems problematic in the light of Ambedkar?s own views about ?sayings and doings.?
102. See Ambedkar?s (1993b) fascinating if quixotic essay, ?Which Is Worse? Sl

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